

Supplement: HRAF Ethnographic Sources*

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1 Africa

1.1 Central Africa

1.1.1 Barundi

Meyer, H., & Handzik, H. (1916). *The Barundi: an ethnological study of German East Africa*. Ott Spamer. p.139.

“The eldest son also inherits the religious and professional attributes and **skills of his father**. If the father was a priest (kiranga), sorcerer, medicine man (umufumu), or **blacksmith** (umususi), etc., the eldest son becomes — or remains — in the same position or profession by inheriting from his father the insignia and tools, **in addition to the expert training**. Thus, certain professions remain the prerogative of certain families. If the mother is an expert of some sort, she will pass on her skills to her eldest daughter.”

1.1.2 Mbuti

Turnbull, C. M. (1965). *Wayward servants: the two worlds of the African Pygmies*. The Natural History Press. p.125-126.

“Girls imitate their mothers by carrying a stick of rough wood as a baby, perhaps in a tiny hide sling. Any girls large enough to carry a real baby do so. **They make miniature carrying baskets and go off with other girls on gathering expeditions, always returning with some real food either found in the forest or begged or stolen from the camp**. With their hunting and fishing activities as well as this gathering, the children make a small contribution to the food economy even at this age. They also learn not only to rely on their fellow age mates for help in food-getting activities, but to share with them. The sharing is largely left to the girl’s decision.

The boys also learn to live and work with their fellows of different families rather than with their nuclear family, and will often be far more intimate with an unrelated boy of the same age than with a brother much older or younger. They play many games that develop quickness of eye and co-ordination of the body, such as the spear practice, where one boy stands in the middle with a large forest fruit at the end of a six foot vine which he swings around him, trailing the fruit about twelve inches above the ground. The other boys stand in a circle around him, their

fire-hardened spears poised. As the fruit passes them they throw their spears at it. If they miss they have to dash in to retrieve their spears while the fruit continues to swing around, and other spears continue to be thrown. If a spear hits its mark and holds firm, the boy in the center tries to dislodge it by bouncing the fruit on the ground as he swings it around. This is an additional hazard for the others, as the spear may come flying out t them. Youths join the older children at this game, but never in a supervisory capacity.”

Turnbull, C. M. (1965). The Mbuti Pygmies: an ethnographic survey. In *Anthropological papers* (Issue 50, pp. 139-282 , plates). American Museum of Natural History. p.216a.

“Education is through imitation, and both boys and girls have miniature hunting-and-gathering utensils and may, in addition, make miniature replicas of any adult possession (Fig. 45).”

1.1.3 Mongo

Hulstaert, G. E., & Vizedom, M. B. (1938). Marriage among the Nkundu. In *MéIn-8* (Vol. 8, pp. iv, 520). Librairie Falk fils, Georges Van Campenhout, Successeur. p.475-476.

“Parents teach their children the trades that they themselves know: forging, wood sculpture, the weaving of mats and baskets, pottery making, etc.”

p.476(contextual information) “In general one has the impression that the girls are far more active than the boys. But I think that this difference is due to the fact that **the boys are almost always in the forest, while the girls remain in the village and are therefore noticed more.** As a matter of fact in our missions it cannot be said that the boys work less well than the girls, quite the contrary.”

1.1.4 Teda

Chapelle, J., & Schütze, F. (1957). Black nomads of the Sahara. Librairie Plon. p.164-165.

“Children are trained early for the hunt. The smaller ones already make nets with some straw and use them to catch guineafowl. The bigger ones follow the hunting expeditions, help as aids, and the day comes when they throw themselves into the melee and kill their first addax.

The children and sometimes the slaves are also the ones who make the traps. These traps are a type extremely common in tropical Africa. It is a wreath armed with darts on the inside. 207 The

trap is hidden in the sand halfway down a circular hole and finished off with a sliding knot firmly fixed to buried thick sticks. This trap is set on a path habitually followed by antelopes, gazelles and jackals. The animal that places a foot in the hole sinks down, catches its foot in the darts of the wreath. When it pulls out, the sliding knot tightens. The animal sometimes drags along the sticks, but in any case it is incapable of going very far and of running. It is then killed with blows of a stick or with the assegai.”

1.2 Eastern Africa

1.2.1 Amhara

Messing, S. D. (Simon D., & Bender, M. L. (Marvin L. (1985). Highland plateau Amhara of Ethiopia. In *Ethnography series* (p. 3 v. (xvii, 502 leaves)). Human Relations Area Files. p. 209.

“The boys also make a bullrearer, m[unknown]t to scare birds away from seeds and mature crops. This instrument is also called, onomatopoetically, gur[unknown]r[unknown]mo[unknown]s (from agw[unknown]r[unknown]m[unknown]rr[unknown]m[unknown] , to grumble, growl, snarl). **It consists of a stick of wood, a foot long, 1/2 inch thick, notched at the thinner end, to which a cord of twisted fiber is attached.** This is swung horizontally above the head, to produce what is regarded as a terrifying sound. It is even used in shepherding, since boys believe it frightens away hyenas and the occasional leopard. During the rainy season, boys play it indoors to amuse each other and haze-tease younger siblings, who are frightened by it.

...

“Winter” games, i.e. in the rainy season, when children are restricted to the hamlet, include building of makeshift huts, in which they play “man and wife”. The girls gather leaves, roll red mud inside, and “bake” cakes. **Boys mimic the farmer, weave a hood of reeds,** and just as he walks in the rain broadcasting his seeds, so boys broadcast pebbles.

Swimming is a favorite sport of children in the rainy season, when even brooks are swollen, but rivers soon become too dangerous. During the first season, when they learn to swim, a rope is tied around the child’s waist and held by an adolescent or young adult. At this time **boys make water-pistols, t[unknown]k’k’o[unknown]s with a bamboo syringe; also peashooters, shooting small pebbles with a bamboo strip acting as spring. Boys also make panpipe flutes from stout reeds,** in preparation for “spring.”

1.2.2 Banyoro

Nyakatura, J. W. (John W.), & Rigby, Z. K. (ca. 1970). Aspects of Bunyoro customs and tradition. East African Literature Bureau. p.39-41.

“IV TRADITIONAL EDUCATION. I feel I must write something about education in the early days, before the coming of the Europeans to Bunyoro-Kitara. There were three main kinds of education:

The first was education under parental guidance. In the home, the boys and girls were given a thorough training, and if the parents happened to be good and knowledgeable, their children benefited a great deal, sharpening their minds. The second was education at the district chief's court. If a boy in a family showed great promise, he was sent to the chief's court to learn the methods of service, government, and war. Because most of the chiefs were hereditary, their courts were centres of continuity in tradition and education. The third type of education was received at the King's court (in the capital) where boys from all the clans were sent to serve as pages. If the parents of a boy together with the senior members of the clan saw that he was outstanding, they selected him to go and serve at the palace. He had to be extremely intelligent, alert and tactful if he was to live and survive the dangerous life at court, for it was common for a person to be sent to his death for making a mistake. And not only that, but his offence could also bring death and destruction to his family and clan. For this reason, the greatest care was taken in choosing a boy for this honour.

Fathers trained their own sons in their trades, which might be any of the following:

- (1) **Making barkcloth**, which was prepared by beating out the bark of a fig-tree.
- (2) Trading by buying certain types of barkcloth from Buganda or Busoga, and selling them in Bunyoro and other places.
- (3) **Carpentry**, especially the making of articles like chairs and stools, drums, wooden bowls for serving food in, hoe handles, walking sticks, wooden mortars and ensoro boards (the last is a wooden board with holes in it, on which a game with seeds is played).
- (4) **Blacksmithing**; making spears, knives, hoe blades, axes, needles and bodkins for basket-work.

- (5) Smelting ore to make iron.
- (6) Trading by selling pig-iron to smelters, from which the purified metal was obtained. This was then sold to blacksmiths from whom the finished articles were acquired, such as hoes and knives, which were then taken and sold in many other areas.
- (7) Herding cattle, looking after calves, or herding goats.
- (8) **Tanning and the technique of preparing skins and hides as garments**, (see chapter 6 p. 79 below).
- (9) Fishing on the lake.
- (10) Preparing and collecting salt from the salt lakes of Katwe and Kasenyi.
- (11) Preparing and making another kind of salt from Kibiro on Lake Albert.
- (12) Marketing and trading in salt from Katwe and Kasenyi by selling it to different areas like Buganda, Busoga, Teso, Lango and Acholi.
- (13) Hunting and all the skills and knowledge about game, especially those eaten by man, such as emisu (large edible rat), bush buck, Uganda cob, and marsh antelope.
- (14) **Pottery**, i.e. the making of cooking and water pots, milk and butter pots, smoking pipes, and other articles.

The following were some of the things mothers taught their daughters:

- (1) Cultivation and growing millet, sweet potatoes, and other foods eaten in the house.
- (2) The preparation and cooking of these foods.
- (3) Proper behaviour towards the opposite sex, including sex education.
- (4) Fetching water.
- (5) Collecting firewood.
- (6) Gathering grass for spreading on the floor of the house.”

1.2.3 Chagga

Dundas Sir, C. (1924). Kilimanjaro and its people: a history of the Wachagga, their laws, customs and legends, together with some account of the highest mountain in Africa. H. F. & G. Witherby. p.273-274.

“It seems to be the common rule with all smiths that apprentices are taught first to make knives, then sickles, next slashers, after that hoes, and finally arms. An apprentice who does not belong to the clan of his instructor must enter into blood brotherhood with him, and remains for all his life in the relation of a son to his master; nor may he in turn teach anyone the art without his master’s consent. The course of instruction is said to last two to three years, and having qualified, the pupil pays the fee mentioned before and receives in return a hammer, tongs and an anvil, for which a hard stone from the river bed is used. When when a new forge is made, sacrifice is offered to the ancestors of the smith’s clan.”

p.272 (contextual information)

“In general, the smiths believe that the spirits of their ancestors would be offended if one of their clan did not practise, or at least was not taught, the smiths’ craft; among the Wako Makundi Tomono, when a male chil dis born the father gives it a hammer to lick, saying: “With this hammer you shall acquire blessing all your days.” **In the Malisa clan, however, the rule is that the eldest son becomes a smith, the next son a charcoal burner, the third again a smith, and so on. Now if the second son has sons, the eldest must become a smith again, but must pay a fee of a heifer and a goat, as is paid by all persons who wish to become smiths and who are not of the smith clans.** In Uru lives a clan Buka, a branch of Malisa, and its members are charcoal burners, having never paid the fee for instruction in the smiths’ art. There are a few such charcoal burners’ clans, but mostly the fuel is made by any person who wishes to have something forged, and who supplies it to the smith. Likewise the metal must be supplied by the customer, the rule being that he must supply enough to make two of each article he requires, the second being for the smith himself, or if sufficient metal is not supplied, the second article must be redeemed by payment of one goat; but for the forging of arms, sufficient metal is given to furnish material for three of every one weapon ordered.”

Raum, O. F. (1940). Chaga childhood: a description of indigenous education in an East African tribe. Oxford University Press for the International Institute of African Languages and Cultures.

p.373.

p.206-207 (contextual information)

“The boy is not a mere recipient during this agricultural training. With regard to the skill required, much is left to his own initiative. This may be illustrated with regard to the digging of irrigation canals. One of the most interesting sights in the country is the Chaga irrigation system. Large canals distribute water over the whole of the cultivated belt. To lead the water from the bottom of the ravines to the desired height, the canals have to be started many hours’ walk away from the fields. They are then constructed along the slopes of the valleys and have sometimes to be led through a tunnel or across other canals. Finally, they are dammed up to make reservoirs which branch out into a well-planned system of smaller furrows.

Children are very much interested in the working of this system long before any attempt is made to teach them. During the wet season it often happens that the rain runs under the door into the hut. Small children make grooves in the floor to guide it further. Outside they pick flowers and throw them into the canal, following with delight their swift voyage through the groves. At a later age, one sees boys come out after a heavy shower and look for a pool. Squatting down at its edge they begin to challenge one another: ‘Who can make a canal that would drain the pool?’ Every boy begins to dig a furrow. The unskilful is laughed at and called a woman. If all are equally successful, they shout with glee: ‘Who isn’t a man?’ Any one excelling his comrades undergoes some friendly buffeting. Bigger boys combine during their leisure hours on the pasture to make a ‘real’ canal about 2 in. wide. Beginning at the bottom of a stream, they divert its water from a favourable point into their furrow, which they construct so that it follows the contour line as closely as possible. Parental training can therefore dispense with the teaching of skill, and concentrates on the complicated law with regard to the use of canals by adjoining farmers.”

p.369-370

“When a smith’s first child is born, he holds a hammer to its mouth to make it lick the iron. This practice of determining the first-born’s profession in a magical manner is universal. It is also achieved by giving the child an appropriate name.¹ **Actually, the boy’s interest in smithy work is the result of his attendance at his father’s workshop. He acquires his skill, not through a system of apprenticeship, but through his anticipatory ambition. Soon he tries to fashion certain objects in secret. Then he begins to press his father to allow him to make an object of boyish interest, such as a knife. But as yet his father employs him only for watching certain**

technical processes. For example, he is set to attend to the charring of wood and to report to his father when it is accomplished. Later he has to blow the goatskin bellows. Gutmann mentions a boy whose urge to become a smith grew so strong after his father's early death that he began to carve wooden vessels with his only knife. He exchanged these for iron, made bellows, searched for two large stones to serve as anvils, and shaped a pair of pincers out of wire."

p.371-372 (contextual information)

"**The transmission of a 'practice' is accompanied by the giving of instructions.** For instance, the many dangers of the forest are painted in vivid colours and singular advice is given. In a talk on the habits of the elephants, a novice in forest-craft is told that it is fatal to avoid an attack by running uphill, because the great ears of the pursuing animal will fold back and give it an unimpeded view in all directions. If one escapes towards the plains, which is also the way to the inhabited region, the ears fold forward and leave the animal a small angle of vision. The only thing one has to do then is to run zigzag fashion, as this makes it impossible for the beast to keep its eye on its quarry."

p.373 (contextual information)

"In summing up this survey of professional training, three types can be distinguished. The practice of magic is transmitted when the elders feel they are approaching death. **The simpler vocations, such as bee-keeping and forging, admit the successor at the time of initiation and marriage,** because these occupations form the means of subsistence of the poorer families. The rites accompanying the training and the admission of youths to the professions are analogous to the agricultural education of the farmer's son, whose hoe and axe are blessed too. The heir to the realm receives a schooling, which, though adapted to his superior position, resembles that of his subjects. **Theoretical teaching, magical initiation, and social approval are in all walks of life necessary to admit the novice to his vocation.**"

1.2.4 Fur

Beaton, A. C. (1948). The Fur. Sudan Notes and Records, Vol. 29, 1-39. p.15-16.

"Parents are assisted in the training of their children by the grandparents and maternal uncle, whose association with his sister's son is nearly as close as the ngörinyi-mananye relationship

among the Bari. A child is taught to eschew truculence, thieving, meddlesomeness, insult and lying. All children eat with their mother, but at seven or eight a boy may be allowed to eat in his father's mess. While the girls stay at home to learn a woman's duties, the boys at the age of seven often go off to a fiki's school (som) in a distant village, where they learn to read and write verses from the Koran on wooden boards and help their mentor in his fields. When they reach the age of puberty—for their schooling lasts many years—they are frequently the cause of complaint before the local court, because they make eyes at the women and girls while the men of the village are out at work. A fiki's pupil does not hunt, but **if a boy stays at home, he is taken out hunting in addition to being given instruction in cultivation and cotton spinning.** Girls learn to grind grain and cook meals under their mothers' eye; they also fetch water and mind the baby. Children generally are taught the planting and care of onion beds. Although a village headman's son will work like other boys, the sons of chiefs and subchiefs often lead idler lives. Children may be switched with a birch (bisa) for naughtiness but only as a general rule by their own parents; a man who habitually cuffs children for no reason is liable to reprimand and insult from his relatives and friends. **Basket-weaving, drum-making and house-building are men's work, pot-making is a female chore. Folk stories are picked up in the evening tale-telling hour and prayer is learned from father and fiki. A child therefore acquires a practical and moral education from imitation, inculcation and exhortation with small rewards at times in the offing for good work or exemplary behaviour."**

1.2.5 Ganda

Mair, L. P. (1934). *An African people in the twentieth century*. Routledge & Sons. p.65.

"Boys in the pre-school era had to get up early and sweep the yard in front of the house to be neat by the time the head of the household was ready to go out, then to fetch the goats and tie them up in the yard till the dew was off the grass, when they went off to herd them. **In most cases the only work for which they needed actual instruction was barkcloth-making; this they learnt by working with the father. Specialists, such as smiths and potters, taught their sons their crafts. When a boy made his first barkcloth, knife, or pot unaided, the father gave a feast to celebrate the event, at which the parents performed the kukuza rite.** The object made was given to the mother or grandmother. Nowadays a corresponding feast is held when a boy leaves school."

1.2.6 Gikuyu

Davison, J. (1996). Voices from Mutira: change in the lives of rural Gikuyo women, 1910-1995. Lynne Rienner Publishers. p.136.

“Though my grandmother taught us many things, I learned how to weave baskets from my mother. She used migio [type of bush] when I was very young, and then later she began using sisal. Cũcũ made baskets out of ngutwii [stinging nettle fibers]. **I would sit on the ground and watch my mother and grandmother carefully to see all that they did,** including gwokotha [process of rolling plant fibers together to make strings]. But me, I started making baskets using banana fibers because they were easier to use. **I collected those that were left after feeding the cows and tried making a basket. Then my mother would help me. She started the basket and I watched how she did it, then I did it just the same way.** Sometimes, when the migio trees were pruned, we would peel off the red bark and make strings from it. The red strings were used as decoration. Sometimes strings were dyed with soot to make a black design. My mother showed me how to collect soot from a blackened cooking pot to decorate a basket.

We started to make baskets from migio strings just before we were circumcised. We used to spend a lot of time with a migio plant trying to get string from it, then drying the string for gwokotha. **We learned how to gwokotha well and made small baskets that looked like a bird’s nest.** But in those times, women did not make sisal ropes for carrying things [tumplines], because our ropes then were cow’s hide cut into thin strips and then joined to make a mũkwa. It was as we were growing up, learning how to weave, that we began to think about going for mbuci and matũ.”

1.2.7 Luguru

Hamdani, S. (2001). Female adolescent rites and the reproductive health of young women in Morogoro Tanzania. [s.n.]. p.11-12.

“First case: Mama Fulora. Mama Fulora who is 55 years old has nine children. She has had eleven deliveries, all at home. Two babies died at birth. Mama Fulora has never been to a formal school, however she has attended Adult education classes and can now read and write. **On the day she spotted her first menses at the age of 15,** she immediately rushed to inform her grandmother who subsequently interrogated her to make sure that it was indeed the menses. Her

grandmother then officially informed the girl's mother and aunts. This was a day of rejoice for the family because their girl had shown the first signs of fertility. This was forty years ago but her memory was still very clear. Her close relatives rushed home to start singing. Mama Fulora was immediately confined at her maternal grandmother's home. Since she had just reached menarche she had now attained a new status and was now referred to as "Mwali". From now on she would be going through the mwali rite which is actually a continuation of several other minor rites. Mama Fulora explained that it was important that she had abstained from sex and was not pregnant before going through the initiation ceremony. Traditionally she would have forfeited this opportunity had she conceived prior to going through this rite.

The 'mwali' initiation rite. Rituals around female puberty are highly esteemed. The onset of the first menstruation period, stimulated a chain of events beginning with the 'announcement' (kualika). Now all the relatives were informed and women rushed home singing and dancing with joy. From now onwards she was supposed to sleep on a special bed which was very short and referred to as 'usaga'. As such Mama Fulora had to bend her legs while sleeping so as to fit in to the short bed. The room where she was sleeping (kumbi) had to remain un-swept. The idea was to keep everything intact as it had been on the first day of the girl's confinement. Apart from helping in the house chores she was not supposed to do any heavy work and was in fact given the best food available. Mama Fulora explained that her younger sister who had not yet reached menarche was now filling the gap that she had left in terms of the domestic work force. She was not supposed to make her presence felt and was instructed to whisper so that people could not tell that she was around. She would massage her body with castor oil leaves and would cover her face whenever she was obliged to go out in public.

A discussion with many elderly people conveyed one important view that, this was a stage of uncertainty and had to be monitored by the whole family and the community at large. The symbolism for this emanates from the metamorphosis of the fetus. It is actually based on the 'mother-fetus' relationship. The dark room symbolized the womb and the novice, 'mwali' had to live in similar circumstances to the human fetus. The short bed was purposely kept so that she would bend her legs and be forced to sleep in a somewhat similar position as the fetus. Everything symbolized the relationship of a fetus and the womb. It was only after the completion of the hibernation period that she was thoroughly cleansed and then announced to the world. **She explained that she literally lived in this hut for a period of three years and during this**

time she was trained to become a good sexual partner to her future husband and a loving and caring mother to her children. It was her mother who trained her to sort out green vegetables, to pound the maize and to prepare food. It was her aunts who taught her how to make sleeping mats, baskets, pottery and even caps. Mama Fulora explained that during her grandmother's times, girls used to learn how to make clothing from barks of trees."

Adem, T. A. (2020). Culture Summary: Luguru. Human Relations Area Files. p.5.

"Children learn about basic domestic and farming skills by accompanying adults performing routine chores and seasonal activities. **Girls learn skills such as cooking, hoeing, and basket-making by observing and imitating their mothers and to other women in the household.** Similarly, boys acquire economically important skills and social etiquette by accompanying adults both at work and in other settings, such as lineage meetings, informal dispute management proceedings, religious celebrations, and funerals."

1.2.8 Nuba

Nadel, S. F. (Siegfried F. (1947). The Nuba: an anthropological study of the hill tribes in Kordofan. Oxford University Press. p.71-72.

"Rather, craftsmanship appears irregularly, as a result of the inclinations and the cleverness of certain individuals which, once they become known, are utilized by others who are not so 'clever with their fingers'. Everybody can, in theory, make baskets or beer-strainers; but in most groups we find 'experts' to whom people would go for these things in preference to making them (much less satisfactorily) themselves. The same is true of the manufacture of native stools, angrebs, and certain musical instruments like the Nuba lyre or wooden drums (the skin is fixed by the owner himself). The list of self-produced goods, on the other hand, comprises the old (wooden) farming tools and spears, shields, sticks, the handles of hoes and axes, the old-type plank-bed, simpler musical instruments like flutes, animal horns, or gourd trumpets, and, finally, the native house, complete with roof and granaries. But again we must emphasize the fluid nature of this distinction. It is characteristic, for example, that in the tribes which possess a rather elaborate type of house—Korongo and Mesakin—"experts" may also be employed in house-building, the experts being men who are known to be good builders—better builders than the prospective owners of the house. The Mesakin house, incidentally, boasts a

certain elaborate gadget which comes to some extent into this discussion. It represents a primitive system of 'running water', which consists of a gourd bowl filled with water and perforated a little below the rim, resting on two antelope horns which are fixed high up on the wall of the hut; you hold your hands under the bowl, pull a string which is tied to the rim of the gourd, thus tipping it over, and a stream of water spouts through the hole on to your hands. Now, the antelope horns which enable the gourd to slide easily up and down, and which thus form an essential part of this outfit, were formerly 'self-produced', i.e. easily obtainable on an occasional hunt. Scarcity of game has altered this, and to-day owners of new houses have to buy the horns from outside (from the Dinka).

The only craft practised on a larger scale and implying to some extent the conception of a group profession is a woman's craft—pottery. In every tribe we find large numbers of women potters. The technique varies but slightly in different hills. The wet white clay is beaten and shaped in shallow moulds of hardened clay sunk in the ground. Powdered leaves are placed into the mould first to prevent the wet clay from sticking to it. The finished pot is dried, scraped with a stone and burned in the ashes of cow dung and grass. Some women paint their pots with red clay. Different tribes or even different hill communities of the same tribe often specialize in different kinds of pots. In Otoro, for example, the women of the hill communities Kodi and Urila manufacture large, flat, dish-shaped pots, the women of Chungur specialize in round, spherical pots, and the women of Kujur in tall, wide-mouthed urns. Simple grass huts and palm-leaf shelters serve as workshops. **In Tira I found a large 'factory', numbering about fifty moulds of all shapes and sizes, laid out on a rocky ledge some distance from the homesteads, close to the place where the women obtain the red clay for painting. The site was shared by six women each of whom had her own eight to ten moulds. The factory occasionally turns into a school for potters. For (grown-up) women can come and watch the experts at work; they can help with the simpler tasks and will be instructed—free of charge—in the more difficult ones, till they have thoroughly mastered the technique and are ready to open a workshop of their own. Otherwise the craft is handed on from mother to daughter."**

1.2.9 Okiek

Huntingford, G. W. B. (1951). The social institutions of the Dorobo. *Anthropos*, Vol. 46, 1–48. p.29-30.

“But at the age of usefulness, which comes **a little before the onset of puberty**, and depends on the child’s growth and intelligence, there is a division of duties between the parents. **The father begins to teach his son the elements of hunting and trapping, how to make things of wood, how to skin animals, and how to use a bow and arrow, in short, how to behave like a man and do man’s work.** The mother teaches her daughter how to manage a home, how to look after small children, and how to perform the normal tasks of a Dorobo woman. At this stage both boys and girls are in one respect general servants of the family; they have to herd any stock their father may possess, and make themselves useful about the homestead. **The parts played by the grandfather or grandmother, and by the father’s brother and his wife are directed largely towards instruction in behaviour and morality, though a young paternal uncle may often help in teaching boys the elements of woodcraft and hunting. And although the father and mother teach their children to distinguish between right and wrong, and how to behave to their relatives, the grandparents in particular have a good deal to do with this aspect of education.**”

p.27

“To Kaposire’s children, Konyaldany took the place of the grandmother; and Naituri did the same for Kuko’s children,. The father’s brother is the equivalent, as an authority in the lives of children, of the mother’s brother among the Nandi and elsewhere, and is as near as possible a second father. Patrilocal residence as well as other factors no doubt account for this; and the effect is that the father’s brother is someone to be reckoned with, a man with whom a boy should keep on good terms, and one of whom permission must be obtained before a boy is circumcised. Kimutai arap Ruto is Arap Mining’s brother. He lived in the same settlement at Kipukua, and saw his brother’s children every day. When he greeted them, he said, Sopai, leiye, and they answered, Epa, papa. (Here leiye is used loosely as a term of familiarity.) **The father’s brother gives the children food and other things; he teaches them much of what it is necessary for them to know, and when they ask him questions**, like what is this grass called? what are you going to do with that piece of wood? what made those marks on the ground? and so forth, he answers them in such a way that question and answer become part of their education. He shows them his bow, arrows, and quiver, his knives, his honey bags. **He takes them into the forest and tells them how people look after their bees, how they make honey-barrels**, and how they take honey. He teaches them to use firesticks, and explains the magical observances towards bees and honey.”

1.2.10 Turkana

Gulliver, P. H. (1951). A preliminary survey of the Turkana: a report compiled for the government of Kenya. In University of Cape Town, Communications from the School of African Studies (Issue 26, pp. 7, 281). University of Cape Town. p.190-A.

“Passing through the rough scale of herding is the educational system of the Turkana. **Each boy starts as junior herdsboy with a herd under an older sibling (or an adult) and gradually becomes in charge of the herd**1; then he passes on as junior in the next grade of herding. At each stage, as a junior, he is taught and supervised in the work by the older herdsboy, and, as a senior, he himself becomes a tutor. But he learns more than merely the work of herding. He learns the routines of watering, of migrational movements; he learns the geography of the region and the details of terrain, flora and fauna. His eyes learn to see great distances, to pick out men a long way off, to pick out wild animals, straying stock, birds, etc. He learns how to defend himself against others, and both himself and the animals against wild beasts; the art of using the fighting stick, **how to select wood and make sticks of different types**; what berries are good to eat and where and when they are likely to be found; what tree bark is good to eat, and from what trees chewing-gum is obtainable; all are gradually picked up. He learns how to walk in order to cover long distances most easily, and how to endure long, hot days in the pastures with little food and water. His body becomes tough and inured to hardship. In short, he becomes a man through years of experience and imitation of elders. He also learns, automatically almost (at least they become automatic), the conventional customs and techniques and attitudes of the Turkana. He is able to listen to the men talking at the water-points or in the evening round the fire in his father’s sleeping place, or in the pastures. He hears stories of their lives and experience, and all the local gossip. There is little of a really conscious notion of education in all this, although as time and occasion warrant, a father or elder brother will either in assistance or anger tell a youngster what he should do, what he has done wrong, etc.”

p.191A-191B

“Meanwhile the young girl is growing up with her sisters under the supervision of her mother. As soon as she is strong enough she begins to take part in all of her mother’s work, learning as she goes along. Her contribution to the life and economy of the family are no less valuable than her brother’s. **Indeed, once she reaches the age of about 10 she is quite indispensable. By**

that time she is fetching water, cooking food, and doing many of the purely feminine domestic tasks, such as clothes-making, beadwork, vessel-making, etc. All this is under the more or less direct tutelage of her mother and her mother's co-wives. It begins as a combination of young imitation of her mother's actions and activities, and direct orders to do this and that; it ends with the girl undertaking more or less full women's work, being, though unmarried, almost classed as a woman. The separation between the sexes at least at the age of about 4 is decisive and complete. Brothers and sisters are partners in the mutual enterprise of the developing family, rather than close friends. The male and the female spheres of life are quite distinct. Boys are away most of every day and undertake no piece of work co-operatively with their sisters. Their fields remain wide apart. The girl remains fairly closely under the supervision of her mother. The girl's education is rather more specific, under a teacher. She lives, as it were, in a different world from that of her brother, full of domestic details, feminine gossip, and for much of the time within the confines of the homestead. Where a boy may go travelling with his father, elder brother or some kinsmen, to help drive stock for trade, or herd donkeys, etc. (for men like to have a boy or two to do the odd jobs when they are making trips), the girl stays at home, moving only with the homestead as her mother moves.[p. 191-B] The boy becomes rather more independent, self-reliant, and yet, because of his duties and functions as herds-boy is very much left out of a good deal of social life. Whatever happens the stock must go out to graze or browse, and they must be herded. Boys must go out with them. Thus at times of feasts, dances and more special occasions such as initiation and marriage, the boys are left out. It is not thought that a boy ought to be hanging about at feasts and dances; they cannot participate fully because they are boys and not initiated; they ought to be looking after the stock. Girls on the other hand, always at home, see everything that is going on. All or most social affairs involve the women as well as the men,x and quite essentially so for most dancing. The small girl follows her older sisters and her mother. Whereas a boy is nothing until he is initiated — that is to say, he cannot join in feasts, dances and male gatherings of any sort or purpose (except occasionally on the fringe) — the unmarried girl can, and indeed must join in social activities. This is because the girl becomes of marriageable age much earlier than her brother. Once past puberty,xx a girl is considered marriageable, even if she does not marry much before the age of 17 at the earliest. She is, therefore, essential at all dances since all except the special age-set group dancing, are inter-sex affairs. Whenever there is a feast girls help to prepare, cook and carry out meat to the men; whenever there is a dance she takes a prominent part; weddings, initiation, preparations for war and celebration on the

warriors' return, all involve dancing, and all involve the girls. They are objects of attention, and mild or serious flirtation on the part of any man under 35 or 40 years old."

1.3 Northern Africa

1.3.1 Berbers of Morocco

Coon, C. S. (Carleton S. (1931). Tribes of the Rif. In Harvard African studies: Vol. v. 9 (pp. xviii, 417 , 67 plates). Peabody Museum of Harvard University. p.77.

"Weaving, the final process of textile manufacture, is done on two entirely different kinds of loom under different circumstances. The more primitive is the azta, an upright two-bar loom with a stick heddle and a wooden comb for battening the warp. The operation of the azta is entirely in the hands of women. **A girl who does not know how to weave on the azta has a poor chance of marriage, and consequently girls learn this art at an early age. Parties are held for the teaching of it; a girl who is not expert invites a number of skilled weavers, who go to her house, eat, and instruct her.** The cloth produced by the azta is called tadsha and is used for women's clothes, men's sleeveless shirts worn in winter, and blankets. It is generally white, sometimes with red horizontal bands or stripes. The azta is employed throughout the region under consideration, except in the tribes of Beni Bu Yahyi and Metalsa."

1.3.2 Nubians

Kennedy, J. G., & Fahim, H. M. (1977). Struggle for change in a Nubian community: an individual in society and history. In Explorations in world ethnology (pp. x, 194). Mayfield Pub. Co. p.25.

"Nubian building techniques were passed down through families from generation to generation, but a few men were regarded as specialists. Some of these were responsible for local carpentry needs—for sakkia repair, the manufacture of beds, wooden chairs, donkey saddles, and the like; some were masons; and, in the Kenuz area especially, there were men who possessed the traditional skills for building the barrel-vaulted domes typical of the houses in this northernmost part of Nubia. House building was traditionally an activity of the extended family with all relatives taking part in the festive occasion, in exchange for only food and drink, under the direction of the owner and a master builder."

1.3.3 Tuareg

Lhote, H., & Sipfle, M.-A. (1944). The Hoggar Tuareg. In *Bibliothèque scientifique* (p. HRAF ms: viii, 190 [Original: 415 , 8 plates]). Payot. p.146-147.

“Education. — Children’s education begins after weaning. From that time on the boy passes under the control of his father, while the girl stays in her mother’s hands. This education is hardly complicated for either the boy or girl.

The little boy, from the age of five, takes care of watching the goats and sheep by himself. Later he is entrusted with the camels, which he leads to pasture and to drink. He is also taught how to milk goats, for among the Tuareg, men, as a rule, take charge of this job. Toward the age of seven he begins to ride camels. Then fights with sabers or lances are organized in the form of games between children of the same age, arms being replaced by millet stems or tree branches. This is not a part of education properly speaking, since it is done by the children themselves.

Religious education is rather neglected among the Ahaggar Tuareg where marabouts are scarce. When there is a marabout in a camp, he teaches children and young people the rudiments of the Koran, which they learn by heart by singing it all day long, for they are ignorant of Arabic writing.

The litham /veil/ is put on the boy at fifteen or sixteen when the hair begins to appear in his armpits. It is put on by the father, most often at the time of Ramadan. There is no additional ceremony for the occasion. The father gives his son some good advice, and young women and girls give him tobacco as a gift.

From this day on the boy enters into the class of men. He may go to war and attend the ahal.

Education of girls is hardly more interesting. **At six or seven, the little girl begins to see to household duties, participating in cleaning the tent and making meals, etc. A little later she learns to weave mats, work little copper articles, and spin goat hair.”**

1.4 Southern Africa

1.4.1 Bemba

Richards, A. I. (Audrey I. (1939). Land, labour and diet in Northern Rhodesia: an economic study of the Bemba tribe. Pub. for the International Institute of African Languages & Cultures by the

Oxford University Press. p.105-106.

“I never heard a small girl given definite instruction in any branch of housecraft. Children sit endlessly watching the different [facing p. 106] technical activities of their elders, apparently without ever asking questions or passing comments. They are not strenuously encouraged, as are our children, to learn any particular process, whether cooking or gardening. Of a child who showed no particular inclination to take part in any activity, or refused to do a job asked of it, I have heard mothers remark tolerantly that the little girl had not yet got sense (takwata mano) and then give up the attempt. **In any skilled process like pot-making, the girl who shows promise at the first try is encouraged to go on, but one less successful is not induced to make another effort. ‘She hasn’t got sense’, would again be a typical comment. Thus learning is a very gradual process among the Bemba with little drive or competitive spirit.”**

1.4.2 Khoi

Schapera, I. (1930). Culture of the Hottentots. In *The Khoisan peoples of South Africa; Bushmen and Hottentots*, by I. Schapera (pp. 221–418). G. Routledge. p.268-269.

“From the moment it can stand on its feet the child, although still dependent upon its mother, gradually learns to fend for itself in its environment. Hottentot children grow rather slowly, probably, says Schultze, because of the scanty nourishment. In poorer families they are shown by the mother how to dig out roots and bulbs for themselves; they learn to catch mice, lizards, and similar small animals, which they roast on the fire; seek out wild honey, and so on. In the more wealthy families each child is allotted a special cow for his own use, which he may milk for himself in the morning and evening; and during the day, when the cattle are at pasture, he is fed upon this milk. The little boys early begin to herd the goats, every boy being entrusted with a number, whose milk he may use. It is not long before he is able to catch a beast with great dexterity out of the running flock, sit under or behind it, and milk it into his mouth. **The little girls remain always with their mother, and gradually learn to assist her in the daily household tasks;** to see that a standing supply of firewood is maintained, to prepare the food and the ointments for the body, to fetch water, **to make the reed mats**, and keep the hut in repair, and so on.”

1.4.3 Ovambo

Hiltunen, M. (1993). Good magic in Ovambo. In Transactions of the Finnish Anthropological Society; Suomen Antropologisen Seuran toimituksia (Issue No. 33, p. 234). Suomen Antropologinen Seura. p.70-71.

“There are no special blacksmith families, but **usually the occupation is hereditary, and a boy will be trained by his mother’s or father’s brother**. When it is time for the youth to become an independent smith, he may learn the necessary magic in two alternative ways. Either he cuts a wound in the back of his right wrist and mixes his blood with the blood of his instructor, who has cut a similar wound in his wrist. Or he drinks “boiling water” to get the strength he will need in his occupation. The instructor gives him water in which a red-hot iron has been immersed. While the water is still bubbling, the youth drinks it. The water is called strengthening water (omeva gekoleko). The trainee must also learn the blacksmith’s techniques and many magic songs. He must learn how to easily bear iron loads, how to melt iron ore and cast iron in a mould. Finally, the wood spirits will welcome him when he stays among them (Loeb, AS Vol. 7, 1948).

Mateus Shikeva has also told about the initiation of a son of a leader of oshimanya. The olusa will be imported to the son, i.e. he will be turned into a diviner of metal. The leader cuts his own wrist and the son’s wrist with a razor and mixes their blood. The new diviner will serve the leader. If he can forge, he will forge many hoes for the leader. If he cannot forge, he will reward the leader with an ox and make porridge and meal drink. The metal of the leader’s wives and children will be treated with magic. (MS, ELC 1932, 1601)

In Uukwambi, smiths were not very highly appreciated. The reason was their low origin. They were mainly the servants and slaves of the Bushmen (aakwangala). They were apparently the same Berg-Damara who, in the Otavi region, had been servants of the Heikom Bushmen. The only smiths in Uukwambi belonged to these aakwanga, who spoke the Bushman language (the Nama dialect). As the aakwanga were considered members of the lower class, so were the smiths. (KKC, Notebook II; Koivu 1925, 154–155).”

1.4.4 Ovimbundu

Hambly, W. D. (1934). Occupational ritual, belief, and custom among the Ovimbundu. *American Anthropologist*, Vol. 35, 157–167. p.167.

“At an early age children specialize in their play which has a bearing on the business of life. Boys make wooden-tipped arrows, play at hunting, and shoot at tubers which are rolled along the ground. Girls take clay from the potters to fabricate their own small cooking pots, and young girls attempt the coiling of basketry.”

Childs, G. M. (1949). Umbundu kinship & character: being a description of social structure and individual development of the Ovimbundu of Angola, with observations concerning the bearing on the enterprise of Christian missions of certain phases of the life and culture described. Published for the International African Institute by the Oxford University Press. p.104.

“3. Training in skills. **Before the age of eight or nine**, children acquire few definite skills. Many of their games, however, are in imitation of adult activities, and adults recognize their preparatory nature and value. The little girl in caring for her younger sibling acquires certain skills, but with little or no definite adult guidance. **Little boys begin early to make and set traps and snares under the tuition of an elder sibling or cousin. The first rat or bird caught belongs to the tutor.** Games of many sorts are played: games with sides, round games, games with an ‘It’, imaginative games, and competitive games; games demanding skill, especially with dances of some intricacy. Games in imitation of animals are favourites, including ‘birdcalls’, in which very ingenious words are set to the bird songs.”

McCulloch, M. (1952). The Ovimbundu of Angola. In *Ethnographic survey of Africa: West Central Africa* (p. 50). International African Institute. p.43.

“A boy is expected to learn the profession or *ocipinduko* in which his father or his mother’s brother is expert, and after that, should he wish to learn some other side-line profession, he may apprentice himself. All children, both boys and girls, are expected to learn to cultivate, but that is not counted as a profession. The principal *ovipinduko* (professions) listed by Childs are: **for girls, basket-making, pottery-making, medical practice and divination; for boys, mat-making, wood-working, rope-making, thatching, fishing, apiculture, hunting, smithing, and medical practice and divination.** The last three, as has been mentioned above, are “sacred” and entered under special conditions.”

1.4.5 San

Silberbauer, G. B. (1965). Report to the Government of Bechuanaland on the Bushman Survey. Bechuanaland Government. p.79-81.

“(3) Early Childhood. . .

An elderly man or woman always remains behind in the village to keep discreet eye on the children to see that they come to neither harm nor mischief. When they tire of playing among themselves, “school” starts.

This consists of **gathering round the elder** and listening to his or her stories and is intended more as entertainment for the children than anything else, but includes much instruction which is useful to the children. **It may take the form of answers to problems which have arisen during the course of play, when the children ask how to deal with situations which have defeated them, or where they want to know how things are done in real life when they are no longer content with the ad interim arrangements of their play. Then the old man carefully explains how a bow should be made,** or how an eland should be stalked and where best to shoot it. Or the difficulties of keeping a fire going in high wind may be dealt with by an old woman, or even what to do about a baby’s grippe. Otherwise instruction may be contained in stories told by the baby-sitter of incidents in his or her earlier days, sometimes with a moral contained, but always with a wealth of detail which the listening children remember and add to their growing store of knowledge of the desert and their life in it.

- (3) Before Puberty. From her fifth or sixth years, a girl goes out with her mother and helps her forage for food plants. This is a period of intensive learning, for not only has she to do what amounts to a woman’s work in gathering food, but she is exposed to the conversation of the adult women which, when they are away from the men, is far from inhibited. The women do their food gathering as one group, partly for protection and, of more importance, for the pleasure of company and conversation, so the young girl has ample opportunity to hear of all that goes on in everybody’s life. and is free to ask what questions she will. After a year or so of this, by the time she is seven or eight years old, she is considered to be ready for marriage. Her mother keeps an eye on her all the time and has a very clear idea of whether her daughter is yet able to fend for herself and her capability as a housekeeper. During this time the girl is virtually an apprentice housewife under the strict eye of her mother who,

because her daughter is her assistant in gathering and preparing food and doing all the other household tasks, makes sure that she pulls her weight.

The boys are under less pressure and still spend a lot of their time playing. **The imitatory games of the small children are abandoned for pastimes** which are more of the nature of sports, e.g. stick-bowling and shuttle-cock. Their archery is no longer a series of imaginary encounters with game and dangerous animals, but a conscious effort to acquire marksmanship by practice with bigger (but not yet full-sized) bows and barbless arrows on birds and, later, small buck. They make snares and trap rodents and other small mammals, which they eat. At the same time **they devote more time to helping their fathers and elder brothers with skin-working, cutting up animals which have been hunted and the manufacture of weapons and implements.**”

Silberbauer, G. B. (1972). The Gwi Bushmen. In *hunters and gatherers today* (pp. 271–326). Holt, Rinehart and Winston. p.315-316.

“Boys’ training in subsistence activities is mainly through playing games involving mock hunts, imitating older boys, and, around the fires at night, listening to the men’s conversation about their day’s hunting. **A father begins to take his son out on training hunts at ten or eleven, although instruction in the making, care, and use of weapons starts much earlier than this. It takes a long time to become a hunter, and a boy continues his training under the care of his father-in-law for several years after marriage.**”

Shostak, M. (1981). *Nisa, the life and words of a !Kung woman*. Harvard University Press.

p.107-108 (contextual information)

“Because of the small number of families, village play groups are typically made up of only a few children of various ages—whoever happens to be living in the village at a given time. These groups, which may range in age from infants to young teens, usually stay around the village in the vicinity of adults or set up their own “villages” a few hundred yards away—within earshot, but not within view. Many of their games are imitations of adult activities: hunting, gathering, singing and trancing, playing house, and playing at parenthood and marriage. (Little children, carried about by older children, often become the “sons and daughters” of these “mothers and fathers.”) Occasionally their imitations become reality—foraging roots and berries in the area just beyond the village, or even catching or trapping small animals and birds. **Because little formal teaching is done—observation and practice are the basis of all learning—it is in these**

groups that children acquire many of the skills that will make them productive adults.”

Lee, R. B. (1979). *The !Kung San: men, women, and work in a foraging society*. Cambridge University Press.

p.236 (contextual information)

“!Kung children, male or female, are not pressed into service in the food quest at an early age. They are not expected to provide food in significant quantities until they are well into their teens. Learning to hunt, therefore, is largely a play activity for the boys, and they receive little formal instruction from older men until they are about 12 years old. Play hunting can begin as early as age 3. Older children make a little bow of wood and twine, with arrows of grass stems, and teach the toddler to shoot it, aiming first at still targets a few inches away and graduating to moving targets such as the ubiquitous dung beetle. Little girls participate in these games too, and frequently a play group of four to six kids pretends to cut up, cook, and serve an imaginary animal in the same way that North American children have an imaginary tea party. As the boys grow older, they graduate from shooting dung beetles and grasshoppers to shooting small birds such as waxbills. These tiny birds, related to the sparrows and finches and weighing a few grams, are plucked and may be cooked and eaten by little boys and girls. In the age range 9 to 12 other games are played, now exclusively by boys, that teach hunting skills and that may include adolescent males as well. N/ebi is a kind of javelin toss played by a number of boys: Each throws a light wand and bounces it off the ground to see who can throw it the farthest. /N!au (“spear”) is a target-practice game in which a rough wooden spear with a ball of padding at the end is hurled back and forth between two teams of boys to see whose aim is the most accurate. The main tracking skills, however, are acquired through the on-going study of nature as the young boys and girls learn to identify the hundreds of plants and animals in their environment. Studying animal tracks is a major pastime of the older boys.

Before they actually go on a hunt, !Kung boys have listened to dozens of hunts described in the minutest detail in the storytelling around the campfire. This is a major component of their socialization as hunters. This vast body of knowledge is a treasure house of lore and information about animals and how to kill them. And the boys listen intently.

Around age 12 a boy starts accompanying his father, uncles, or older brothers on hunts. Within a couple of years his father makes him his first quiver set, with unpoisoned bone and metal arrows and a scaled-down quiver and bow. The boy becomes more active in shooting, with mongeese,

genets, hares, and game birds as the main targets; during the winter months the young adolescent boy also builds snarelines, often under the guidance of his father or grandfather. The assumption of adult status as a hunter comes with the first successful killing of an antelope, such as kudu or gemsbok, from the list of big game species (excluding warthog). The animal can be male or female and must be mature or nearly so and killed with a poisoned arrow. If these conditions are met, the first buck ceremony is held, an extremely important milestone in the life of a hunter. In the Dobe area of today the first buck ceremony is often delayed for years. To achieve the killing of the first antelope requires diligence and concentration on hunting. These are hard to combine with the demands of working on the Bantu cattle posts, and as a result a man may be 25 or 30 before he kills his first buck. In /Du/da, where no cattle posts are present, we found a situation that probably resembled the more traditional picture: adolescent boys 15 to 22 working hard at hunting and bringing in their first bucks by age 15 to 18.”

1.4.6 Shona

Aschwanden, H., & Cooper, U. (1982). Symbols of life: an analysis of the consciousness of the Karanga. In Shona heritage series (Issue No. 3, pp. xviii, 332 , plates). Mambo Press. p.75-76.

“When a youth enters the age of puberty he may sit where the men sit, even if at first only to listen. Also, the freedom of his boyhood days is gradually reduced, he may no longer roam about as he likes but must start working in earnest. He is also instructed as to his duties within the tribe and, especially, his behaviour towards elders and ancestral spirits. He learns the rules of hospitality and how to behave towards strangers. This also includes, for instance, lessons about his relations with future parents-in-law.

The youth is given practical instructions in hunting, dancing, the manufacture of weapons and implements and house-building. He is trained for fighting, and sometimes the symbolic objects used provoke passionate efforts of defence. For instance, the elder brother takes some soil and shapes two small mounds, then he challenges the younger one: “These are your mother’s breasts, defend them!” Someone else then tries to destroy the two “breasts”, but the defender would rather be killed than give a stranger the chance to call him a coward. To harden the boy further, he is sent into the bush without anything to help him live there. He must then show that he can, all alone, survive for seven days.

The Karanga sees in the boy's age of puberty chiefly a time for education and preparation. Rituals do not play an important role. During the girl's adolescence, on the other hand, they are of great significance."

Gelfand, M. (1979). Growing up in Shona society: from birth to marriage. Mambo Press. p.221.

"Boys and girls are both given an opportunity to develop their physical skills as they grow older. Their senses improve with this training so that they become beautifully coordinated, producing a neat almost perfect coordination of sight, hearing and feeling. **Physical skill is encouraged in many different ways according to age and sex. Girls exercise automatically preparing food, looking after small livestock and grinding and winnowing corn. They take part in games requiring swift muscular action and decision. Many of them learn the art of making pottery from an early age.** This requires great dexterity and nimble fingers. Boys too learn to control their muscle movements by running and develop coordination with various ball games and tests of strength. **Both sexes are taught agricultural pursuits, such as hoeing, planting, reaping, which call for accuracy and nimbleness. A boy learns how to make baskets, hoes, pestles and many other utensils, also calling for coordination and muscular skill. This is developed too by preparing skins for leather and making them into articles.**"

p.35-36

"In pot-making almost the same procedure is taken. **The child watches ambuya or amai making pots. Usually the child gets interested and asks for some clay. Pot-making is for women. The ambuya gives the child some clay and she starts working. This time the ambuya should watch from her own working place and correct the child's errors. At cooking the ambuya might be there if the child says it is difficult, then she directs the child. Next day the ambuya might call the child for pot-making. The child gradually produces good pots until she is an expert.** This requires a lot of patience from the ambuya or amai and the child must be a real enthusiast for work in general. In class, the more the child is competitive, the quicker he learns.

These are pursuits for men. While the male child may be taught something about the house, and cooking, it is the **sekuru (grandfather)** who teaches the boy about hunting and fishing. Ambuya is really the wrong person to ask, though not necessarily always. The ambuya directs the boy to sekuru. The sekuru tells him a lot about hunting and fishing but it is only the academic part of it. Long ago people went hunting, i.e. going into the big forests to hunt with some other men at the age of about 20, but even still he will be regarded as a child. One must be able to herd cattle

first before he can go into the forest. This is all work of the sekuru. He takes the child for cattle herding at the age of about fifteen. At about seventeen he can go alone to join the other boys with the cattle. All the time he carries a knob-kerrie and axe and a big rope bag (nhava). He also calls a dog to accompany him. There he learns how to catch hares, how to use a kerrie and an axe to kill fleeing animals. This is not real hunting. Gradually he learns how to throw a spear. All these are, of course, unnecessary today. A child today goes to look after goats first at the age of five and then herds cattle at the age of ten or earlier. The sekuru would then take the child for a first hunt but they, i.e. the sekuru and the other hunters will have to look after the child. Now if the young man can hunt in big forests he can also fish in big rivers. The baba (father) is also in this and he takes the place of the sekuru if he is not available. **The sekuru and the young man make some traps together, the child learning from the sekuru how to make the trap, how to prepare the place where the trap will be put, and how to put it correctly.**"

p.34-35 (contextual information) "Never should we think that the **ambuya (grandmother)** is the only figure in the education of a child although she plays a leading role. For about half of a child's life, regardless of sex, it should stay with the ambuya. There the child is taught how to do difficult domestic work. The child is sent to do some work in a very loving way, like — "Kazukuru kangu imbondienderawo kutsime nhasi!" The child is motivated at once, goes to fetch some water with a very jovial heart, or rather, he moves heartily. If the child is eager for a better impression from ambuya he carries an even bigger tin of water — you see how the child is driven into working with enthusiasm. When the child returns the ambuya starts a joyful song of thanks which is really the Shona traditional way of giving thanks, when they include the clan name (mutupo and chidao). It is really a sort of poem, e.g."

"Such great love could spoil a child because if it is never taught the difficult or more tough aspects of life a child might think life is smooth as oil. So, whenever a child does wrong he is punished straight away. Where the child is hurt due to carelessness or because of his own fault the ambuya shows no sympathy. This is essential. **Amai (mother)** should also do this to the child."

p.61.

"If the grandmothers are interested in pottery they teach their granddaughters first to play with clay and then how to try to make small clay things. By doing that they learn pottery. And so it is with boys, who are taught hunting and farming methods by their fathers or grandfathers."

p.62 (contextual information)

“Children are then taught different arts from the mother, father or grandmothers. They are shown how things are made by demonstrating how to do it. After a short time a child is asked to do it by himself. If he makes a mistake it is corrected at once. Names of animals, trees, birds and flowers are taught in the bush when out walking or hunting. Skins of animals, leaves and bark can be brought home to test the memory of the child. Games are learnt from elders when out herding and during the day when other children are playing with them, from the age of six or seven years.”

p.64 (contextual information)

“My parents made sure to teach me the nature of sex. My sisters and I used to play outside the house. One of them would be the mother carrying dolls on her back as a child, cooking food of sand (matakana) in small pots. I would pretend to be the father, building a hut, hunting or fishing. At this stage my father would take me out when he went hunting or fishing so that I would learn what was fitting for the male. **My mother, for her part, encouraged my sisters to play and imitate those things the mother did, and which pertain to the female sex and are done only by women, e.g. grinding (kukuya upfu), making pots, sweeping and cleaning the house.** My sister was taught how to sit and never to expose the private parts of her body. “ Ugare zvakanaka wakabwandira nguo” and never to sit like a man. My mother hit my sisters on their legs each time they sat carelessly so that they grew up like all Shona girls, observing this very strictly. On the other hand I, as a boy, was warned never to look at the private parts of my sisters or any other woman lest I got eye trouble. Hence the saying “ Usatarisa pamberi pomukadzi unoitika showera.” In this way I was taught to respect women, how to behave towards girls and never to look at a woman in such a way as to put myself into the temptation of misbehaving with her.”

p.182

“Whenever a group of children assembled to play, entertain themselves or take part in sporting activities, they chose a leader (mukuru) to ensure discipline, guidance and safety. The choice of leader depended on the nature of the game. For instance when boys were grazing the cattle and played the popular boxing game their leader or champion was the strongest boy. When this game was first played it was known as kutamba zvibhakera, meaning to play at fists. In the same way when wrestling (kuita tsimba), the strongest was the leader. Girls played games that did not require physical strength. They preferred games of marriage, sometimes with boys. All

children loved swimming and for this the leader was one with skill at this sport rather than one with strength. A senior member of the family, such as the grandmother, aunt, mother or father was usually chosen to take the leading role in entertainments like story telling, riddles, puzzles and proverbs. As a rule the boys sat at the dare (men's meeting place) with the grandfather or father and the girls stayed indoors with the mother, grandmother and paternal aunt. **The boys watched their father doing wood (kuveza) or iron (kufina) work and the girls watched the older women making pottery. Sometimes they were allowed to help and after a time they learnt these skills."**

Gelfand, M., & Hannan, M. (1968). African crucible: an ethico-religious study with special reference to the Shona-speaking people. Juta & Co. p.33.

"I doubt if toys were often played with by Shona children, although today we see boys making some like carts, wagons, cars and sledges with which they play (Thomson, 1967). Girls today sometimes make dolls which they carry on their backs. Boys play games imitating activities of men. They used to be taught early about trapping and snaring little animals and other games intended to teach them to be manly. Today they are more interested in football."

p.105

"The boy is brought up separately from his sisters from the age of 6 or 7 when he is considered old enough to leave his mother. He eats with his father and brothers, follows them and helps them with their duties — male duties, such as herding the cattle, making baskets and mats and especially in former days learning to hunt and trap small animals. At the same time he is receiving instruction from his grandfather, learning to look up to the other sex with respect. It is clear that in matters of sexual instruction the African child seems to have the advantage over the European one whose father and mother are often too reserved or shy to explain to them these delicate matters. The assumption of this duty by the Shona grandfather or aunt who introduces the young person to matters of sex is worthy of note."

Bullock, C. (1950). The Mashona and the Matabele. Juta & Co. p.42.

"All this time, Mugaro's little friend Misodzi has been learning rapidly. She never leaves her mother, or her grandmother if she has been sent to her kraal, following when miriwo is sought among the herbs of the veld, learning to distinguish the edible fungi, and being initiated into the craft of catching majuru, the guardian termites which can be made as tasty as flying ants or any

fat caterpillars.

She learns cooking, too, and how not to make mbodza instead of good porridge. Also **she must learn how to make the pots** in which the porridge is cooked.”

p.40-41

“And yet he thrives, I perhaps because he can claim his mother’s milk whenever he cries until he is three ploughing seasons old. Then he is weaned, his mother taking a present of a fowl and meal to the midwife to mark the change, and to receive sanction for a new concentration on having another little brother or sister for Mugaro. He is now able to run about and “kill rats”, but he should not do the work of an approved status until he is about **six years old**, when his head is shaved to signify that he is now a goat-herd; and having attained that rank, he may now sleep in a bachelors’ hut and eat with other boys.

It is at this age that he begins to acquire his botanical and zoological knowledge, and his powers of observation are exercised and grow far more rapidly than those of a little English boy poring over a school primer. The older boys teach him how to make ingenious traps and snares to catch birds and small game such as a species of field mouse—a tasty morsel—or even a hare; although it is more fun to call everyone in hearing and run down Brer Rabbit. Then one can learn how to make urimbo, a nasty bird-lime made by boiling the sap of the chitatarimbo tree and mixing it with fat; or, in a more sporting way, get your birds, especially partridges and quails, by throwing a kerrie as they rise. The boys do not need the honey-bird to lead them to bees’ nests; and, besides honey, there are dainties like certain caterpillars, and a big beetle which can be roasted and sucked.”

1.4.7 Tanala

Linton, R. (1933). The Tanala, a hill tribe of Madagascar. In Publication 317. Anthropological series (Vol. xxii, p. 334). [s.n.]. p256-258.

“While I was in Ambohimanga the boys frequently brought me small models of traps which they had made. These were offered for sale and I doubt whether such models were used in their own play. **They begin to make real traps for small birds and mammals at a very early age.** Tanala toys seem to be characterized by an almost complete absence of replicas of things used by adults.

I never saw any small figures of cattle or chickens, although such playthings are very common among the plateau tribes, or any miniature tools or utensils. The girls did not even have dolls.”

1.4.8 Tonga

Colson, E., & for Social Research, U. of Zambia. I. (1958). Marriage & the family among Plateau Tonga of Northern Rhodesia. Manchester University Press. p262-263.

“Today with the scarcity of game throughout most of the area, few receive training in hunting or fishing. **Other learning**, such as skill in constructing dwellings and granaries and in **making various tools or utensils, is fitted into the daily round and extends throughout childhood**, since it does not clash with herding duties as does field work.”

p.260

“Specific Skills. **There are a few specialized skills practised by adults which are not part of the training of every child, such as basketry and pottery for girls, and blacksmithing and the more skilled phases of wood-carving for boys.** Here no effort is made to drill any child in this work, as it is felt that success depends upon the will of particular ancestral spirits who have decided to pass on their skills, rather than upon long years of practice in the art. 1 For all common skills which are related to the work of the household, the position is quite different. Parents insist that their children learn these, whether they will or not.”

Colson, E., & for Social Research, U. of Zambia. I. (1949). Life among the cattle-owning plateau Tonga: the material culture of a Northern Rhodesia native tribe. In The Occasional papers of the Rhodes-Livingstone Museum (Issue 6, pp. 40, 8 of plates). Rhodes-Livingstone Museum. p.31-32.

“The boys are also forced early into the family labours. Small boys of five and six are already in the fields leading the oxen during the ploughing season. As they grow older, they are assigned to herd the cattle, though at first they may have to be driven out of the village with blows and threats before they finally submit to herding duties. **Into the bush with them they take bows and arrows or their catapults, made of forked stick and rubber from old bicycle tubes, with which they pester the lives of any small birds they may see, or they spend hours spinning thread for making snares.** Any large bird or animal they might kill, they would take home to supply the family larder, but tiny birds and animals are promptly cooked and devoured on the

spot. While they are herding, the older boys set the younger ones to fighting each other, with kicks and fisticuffs. Sometimes the fights become more serious and stones are hurled back and forth, but this is unlikely unless they meet herdboys from another village. Then a general battle is likely to ensue in the old custom of basimisela fighting, which may begin with an arranged battle between two bulls which develops into a general fight when the herders of the defeated bull attempt to regain their village honour, or it may start in arguments as to whether certain boys from the two villages are near enough of an age to call each other “age-mate.” ”

1.4.9 Zulu

Vilakazi, A. (1962). Zulu transformations: a study of the dynamics of social change. University of Natal Press. p.124-125.

“The Zulu traditional system of education was mainly informal and non-institutional in the sense that there were no regular school buildings or any particular places and specific times where and when teaching took place. Nor was there any form of a definite body of scientific or approved knowledge which was worked out in a syllabus and passed on to new generations. Knowledge to them was empirical rather than theoretical or instrumental. A child learned about its culture in the home by the methods of observation, imitation and play. Language played a very important role in this respect as it taught much of the value systems and symbols of the culture. Most of the time, Zulu life was lived in and around the kraal and it is in this setting that the child learned many items of its cultural tradition by actual participation in or direct observance of what the old people did. **A boy, for example, learned how to milk the cows, to inspan oxen, to hunt or to make sledges, riems, yokes, etc., from seeing his father do these things and then doing them himself.** The older siblings played a very important role, too, for they taught the younger brothers or sisters many of the things which they had learned from their seniors. Thus little boys learned veld lore, the different kinds of birds, wild fruits, colours, stick-fighting, etc. from being with their older brothers or taking part in the actual performance in many of the tasks. A boy who did not learn how to find a nest of bees or who did not learn the different kinds of wild fruits and roots would sit by and starve while others ate. The girls also learned from their older sisters very many things like methods of gathering wood in the forest, the way of carrying a water pail on the head and the making of beads and other decorative work. The girls were, however, much more with their mothers than were the boys, and they learned

from them all about house-craft and about how to raise crops in the garden, down to the minute details of how to raise a baby. Family gods and ritual were taught to the children mostly by the mothers who taught them the right kind of behaviour and the right forms of speech in addressing ancestors or elders. Also, the clan names and praises were taught to the children as they grew. The occasions for such teachings presented themselves when the child was being consoled or when it had merited praise for some approved act or when it was being coaxed to eat something. It was called by all the honorific names of the clan and asked to repeat them until it knew them thoroughly. A little girl of about four years of age recited to the writer its clan and praise names in reply to the simple question of: What is your surname? She immediately told me she was a Mkhize, KaGubela, KaKhabazela, KaMavovo, etc. When she had done this, there was approval in the house which meant that she had done something good. Family pride and family solidarity were taught to the children, so that they grew up with a very clear idea of what were the fine points of the clan to which they belonged. The Ngcobo children, for example, among the Qadi, were always told they were the beautiful black ones: “UNgcobo omnyama omuhle, ozandla zimhlophe songathi zizophenya isahluko,” i.e. “the beautiful black Ngcobo, with white hands fit enough to open a chapter in the Holy Book.” In this connection, a 12-year-old Phewa girl whom the writer met at the store reacted to a compliment on her beautiful looks by a question: “Did you ever know a Phewa who was not beautiful?” To her, the beauty of the Phewa clan was a matter of course, and to remark about it as if it was an unusual thing was something which caused surprise!

In cases which involved the acquisition of esoteric knowledge, however, the teaching may be regarded as tending towards institutionalism, e.g. when somebody wished to become an isangoma. Here a period of apprenticeship was necessary; there was a definite place where such a person went which was like going to school or college in the western world, and there was a positive student-teacher relationship, constant testing, and finally a graduation ceremony when the student was said to be “launched out” (ekhishwa). The information passed on to the student here was not possessed by parents but by a specialist with whom the student went to live for a considerable period—generally about two years among the Nyuswa.

There were some specializations, however, which were not esoteric in nature, e.g. medicine and spear-making, which also **required a period of apprenticeship**. Both these professions handled what may be regarded as public knowledge which can be learned from and by anybody in the

society who is normal. Thus, for example, **spear-making among the Nyuswa has been in a very few families, particularly the Zama family who have taught it to their sons or to relatives. It was in this way that old Gogoda taught his son the trade.** The practice of medicine is another such profession. A young man learns this either from his father or from an uncle.”

Raum, O. F. (1973). The social functions of avoidances and taboos among the Zulu. In *Monographien zur Völkerkunde* (pp. xiv, 576). de Gruyter. p.91.

“After the ear-piercing this equality disappears. The differentiation is anticipated in their names. It is accentuated in the division of labour. Small boys go to the pasture with the calves. The girls accompany their mothers to fetch water and fuel, to hoe and weed in the fields. The differentiation becomes reflected in play activities. **Make-believe play of boys refers to cattle, hunting and war, that of girls to domestic matters: cooking, minding babies, making bead work.** In these diverse ways the future of the children is foreshadowed. Boys will grow up with their interests focussed on the cattle property of the homestead, the pasture lands and hunting grounds. Girls will pass into other families as wives, where the domestic and gardening skills learned at home will come in useful. A son, within the agnatic kinship, will found a new lineage on marrying, and the richer in cattle he is, the more branches this lineage will have. A daughter can at most hope to establish a branch within her husband’s lineage by giving birth to a son.”

1.5 Western Africa

1.5.1 Akan

Rattray, R. S. (Robert Sutherland). 1927. “Religion and Art in Ashanti.” In . Oxford, England: Clarendon Press. p.271-272.

“In Ashanti, a generation or so ago, every stool in use had its own particular significance and its own special name which denoted the sex, or social status, or clan of the owner. The village of Afwia, a few miles from Coomassie, was the centre, in olden days, of the stool-carving industry. **Sons and sisters’ sons were equally allowed to learn the art of carving, from father or uncle respectively.** Many of the stools shown here were the ‘copyright’ of the Ashanti king, and might not, on any account, be sold in the open market; 2 they were first given to the king, who would then present them to chiefs whom he wished to honour. **A woman might not carve a stool—because of the ban against menstruation.** A woman in this state was formerly not even allowed

to approach wood-carvers while at work, on pain of death or of a heavy fine. This fine was to pay for sacrifices to be made upon the ancestral stools of the dead kings, and also upon the wood-carver's tools. If any wood-carver's wife was unfaithful to her husband, and the latter, being unaware of this, went to work, then 'his tools would cut him severely'. A wood-carver might not go to work leaving unsettled any quarrel or grievance with his parents."

p.301-302

"It would hardly be correct to state that pottery-making in Ashanti is entirely in the hands of women. **While it is true that they everywhere appear to be the makers of pots, there is not any unwritten law or taboo to prevent a male from practising this trade. As a matter of fact, men do not fashion pots or pipes unless they represent anthropomorphic or zoomorphic forms, for women are forbidden to make these.** The reason given me for this was that the making of these requires greater skill. Another reason often forthcoming why women are the chief makers of pots also appears to be plausible. It is stated that in ancient times pots were invariably bartered in exchange for food, and that they were never sold for gold dust or whatever was the currency of the time. This caused their manufacture to lie in the hands of the women-folk—with the exception noted—'as it was not worth the while of the men to make them.'

There is a tradition that the first woman potter, at the village of Taffo, an important centre of this industry, was a woman called Osra Abogyo. 'She learnt the art from Odomankoma, the Creator'; songs are still sung in her honour.

Pot-making is a hereditary craft, which is handed down from mother to daughter; whole families of girls are 'potteresses', having learnt the art from the time that they are quite small children. Fig. 230 shows the old Queen Mother of Taffo and her family, all of whom are 'potteresses'. I lived for some time at Taffo, making a study of the craft; many of the photographs shown here were taken on that occasion. The village of Taffo is famous for its pots; it was formerly one of a number of villages, Pankrono, Obuokurum, Sisirease, and Ekwea, which, under the facing old Ashanti régime, were wholly engaged in fashioning earthen-ware vessels. Taffo pots are still exported to places as distant as Secondee and Accra"

p.233

"Little boys who are to become weavers begin to learn at a very early age. A weaver's sons—not necessarily his sisters' sons—generally become weavers. These children play at weaving

on a small toy loom called *asase tama*, shown in Fig. 125. They become extraordinarily deft at making a shed by picking up the under threads with a little flat, pointed shed-stick. Having made a shed, they keep it open with the same stick, pass a miniature shuttle through the shed, remove the stick and start again.”

1.5.2 Dogon

Paulme, D., & Schütze, F. (1940). Social organization of the Dogon (French Sudan). éditions Domat-Montchrestien, F. Loviton et Cie. p.447.

“The work side by side allows the children to observe the movements of their elders, movements which they will then strive to reproduce; thus the transmission of technical knowledge is assured. A boy sees his father cut wood, handle the hoe to clear a field; he helps him to prepare the mud which will strengthen a wall, unwind the cotton to weave it, etc. ... **In the same way, the daughter of the potter prepares the clay that her mother is going to model and watches the firing of the pots; later, she herself will be a potter. The apprenticeship takes on an even more familial aspect among the people of caste, blacksmiths and shoemakers: the son of a blacksmith will learn even as a child to handle the bellows of the forge, then the anvil and the hammer; the daughter of the shoemaker, from the age of five or six, will help her mother, the dyer, to prepare the vat of indigo into which one dips the strips of cotton that all the inhabitants of the village bring there.**

To teach the children how to clear a field or the method of plaiting a basket does not, in general, present great difficulties. It is much more ticklish to inculcate in these same children the rules of politeness and good breeding. Dogon parents demand of their sons and 474 their daughters absolute obedience — in theory. In fact, the relations that parents maintain with their children present an aspect just as variable as the one that may be observed in our families. Certain parents, known to be very strict, are feared by their children, who avoid them. In the neighboring house boys and girls show a very lively affection and complete confidence toward their father; they climbed on his knees when they were small; even now they run to meet him every evening. Children show a very unequal degree of respect and submission; one sometimes hears them protest against an order that is given them, and they may carry out only with considerable delay an errand with which their mother charged them. An ideal of obedience is nonetheless held up before their eyes.”

1.5.3 Fon

Herskovits, M. J. (Melville J. (1967). Dahomey, an ancient West African kingdom: volume 1. Northwestern University Press. p.273-274.

“A child is taught to walk when it is about a year old. A young relative is the teacher, and holds the baby by its hand and encourages its first steps. When the child learns to take a few short steps, four small bells strung on a cord are placed about each foot, so that the child, hearing the tinkling sound made at every step is encouraged to continue its efforts. These bells, called yoyui, are made in one special quarter of Abomey by a group of the metal-working guild who produce no other wares. The delighted shrieks of a small child taking its first steps, to the accompaniment of the jingle of bells, testify to the efficacy of this device. When the child has learned to walk well, if it belongs to one of the special twin categories, it is taken by its mother for a ritual visit to the market, described in the preceding pages. If a child does not belong to one of these categories, however, then his learning to walk satisfactorily is marked by no departure from the routine of daily life. A part of this routine consists in the beginning of his training in the occupations of his elders. For example, in the family that inhabited the courtyard of a house in Abomey where observations were made was a child of two years and some months. At that age, he had begun to carry a stool to the market some several hundred yards distant for his mother, and could be seen from time to time carrying an empty calabash or a dish on his head. Again, during a visit to the quarter of the iron-workers on a day when work at the forge was forbidden because it was sacred to the god of iron, some of the children could be seen playing at the trade of their fathers. **The bellows of one forge had been brought out, and two boys, who were judged to be eight or nine years old, were handling the red-hot iron with the tongs then elders used, and hammering this metal into shape on the anvil. The usual task of such a boy is to work the bellows for his father or uncle or older brother; in this case, the bellows were being operated by a still younger boy, who could not have been more than three or four years old. Thus the pattern was reproduced; the point here, however, is to indicate at what an early age a child begins to participate in Dahomean life.**

A little girl, when she is but five years old, accompanies her mother to the market, does small tasks about the house, or pulls up weeds in the field, so that by the time she is ten or eleven years old, she is able to cook all of the staple foods used in a household, to wash the cloths used by the women, and to do all the minor tasks of her sex. The same thing is true of boys, who watch

their elders at work and play at their fathers' occupations, thus absorbing techniques, or help the older men in the fields. Both boys and girls of nine or ten years of age or younger have been seen helping with the planting; indeed, by the time a boy has attained the age of eleven or twelve he is supposed to know the essentials of agriculture."

p.86 (contextual information)

"This acquisitive urge is consciously fostered among both boys and girls at an early age. Small boys help their fathers in the field, and as soon as they are old enough to wield a hoe spend late afternoons and evenings making fields for themselves where they grow crops that they can dispose of to the market women of the family. By teaching and example it is constantly impressed upon them that the greater the initiative the more the gain. **A young man who shows evidence of a special talent need not follow his father's calling but may apprentice himself to a weaver or an iron-worker, or, if he has special aptitude to a diviner, though it is not easy for one born outside the guilds to learn a craft,** Should he apprentice himself to one of the craftsmen or to a priest or a diviner, he works for his father a half day and for his master the rest of his time so that when he is an adept at his chosen profession he commands an additional source of income. When of age, a man constantly attempts to add to his wealth by cutting new fields and planting more palm-trees. If he has the resources he can, in addition, command the work of others or the fruit of their palm-groves by lending some of his surplus to those who have need of ready money."

1.5.4 Fulani

Stenning, D. J. (1964). Savannah Nomads: a study of the Wodaabe pastoral Fulani of Western Bornu Province, Northern Region, Nigeria. Published for the International African Institute by Oxford University Press. p.155-156.

"The terms for children who are no longer in the care of their mothers and can walk, but who do not leave the homestead, are sexually differentiated. **A boy at this stage, which is said to last from the fourth or fifth year to the ninth or tenth,** is described as sukayel (lit. 'a little youth'), and the term expresses the closer association of little boys of this age with their older brothers and cousins. **When older lads are in camp, such little boys sit with them and are given a share of their tasks; but when left alone they play freely with little girls of their own age. A girl at this**

age is described as tokoysel (lit. 'a little follower'). She 'follows' her mother and helps her in small ways, but also goes off to play with the boys of the camp. Although, if left to themselves, children play such free games as 'tag', the régime of domestic tasks and interests is strongly reflected in the ways in which they spend their time. Unlike Hausa or pagan children, they do not bathe in pools or climb trees. **They make figurines of the clay found near pools and streams, the boys fashioning horses and long-horned cattle, the girls making female busts, the heads stylized with no attempt at facial representation, the breasts large and carefully pricked to represent tattooing. In the homestead itself they are quite happy to imitate the tasks of their elders, such as twisting or hammering ropes, or taking small calabashes to fetch water."**

1.5.5 Igbo

Ottenberg, S. (1975). Masked rituals of Afikpo, the context of an African art. In *Index of art in the Pacific Northwest* (Issue 9, pp. 229, [8] leaves of plates). Published for the Henry Art Gallery by the University of Washington Press. p.69.

"Sometime after he was initiated, he started carving secret society masks. His father had been a carver but had died long before Chukwu was old enough to learn from him. All of his father's masks had been destroyed in the fire during the British invasion of Afikpo in 1902. **Chukwu, then, combined his past experience at carving as an enna with what he learned from his older brother, who helped teach him. In fact, he had learned many of the primary techniques of mask carving (but not in wood or calabash) and of coloring when he was an enna.** Many boys at that time try their hand at the work. During that period he was unaware that his older brother, Oko, who was already initiated, was carving secret society masks, because members of the secret society do not reveal this fact to nonmembers, even in their own family. Similarly, his eldest brother did not know that Chukwu was making enna masks, for members of these enna groups are also secretive to outsiders about their activities. For the noninitiate, then, the stimulus to carve comes not from older persons—elders or professional carvers—but largely from the criticisms and rewards of age-mates. Chukwu's carving skills were basically learned when he was a child. When away from home in the Enugu area and at Makurdi, he apparently did no carving, but acquired considerable skill in the use of Western-type carpenter's tools, which undoubtedly contributed to his later success as a carver."

p.65-66

“Up until the last fifteen or twenty years before 1960, when the uninitiated boys’ secret society was quite active and when lads were not initiated into the real society until late adolescence or early adulthood, these enna had plenty of time to develop carving skills. They made masks for their own plays and dances, which were face coverings of coconut materials, calabash, net, and leaves. After initiation some boys continued working, and these are the carvers of today. However, boys nowadays are initiated into the village secret society at an earlier age and the boys are not so skilled before they join the adult society.* Chukwu Okoro believes that the carving skills at Afikpo have consequently declined, as boys must start making the society’s masks without having first worked on the simpler enna forms, where the carving is easier and there seems to be greater variation in style and quality. **Today an interested boy member of the secret society experiments pretty much on his own and then takes his masks for examination to a known carver, who will make suggestions; in addition, the boy may just. watch him work a bit. Established carvers work with several boys in this informal, easy-going, noncontractual type of relationship.**

Carvers can come from any patrilineal or matrilineal grouping at Afikpo; but, as in the case of diviners (S. Ottenberg 1971b, pp. 208–9), if a man is a carver, there is a tendency for at least one of his sons to take up the profession. Chukwu Okoro’s family has certainly followed this pattern, although there is no rule in this matter.

The carver, as a member of the secret society, can work only during the season when this group is active, from September or October to May or June. However, he may cut wood and store it for future use during the rest of the year. It is only during the secret society season that he can take masks from their storage places in the village or ward resthouses, or elsewhere, to observe and compare with his own work. And the calabash mask is brought out only at the time of the isiji initiation.

The carver works in secrecy and isolation from females and uninitiated boys, either in a special shed in a secluded, wooded area or in a part of his house where others do not enter freely. His wife or wives may prepare colors for him, especially the red camwood and the yellow odo, by grinding them into powder form, but they are not supposed to know what these are used for (they have other purposes as well). In fact, I believe that they sometimes know but pretend not to, for undue familiarity with secret society business invites spiritual contamination and possible illness or barrenness. Unfinished masks are stored in the house or shed of the carver, or

sometimes in the ancestral house of the major patrilineage; but the tools are not specially segregated or ritually handled and can be employed for everyday work.”

p.67-68 (contextual information)

“When a small boy, Chukwu joined the imitation secret society, ohia eme enna (bush-children-uninitiated), whose membership is composed of small boys of a single compound or of two or more neighboring ones. Such societies have no fixed home, and Chukwu’s group met in a clump of banana plants behind the homes, in the compound ancestral shrine house (mma obu), where small boys often play, or in the bush. (It is only the older uninitiated boys who have a set place to meet.) These small boys made masks of large leaves or sometimes of cloth, and imitated what they saw older boys and men do in the activities of the village secret society, such as the okumkpa play or the logholo game.

When Chukwu was about eleven, the usual age for transition, he moved into the older uninitiated boys society, also called ohia eme enna. With a friend he joined the one derived from his real father’s ward, Agbogo, and not that of his stepfather’s ward, Amozo, for he had an evident attraction for his dead father’s people. His stepfather was angry at him for so doing and refused to pay his fees required for joining this advanced enna society; his mother and his older brother, Oko, paid instead.* Oko, as senior living male in the direct line, was to help Chukwu in other ways a number of times in his life.

The advanced enna group is divided into junior and senior sections on the basis of both age and skill. It builds and maintains its own resthouses and sacrificial shrines, and the boys carry out a variety of plays and rituals, again largely in imitation of the adult secret society. **Chukwu was in this enna group some seven or eight years.”**

p.19 (contextual information)

“Carving. The acali is one of the easier masks to make, and newly initiated boys starting to carve sometimes work on it first. Chukwu Okoro’s older brother, Oko, made it as one of his earliest forms when he began carving secret society masks. Its greater similarity to some of the enna masks than most other Afikpo face coverings could be another reason it is carved early.”

Ottenberg, S. (1989). Boyhood rituals in an African society: an interpretation. University of Washington Press. p.121-122.

“After this boys move away from the family situation, toward an identity with the father and

toward males, **while girls remain in a mother-centered domestic environment.** Work for boys involves helping grow yams and climbing productive trees for palm products; for girls, growing cassava and vegetable crops and preparing gari and pottery, and trading in them. For boys, there is the aggressiveness of the boys' secret societies, away from parents, while for girls there are the more restrained social relationships of the female home, with a good deal of hard work, and sometimes long hours of tedious labor. **Strong pressures are placed on children to act their separate roles: gender distinctions are clear by the time children have ended their first decade of life.**

Children have also, through their experiences in the various activities that we have discussed, learned that gender dichotomy differentiates but does not create equals. In Afikpo men outwardly rule and females have less of a say. So children learn that the farmland will pass from males to other males, but not generally to females, that the adult secret societies act to control females, and that male physical strength is associated with leadership.

By adolescence each sex has acquired a set of skills which mark it off from the other. The domestic abilities of the girls are developed to the point that in this regard early marriage presents little problem for them; they have also had creative experience in singing, dancing, and pottery making, although the ware is generally without elaborate design. The technical skills of boys are such that they are quite prepared for their initiation into the adult secret society, through considerable experience in producing and using masks and musical instruments, in costuming, in dancing, and in performing sacrifices. Some of them have leadership experience, and have a sense of whether they enjoy leading or not. They have developed physical skills through fighting, games, wrestling, and chasing in masquerades, as well as in farm work; they are toughened up and can stand pain."

p.128

"The fourth feature, emulation, clearly allows children to strongly identify with the parent and others of the same sex. We have seen that childhood behavior often emulates adult activity, most strikingly in the boys' secret societies, where virtually all that occurs copies the adult secret society. It is also evident in gender role differentiation, in the boys' secret societies and forms of secrecy, in knowledge of farming, and in girls' domestic experience. Very young girls become involved in household duties and children of both sexes in farming. While it is true that there is a limited culture of childhood distinct from that of adults (centering around children's games,

Moonlight Dancing, the xylophone dances in the boys' societies, some general songs and expressions, and aspects of the nwa ulo relationship), in other areas of behavior the children are very much in the adult mode from the age of five. As I have suggested, Afikpo children are socially demarcated from adults, but their culture is more emulative of that of adults than distinctive from it."

Meek, C. K. (Charles K., & Lugard, Lord. (1970). Law and authority in a Nigerian tribe: a study in indirect rule. Barnes & Noble. p.298.

"The training of children, whether male or female, is almost entirely the mother's business up to the age of five. Before the child is two years old the mother begins to teach it obedience, e.g. by giving it some food and then immediately demanding its return. About the age of two, the child is taught to eat without assistance, and as it grows older is told to refrain from talking while eating, and so avoid growing thin! It is made accustomed to the use of knives by being given a wooden knife, but is strictly warned of the danger of injuring itself and others. It is taught also to clean dishes, put them in their proper place, and sweep the mother's hut. Male children are made to rake the ground round the compound (the rake having a bamboo head and stick handle). Girls must not perform this duty, lest later they should become clumsy in handling plates and pots. At this stage also children are taught to fetch water in small calabashes, to roast and peel yams for themselves, to run errands, to collect firewood, and to use a 'chewing-stick' for cleansing their teeth. They are taught dance-steps almost as soon as they can walk, and at dances one may even see children of two or three years of age beating the dance time with their hands and heads.

At the age of five they receive their first lessons in hoeing, and two years later they begin to accompany their father and mother to the farm. Boys are taught to clear the 'bush', to make mats for roofing, and to carry baskets of yams or calabashes of water. Instruction is given in planting yams, fixing yam-sticks, training the tendrils, planting corn, and weeding the farm. They are shown the farm boundaries, and taught how to demarcate the boundaries after the clearing of the farm."

1.5.6 Kpelle

Lancy, D. F. (1984). Work, play and learning in a Kpelle town. Xerox University Microfilms. p.141, 157-158.

p.141

“Some tasks are done within the family, but only by the male or female members. Each wife will have her own vegetable and cassava gardens which she tends with the aid of her daughters. Men plant and harvest tree crops with their sons. Net-waving and net-fishing are done in mother and daughter teams, (see Plate XX) as trapping is a father and son operation. **While the girl attempts to learn how to weave nets from her mother, her brother may be tramping through the jungle setting and inspecting traps with his father. At first, the boy merely tags along learning to attend to the salient stimuli of game and jungle. Later, he will help his father gather materials to make the trap, then he assists in making and setting them. He will try to make his own, getting advice from his father on proper construction. At seven years (Cross-Reference: (Table 13))A a boy may be able to construct a simple trap for catching small birds (Faang).** Each year, thereafter, he will probably learn one or two new traps until he has mastered the whole arsenal. At fourteen he may join Geleng-Gbe the boys’ hunting society and learn secret medicines to use in his traps. At age sixteen he traps by himself and contributes part of his catch to the family larder.”

p.157-158

“**Certain tasks are quite complex and require training which could be called an apprenticeship.** These tasks include medicine making (Zo), leather-working, pottery, **blacksmithing**, and cloth weaving. Blacksmithing, at least, is learned during an apprenticeship. **Jawo-Gbala was apprenticed to his mother’s brother. At first he only helped out on occasion by bringing wood for the forge and by operating the bellows. But even before this Jawo remembers sitting on a log at one end of the “shop” and watching his uncle work. At fourteen he began a formal apprenticeship which lasted three years.** His father “gave” him to his uncle, then, at the end of the apprenticeship, he “gave” him back to his parents. Jawo-Gbala first learned to make a knife blade, then a machete, later still he learned to carve wooden handles and to forge the hoe and the adze. These latter two require bending the hot iron which must be done with care to avoid breaking it. His uncle made few comments while Jawo-Gbala was working, only when he had finished a tool would he give a critique. He wasn’t allowed to keep a piece until it was perfect, nor could he make a machete until he’d mastered the knife, a hoe until he’d mastered the machete and so on. When he did make a mistake, or did sloppy work, his teacher would beat and berate him and order him to destroy what he’d made. During the apprenticeship, he paid his

uncle through his work. He would make tools for people who would, in turn, agree to work on Kuu on his uncle's farm. The apprenticeship terminated when Jawo-Gbala had mastered all the tools including these needed in the actual blacksmithing and he set up his own forge."

p.150

"When Chief Wollokollie was twenty-two he learned to weave from his older brother who had, in turn learned it from their father. His brother wove cloth seven to eight times a year and each time Wollokollie learned an additional step in the operation. The first step he learned was preparing the warp. His brother watched and showed him how to wind the thread around the stakes and how to keep count. Then he learned to make the loom and for the next several times he was in charge of preparing warp and loom. Then he learned to thread the heddles and reed. (see Plate IX) and, later how to make his own. His brother taught him to sow the cloth strips together and Wollokollie did this chore as his brother wove the cloth. Finally, after two years of tutelage Wollokollie learned the actual weaving, with his brother dropping by frequently to check on his progress. Wollokollie had made his brother an initial gift (white Kola) of a chicken, a bottle of palm oil and three cups of rice. After he had completed his training he gave his brother two of the 11-strip spreads."

p.151

"Wollokollie's youngest wife, **Goma was an expert at Bii paa or bag weaving,** (see Plate X) She had, she said, asked her big sister to teach her how to do it, but she refused so Goma taught herself. Now **she is teaching a teenaged girl of 16 how to do it.** The girl has prepared the strands of palm leaf and brought them to Goma to help her get started. **The two alternate at weaving the bag. The girl makes a mistake and Goma unravels what she has done, does it correctly for awhile, then lets the girl take over again. Goma can't explain how to do it, either to me or the girl. She can only show and guide our hands as I, too, make an attempt to learn.** It's not easy to learn and we make mistakes, but Goma is patient. She is partly rewarded by seeing a man, and a white man at that, doing woman's work which is very amusing, Goma insists that she is an unusual teacher because she has seen women beat their pupils for making mistakes or failing to pay attention."

p.153

"Sua started spinning cotton when she was seven years old, but Nyenpu shows no inclination

to learn this skill. Sua recalls: Girls wore beads strung on cotton thread. When a girl would go to her mother for thread she might be told “It’s time you learned to make your own,” or a girl would want new clothes and her mother would say: “learn to spin and you’ll get some clothes.” So Sua started out with corn-silks which she spun into thread, later she stole some of her mother’s cotton and took it behind the house to practice spinning. **A girl was expected to learn spinning on her own and if she was clumsy at it she was teased. One common mistake was to spin the spindle towards rather than away from the waist and when a girl did this her mother would laugh at and snack her.”**

p.154

“Table 13 shows the percentage of girls who can weave nets as a function of age. As can be seen the figures fluctuate around 20% and this can be contrasted with the 58% of adult women who indicated that they wove nets. This difference is attributable to a general decline in skill learning by all children because, **unlike bag weaving, net weaving is supposed to be mastered by about age 13. If we further examine this table we see that net weaving is exclusively a female task while mat weaving, trap-making, kitchen building, palm-nut cutting and palm wine making are almost exclusively male tasks. Nine appears to be the critical age during which these tasks are at least attempted. Making-market is done by males and females. Spoon-carving, cloth-weaving, hammock weaving are male tasks; basket-weaving, fanner-weaving, bag weaving, and spinning are female tasks, and medicine-making is done by both sexes.** All of these skills were included as possible choices on the questionnaire, but almost none of the children claimed to practice them. This is partly explained by the tendency to abandon traditional skills and also from the fact that the cut-off age of thirteen may have been too early to pick up the normal acquisition age for these skills. We can, however, see that children learn three types of tasks at three different ages. They begin performing the rudimentary tasks of rice farming such as cooking, pounding rice and chasing away birds at a very early age, usually before they are nine. More difficult tasks such as hoeing on the farm, net-weaving, and trap-making are begun around age nine and mastered by age thirteen. Rarer, more complex skills such as cloth-weaving, bag-weaving, blacksmithing, medicine making, etc. are acquired in the late teens and may be learned after marriage.”

p.155

“Mat-weaving is done almost exclusively by boys. (see Plato XI) Men without teenaged sons

may make their own mats or buy them. The size, quality and quantity of mats woven varies directly with age so that a boy of nine may weave two to three mats in a year. These are generally small, about 3' x 5' and they are of poor quality - the weft is not packed tightly and the edges are left unfinished causing the mat to fall apart in a short period of time. **Boys actually begin mat-weaving earlier than nine, but they don't weave functional mats. They take scraps left-over from an older brother's mat and practice weaving these into small squares. They will watch the older brother as he weaves, fetching pieces for him and, maybe, if he gets up for a break, take his place and weave a line or two. They aren't taught in any formal sense, they learn entirely through observation and imitation.** By thirteen, boys are weaving ten or more large (7' x 6') mats a year and these are tightly woven with no holes and finished around the edges with a fiber-braid. These mats are substantial and last a year or more. Speed and dexterity gradually increase so that an older boy makes a large mat in much less time than the younger boy takes to make a small one. Another important change is that older boys concentrate more fully on their task. A young boy will start a mat, work on it for an hour or so until some friends happen along and off he goes to play. It may take him a week of sporadic work to finish the mat. If his father needs the mat urgently, he'll finish it himself. The older boy usually finishes a mat in two days; he works almost without stopping, but he will chat with friends that stop by as he goes on working."

p.159

"Yeleke has been crippled since he was very young, probably from polio. **As a child he had enjoyed watching his father's brother doing leather-work, but his uncle died before passing on his skill.** Yeleke realized that he would not be able to support a family through rice-farming and he did not want to be dependent on hand outs so he begged his father to find someone who would teach him leather working. **His father traveled to Guinea where the skill is more common and brought back a teacher who lived in the family for three years. Yeleke was then in his mid-teens and he had to struggle to learn his trade.** For one thing his fingers are also partially paralyzed and his general lack of mobility slowed down and hampered his work. Leather-working breaks down into many subtasks and some of these, such as sewing and tooling the leather require strength and finesse. Yeleke learned the easier and more basic tasks first, such as working the leather by hand to soften it, scraping it clean, shaping and cutting it, etc. Today he makes a wide variety of items including several things such as fur hats that he invented on his

own. (see Plate XII)”

p.228

“Other instruments are learned without the aid of a teacher, but nevertheless require a lengthy period of self-guided training. Young boys will shape two or three flat pieces of wood of different thickness and lay these across their spread legs as they sit on the ground. With a stick they beat out rhythms on the “bars,” continually adjusting them as they slide around. They will progress from two to four bars, then they will make a full-scale Gbai-ngweni (xylophone) to play. **Boys make Maning (horns) by the age of ten and begin learning to blow them. Their horns differ significantly from those used by adults.** The adult horns, made from hardwood are carved inside and out in a megaphone shape. Boys use a short (1 = 8”) section of log from a pithy wood and they scoop out the insides leaving one end plugged up. They cut a square opening near one end and blow into this opening. On the adult Maning this opening is actually raised from the surface of the horn about two inches. **Boys of nine make and play smaller versions of the adult Baming instrument.** They also play one-stringed guitars made out of a tin-can) a bent sapling and a piece of wire. Cross-Reference: (Table 15) presents the percentages of children at different ages who said they could play certain musical instruments.”

p.163-164 (contextual information)

“The Kpelle do not have a term for apprenticeship, but I believe I have identified a configuration that can be so labeled. Apprenticeship in Gbarngasuakwelle seems to be limited to situations where complex skills are learned. Observation and imitation as learning techniques are present here as in other simpler types of skill-learning. In apprenticeship, however, there is a much greater emphasis on performance, on evaluation and on motivation. If a person desires to learn a complex skill he must be highly motivated, the teacher or master’s high fees added to his tactics of harassment and punishment will scare off all but the most determined. This has the dual effect of limiting the number of individuals who can practice certain skills guaranteeing a livelihood for these who can and saves the master from wasting his valuable time on unmotivated or unskilled apprentices. A second conspicuous aspect of apprenticeship is what is missing, namely, compulsion. I found no evidence that young men are marked either by heredity or other circumstances as having to take up a particular skill. There is no caste of weavers, for example, and the son of a blacksmith doesn’t inevitably follow his father’s trade. A Kpelle man can always make a living as a farmer executing, of course, someone like Yeleke. This produces

the situation I witnessed where the skilled workers of the town are not being replaced and' they have no recourse in custom to force or lure young men into apprenticeships."

p.177-178 (contextual information)

"If one had a lot of time (say two years) to spend observing young children at Neé-pele, one would, I believe, record instances of all the important adult activities of the society. Some other examples of Neé-pele that I did observe:

Children on the farm make their own Kuu. Boys sing and swing their sticks (= machetes) at the weeds. Girls cook dirt (= rice) in snail shells (= pots) over sticks the boys have fetched for the "fire."

A girl makes thread from pissava palm fibers (actually strips the fiber into threads rather than twisting it) which she winds onto a "bobbin." This she gives to a boy who has made a "loom" from bamboo sticks. He lays two sticks on the ground, parallel to each other to represent heddles, and moves his feet up and down as if to raise and lower them. Leaves or paper represent the woven cloth and this is divided up among the "children" for their "clothes."

Boys play at blacksmith. Sticks represent the tools, the anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its "owner" who goes off to cut brush with it.

Many men from Gbarngasuakwelle have, at one time or another, gone down to the coast to work for a few months, for wages, in the Firestone rubber plantation. I observed a seven year old boy with his younger brothers and sisters reenacting the homecoming scene of a worker returned from Firestone. He had made a carrier basket of palm thatch and proceeded to distribute to his "wife and children": dirt (= salt), leaves (= clothes), sticks (= shoes), rope (= belt), gourds (= pots) and cowrie shells (= money).

Several boys aged eight to ten practice palm-tree climbing, to "cut palm nuts." They play on a coconut tree which has a convenient curve in it not found in the oil-palm tree making it easier to climb the first few feet. Their Baling is a strip of bamboo which they loop around the trunk and hold at their sides."

p.276 (contextual information)

"Let us compare, briefly, the blacksmith at work in his forge with children doing a "make-believe"

play of blacksmith. In the realm of social relations, the blacksmith enters into a number of reciprocal relationships such as between himself and a helper who may also be an apprentice; between himself and a client for whom he makes a tool and from whom he exacts an obligation to work on his farm and his wife or wives who take care of many of his needs in return for his protection and maintenance. In the make-believe play we see these social relationships duplicated. A boy of eight or so is the blacksmith, two other boys of roughly the same age act as clients. A younger boy serves as helper, holding a “tool” for the “blacksmith” to “hammer” and fetching wood chips for the “fire.” Finally, two girls, younger than ten, prepare and bring “food” for the smith to eat.”

p.277 (contextual information)

“The blacksmith possesses complex technical skills. The most important of which is a basic understanding of metals and their reaction to various temperatures and stresses. Clearly, these technical skills are not acquired to any appreciable degree during make-believe play. The blacksmith is also an important ritual figure and will be called upon to assist in administering oaths. I found no evidence to indicate that children were learning the ideological aspects of being a blacksmith through their play.”

p.311

“Complex skills are practiced almost entirely by males, and the rarer the skill the more likely this becomes. **Hence, apprenticeships are entered into only by boys. A number of tasks require great physical strength or great physical dexterity. These would include house-framing, palm-cutting and tapping, tree-felling,** etc. and again males in late adolescence to full maturity do these. Men are also more likely to do tasks which require that the person work alone, whereas women almost always work in groups. For men this would include, fence-making, gun-hunting, trapping, tree-planting, etc., while women perform tasks like grinding-rice, shelling peanuts, weeding the rice-field in two’s or larger groups. Finally men’s tasks tend to be irregular and of short duration, while women have a much more stable routine.”

p.312

“Turning now to play we see that the earliest playform to appear is Neé-pele or **make-believe play**. Here **children under the age of nine** carry out, symbolically a variety of adult pursuits including; rice-farming, **blacksmithing**, palm-nut cutting, snail-hunting, etc. Children fulfill

varying roles in make-believe depending on their age and sex. Older children generally playing adult roles, younger children playing child roles; boys in male roles, girls in female roles, etc.”

p.321

“He now turn to discontinuities in learning. One such discontinuity is quite sharp and occurs when a child is initiated into the P o r o / Sande society. Not knowing exactly what children learn in bush school, it’s nevertheless plain, that this marks a shift in status, and signals the beginning of the child’s appreciation of medicine, magic and ritual. Other breaks occur in the acquisition of certain skills. For a young boy, the first time his father takes him trapping is an occasion. Similarly for a young girl learning how to weave a fish net from her mother is a significant point in both their lives. **The following skills are learned from parents when the child is between nine and sixteen years of age: all types of weaving save cloth-weaving, tree-planting, palm-work, non-group medicine-making, wood carving and spinning.** Three points are noteworthy about the learning of these skills. First, because they are difficult, they require rather intense concentration and practice over a long period of time. Second, they are optional, in the sense that the child is not forced to learn them, third, they require some direct instruction, i.e. observation, imitation and practice are not sufficient to master them. The parent or other adult teacher intervenes to correct mistakes, to offer advice and to consciously demonstrate the skill as the child is struggling to learn. Because of these features the child must show a high degree of motivation. He/she must not only take the time and effort to learn, but must also seek out the help of an adult teacher and willingly suffer some abuse from the teacher for mistakes, inattention and slowness.”

p.322 (contextual information)

“Even sharper discontinuities occur at a somewhat later time in the lives of children. This occurs when they become apprenticed to masters in certain skills, and when they attempt to join secret societies. Here large sacrifices of time and money must be made by the child and his parents. The apprentice is also subject to physical abuse including beatings from his master for incompetence. Failure to attend to the rules and requirements of the secret societies brings about fines or worse. In these areas the teaching process is brought completely out into the open. A child may learn to trap from his father, a person who can be expected to display some patience and tolerance. Apprenticeships are rarely entered into with one’s own parents so the masters or secret society Zos are viewed as powerful authority figures who possess knowledge that can’t

be acquired in any other way. **Since these skills are manifestly complex, they tend to be broken down and learned in steps. The apprentice blacksmith first learns to operate the bellows, then to repair worn tools, then to make simple ones, etc.** The aspiring Zo first learns to recognize leaves, then to combine them to make a medicine, then to diagnose an illness, etc. Finally, with these skills, there is a kind of graduation which doesn't occur with other skill-learning. The successful blacksmith opens his forge, the successful weaver builds his own loom, the successful medicine-learner "buys the head" in the secret society, etc. These individuals may now be addressed as "Zo," blacksmith," "pot-builder" and so on, or a general term may be used to denote their status as in Yeleke (skilled one). However, the highest technical proficiency will not guarantee a livelihood to a skilled worker if he lacks "respect." He must serve his clients well, respect their privacy, and treat them fairly. Learning this "social-relations" aspect of skilled-work, is accomplished through socialization and is, therefore, continuous."

p.32 (contextual information)

"The return from bush school signals a change in the child's status in the household. They have acquired new names given them by the Zos, and must now begin carrying out designated chores for the family on a regular basis. Failure to do so results in verbal abuse and beating by the child's parents. **They also gradually acquire certain skills such as fish not-making, spinning thread, weaving mats, making traps, building a house, etc. from their parents or older siblings.** More important than any particular skill, however, are two attitudes which the child must develop. First, to work hard without complaint and, second, to show respect and deference to anyone older than themselves."

Lancy, D. F. (1996). Playing on the mother-ground: cultural routines for children's development. In *Culture and human development* (pp. xii, 240). Guilford press. p89-90

p.39

"Gradually, the household's expectations for the child escalate and he or she must now begin carrying out designated chores for the family on a regular basis. Failure to do so results in verbal abuse and beating. **Children also gradually acquire certain skills such as making fishnet, spinning thread, weaving mats, making traps, building a house, and so on, from their parents or older siblings.** More important than any particular skill, however, are two attitudes children must develop: (1) working hard without complaint, and (2) showing respect and deference to anyone older than themselves."

p.89-90

“**Make-believe play** can provide opportunities for children to acquire adult work habits and to rehearse social scenes. In many cases the transition from play work to real work is nearly seamless. However, some adult roles are just too complex to be acquired solely in the course of Neé-pele—blacksmithing, for example.

Let us compare, briefly, the blacksmith at work in his forge with children doing a make-believe recreation of blacksmithing. In the realm of social relations, the blacksmith enters into a number of reciprocal relationships: between himself and a helper, who may also be an apprentice; between himself and a client, for whom he makes a tool and from whom he exacts an obligation to work on his farm; and and between his wife or wives who take care of many of his needs in return for his protection and maintenance. In the make-believe play we see these social relationships duplicated. **A boy of 8 or so is the blacksmith; two other boys of roughly the same age act as clients. A younger boy serves as helper, holding a “tool” for the “blacksmith” to “hammer” and fetching woodchips for the “fire.” Finally, two girls, younger than 10, prepare and bring “food” for the smith to eat. The anvil is a rock and the tongs are a piece of bamboo that has been partially split along its length. Different types and sizes of sticks represent different hammers. The finished machete (a flat piece of wood) is given to its “owner,” who goes off to cut brush with it.**

The “blacksmith” and his co-actors use the appropriate language in carrying out their make-believe. The older boy is addressed as “smith” or “old man,” the helper as “boy” or “son.” The girls as “wife.” The specialized blacksmith’s tools and paraphernalia are also referred to by their proper names.

The blacksmith possesses complex technical skills, the most important of which is a basic understanding of metals and their reaction to various temperatures and stresses. **Clearly, these technical skills are not acquired to any appreciable degree during make-believe play. The blacksmith is also an important ritual figure and will be called on to assist in administering oaths. I found no evidence to indicate that children were learning the ideological aspects of being a blacksmith through their play.”**

p.61 (contextual information)

“**The blacksmith is the only skilled worker with a permanent workshop.** This is an open-walled

building with a sharply pitched thatched roof. Inside, is a forge that consists of two earthen mounds separated by a narrow trough in which a fire of woodchips is laid. An assistant works two leather bags which force air through bamboo tubes down and out a small opening at the base of the fire. A large and smaller rock serve as anvils and the blacksmith uses a variety of hammers, punches, and tongs in his work. A customer brings both the iron and the wood to be made into the requested tool—a blacksmith does only bespoke work. **Formerly, iron, which is plentiful in the region, was smelted in local furnaces (Thomasson, 1987), but this practice has died out. Scrap iron is presently used.** Only old men knew the secrets of iron smelting and one had to be initiated into these secrets, as in the Poro.”

p.115 (contextual information)

“As we shall see, some forms of work or skills, such as hammock making, are optional. The child will not be chided for failing to practice his hammock making. On the contrary, if a boy wants to learn this skill he may have a hard time finding a willing tutor. However, the work of the household is mandatory.¹ Viewing culture as information (Chapter 2), **we can see that the Kpelle expect that certain kinds of information or skills will be mastered by everyone (of the appropriate gender); other skills are open to those with the initiative to pursue them; and access to yet other information/skill is restricted (e.g., bush school and apprenticeship).**”

p.168 (contextual information)

“As illustrated in an earlier analysis (Lancy, 1980a), becoming a Kpelle blacksmith involves mastery of three distinct spheres. **First, one needs to learn how to turn iron and wood into useful products. Second, because of his very public persona, his “extra” income, and the heavily symbolic nature of his craft, the blacksmith will inevitably assume the trappings of a “big man.”** The blacksmith’s forge is one of the most popular male gathering points in town and the blacksmith is privy to a great deal of gossip and often consulted on legal, government, and social affairs. This is an awesome and dangerous responsibility, akin to that assumed by the town chief. **Third, the blacksmith must also master the intricacies of the magicoreligious role of Zò,** as he is often called on to conduct purifying rituals. The apprenticeship, per se, is straightforward, as we shall see. It is the other two spheres that involve many other cultural routines—including make-believe play—(Lancy, 1980a).”

p.154-155

“Akewoli-la was 16 when he learned to weave a hammock; now he makes about 10 a year which he gives to friends. When he was 16 he saw a friend making a hammock. The friend asked Akewoli-la to help him, but Akewoli-la protested that he did not know how. **The friend offered to teach him, at no charge. In a week, Akewoli-la went off to make his own.** It was very good and when he showed it to his teacher, the man jokingly accused him of knowing how to do it all along. **Now Akewoli-la is teaching his son Tondolo (age 21) how to make a hammock. He teaches by demonstration, showing his son where to place and how to tie the knots.**

Tondolo was anxious to make his own and did successfully with only a few minor corrections by his father. He is now working on his second. **Every evening he spends about 2 hours twisting the fibers into twine and nearly has enough, after 2 weeks, to make the hammock.** Other hammock makers reported that they first made miniature hammocks before making a full size one. **Apparently these individuals began learning it at an early age, say, 12.** I surmise that they did not have the patience to prepare enough twine for a full-size one and were anxious to get into the actual hammock construction.

Lave and Wenger (1991) identified a cultural routine that fits the above cases very well—and also extends to apprenticeship (Chapter 9). They call this legitimate peripheral participation. Essentially, they have broadened the earlier conceptualization of Vygotskian theory. For example, the claim that all learning is social was taken to mean that learners would always be assisted by those who are more skilled—a claim the Kpelle material fails to substantiate. But there need not be an expert present to see the influence exerted by society on the learner. **In each of the previous cases, we see individuals acquiring weaving skills to enhance their own social participation.** As Sua indicates, if a girl wants to “look nice,” to match the appearance of women, she must learn the skills to dress and decorate herself. In attempting to do so, she will be accorded the status of a “legitimate peripheral participant.” She may be supplied with materials and someone competent may agree to model the skill and also to critique the fledgling product. Miniature tools may be supplied. Overall, the society will treat these initial forays with respect—at worst, mild teasing is employed.”

p.160

“We interviewed all children in Gbarngasuakwelle between ages 6 and 13 and asked them what kinds of skills they felt they were competent in. Table 8.1 presents the results. Making market is one of the few skills practiced by boys and girls, and they begin at a very young age. **Net**

weaving is exclusively a female task, whereas mat weaving, trap making, kitchen building, palm nut cutting, and palm wine making are almost exclusively male tasks. The critical age during which these tasks are at least attempted appears to be 9. The results also convey clearly that this is only approximately a “graded” curriculum. Unlike bush school and apprenticeship (see Chapter 9), which embody elements of formal education, skill acquisition in these areas is informal and depends a great deal on the motivation and persistence of the learners. No one gets upset if 12-year-old Togba can not make palm wine—he will not be labeled “learning disabled” and sent to special classes for remedial palm wine makers. No one will bother young Flumo for not doing his trap-making homework.

Other male tasks, not included in the questionnaire, are spoon carving, cloth weaving, and hammock weaving; basket weaving, fanner weaving, bag weaving, and spinning are female tasks. Medicine making is done by both sexes. Fish traps, kitchen baskets, and meat dryers are made by boys and old men. Unlike mats, however, these items are associated with luxury foods and are peripheral to the main food production. Boys and old men are in a similar position as far as food production is concerned. They do not make their own farms, yet they eat rice from someone’s farm, which is, in effect, paid for by their gifts of woven items or the meat caught or stored in them.”

p.161-162

“Children learn three types of tasks at three different ages. They begin performing such rudimentary tasks of rice farming as cooking, pounding rice, and chasing away birds at a very early age, usually before they are 9. **More difficult tasks, such as hoeing on the farm, net weaving, and trap making, are begun around age 9 and mastered by age 13. Rarer, more complex skills such as cloth weaving, bag weaving, blacksmithing, and medicine making are acquired in the late teens and may be learned after marriage.**

Individuals learn various kinds of work in three educational processes, corresponding roughly to three age periods and three types of work. Children appear quite eager to take on and master chores they see their parents and older siblings engaged in. And they are rewarded and supported for doing so (Goodnow, 1988). On the other hand, the only time I ever saw parents get furious at their children was when the children refused or tried to avoid doing the simple tasks associated with rice farming and food preparation. The classic theories of learning and motivation (e.g., Skinner, 1963; White, 1959) account very well for children’s learning during this stage.

I would include all farmwork except palm work and tree planting in this stage, as well as fixing up the town, building things, and selling. This stage continues until the child is in his or her midteens and thus overlaps the next stage.

Somewhat later, around age 9, children may begin to learn more complex tasks, sometimes on their own and sometimes with the aid of an expert of the same sex. I say may because the performance of such tasks as net weaving and trapping is optional. Ideally the child will want to copy the same-sex parent and learn these skills, but, unlike farmwork, it is not mandatory. The child must want to learn and the parent, an older sibling, or another potential tutor may show some reluctance to teach the child until he or she demonstrates intense motivation to learn.⁷ **The child must still depend heavily on observing the expert's work and attempt to imitate it. Once he or she has made the attempt, however, the expert intervenes as teacher to correct mistakes, to offer advice, and to consciously "demonstrate" the skill. I would include spinning, all types of weaving except cloth weaving, tree planting, palm work, making medicine (other than medicines owned by Zò-na), wood carving, and trading in this stage."**

p.164

"Cloth weaving is far more complex than the weaving activities described in the previous chapter. When Chief Wollokollie was 22 he learned to weave from his older brother, who had, in turn, learned it from their father. Chief Wollokollie's experience closely resembled an apprenticeship. His brother wove cloth seven to eight times a year and each time Wollokollie learned an additional step in the operation. The first step he learned was preparing the warp. His brother watched and showed him how to wind the thread around the stakes and how to keep count. Then Chief Wollokollie learned to make the loom and for the next several weaving sessions he was in charge of preparing warp and loom. Then he learned to thread the heddles and reed (Plate 9.1) and, later, how to make his own. His brother taught him to sew the cloth strips together and Wollokollie did this chore as his brother wove the cloth. Finally, after 2 years of tutelage Wollokollie learned the actual weaving, with his brother dropping by frequently to check on his progress. Wollokollie made his brother an initial gift (white Kola) of a chicken, a bottle of palm oil, and three cups of rice. After he completed his training he gave his brother two of the Il-strip spreads he had woven.

Wollokollie remembered watching men weave from an early age. He watched his father weave and helped him fetch poles for the loom and when he was learning from his brother

he watched the whole process intently. Similarly, among the Tukolor, another West African society:"

p.166

"Among the Kpelle, there appear to be only three areas of expertise that require the conduct of an apprenticeship: cloth weaving, blacksmithing, and medicine making (becoming a Zò 6 6. The reader is referred to Buddy Bellman's (1975, 1983) thorough study of Kpelle medicine, including the process of becoming a Zò, something he experienced firsthand.). As few individuals in Gbarngasuakwelle can claim to be expert at any of the three, this suggests a considerable degree of exclusivity. With the exceptional case of a twin singled out to become a Zò (Erchak, 1976/1977), no one is fated to become an apprentice. As we have seen, most Kpelle crafts are open to anyone with the motivation to learn them—as long as gender dimorphism is respected. For these three skills, individual motivation must be coupled with the willingness of the master to take on the individual as an apprentice. The apprenticeship also demands a degree of dedication well beyond that required to learn any other aspect of Kpelle culture. This also seems to be true of apprenticeship in other societies."

p.189 (contextual information)

"Here I would like to catalog briefly the things that children seemed no longer to be learning and might not learn in the future. This includes nearly all skilled work, including blacksmithing, pottery making, leatherwork, and cloth weaving. There were some exceptions to this general decline. There had not been as noticeable a decline in girls learning such skills as fishnet weaving, beltbraiding, and bag weaving. Coincidentally, girls were proportionally underrepresented in the public school. In terms of certain skills historically learned by all boys, children still were learning, for example, to weave mats and make traps (although the variety of types was not as great as it used to be). Apprenticeships may have been on the point of disappearing altogether and the the parent-child teaching-learning situation was much declining in evidence."

Westerman, D. H., & Schütze, F. (1921). *The Kpelle: a negro tribe in Liberia*. Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht; J. C. Hinrichs'sche Buchhandlung. p. 292B.

"The technical teaching covers all skills: plaiting mats, weaving, basketry; making sieves, traps, fish nets, weirs; roofing, blacksmithing, hunting; carving dugouts, mortars and drums; making game boards. Other requirements are: proficiency in games, in drumming and dancing,

learning songs and folktales. Certain equipment, such as blacksmith tools and game boards, is made only in the bush and may therefore not be sold. A large part of the training period is taken up with sex education: "to handle women, to find the secret parts of women" [cited in English]; how to make women well disposed toward one, how to force them to obey, how to get behind their wiles and dodges and keep oneself unscathed. The pupils of the chieftain class are initiated into tribal life, its structure, the regulations about inheritance and the election of a new chief, the ceremonial at the king's court, the tribal traditions, relationships with neighboring tribes, warfare. The pupils in the class of religion are taught chiefly about medicine, magic and counter-magic, offerings, ordeals, sand-beating and other fortune-telling, about spirits, water-people and hill-people, forest devils, totem animals and plants and their treatment, about God. Naturally, everything worth knowing about the Poro Society itself and other secret societies is taught, especially the duties toward members and strangers. The pupils learn the secret characteristics and signs by which initiates recognize each other and can communicate unobtrusively, "and all kinds of tricks and rascality" [cited in English]. Instruction about sex is postponed until the later years when the boys reach maturity."

p288 (contextual information)

"Entrance to the Poro school takes place between the ages of seven and fifteen, rarely later. The complete course lasts four years. During this time the pupils can learn everything that is taught in the Poro and reach the upper grades. Many, however, enter during the course and remain two or three years, one year, or even only a few months. Well-to-do people can shorten the training period of their children at will by means of gifts to the 'namū. Private lessons with a zō can also replace part of the stay in the bush, if one can prove, according to certain criteria, that one is an accepted member. It may even happen that a young man takes part only in the entrance ceremonies and is thus regarded as a member. This happens, for example, if a man, for some reason, has not attended the Poro, perhaps because he was away from home, but then wishes to get married and for this purpose must become a member.

A new Poro-bush is opened up at the beginning of the dry season, that is, from November on, when the field work of the year is completed. Entrance in the school and thus in the Society is nominally voluntary, but actually reluctant candidates are forced. Parents, with happy anticipation, wait for the time when their son can become a member of the Poro, and they gladly bear the trouble and costs involved, the long separation that is also painful for Negro mothers, and

the dangers threatening their children in the bush. They will describe to their children, in harsh colors, the experiences awaiting them in the **bush**, the demands that will be made on them, and their privations, and will prepare them for dreadful things. At this time the 'namū with his retinue scours the villages and roads and where he finds an uninitiated one at the proper age he will take him along without further ado. His parents will later on find out only that the 'namū devoured him. If the 'namū happens to know that the women are absent, he will himself enter a hut and drag out potential shirkers. Often, the father, after arranging with the grand master, will send his boy on an errand and will let the unsuspecting one be caught along the way."

p.37 (contextual information)

"In southern Kpelleland, instead of earthen bowls and plates, wooden ones are used of various shapes and sizes. Imported brass bowls and iron pots are also used everywhere; vessels bartered in the North are also common. Other kitchenware to be mentioned are wooden spoons, most of them very artistically carved; gourd shells used for eating and drinking, for storing flour, rice, pepper; the long-stemmed ones are also used as spoons and as enema syringes. Likewise carved of wood are combs, sandals with leather straps, trumpets in the shape of elephant tusks, sword sheaths covered with leather, large mortars for rice and tubers, small ones for snuff, drums, game boards, masks, and dugouts. **It is difficult to find out exactly how these objects are made because they are produced in the schools of the secret societies,³⁴ or at any rate the art is taught there and must therefore be kept secret.**"

p.79 (contextual information)

"Thanks to this imitative urge the children unconsciously bring themselves up more than their parents do. The transition from play to work is almost imperceptible. Today the boy will plait himself a basket of palm leaves into which his father will put a small load; the boy does not feel its weight but only the pleasure that he is permitted to accompany his father and see unfamiliar things. In half a year his basket will be as big as his father's: play has become work. **Nor is he told by his father how to plait a basket, make a bow; rather, he has learned by watching, without a word having been spoken or an intention perceived.** Admonition and punishment are rare, children are left to grow into the life and activity of their elders, and that is what they do. And the result, all things considered, is as satisfactory as is our European upbringing. Spoiled children are exceptions. To be sure, fondness for their parents is little expressed, ⁷⁰ but there is all the more respect for the entire older generation. Every older man is addressed as father

or grandfather, the older women as mother or grandmother. Their commands are implicitly authoritative; no one would dream of contradicting an old person. Even sons who are grown and already married yield to the decisions of their parents as a matter of course. If someone is taken to court he must always bring his parents so that, if possible, they can settle the matter together with their children.”

Erchak, G. M. (1977). Full respect: Kpelle children in adaptation. In HRAFlex books, ethnography series (pp. 9, 225 l.). Human Relations Area Files, Inc. p.149.

p.149 (contextual information)

“Many basic skills are acquired through direct investigation, observation, and trial-and-error experimentation. A young boy will watch carefully while an older boy assembles a toy wagon from odds and ends. Scenes of the following sort were observed throughout the year: Three boys were seen carefully and deliberately unweaving the rattan of an old chairseat. While unweaving, the oldest boy continually commented on how the chair was put together. The two younger boys watched carefully.”

Gay, J., & Cole, M. (1967). The new mathematics and an old culture: a study of learning among the Kpelle of Liberia. Holt, Rinehart and Winston. p.16.

“Gradually the child is inducted into the full life of an adult. He is almost never told what to do in an explicit, verbal, or abstract manner. He is expected to watch, learning by imitation and repetition. Education is concrete and nonverbal, concerned with practical activity, not abstract generalization. **There are never lectures on farming, housebuilding, or weaving. The child spends all his days watching until at some point he is told to join in the activity.** If he makes a mistake, he is simply told to try again. He is not punished for mistakes, unless he willfully rebels against the traditional procedure, or if the error is very costly. The worst deed of all the Kpelle is to make light of tradition in the presence of the elders of the community.”

Germain, J., & Granka, S. L. (1955). Extract from a monograph on the inhabitants of the Circle of N’Zérékoré (Guerze, Kono, Manon): The artisans - the techniques and the arts. Études Guinéennes, Vol. 13, HRAF ms: 1, 11 l. [Original: 3-54]. p.23.

“Most of these so-called secret societies have a second and even third face: technical, magical and malefic. **Panther-men and caiman-men are hunters and fishers and as such pass down discovered and improved hunting and fishing procedures to successive generations. The tech-**

nical procedures are among these: the making of nets, traps, manner of using bait, hunting, tracking, etc..."

1.5.7 Mende

Leach, M. (1994). Rainforest relations: gender and resource use among the Mende of Gola, Sierra Leone. In *International African library* (pp. xix, 272). Edinburgh University Press for the International African Institute, London.

"In contrast with women's predominance in collecting and using food products, most of the tree and plant materials which Gola forest villagers use to construct and repair buildings, **furniture and items of household and agricultural equipment are collected and processed by men. The knowledge and skills involved in the manufacture of many equipment items are learned as part of Poro initiation**, and women usually avoid the activities for fear of transgressing forbidden men's society boundaries."

Little, K. L. (1951). The Mende of Sierra Leone. In *International library of sociology and social reconstruction* (p. 307). Routledge and Kegan Paul. p.120-121.

"(d) The training. While in the bush, the boys wear a garment of red netting. They must sleep in the camp, but are allowed out during the daytime, when not undergoing instruction, after the initial ceremony. They carry pipes about with them and utter wild cries to give warning of their approach. As a practical example of their training, the boys are allowed no modern equipment. Their material requirements, including part of their food, must be provided by themselves. They start by lighting a fire when darkness falls, and for the first night special songs are sung and no one is allowed to sleep. The next morning, the work is shared out, after the boys have been sorted out for training in terms of groups of the same size. The first boy who entered delegates the tasks. The second helps to make the spirit's pipes. The third is to sweep out the camp every morning. The fourth is to boil water for the elders any time it is required.

The boys are expected to bear hardship without complaint and to grow accustomed to it. They sleep at night on a bed of sticks under covering clothes which have been soaked in water, and they remain out of doors, if it rains. The singing and drumming lasts until one or two o'clock in the morning and the boys are awakened again at dawn. They are expected to get up and sing any time they are called. According to some accounts, training in hardihood also includes a

certain amount of punishment play which is administered by the elders. Impossible requests are made jokingly to the boys as an excuse for inflicting pain on them and no crying is allowed. Sometimes, too, it is alleged, the boys are encouraged to steal food from neighbouring farms during the night-time, and to bring the spoils to the Sowa (head official) in the morning. The accusation of cruelty is generally denied, but other Poro members admit that a certain amount of stealing is carried out by the boys. They claim that it is severely punished, if detected, and is usually the result of some of the boys, whose parents are poor, going short of supplies from their homes. Occasionally, boys whose relatives cannot afford the fees demanded, work their way by doing jobs during the daytime on neighbouring farms. The money they earn goes to the officials.

In general, **the training provided varies according to the length of time the boys are able to remain in the bush.** It may include a certain amount of native law and custom, exemplified by the holding of mock courts and trials, in which the boys enact the rôles of their elders. Boys who can afford to stay for a length of time learn a good deal about native crafts as well as the ordinary duties of a grown man, such as 'brushing' and other farming operations, and cleaning roads. **Individual specialists at making raffia clothes, basketry, nets, etc., sometimes go into the bush with the boys and help them to become proficient in the particular craft they choose. Bridge-building, the making and setting of traps for animals and fish, are also taught.** On the social side, the boys learn drumming and to sing the special Poro songs. They practise somersaults and acrobatics, and altogether their experiences produce a strong sense of comradeship."

p.117 (contextual information)

"Initiation into Sande is at the age of fourteen or fifteen. This, and, for a boy, Poro initiation, is perhaps the most important period in the life of the ordinary Mende person. By this time, a girl may already have been betrothed as a wife and, as such, is receiving periodical presents from her husband. During this stage, she is known as Sande nya. She keeps the name she was given at birth until the actual initiation, when she usually takes a fresh name, either of her own choice or to commemorate the circumstances of her career in the society bush. The first girl to be initiated in a particular session is known as Kema. The same considerations apply in the case of boys, whom it is a considerable insult thereafter to address other than by their Poro names. Sometimes, however, a Mende girl takes the name of the woman 'minding' her in compliment to the latter. Or, if boys and girls attend a Mission school, they may be baptized and given an English name, the effect of which is to mark them out as Christian and literate persons. Though

some prefer to keep their native names, most of those who have attended school, or have been brought into contact with Creole influence, show a strong desire to imitate certain ways of any Creole friends they have. They copy their style of dress, and the girls emulate the fashion of brushing out instead of plaiting the hair, as is the native style.¹ Both sexes learn and use Creole forms of verbal expression² in ordinary conversation, and the girls generally make a good deal of effort to be thought ‘Creole nyapoisi’—Creole girls.”

1.5.8 Mossi

Mangin, E., Brunel, A., & Skinner, E. (1921). Essay on the manners and customs of the Mossi people in the western Sudan. Augustin Challamel. p.44.

“Boys of twelve or fifteen may fail to return home in the evening for any reason whatever, without warning, and no one worries about it: “He will come soon enough.” The young man of twenty builds himself a hut apart from his father’s house, in order to have greater freedom and to receive any visitors he may want. Besides his father’s field, he cultivates his own piece of land and sells the produce himself in order to buy clothes. His father feeds him but rarely presents him with gifts of clothing when he is old enough to work for himself. If he weaves cloth during the dry season, he may do with it as he pleases, sell it or make clothing. His father has no say in the matter. **It is the father, however, who teaches his sons how to cultivate the soil, how to plait mats, and sometimes how to weave.** If the father works at a trade, he teaches it to his sons: the drummers teach their children to beat the drum and to sing the chief’s praises; the jewellers and smiths teach their sons their respective professions.”

1.5.9 Tallensi

Fortes, M. (1938). Social and psychological aspects of education in Taleland. In *Memorandum* (pp. 64, 4 plates). Oxford University Press for the International Institute of African Languages and Cultures. p. 60-61.

“Children’s arts and crafts have a play value in that they are practised purely for pleasure and have a seasonal incidence. But they demand considerable skill of eye and hand, and individual differences in ability are noticeable. Towards the end of the rainy season a strong and supple reed springs up in profusion along the watercourses. Young people and children pluck these reeds

to plait bangles, necklets, small panels to hang over the chest as decorations, and waistbands. These things are worn by young and old at the festival dances. **But whereas the young men and women plait sporadically a few things for themselves, their sweetheart, or a child, children do so continuously and absorbedly. From July to September one sees them sitting about or strolling about in small groups, plaiting reed decorations.** The boys have a game played by tossing or bowling the reed bangles and waistbands at a mark. A group plays, and the winner collects all. Girls of all ages love decking themselves from head to foot in this reedware. **The technique of plaiting these articles, which is the same as that employed in the manufacture of a number of utilitarian objects, is fairly elaborate. It is gradually learnt between the ages of about 8 and 11.**

Less widely practised is the art of modelling clay figures. **Girls sometimes model, but it is chiefly a diversion of boys.** Cattle and other animals, humans, horses accoutred and with riders astride are the usual subjects. A taste for modelling appears to depend on talent to a great extent. **Many boys never acquire the art; others take such delight in it that they devote the whole dry season to producing dozens of clay figures** for themselves, brothers and sisters, and friends. Gifted boys model extremely cleverly. I knew two boys of 12 or 13, sons of a chief, who made clay horses and manufactured saddlery and trappings of old rags and bells and ornaments of pieces of tin to adorn the figures. **Older boys or youths teach small boys by correcting errors they make in modelling; but I have never found a boy of under 8 or 9 years able to model well.**

Play from pubescence to adolescence. The last stage of childhood coincides with the rapid absorption of the child into the economic system and his or her gradual acquisition of a responsible status in the social structure. By the age of 14 or 15 most girls are already married or being courted in marriage. They take their household duties more lightly perhaps than older women with children, but their childhood education is complete. Their education in the duties and responsibilities of wifehood and motherhood lies outside the scope of this paper. 'To play' now means to join in the dance or to dress up and go to market, there to gossip and flirt. These are recreations merely, like conversation in the evening after a good meal, when the whole family sits or sprawls about in one of the inner courts or in front of the gateway. Such 'play' is educative in quite a different sense to that of childhood.

Boys, too, between the ages of 12 or 13 and 16 to 18 are at the stage of transition from childhood to young manhood. The imaginative play still prominent at the beginning of this period is given

up by degrees and usually altogether abandoned when puberty is established. Like the adolescent girl, the boy of 16 or so finds his principal recreation in the dance at certain seasons. He, too, begins to frequent markets when time permits, for he is greatly preoccupied with the opposite sex, with courtship and flirtations and even transient love affairs, and there is no place like the market for pretty girls. An adolescent youth is already applying the deftness and skill acquired in juvenile play or in the arts and crafts of his boyhood to practical ends. **A 16-year-old takes an active part in building and thatching and in the manufacture of bow and arrows, or in the practice of crafts like leatherwork or the forging of tools and implements.**"

1.5.10 Tiv

Bohannon, P., & Bohannon, L. (1958). Three source notebooks in Tiv ethnography. Human Relations Area Files. p.381.

"Most skills are gradually acquired, with constant assistance rather than pressure from the parent concerned. **For example, a woman known for her skill as a potter, commented as we watched her seven year old daughter messing about with some clay, "I've given her some clay, and she'll make a very small pot. But she's got a lot of growing to do before she can really learn anything. Still, she'll keep growing and she'll keep trying, and one day she'll know how to make pots."**

1.5.11 Yoruba

Lloyd, P. C. (1953). Craft organization on Yoruba towns. *Africa, Vol. 23*, 30–44. p. 33.

"The training of a young craftsman differs little in principle from that of the farmer's son. **A son is trained by his own father or, in the absence of his father, by his father's brother or his own elder brother. It is not uncommon for a boy to go to his mother's brother to learn the craft of his mother's patri-lineage,** for it is felt that the boy will have some craft blood in his veins. In the old days it was unlikely that a craftsman would adopt and train a boy unrelated to him. **Today, however, some blacksmiths do take boys who are strangers to the lineage, and pay apprenticeship fees to the master.** No man would ask a fee for training his sister's son. In most crafts there is work for a small boy—he runs errands, pumps the smith's bellows, washes calabashes, sweeps the floor, winds cotton on to the reels. By watching his father he learns

and by the time he reaches the age of sixteen he will have enough knowledge to perform most tasks and needs only a little practice. By Yoruba law a father is expected to set up his sons in life—he must provide land, tools, and the first wife. The farmer gives his son a small plot of land on which the boy may work in the evening for his own gain (the work being known as ???); the father retains his right to the boy's labour during the earlier part of the day. Similarly the craftsman still expects his son to work for him; he will give him set tasks each day and only when these are completed may the boy work for his own gain. The father must provide bride-wealth for his son but the boy should earn pocket-money to pay the contributions to his social club (???), for presents for his girl friends and for his own luxuries. Whereas a farmer retains the labour of a son until marriage, the young craftsman tends to leave his father at an earlier age. There is no ceremony to mark the freedom of the boy although his tools would probably be ritually consecrated. After his freedom the boy will, of course, continue to live in his father's corner of the huge rectangular compound and he will probably eat with his parents until his marriage. His freedom gives him little enhanced status in the lineage where age, marriage, and the birth of children are the important criteria."

2 Asia

2.1 Caucasus

2.1.1 Armenia

Villa, S. H., & Matossian, M. A. K. (1982). Armenian village life before 1914. Wayne State University Press. p.116-117.

"Girls began such jobs as sweeping the house and akhor each day, bringing water from the spring, helping to make bread and tahn, and folding and putting away the bedding in the morning. Although one woman indicated that five- and six-year-old children were responsible for the care of their younger siblings, this task generally was assigned to girls about ten years old. Not only did these older girls care for and amuse the younger ones, even carrying the tiny infants to their mothers in the fields for nursing, but the eldest child was punished if any of her charges hurt themselves (Informants 1, 2, 46). At this time too, girls learned to knit stockings and started accumulating the many pairs they would need for their trousseaus. **By as early as twelve, but**

more commonly by fifteen, the young girl had developed real skill at the spinning wheel and the loom (Informant 14). Together with her mother and her sisters-in-law, she made, cut, and sewed textiles of various types.”

2.2 Central Asia

2.2.1 Inner Mongolia

of Washington, F. E., of the University, R. I., Chang, K., Chang, P., Yin-t, Cheney, G., Crawford, R., Hsiung, H., Hsü, P., Lagaweir, E., Lo, J. P., Mann, A., Miller, R., Mostaert, A., Myers, R., Posch, U., Shih, Y. C., Wang, F., Wong, G., & Yang, M. (1956). A regional handbook of the Inner Mongolia Autonomous Region. In HRAF Subcontractor's Monograph (pp. 2, 4, 555). Human Relations Area Files. p.269.

“Nomadic Mongol education, for the commoner, was almost entirely obtained in the family or in the Tibetan Buddhist (lamaist) monastery. Family education consisted of teaching the boys and girls their separate tasks. Boys are taught herding, delivery of young animals, trade, milking of the mare, perhaps some Chinese characters or Mongolian script if the father was himself educated; **girls were taught household duties such as preparation of food, sewing,** etcetera, by their mothers. All members of the family cooperated on some tasks, for example, felt-making. Itinerant musicians might recite folk songs telling of the deeds of heroes or of Chingis Khan, or an elder might tell a folk tale such as the legend of Gesar Khan. In areas of Chinese-Mongol contact, the Mongol child usually picked up an ability to speak Chinese at an early age, and became familiar with local Chinese custom and beliefs.”

2.2.2 Lepcha

Gorer, G., & Hutton, J. H. (1938). Himalayan village: an account of the Lepchas of Sikkim. Michael Joseph, Ltd. p.309.

“One of the chief pursuits of the older boys is the imitating of bird calls and the catching of small birds, usually in bamboo and thread snares. Nearly every boy over the age of nine could imitate bird calls accurately through whistling, and some of them were extraordinarily good at it; Chimpet in particular was so exact that unless I looked I could never tell whether it was a boy or a

bird calling. Besides this direct imitation of bird calls, which is often used to lure birds to snares, the Lepchas have nonsense-syllable equivalents (similar to our tu-wit to-who), most of them extremely unlike the calls they represented, though the Lepchas maintained they were accurate. If the boys catch edible birds in their snares they take them home as presents to their mothers. **A few of the older boys also learn to make and play bamboo flutes, receiving instruction from some older brother or friend."**

2.2.3 Mongolia

Maiskii, I. M. (Ivan M., Dayton, Mrs., & Kunitz, J. (1921). Contemporary Mongolia. Gosudarstvennoe Izdatel'stvo, Irkutskoe Otdelenie. p.132-133.

"At approximately the same time, the child begins to take part in household work. Boys and girls, both, pass through the same training. Beginning with the age of 3–4 the children learn to tend the cattle, starting with lambs, calves, sheep, etc. During my stay in Mongolia I often beheld the curious sight of a tiny child clutching the neck of a lamb or a kid, trying with all its baby strength to drag the bucking animal to be watered. **At about the age of 6–7 the child learns to ride on horseback and starts to tend the large cattle — horses, oxen, camels. At the same time the child is getting accustomed to doing chores "at home": he brings dry branches from the woods, gathers argal, makes the fire in the hearth, etc. By now the training of the boys begins to diverge from that of the girls. The boys are taught to make harnesses, to mend saddles, to tame horses, to go with caravans of camels, while the girls are taught to sew, to cook, to prepare milk products, etc. This constitutes the final phase in the education of Mongol men or women (if we exclude the lamas about whom we shall talk later): at the age of 15–16 they are considered to have mastered all the mysteries of wisdom man can attain. As a general rule the Mongols do not teach their children to read and write; and often a whole khoshun can boast only a few literate people. Still, while it is possible to find individual men acquainted with the art of writing, among women we would look for such individuals in vain. It is supposed to be quite unnecessary for a woman to be literate. Small wonder the one elderly woman in Uliassutai was once pointed out to me as the eighth wonder of the world — she had learned to read and to write from her husband; and I was assured that in the entire Khalkha there was no other similarly accomplished woman. This was possibly an exaggeration, but how characteristic was the very fact of such a pronouncement!"**

2.3 East Asia

2.3.1 Okayama

Cornell, J. B. (1956). Matsunagi: the life and social organization of a Japanese mountain community. In *Two Japanese villages: Matsunagi, a Japanese mountain community* [by] John B. Cornell; *Kurusu, a Japanese agricultural community* [by] Robert J. Smith (pp. i–viii, xvii–xxiv, 113–232). University of Michigan Press. p.143-146.

“Only two of the craft trades common throughout the nation (exclusive of the distinctively “mountain” skills called kobiki) are represented among occupations in Matsunagi: carpentry and cooperage. **Carpentry involves more skill and knowledge than any other craft trade and commands most respect in the buraku.** While the carpenters of Matsunagi operate independently, they can easily join forces because they share a highly stereotyped body of skills. The carpenter, like other craftsmen, prefers to work close to home, in his own buraku, if possible. Like the sawyer, he uses a number of tools peculiar to his special handicraft. Among the most useful of these are saws, which are cruder and lighter than ours; he lays more emphasis on planes and adzes rather than on hammers and screw devices. Though rude by the standards of American building, the carpenter’s craft produces a carefully mortised structure having great durability. Carpentry is also an informal confraternity sharing work ritual as well as common skills.

As the most prominent of the local trades, carpentry is outstanding among the forms of apprenticeship in the buraku. **A single master, if he is exceptionally skilled and experienced, may have as many as seven apprentices at once. But most masters have no more than two,** the eldest in point of service being called “older brother apprentice” and the others “younger brother apprentice.” Between these grows a bond of friendship like that between classmates or even between siblings, so that in later years they are inclined to turn to each other first for assistance in their trade. A carpenter wishing to apprentice his son is likely to ask his former “older brother apprentice” to take the youth. The apprentice spends much of his time with his master, even living as a member of the household during the seasons of greatest activity.

...

Other common handicrafts, the sawyer’s craft, stonecutting, plastering, cooperage, follow the same apprenticeship pattern with only slight modifications. The sawyer, too, needs a period

of training, but it is generally much shorter than the carpenter's; indeed, nowadays this skill has so declined that there are almost no apprentices in training. The cooper makes most of the wooden tubs and buckets used in the buraku. He, too, is self-employed and, like other craftsmen, is called to each new job by word of mouth. At work, a cooper spreads straw matting on the ground of the houseyard and, seated, shapes wood and bamboo into his product. Even more than in carpentry, the tools of cooperage are made to shape pieces to fit together exactly, for nail and screw fasteners are seldom used. Nevertheless, this craft is not as exacting as the carpenter's, nor does it involve work ritual. A subsidiary form of cooperage is bamboo-working, making such things as water pipes and flooring.

The stonemason, roof-thatcher, and plasterer are craft workers who are auxiliary to the carpenter. Like a carpenter's, their labor is better paid than unskilled forestry work, the day wage of a plasterer being high—above five hundred yen. The mason cuts and fits together the rough stones of a building foundation. He usually works alone, quarrying and shaping local rock to suit his needs. The roof-thatcher usually builds and repairs the elaborate straw roofs of larger farm buildings. Two or three journeyman specialists work together, being assisted in the preparation of thatching materials by the people of the household and their neighbors. A craftsman assembles prepared bundles of grasses to form the roof and then trims the edges with a sickle, his most important tool. If a new roof is to be built, he also constructs the lattice frame on which it rests. The roof-thatcher is sometimes required to perform ritual in connection with his work, but this is so simple that no more than a layman's knowledge is needed.”

2.3.2 Okinawans

Maretzki, T. W., Maretzki, H., & Whiting, B. B. (1963). Taira: an Okinawan village. In *six cultures: studies of child rearing* (pp. 1–13, 363–539). John Wiley and Sons, Inc. p.510-511.

“There are no complex systems of training in skills. **Adults rely heavily on observation and imitation on the part of children; they seldom “teach” them to do things systematically.** Parents were surprised and amused when questions such as “How do you teach children to transplant rice, harvest rice, or otherwise help in the fields?” were put to them. “We don’t teach them; why they just learn by themselves,” was the usual answer.

Children learn by observing and experimenting. Whatever adults are doing, children are

present to watch their activities and overhear their conversations. Although parents do not seem to make any special efforts to have a child attend a function so that he might learn adult ways, they take their children to the fields, parties, public meetings, and rituals long before they consider them ready to absorb any learning.

In the fields, children play among rows of vegetables. When a parent, grandparent, or older sibling stops for a rest to have a cup of tea, the little ones pick up a hoe and attempt to imitate their elders. While rice is being transplanted, throngs of children sit on the dikes in the paddies, dangling their legs in the mud. They intently watch adults transplanting and weeding the paddies. Gradually they edge down into the mud to stamp with their bare feet in the ooze as they have seen adults do, until a warning shout arrests their educational water play. During the harvest season, groups of children carry mats out to the paddies and watch infants who need to be near their mothers for their feedings. While the infants sleep, the older children walk along the dikes, watching the work that is going on and clamoring to be of some help. Even a little child of kindergarten age stands by gloomily until an adult laughingly hands him a small bundle of rice sheaves to carry over to the threshing machine. By the time the child is 8, he has learned enough by watching to attempt cutting and tying small bundles of rice sheaves.

After the harvest, rice straw can be found in great quantities around the village. Some of the best straw is preserved to be made into rope. **If there are rainy days, men will sit and twist the rice straw into rope, while 8- and 9-year-olds sit and watch. In a few days rope games and swings are in evidence everywhere. Little 4- and 5-year-olds stand by watching the older children, and soon they pick up stray bits of straw and twist them to no avail. A younger sibling whines as her movements fail to form rope. Her brother quietly takes the straw and without a word demonstrates the deft movement. She watches and tries again when her brother hands it back to her. She is unsuccessful. As she starts to whine again, her brother picks up a length of finished rope and gives it to her. She runs happily toward the playground, waving her rope in the air.**

Haring, D. G. (Douglas G. (1969). *Okinawan customs: yesterday and today*. C. E. Tuttle Co. p.92-93.

“When a girl reaches the age of five or six she is given some raw cotton, karamushi (a plant fiber) and silk to start learning to weave. Usually by the age of 15 or 16 she is chosen for a bride. Married couples really love each other and very few Okinawans, even low commoners,

marry more than once. The women used to spend all their time weaving and were illiterate. Even upper-class wives such as those of anji and oyakata regard weaving as their daily task. All transactions in textiles at the markets are solely in the hands of women. Since they never learn arithmetic, they tie knots in cords in place of writing numerals when they have to figure sums of money. 48 Now, however, all girls go to school and no longer have trouble in calculating.”

2.3.3 Yi

Lin, Y., & Pan, J. S. (1947). The Lolo of Liang-shan. The Commercial Press. p.55.

“In the period between childhood and youth, boys and girls begin to be separated by the boundaries of sex in work and play. Black Lolo boys start to learn to shoot, to use a gun, and to pursue each other on horseback. Whenever clan feuds are fought, they all become excited and want to show off their skill. They form a small band of their own to attack the enemies and rob enemy property. Once their reputation for bravery becomes widespread, they will have hopes of becoming leaders in the future. On the other hand, **girls’ activities are centered around the house. They learn to sew and knit, to embroider,** to assign work to household slaves, and in general to manage family property and affairs for their parents. As “female house managers” they have a high position in the family.”

2.4 North Asia

2.4.1 Koryaks

Jochelson, W. (1905–1908). The Koryak. In Publications of the Jesup North Pacific Expedition (Vol. x, pp. xv, 842). E. J. Brill; G. E. Stechert. p.758.

“From the age of ten to twelve, children begin to work, and boys join their father in his daily pursuits. They assist him in fishing, carrying wood for the hearth, and, among the Reindeer Koryak, tending the herd. Boys in their teens are made to go through a rigorous training to accustom them to withstand privations, cold, and fatigue. Lads usually wear the clothing cast off by the old people. **Girls, beginning at the same age, help in household duties, skin-dressing, and the sewing of clothing.**”

2.4.2 Nivkh

Black, L. (1973). The Nivkh (Gilyak) of Sakhalin and the Lower Amur. *Arctic Anthropology*, Vol. 10(1), 112. p.63.

“Mothers taught the girls skills desired in a good wife: dressing fish, preparing yukola, the proper manner of skinning, quartering and cutting up animals of all sorts, and **making thread**, but foremost the arts of cooking, **sewing and embroidery.**”

2.4.3 Yukaghir

Jochelson, W. (1975). The Yukaghir and the Yukaghirized Tungus. In *American Museum of Natural History, New York. Memoirs; The Jesup North Pacific Expedition. Publications: Vol. v. 13* (pp. xvi, 469 , [15] leaves of plates). AMS Press. p425.

“The Yukaghir blacksmith, Shalugin, who lived on the Yassachnaya River, was looked upon by his tribesmen with great respect, and his art was regarded as a divine gift. Not everyone is fitted to learn** the blacksmith’s trade. Among the Yukaghir, Yakut, Tungus and other Siberian natives, the status of the blacksmith is on a level with that of the shaman. **Shalugin was always worried because his elder son seemed unable to learn his father’s vocation. “My people will be lost,” he once said, to me, “if my younger son should not be clever enough to become a smith.** Who will forge knives, axes and other tools for them, and who will repair their guns and lances?” Shalugin worked for the welfare of his clan, remuneration played quite a secondary role. He was satisfied with any reward and was not disturbed when a customer gave nothing. On the other hand, when he had to buy iron or steel blocks from traders or the government store he was assisted by his people. No one would withhold from him a fox or some squirrel skins to be used in exchange.”

2.5 South Asia

2.5.1 Andamans

Pandya, V. (1995). Culture summary: Andamans. HRAF. p.7.

“Customarily children are given in adoption. The responsibility of early socialization of the child rests with the child’s matrilineal relatives. Once a young boy is ready for initiation his training

and education become the responsibility of his father and his paternal relatives. After a girl's first menstruation she is even more closely aligned with her matrilineal relatives. Children of both sexes are taught about the forest while they accompany their elders on various hunting and gathering activities. **Through play and the making of toy canoes, bows and arrows, shelters and small nets, children are introduced to the basic requisite skills."**

2.5.2 Bengali

Klass, M. (1978). From field to factory: community structure and industrialization in West Bengal. Institute for the Study of Human Issues. p209-210.

"And yet, having said all this, some Carpenter men go on to express a measure of sadness. Work in the factory is certainly well-paying, they note, but it is also dull and unsatisfying. An operator performs a series of rote movements in any factory task—the same ones over and over, days without end. Whether one stamps out the bits of chain link, or assembles them, or assembles the fork in the frame, there is really very little satisfaction to be obtained after the first few days. It cannot compare with the pleasure of repairing a broken cart, or the deep satisfaction a man could feel when building a new one, working in the cool morning hours in the yard in front of his house with the children watching and neighbors walking by, joking and gossiping. **There was true pleasure, a Carpenter will say, in working with the tools he inherited from his father and in teaching his sons the ancient trade. Now the boys are not interested in learning to become carpenters, for they—like their fathers—hope they will go to work in the factory. And, after a hard day's work, who has time to teach the boys?** In many Carpenter homes, the tools are rusty and neglected. And yet, say the men who have made all the foregoing remarks, it cannot be denied that the factory wages are excellent, and no one in his right mind would choose the chancy and inadequate income of a village carpenter over the factory wages...."

2.5.3 Bhil

Naik, T. B. T. B. (1956). The Bhils: a study. Bharatiya Adimjati Sevak Sangh. p.119.

"At the same time the child's technical education also starts. **Children are taught work techniques by being instructed to copy their elders, by verbal instructions, or in easy works by asking them to help, as in rope-making.** They can hold the rope or measure out the required

length when the elders do the more technical jobs at it. Boys are also taught agricultural work like tying bullocks to their posts or giving water to calves. Girls stay with their mothers in the kitchen and soon learn the essentials of culinary art.”

2.5.4 Garo

Burling, R. (1963). Rengsanggri: family and kinship in a Garo village. University of Pennsylvania Press. p.116.

“Only after he is about twelve years old does anything like formal teaching take place. The most difficult skill to learn or to teach is basket-making, which the father or some other man must impart to a boy. The instruction consists mostly of telling a child to make a particular basket as he has watched others do and then reprimanding him if he does it wrong. Occasionally a man will demonstrate, but I never saw anyone who was able to analyze and point out the mistakes another was making. If a person makes a mistake in a complex basket, for instance, his instructor will take the basket away, redo it himself, and then tell him to do it that way henceforth. No effort is made to break the complex weaving process down into steps so as to make it easy to understand and learn systematically, although it is recognized that certain baskets are easier to weave than others. Fathers tell their sons to make the easier types first, and then gradually lead them to the more difficult ones. Fathers make little rice-pounders so that their small daughters can practice with equipment suitable to their size, and they may encourage their sons to build miniature houses just for practice.”

2.5.5 Gond

Grigson, W. V. (Wilfred V., & Elwin, V. (1949). The Maria Gonds of Bastar. Oxford University Press. p.186-187.

“The Bison-horn Marias’ favourite pastime of cock-fighting has already been described (see page 162 above). Small wooden toys are made for the children, very crude representations of tigers or other animals; and a pathetic sight at the graves of children are these toys left there for the hanall of the children to play with. I have never found any Marias making string figures; and they have shown no interest in attempts to demonstrate them. The Murias and Bhattras have innumerable games in which all the village youth takes part in the cold weather and spring nights, many of

which involve considerable physical exertion and have proved excellent material for the physical training of the boys in the State schools; at the Muria gotul dormitories these games often take the place of dancing and singing. But the only Hill Maria villages which have anything of the kind appear to be those of the Padalibhum and Tapalibhum parganas which are gradually adopting the dormitory organization of their Muria neighbours; and some Bison-horn villages on the borders of the Jagdalpur Muria country are beginning to copy the Murias and Bhattras. Early to bed is the rule for old and young in Maria villages, **and the child from the beginning learns to copy his father's activities; his playthings soon become small bows and arrows, fishing-rods and snares, skill in the use of which will make him an asset to the community. Stilt-walking in the early monsoon, occasional use of bull-roarers and bamboo drums, crude ornamentation of the walls of houses or the carving of ornamental combs and beadwork** seem to be the only other recreations of Hill Maria youth."

2.5.6 Mara

Parry, N. E. (Neville E., & Hutton, J. H. (1932). The Lakhers. Macmillan. p.27-29.

"In character the Lakhers are reserved and rather dour on the surface, though when one knows them they open out and are friendly enough. As compared with the Lusheis, they are hard and unsympathetic, entirely lacking the spontaneous charm of manner and genuine kindliness of disposition so characteristic of many Lusheis, and especially of members of the Sailo clan. The Lushei is bound by his code of *tlawmngaihna* to be kindly, unselfish and hospitable;1 he must try to help others in distress, must never desert a companion out hunting or on a journey, and must vie with others in excelling in sport, work or hospitality, and in every branch of life must, at any rate in theory, consider others first. This code does, moreover, actively influence Lusheis in everyday life. The Lakher cares for none of these things, his language has no equivalent for *tlawmngaihna*, and though individual Lakhers are kindly and hospitable, they are not so as a race in the same way as the Lusheis. There is less hospitality and cheeriness among Lakhers and feasts are fewer, the chief occasions for merry-making being marriages and deaths. Lakhers are very undisciplined, and the lack of control in a Lakher village contrasts very strongly with the excellent discipline maintained among Lusheis. A young Lakher when ordered to do something by an elder will argue, where a Lushei would obey at once, with the result that it takes much longer to enforce an order in a Lakher than in a Lushei village. I ascribe much of the indiscipline among

the Lakhers to the fact that they have no bachelors' house or other equivalent to the Lushei zawlbuk. A young Lushei as soon as he is six or seven years old is no longer allowed to sleep in his father's house, but is sent off to the zawlbuk and becomes the fag of the older boys. Very strict discipline is maintained; the younger boys are obliged to work for the older, are taught to wrestle, are punished when disobedient, and generally are imbued with a sort of public school spirit, with excellent effect on their character in after life. A Lakher child's training is of the most rudimentary description. A child starts speaking by calling his mother "Na, na, na," and next refers to his father as "Pa, pa, pa," No deliberate training is given; if a child does wrong, its name is shouted loudly, and its father or mother says "Ta kha" (don't do that). Children are occasionally gently smacked, but are never really beaten till they are seven or eight years old, when they are licked with a cane if they do not obey. Once they are able to work by themselves, children are never beaten. **Children are not taught the arts of hunting, fishing or trapping, but as soon as they are old enough they go with their father to the jungle, see what he does and on returning home make model traps. In this way they educate themselves. Boys and girls are taught how to weed and how to manage a hoe, and girls are taught to weave.** The only religious exercise that is taught to children is the Khazangpina chant; they learn about other sacrifices by watching them. With this very meagre training, and without the discipline of the bachelor's house, the young Lakher is allowed to go his own gait, with the result that his natural selfishness and independence are never checked, and he is apt to grow up a very headstrong individual. Considering his surroundings and upbringing, this is hardly surprising, and on the other hand he has some excellent points. He is honest, and stealing is practically unknown; he is fond of his family and children, to whom he is indulgent to a fault; he is not greatly given to lying, though extremely litigious. In spite of the fact that on the surface some Lakher customs may seem to conflict with this view, from a Western standpoint the Lakher is a good deal more moral than the Lushei. Among the Lusheis bastards are common, and no one thinks any the worse of a girl for having given birth to a bastard. Among the Lakhers bastards are rare, and the mother of a bastard and her offspring are looked upon with the greatest contempt. A bastard suffers serious social disabilities, and can take no part in the religious ceremonies held by his relations. As a consequence of this, Lakher girls are much stricter and less free with their favours than Lushei girls, as they fear the social stigma incurred if an intrigue ends in its natural result. Suits for the bastard's price are rare in Lakher villages. Once married the women are very moral. Adultery is not common, and divorce, though it presents no difficulties, is less frequent than among the Lusheis. Unnat-

ural offences, to which the Lusheis were at one time very prone, are quite unknown among the Lakhers, and the Lushei tuai, a man dressed in woman's clothes, who performed the work and other functions of a woman, has no counterpart among the Lakhers. The men I questioned on the subject expressed an amused horror at the possibility of the existence of such a creature.”

2.5.7 Santal

Archer, W. G. (William G. (1974). *The hill of flutes: life, love, and poetry in tribal India: a portrait of the Santals*. University of Pittsburgh Press. p.35.

“**From the age of five or six**, Santal boys and girls begin to make themselves useful. Girls are taught to husk rice and fetch water. They do small jobs in the house and go about with babies tied in a cloth nodding on their backs. They learn to watch the goats and herd them in the fields. They accompany their mothers to the jungle, lend a hand with the cooking and get accustomed to the long striding walk to market. When they are taller, they take out the bigger cattle, graze them on the uplands or in the forest and bring them home at sunset.

Santal boys are also occupied. Until they are old enough to plough, they spend the greater part of the day herding buffaloes and cattle. **They learn to make and play the flute** and to shoot birds with blunt-tipped arrows. They also trap quails and go about with the birds gently whistling in their cages.”

2.6 Southeast Asia

2.6.1 Alorese

Du Bois, C. A., Kardiner, A., & Oberholzer, E. (1944). *The people of Alor: a social-psychological study of an East Indian Island*. Univ. of Minnesota Press. p.56-57.

“**During this preadolescent play period** boys may get occasional meals as guests. When a man visits a house on financial business, it is customary to set a calabash dish of food before him. Any little boys loitering about are invited to join him. They soon learn to attach themselves to men who seem to be setting out on business trips, and in this way they undoubtedly learn through absorptive processes a great deal about the role expected of them as adults. In addition, boys of approximately twelve years often attach themselves to young men whom they serve much

in the manner of fags. The autobiographies stress this type of relationship in several instances, indicating that it is a source of education in cultural values, for better or for worse, and that food is one of the important rewards for services rendered. The food quest is therefore a factor contributing to the acquisition of the skills expected of adult males.

...

There is a slightly different adjustment for girls. Their play period is neither so long nor so free. They are more closely attached to their mothers and have more demands made upon them in terms of their adult role as providers for the family. **Weaving baskets, sewing pandanus mats, and making bark cloth are additional skills deliberately taught girls at this time by their mothers.** I knew only one woman, an orphan, who did not know how to make baskets. Interestingly enough, many boys also pick up these skills to a minor degree, but without deliberate instruction."

2.6.2 Balinese

Covarrubias, M. (1938). *Island of Bali*. Alfred A. Knopf. p.133.

"A boy assists his father in the work at home and in the fields, and cares for the cattle, driving the cows and buffaloes and bathing them at sunset. He learns his father's trade, and by the time he is about eight or ten he has a good knowledge of practical matters. Besides the hybrid education that the Balinese now receive in the Dutch schools, a boy learns to read and write in Balinese characters from his father or his gurú; mythology, ethics, and history he learns from watching plays and puppet shows, where he can pick up literary terms and become a scholar. **Little girls learn from their mothers to cook, weave, thresh rice, and make offerings.** Although the higher education is rather the attribute of men, women are not barred from acquiring knowledge, and even peasant women show high spirits and a keen mentality."

Belo, J. (1936). The Balinese temper, character and personality. *Character and Personality: International Psychological Quarterly*, Vol. 4, 120–146. p.130.

"Very small girls are sometimes seen in the company of the boys who play in the streets. But by the time the girls reach the age of responsibility—seven or eight—they are more apt to remain in the housecourt with the mother, taking a part in her work. Or if they are seen along the road, they carry on their hip a younger child entrusted to their care.⁴ These diminutive nursemaids

saunter up and down, or stand watching the play of the boys, prevented from joining in the activity by the responsibility, and the actual weight of their charges. Girls do not play games, for gambling is a man's occupation. Neither can they share in one of the boys' favorite diversions, that of drumming away for hours on the instruments of the village orchestra, which are generally left in an open pavilion accessible to the children. This is another occupation which belongs to the men. The girls stand by watching, and do not think of trying their hand at it, although they are not actually forbidden to do so. I have known one or two girls, dancers, who had developed quite a proficiency as musicians, but their cases were exceptional. In the same way girls are not expected to paint and draw. When I sent out a call to a number of villages for the drawings of children from four to ten years, and distributed materials sufficient for all, not a single girl sent in a drawing, nor would the little girls of my own village attempt any drawings even under repeated encouragement. **Yet these same girls are learning from their mothers the complicated arts of making offerings, cutting designs from palm-leaf, and weaving."**

2.6.3 Central Thai

Anderson, W. W. (1983). Children's play and games in rural Thailand: a study in enculturation and socialization. University Microfilms. p.359-361.

"Self-sufficiency underlies a great deal of the learning process that takes place outside school. The girls learn how to cook through observing and helping adult women and later through experimentation with the dishes themselves, correcting and perfecting them as they go along. **There is little actual tutoring about the ingredients or the requisite proportions. The same technique of learning through observation and self help applies to the learning of men's work. For example a group of school-age boys will gather around a teen-age boy making crab traps to observe and learn without any verbal instructions being given. In the realm of children's games, the making of play and game equipment is likewise partially learned through observing older children make the items and partially through the maker's own creativity.** Keeness of observation is also the required skill for the game Bagnet (p. 116), where the blind-folded Pen player's correct identification of the player he encounters depends on his previous keen observations of each player's outfit, haircut, and so on. In The Mon Hides the Cloth (p. 110) keen observation and alertness combine to keep the players from becoming the easy victims of the Pen player who strategically drops the cloth behind one who

is off-guard. Similarly, the best player in the riddling game is one with an expansive sense of observation who can see things, animate and inanimate, in terms of comparative details, for the Thai riddles are phrased in figurative language, if not in puns. Even the realistic imitative games like Playing House, (p. 317) Playing Store, (.318) etc. all require a keen sense of observation, resourcefulness, and adaptability for reproducing the adults' activities and imitative food and ritual objects. These adaptive innovations are applied to the inventions of game equipment. The illegal Bottle Gourd garbling game becomes a safe game (p. 248 among children with their crayoned game board, clay dice with patches of color paper on them in place of the real dice, and plastic toy pieces as the stake instead of real money. The old, light, round tops of the fish sauce jars, easily found around the hamlet, become the game pieces in Kick Through the Bases (p.287). At one game session the dirt playground was too dry for the circle to be drawn with a stick for the game Crocodile Outside the Circle (p. 175) to show. But immediately a player ran to the side of the house, returned with a bowl of water, and dripped it onto the ground to mark the required circle. Sutton-Smith has similarly concluded that play and games exhibit positive adaptive behavior: "... play increases the child's repertoire of responses, an increase which has potential value for subsequent productive responses" (Sutton-Smith 1971: 254). Resourcefulness and adaptability are basic values applied to all phases of Ban Klang life, as was seen in the case of the change from the old to the present subsistence pattern (p. 55)."

2.6.4 Eastern Toraja

Adriani, N., & Kruijt, A. C. (1951a). The Bare'e-speaking Toradja of central Celebes (the East Toradja): second volume. In *Verhandelingen* (p. HRAF MS: ix, 810 [original: viii, 557]). Noord-Hollandsche Uitgevers Maatschappij. p.624.

"It is clear from one sign or another that something that does not please the child or something that does not immediately produce results at the first attempt is not further practiced by it; this is why some can plait baskets and mats, carve handles, decorate articles of clothing, forge iron, etc., while others cannot. For example, **a father who can forge iron does not teach this skill to his son of 12, 14 years of age. The boy often goes with his father to the smithy to work the bellows, to fetch cold water, etc., but if he does not find any pleasure in this work by nature, nothing will persuade him to pick up a hammer. Only if the boy tries to imitate his father's work on his own accord will the father now and then give him brief instructions.**"

p.622-623

“The desire common to all children to imitate what they see older people do makes them practice what they will need later, without older people giving them any guidance. **One sees little girls sitting beside their mothers at a corner of the plank on which tree bark is beaten into material for clothing. While the mother is busy with this work in untiring earnestness, the child sits beating on a leftover piece of tree bark, with a face on which one can see the effort. If the 433 mother moistens the bark to make it soft, the little one does the same; if she folds the piece of bark in order to beat the double layer into one, the little one does the same with her piece.**”

Adriani, N., & Kruijt, A. C. (1951b). The Bare'e-speaking Toradja of central Celebes (the East Toradja): third volume. In *Verhandelingen* (Issue 1, p. HRAF MS: vii, 651 [original: viii, 484]). Noord-Hollandsche Uitgevers Maatschappij. p.478.

“Pottery is women's work; we have seen a man busy at this only once. It is not forbidden for men, but they are afraid of losing their manliness (bravery) by it. **When a girl wants to learn to make pottery, she sits down next to a worker and copies the art from her, while the other one gives her advice and instructions during her training. Payment for such instruction is not given.**”

2.6.5 Ifugao

Lambrecht, F. (1958). Ifugaw weaving. *Folklore Studies*, Vol. 17, 1-53 , plates. p1.

“**Weaving, from cotton to cloth, is the exclusive task of women.** They weave for themselves and the members of their family, but only occasionally for selling purposes. **Girls learn how to weave by helping their mother or elder sister, for example in putting up the warp (see infra), and by actual practice under the latters' supervision: most of them become quite skilled within a short period of time.** The weaving tools, i.e., the loom sticks, the spindle, the apparatus for fluffing, skeining and winding, are, of course, made by the men.”

Barton, R. F. (1938). *Philippine pagans: the autobiographies of three Ifugaos*. George Routledge & Sons. p.44-45.

“**An old man, Upang,** taught us how to catch crabs in the fields.

“Look for their bubbles—then you can catch them with your hands,” he said.

He also taught us how to make crab-traps (gubu), which we set in the tributary. The best bait to use is the malt left after making rice wine (bubud). We would set off in a body for the tributary, the larger boys carrying perhaps twelve or sixteen traps, the smaller half as many, and would set our traps in the deep pools. The first time we went, we had poor results, so we went back to Upang and asked him why. He came with us and told us we had set in too shallow water. He dived into a deep pool and set his own traps, putting a stone in each trap to anchor it. Then he set our traps for us and told us we would catch crabs. We did, and thereafter we knew how.

Upang also taught us to make fish-hooks out of a piece of wire. We would take the wire, heat it red hot, lay it on a stone; we would hold a knife blade near the end, tap it with a stone, and thus cut out a barb. Then we would sharpen the end by rubbing it on a whetstone, after which we would bend the wire to the form of a hook. We would heat the other end and roughen it by cutting notches in it while hot, then tie on the line, which would not slip owing to these notches—and there we had fishing tackle. We would bait with a frog or grasshopper. Usually each boy would have several lines out.”

p.43

“We boys did a good deal of trapping and fishing. We could trap a goodly number of birds, especially when the first rains, at the end of the dry season, drove the drones of the white ant (liok) out of the ground. **We would set our bird traps (lingon) near where the drones were coming up. Hither would come the birds to feed on the insects and would light first on our traps, set conveniently, and be caught. The first trap I made didn’t work well, so Tobyagon, an older boy, made some changes in it, set it for me, and said:**

“Now hide in the brush and you’ll see it catch a bird for you.”

It did, to my great delight, and I learned thus how to make bird traps.”

2.6.6 Javanese

Brenner, S. A. (1998). The domestication of desire: women, wealth, and modernity in Java. Princeton University Press. p.196.

“In most batik families, the firms themselves were not passed down from generation to generation; by convention, each generation began anew to build its own firms. **What were passed**

down were the skills needed to make batik. These included the jealously guarded “batik secrets” that centered especially on the tricky matter of dye making, for even subtle nuances in the shade of the natural dyes could make or break a firm. The technical knowledge needed to make batik, then, was also treated as a most important warisan, one that would ideally enable the inheritor to reproduce time and time again the wealth that had been produced by his or her ancestors. Even after information about dye making and batik production techniques became readily available to the public, **many children and grandchildren of batik entrepreneurs continued to guard and carefully follow the recipes and methods that they had acquired from their own parents.** To reenact their predecessors’ techniques of batik production was an act of faith and a gesture of deference. In return, they hoped to receive ancestral blessings in the form of abundant wealth and high status.”

Koentjaraningrat. (1985). Javanese culture. Oxford University Press. p.242-243.

“Children of high-ranking priyayi families were also allowed to attend Dutch schools, through which they had the opportunity to mix with Dutch children from an early age, and as such became socialized and acculturated to the Dutch way of life. When the vocational schools for the training of indigenous administrative personnel were established in the nineteenth century, sons of many high-ranking administrative officials were sent to those schools for education, in anticipation of a prospective career in the administrative service. However, it was still considered inappropriate for daughters of the higher priyayi to receive a public school education. They were to remain at home (dipunpingit), where they were to acquire the ability to manage the large priyayi household skilfully. **They were given some traditional education, which included handicrafts, e.g., weaving and making batik,** and some literary training, which consisted of maos, i.e., reciting Javanese books of ethical didactic nature, written in macapat metre. Daughters of higher priyayi families who lived in the cities of the Javanese courts were occasionally given education in Javanese serimpi dance.¹⁸”

2.6.7 Malays

Wilkinson, -, R. J. (Richard James). (1920). Life and customs: the incidents of Malay life. In Papers on Malay subjects (p. 71). Kelly and Walsh. p.12-13.

“The education of a Malay child is conducted now on European lines and bears no resemblance

to the system that prevailed in former times and is reflected in tales like “Awang Sulong” and “Maalim Deman.” Indeed, except for occasional Koran-classes, there were no schools until the period of European ascendancy Education was based upon a sort of apprenticeship. **Most boys picked up a good deal of industrial knowledge by assisting their parents in the work of agriculture, fishing and trapping.** They acquired manual dexterity by working in wood and rattan, and they gathered a large amount of miscellaneous information regarding crops, fruit-trees, irrigation, boats and the ways of fishes, animals and birds. They learnt also to be observant. **A few youths of exceptional gifts would go further and learn something of art and metal-working by giving help to a village craftsman;** a few more would specialise in reading and writing, either for religious purposes or with a view to becoming doctors, diviners, sorcerers and letter-writers. The young bloods of a village, eager for distinction in war, might study fencing, talismans, the points of a keris, and the many ways of making oneself invulnerable. In the matter of proverbs, old saws, folk-lore, tradition, history and popular verse, the girls were generally better instructed than the boys. But it must be remembered that the trail of the amateur was over all Malay education. A silversmith, for instance, could not live by his art: in a small Malay village there was not enough work to support him. He had to be a farmer like all his neighbours, and he used his art only to supplement his income. If his fame spread to other places, he might be summoned to the Sultan’s court and be made to work for the ruler; yet even there the rarity of silver prevented a silversmith being constantly employed. Apart from a certain measure of local renown there was no inducement to lead a boy to become an artist or man of letters. Moreover, there was no real competition. A village could not support two smiths: the more skilful artificer soon drove out his rival and monopolised what work there was. And an artist who has it all his own way is rarely a great artist.”

2.6.8 Sama-Bajau

Nimmo, H. (2000). *Magosaha: an ethnology of the Tawi-Tawi Sama Dilaut*. Ateneo de Manila University Press. p.53.

“All boatbuilders I interviewed said they learned their craft by working with others, usually their fathers, when young. And expectedly, many of these men were assisted by their sons who would become boatbuilders themselves. Thus, it is very much a family skill passed through the generations. Men tend to specialize in one type of houseboat (always the one used by their

kin group), but are usually able to construct several types of fishing boats. Among the Sama Dilaut men recognized as master boatbuilders in Tawi-Tawi during the 1960s were Hadjulani, Maisahani, Kaiyani, Suarani, Saraban, Amileludden, Lajahulan, and Salbaiyani. All had sons of varying ages who assisted them. During my stay, two of the sons made their first small dugouts and burst with pride as they paddled them through the moorage for the first time.”

p.51

“Almost every Sama Dilaut man knows how to build some type of boat. **A young boy early imitates his father’s boatbuilding methods and competes with other boys in sailing his toy craft in the shallow waters of the moorage. Some of the toys are excellent replicas of the larger boats, while others are simply crudely shaped pieces of wood; but all are representative of the unconscious process by which some of the boys will become master boatbuilders. At the age of fourteen or fifteen, a youth usually makes his first full-sized dugout boat. Often he works through the heat of the midday sun or under the light of the full moon in order to hasten its completion. Throughout its construction he is given advice, although little actual supervision, by his older male relatives, and its completion is a source of great pride for him. Some of the boys themselves experiment or assist relatives in making the more elaborate water craft, and in a few years they are recognized as master boatbuilders themselves.**”

p.28 (contextual information)

“**Boat-building is normally an individual project, but occasionally a man needs assistance to help him over a difficult stage of construction or to provide skills, such as carving, which he does not have. At such times, he calls upon members of the family-alliance unit to form a work team;** unless their assistance is needed for a long time, these members expect no payment for their services beyond reciprocal favors. A man with little talent for boat-building, or a young, inexperienced man, sometimes must depend upon members of his alliance unit to construct his entire boat. In this case, the owner provides all materials for the boat and does whatever work he can under the direction of the master boat-builder; in addition, he may be expected to provide sustenance for some of the workers during this period. All depends upon the closeness of the relationship between the men. Most men closely related to the boat-owner would demand no payment, but would certainly feel no qualms about seeking reciprocity from him in a time of their own need. He would, of course, be obligated to give such assistance. On rare occasions, two or three men of an alliance unit may form a work team to construct a boat to sell, in which

case profits are equally divided.”

Jumala, F. C. (2011). From moorage to village: a glimpse of the changing lives of the Sama Dilaut. *Philippine Quarterly of Culture and Society*, Vol. 39(2), 87–131. p.107.

“As a Sama Dilaut is an expert navigator, he is also a highly skilled boat builder. Hadjulani boasts that in his younger years he used to build both houseboat and fishing boat. **He claims that every Sama Dilaut knows how to build one, since in the past, the boats formed part of the ungsod or bride price.** Building a boat is a necessity in life and a requirement in married life. It is preposterous for a Sama Dilaut to borrow a houseboat, Hadjulani stresses. A Sama Dilaut is expected to build his own houseboat as well as his fishing boat if he wants to raise a family. Hadjulani claims that boat building is tedious yet a fulfilling endeavor. Accordingly, boat building is done with an all-around tool called the patuk. A patuk is a primary tool of metal which can be used as an ax (kapa) and as a chisel (sangkap) by manipulating the handle. The secondary tool used in boatbuilding is the bolo. These two-bladed tools shape the boats as well as their paddles (Nimmo 1972). Paddles used for building both the houseboat and fishing boat are of two kinds: the single-bladed paddle (busai) and the double-bladed (kileh). The busai is used more often, but if speed and mobility are desired, then the kileh is utilized. The kileh is more favored when the fishing boat has outriggers.”

Teo, S. S. (1989). The lifestyle of the Badjaos: a study of education and culture. Centro Escolar University Research and Development Center. p.107.

“Later childhood. In the later stage of development, girls generally learn from their mothers the essentials of housekeeping such as anupaltan mmeh ageret (mending clothes), magbella (cooking) and mag-anom baluy (skills in mat-weaving). The boys are taught how to prepare hook and line and how to mend or weave a net (laya or linggih), make fish traps, study the nature of the sea, weather and places (takot) where fish abound. They are also taught ukil (woodcarving), how to make the handle of a bolo, and basketry. They assist their fathers in the repair of their houses and vintas. One who is skillful in doing these is requested to make fishtraps and to mend fishnets.”

p.76

“Among the Badjaos, marriage is contracted at a very young age, from fourteen to nineteen. At the early age of twelve, the pre-engagement is set. During such a period the boy is taught

to learn many activities: to earn a living; learn various fishing methods; learn woodcrafts, trap making and net weaving. The girl is taught mat weaving, cooking, sewing and mending clothes. Life among the Badjaos is so simple that they do not care to learn the more sophisticated method of fishing, boat making, cooking and sewing.”

2.6.9 Semai

Dentan, R. K. (1978). Notes on childhood in nonviolent context: the Semai case. In *Learning non-aggression* (pp. 94–143). Oxford University Press. p.126.

“Acquiring skills. Besides being coercion that might make the child sick, **training is unnecessary because “our children learn by themselves”** (see “Enculturation” above). **Children tag along after adults, especially parents or grandparents, imitating their activities in ways that shade imperceptibly into helping out. Seeing the child’s interest or in response to its initiative, the adult may show it how to do something better or may make a small version of the appropriate tool. When no adults are around, children often play at adult activities by themselves.**”

Howell, S. (1984). *Society and cosmos: Chewong of peninsular Malaysia*. Oxford University Press. p.46-47.

“Two tasks can be said to symbolize maleness and femaleness respectively, and **children learn how to accomplish them from older members of their own sex. The boys learn how to find good bamboo for a blowpipe and how to fashion one; while the girls learn where to look for pandanus leaves used for making mats and bags of various kinds and how to plait them.** The Chewong see these two tasks as analogous and complementary. They are talked about in similar terms. Thus I was told that the men measure the correct length of a dart by holding it against their lower arm. It should reach from the elbow to the tip of the little finger. The women measure the correct length of a leaf for a mat by holding it from one extended hand across the chest to the other extended hand.”

2.6.10 Vietnamese

Hickey, G. C. (1964). *Village in Vietnam*. Yale University Press. P165-166.

“The usual pattern is for carpenters and implement makers to pass on to their sons the skills

of the trade as well as the tools—saws of various sizes, chisels, planes, bow-powered drills, hatchets, squares, metal rulers, plumb lines, pliers, and hammers. **One exception was a carpenter in Ap Dinh-B who, because his son lacked propensity for the trade, took one of his brother's sons as an apprentice, later accepting him as a full partner. Some young men complained that there is a tendency to accept only kin as apprentices,** and they cited the example of a young laborer who was unable to become an apprentice in the village, so he learned carpentry working in a Tan An lumberyard.”

Malarney, S. K. (1998). State stigma, family prestige, and the development of commerce in the Red River Delta of Vietnam. In *market cultures: society and morality in the new asian capitalisms* (pp. 268–289). Westview Press. p.273-274.

“Handicraft production exhibited a similar concern with secrecy and competition. Gourou spoke of the “spirit of monopoly” associated with handicraft production at the village level (Gourou 1936:528). Across the Red River Delta, different villages were centers for the production of different trade items. Well known among such villages were Bát Tràng in Bac Ninh Province for pottery production (see Luong 1992), Giap Nhi in Ha Dong Province for paper votive items for the dead (*hang ma*), and Dong Ho in Bac Ninh Province for traditional ink-block prints. Again, so as to maintain their competitive advantage, these centers discouraged the dissemination of knowledge to outsiders through such practices as confining the transmission of handicraft knowledge to males, prohibiting local women from marrying out of the village, or allowing outmarrying women familiar with manufacturing techniques to engage in production only in their natal villages (Gourou 1936:528). Local families employed similar strategies. **Among the producers of votive objects in Giap Nhi and traditional prints in Dong Ho, technical knowledge for production was transmitted almost exclusively through men in the patriline. The most important component for ink-block production was the knowledge of the proper raw materials and the proportions needed to mix the colors. This was taught exclusively to senior men. The intricate procedures required to assemble complex votive items such as horses or household items were also taught only to sons, sons-in-law, and patrilineal descendants.** Innovations were well-guarded secrets within the family. One exasperated French official who attempted to organize the cooperative production of handicrafts in Ha Dong Province in the 1930s concluded that perhaps the greatest obstacle facing any reform agenda was “as they say (i.e., the artisans), their atavistic mistrust which all too frequently prevents

them from submitting to a common will as they dread seeing their neighbor gain a superior advantage” (quoted in Malarney 1993:171). Communist officials echoed this sentiment in *The Peasant Question* (1937–1938): “Peasants also have the mentality of private ownership. They are accustomed to living and working separately. They are suspicious of talk of collective work. Most of them do not like contributing money for common goals. . . . We have yet to see peasants spontaneously organize societies that have a common usefulness” (quoted in Truong Chinh and Vo Nguyen Giap 1974:21; emphasis in original).”

3 Europe

3.1 Scandinavia

3.1.1 Saami

Pelto, J., Pertti. (1962). Individualism in Skolt Lapp society. In *Kansatieteellinen Arkisto* (p. 261). Suomen Muinaismuistoyhdistys (Finnish Antiquities Society). p.112.

“In all the learning of adult male skills among the Skolts it appears that the main principles of training include the idea enunciated by Jaakko Sverloff, » Work it is that teaches, my father told me ». Reindeer tethering and care, driving with reindeer, hauling wood and freight, fishing, **construction of cabins, boats, sleds, reindeer collars, harness, and numerous other items are all tasks which the growing Skolt boy has an opportunity to watch as his father includes him in work parties. His father generally exposes him to the work, sometimes tells him some principles that should be followed, but does not push him to learn faster than he himself wishes to perform.** The father very seldom commands him directly to do anything, and as we noted in connection with spanking and other disciplining, fathers do not usually make use of punishments in the training of their children. Skills are allowed to develop at their own pace, without any serious achievement orientation or other pressures that may create fears of failure. The training of the young that progresses through adolescence to adulthood continues to emphasize a permissive type of training that results in adults who are self-reliant and independent in their actions.

Girls, too, are generally treated permissively in their training, but in their early teens they find that they have not the excitements and climaxes of enjoyment in store that the boys have. Theirs

is a duller, more monotonous routine, which includes work that sometimes tends toward servility. For example, when the men, (including brothers) come in from the woods they frequently kick off their leggings and furshoes in the middle of the floor, scattering shoehay around the house. It is for the women to clean up this equipment and debris as the men bring it in, and again when the men are leaving on a trip the women pack the equipment and food for them.”

p.111-112 (contextual information)

“Paavo Moshnikoff (house no. 23) appears to have been a **child prodigy** in craftsmanship, though his story of learning handicrafts is not sharply different in style from those of other Skolt craftsmen. He recalls (in his life history):

»**I made a reindeer sled, a small one** ... Then I went visiting with my new sled. And I had my own gelding. I drove across the ponds to old Kiurel's place, and Kiurel uncle (fa bro) looked at my new sled and said » It's a good sled. » **I was eight years old.** » He also recalls that he built his first boat about the age of ten or so. » Dad fixed it up a bit afterwards. It didn't look like much, but we used it. **Dad taught me, but he wasn't home when I built this first one. I had watched him to see how it should be made.** Brother helped me. He was even younger. It took a week to make, and I hurried very fast, for I wanted to finish it before dad came back. » About the same time I made my first sani (eastern style sled with high runners). It didn't last long. In those days I was enthusiastic. » (Interview with Paavo Moshnikoff, April 20, 1959 at his house.)

Many other Skolts remembered tackling their first larger handicrafts projects during their middle to late teens. **Although they frequently mentioned that » Dad helped » or » Dad taught me » this statement usually means that the boy watched his father as he constructed a sled or boat, and then applied this learning to his own project, with occasional advice from the father or older brothers. Another usual method of learning boat building is to build one at the same time as somebody else is building, simply imitating all the main steps in construction.** Jaakko Sverloff said that » The first time I made a boat I was building it right near older brother (Pavel). Every once in a while I would run over and see what to do. » Artto Sverloff told me that he made his first boat at Sevettijärvi, working alongside Nikolai Feodoroff as he built himself a boat. Anything he didn't know how to do he could find out from watching Nikolai.”

Bernatzik, H. A., & Ogilvie, V. (1938). Overland with the nomad Lapps. Robert M. McBride & Co. p.99-100.

“The Lapp girls are touching little creatures. Their clothes, which are like those of the grown-up women, intensify the motherly impression which these little “housewives” make. At first it is a game when they carry tiny bundles of faggots home and are allowed to throw brushwood into the fire, when they bring water into the hut in little buckets or look after their younger brothers and sisters. But when they are about eight they begin to do real work, and **mother or grandmother instructs them in cooking, sewing and other kinds of housework. Girls of ten can bake bread by themselves, and at fourteen they make their own clothes, shoes, fur koltes and leather garments, weave ribbons and spin sinew yarn.**”

Itkonen, T. I., Guemati, O., & Perez-Roman, E. (1948). The Lapps in Finland up to 1945. Vol. 2. Werner Söderström Osakeyhtiö. p.769-772.

“When small children are left alone in a hut or a cottage, they will be fastened with straps to the wall or the bedpost. Older children are warned not to fight, play with fire, or go down to the lake. Usually a Lapp child does not need much punishment; as a rule he gets off with a scolding, or the mother pinches his ear or fllips the child; only rarely do they get a taste of the birch rod (tur’geh). Improper words or lies are punished at once; an even worse crime is pilfering. Lapp children are in general naturally obedient and tidy. Starting at a very early age they are encouraged to dress decently; a, fiht’tse (= “shame on you”), the Lapps say to a naked child. Small children are forbidden to torment frogs and insects. If they destroy an ants’ nest the parents say: “how would you feel, if our hut was broken up?” – “You are a real fire-nail, to burn worms.” Boys are forbidden to carve or cut on Sundays, with the words: pase t[unknown] suáppá p[unknown] elji (= “the saint will cut your ears”) (I.). Greeting is considered very important; in a Kolt-Lapp village all folks greet each other by shaking hands once a day. When paying a visit, the Lapps shake hands with everybody, even with the baby in the cradle. A child must treat his parents respectfully; if he mocks them he will be punished. - The old folks counsel the younger generation, the grandfather makes toys for the children and the grandmother is the real nurse (männä-keäht’t[unknown] si). Moral education is given in the form of fairy tales; some of them end with a well-known maxim. Lapp children are generally shy, and when an unknown visitor arrives at the hut they keep out of sight (see chapter Play). The parents try to treat their children impartially, but often the youngest child (v[unknown] ahkâr) has a more favorable position. The favorite girl (jiellâh-niei’dâ) should have good characteristics: she sleeps well, does not cry often, learns to milk reindeer, catches mice and flays them to get skins for toy fur coats etc.; she

will become a woman skilled in arts and crafts (tuöd'd'e-nisu). A child is m[unknown] annä until about ten years of age, after which he is called pär'dni . **At the age of ten a child is already given specific tasks to do; at that age a girl begins to learn handicrafts, one of the first of which is to twist tendon strings;** she will also be able already to tend tethered female reindeer, when in spring, during calving time, they look for food on the bare spots by the edge of the marshes. A boy of ten is put to move reindeer-oxen to fresh lichen ground and he also begins to practice reindeer tending. He will be placed on one side of the herd and the instructions shouted to him. At 12 he will get his own namesake-puppy, and two or three years later he is able to domesticate a two-year-old male reindeer. At 16, a boy will catch antlerheads with a lasso at full speed, and one year later he is allowed to domesticate a draft reindeer for himself. He will also try to participate in caravan-works. Only at 20 is a young man able to castrate male reindeer. From a very young age the boys are taught to distinguish different reindeer marks. Grown-up children milk females, row for their fishing father and perform all sorts of domestic work: chopping wood, washing dishes, making nets, gathering and crumbling willow-bark for tanning. At the age of 17 or 18 years the children are almost considered grown-up and begin to do heavier work. – The future master of the household may be someone other than the oldest son, provided he shows a particular talent for something, e.g. a great interest in reindeer-breeding. He is energetic, but keeps somewhat away from the other children; he is also a man of few words and great determination.”

4 Middle America and the Caribbean

4.1 Caribbean

4.1.1 Island Carib

Rouse, I. (1948). The Carib. In Handbook of South American Indians, edited by Julian H. Steward: Vol. v. 4 (pp. 547–565). G.P.O. p. 57-58.

“At first all children ate with the mother; **when 4 or 5 years old the boys** began to eat in the men’s house. **The fathers spent much time in training their sons in hunting, fishing, swimming, singing, basketry, making canoes,** and particularly in shooting the bow and arrow, at which they had to be so accurate that they could hit a bough. **The girls learned from their mothers how to cook, till the fields, weave cotton, and make hammocks.**”

Layng, A. (1983). *The Carib Reserve: identity and security in the West Indies*. University Press of America. p.26-27.

“All sources make frequent reference to Carib egalitarianism, but women were clearly subordinate to men, free women outranking only those women who were captives and considered slaves. Since slavery was not hereditary, the grown son of a slave mother and a local father was granted equality with all other men and expected to maintain authority over his Carib wife. However, when a man divorced a wife, as he alone had the right to do, the children remained with the mother. In keeping with the explicit sexual inequality, a sharp division of labor characterized the collective behavior of men and women. **At age four or five, boys began to eat in the men's house, where the meals were served by their mothers. Boys were patiently trained by their fathers to hunt, make baskets, weapons, and other implements, while girls followed their mothers to the gardens for agricultural work, helped them prepare food and carry water, and eventually learned to make pottery and cotton thread and to weave hammocks in which the adults slept.** As boys approached maturity, they were expected to endure pain without flinching. Their puberty rites included fasting, scarification, and torture, terminated by a feast. Girls fasted also and were scarified at this time, after which they were expected to wear a small apron over their public region. Although the men generally wore no clothing, they did attach a long narrow strip of fabric to a waist string when they traveled.”

4.2 Central America

4.2.1 Garifuna

González, N. L. S. (1969). *Black Carib household structure: a study of migration and modernization*. In Monograph (pp. 24, 163). University of Washington Press. p.48.

“It is difficult to determine just how much the father assisted in the care of the children in the early days, but according to the tales told by some informants **he played an important part in educating his male children after the age of about ten**. From this point on he took the boy fishing with him, teaching him how to manage a canoe, how to cast a net, where the fish were apt to be found, and so forth. **He was also responsible for teaching the boys how to manufacture those items ordinarily made by men.**”

4.2.2 Kuna

Wafer, L. (1934). A new voyage and description of the Isthmus of America. In The Hakluyt Society (Issue No. 73, p. lxxi, 220 , plates). Printed for the Hakluyt Society. p.95.

“The Girls also twist Cotton-yarn for Fringes, and prepare Canes, Reeds or Palmeto-Leaves, as the Boys also do, for Basket-making. But the making up the Baskets is the Mens Work; who first die the Materials of several curious lively Colours, and then mix and weave them very prettily. They weave little Baskets like Cups also very neat; with the Twigs wrought so very fine and close, as to hold any Liquor, without any more ado, having no Lacker or Varnish. And they as ordinarily drink out of these woven Cups, as out of their Calabashes, which they paint very curiously. They make Baskets of several sizes, for carrying their Cloths, or other uses, with great variety of Work; and so firm, that you may crush them or throw them about, how you will almost, with little or no damage to them.” ”

Sherzer, J. (1983). Kuna ways of speaking: an ethnographic perspective. In Texas linguistic series (pp. xii, 260 , plates). University of Texas Press. p.223.

“Kuna learning and teaching of both verbal and nonverbal skills are intimately involved in the actual practice of these skills. Children and adults, women and men, learn everyday activities through a combination of observation, participation, and verbal explanation. From an early age, children accompany their parents and participate in such individual or group tasks as farming, fishing, mola making, cooking, and washing clothes. There is a great deal of talk, which includes but is not limited to discussion of the task. The Kuna stress that everything has a name—objects, stages of growth and development, and processes. Learning names is an important aspect of the learning of an activity, increasingly so in ritual matters.”

4.3 Central Mexico

4.3.1 Nahua

Lewis, O. (1951). Life in a Mexican village: Tepoztlán restudied. University of Illinois Press. p.98.

“The division of labor according to sexes is clearly delineated. Men are expected to support their families by doing all the work in the fields; by caring for the cattle, horses, oxen, and mules; by making charcoal and cutting wood; and by carrying on all the large transactions in buying

and selling. In addition, **most of the specialized occupations, such as carpentry, masonry, and shoemaking, are done by men. An important function of the father of the family is to train his sons in the work of men.** When a Tepoztecan man is at home, his activities consist of providing the household with wood and water, making or repairing furniture or work tools, making repairs on the house, and picking fruit. Men also shell corn when shelling has to be done on a large scale. Politics and local government, as well as the organization and management of religious and secular fiestas, are also in the hands of the men.”

4.3.2 Zapotec

Vargas-Barón, E. A. (1979). Development and change of rural artisanry: weaving industries of the Oaxaca Valley, Mexico. University Microfilms. p.96.

“Another non-familistic contract is that of recruitment through an apprenticeship relationship outside of the home. **Of 105 men who stated they knew how to weave, 74.3% said they learned from a relative and 25.7% learned from a non-relative.** Within each of the classes of weaving, first, second and third, the percentage relationship varies only slightly from the 25% range; however, combining all those who know how to weave first and second classes (wool) against the third class (pelusa), we find that 37% of the wool weavers learned through non-familistic arrangements.”

Cook, S. (1979). Teitipac and its metateros: and economic anthropological study of production and exchange in a peasant artisan community in the valley of Oaxaca, Mexico. University Microfilms. p.183-191.

p189-191

“c. Enculturation. The task of the present section is to ascertain the function of kinship in the process of metatero enculturation in the Teitipac villages. **In San Sebastian the finishing tasks in metate and mano production are taught in the residence lot; all preliminary and intermediate production tasks are taught and learned on location in the quarries.** In San Juan, on the other hand, where the quarries are close to the village and more accessible than those in San Sebastian, metate size blocks of stone (trozos) are often carted from the quarry to the metatero's residence lot in the village. Thus, the residence lot is, in many instances, the San Juan metatero's workshop.

The apprentice in both villages is taught by instruction from more skilled metateros — the instruction assuming the form of tips and pointers volunteered periodically rather than systematically programmed training. Much of what any apprentice learns is on his own initiative through trial and error or imitation. The San Juaneros, unlike the San Sebastianos, often congregate on street corners in groups of five or six to ‘finish’ (Iabrar) their metate products. In this informal street corner setting a spirit of friendly competition prevails which is conducive to the development or perfection of production techniques. As one San Juanero describes this situation:

And after I was able to make metates, we would meet on the corner to finish them. Well, there they taught me how to do a better job of finishing them — Guillermo Cruz, who’s now dead, was my maestro. There we competed with each other — with our other companions — to see who could finish the best product. Well, of course, with patience we turned out well made products.

Only one of 24 metatero informants in San Sebastian claims to have had no teacher; eleven state that their father was the chief agent in their occupational enculturation; three learned from affines and one from an elder brother. The remainder were taught by non-relatives, two maestros being responsible for training four of them. Of 15 San Juan informants, 7 were taught by their fathers, two by mother’s brothers, one by his elder brothers, and another by his Fa-SisHu. Four of these informants were taught by non-relatives as apprentices in quarries owned by their maestro-patronos. In sum, then, kinship ties between teacher and apprentice are basic to the process of metatero enculturation.

What are the principal aspects of this process? **During his period of apprenticeship the apprentice is economically dependent on his maestro-patrón; he helps the latter in those quarry tasks which require a minimum of skill but much effort (e.g., carrying waste stone out of the quarry) and is rewarded by an occasional piece of stone, access to his maestro’s tools, and with advice or informal instruction.** The only source of remuneration for the apprentice is the revenue from the sale of his output — which is usually small in quantity and poor in quality. Inevitably, then, for a period of several weeks or months the pecuniary reward for the apprentice’s efforts is minimal and he must rely on patience and perseverance (and deferral of gratification) to get him through his apprenticeship.”

p183-184 (contextual information)

“The informal organizational structure of the Teitipac metateros consists of three functionally

differentiated and ranked sets of status whose internal relationships are schematized in Figure 13. The maestros (masters or teachers) or dirigentes (directors) are capable of organizing and directing quarry operations, of instructing, and are the most skilled quarrymen and metate makers. The mozos metateros are those members of the occupation who lack the knowledge and experience to organize and direct quarry operations but are competent makers of metates and manos. **Apprentices, who are mostly boys and young men under the age of 25, can neither organize and direct quarry operations nor make metates. They are teaching themselves by trial and error and by imitation, or are being taught by more skilled workmen, to make metate products.**

Since it is very difficult for a neophyte to learn to make metates on his own, he must undergo a period of 'on the job' training. Consequently, the informal status hierarchy represented in Figure 13, looked at diachronically, indicates developmental stages in the metatero's career. This is not to imply that all apprentices become full-fledged metateros nor that all metateros become maestros but, rather, that those who do attain higher ranks passed through the lower ones."

p185-188 (contextual information)

"As the highest status in metatero organization, that of maestro merits further discussion. Table 8 contains a tabulation of the traits most emphasized in 15 metatero definitions of maestro. Below is a sampling of some of these definitions:

1. He's a maestro because he knows how to do it. He knows how to make metates and manos. Also he can make 'carved design' (calado y dibujado) metates. He knows the work from the beginning — the cutting of stone in the quarry. Not everyone does that well. That's a maestro.
2. The maestro has the quality of saying how one is going to blast and cut stone in the quarry. He can even say — as if he were divining the stone — how many metates a block of stone will yield. That's a maestro; he is a director. The worker who doesn't know how to cut stone asks advice from the maestro in his quarry. The maestro tells him: 'That stone should be cut like this'.
3. The one who turns out the best work is a maestro. In every sense he knows stone. He can appraise stone in the quarry. Just by looking at stone in the quarry he can estimate how many metates will come out of it.

It is clear from these statements and from the table that there is a broad consensus among the metateros as to what constitutes a maestro — the 3 salient traits being skill in appraising and cutting stone, skill in the manufacture of metates, and ability to organize and direct quarry operations. The term maestro, then, connotes ‘master’ — a status whose artisan occupant excels in his understanding and application of the strategy and tactics of his craft.

- b. Recruitment. **The typical metatero career is initiated between the ages of 10 and 20 years, with the mean starting age of a sample of 35 informants being 17 1/2 years.** Recruitment into the occupation tends to be through ascription. Of 30 active metateros censused only four reported having no consanguineal relatives in ascending generations who were metateros. Of the remaining 26, 16 reported a three-generational patrilineal continuity in the occupation (i.e., from FaFa or FaFaBr to Fa or FaBr to EGO). Direct three-generational patrilineal succession (FaFa to Fa to EGO) occurred in 14 of these cases, with direct two-generational patrilineal succession (Fa to So) occurring in the other two. A total of 13 of these informants have metateros in both their matri- and parti-lines in at least one ascending generation; however, occupational succession has a definite patrilineal bias.

Only four of these 30 informants do not have consanguineal relatives of the first or second degree who are active metateros. All of the others have either first or second degree consanguines (in most cases both) who are active members of the occupation. Moreover, all of the informants have affines who are practicing metateros. Some idea of the complexity of the consanguineal and affinal networks among the metateros can be provided by tracing these relationships for one metatero as is done in Table 9.

Certain families in the Teitipac villages are known as metatero families. For example, it is often said of such families: “Son del oficio desde sus abuelos y bisabuelos” (They have been in the occupation since their grandfathers and great-grandfathers). Such reputations are, indeed, supported by the genealogical facts. For example, the Cruz family in San Sebastian is known as a metatero family. The genealogy of the direct male descendants of Jose Cruz, the progenitor, is represented in Figure 14.

As it turns out, all 14 of the direct male descendants of Jose were or are metateros. Since Jose was himself a metatero his occupation has been transmitted through a total of 3 descending generations. Between the Cruz and three other patrilineal families in San Sebastian society, the metatero

population has a deep and extensive kinship base.”

p192-193 (contextual information)

“There are variations in the recruitment and enculturation process as can be inferred from the following account by a San Juanero of how he became a metatero:

From the beginning I was a peasant. But in 1933 one of my compadres, Efren Carranza, introduced me to the occupation. He said to me: ‘Compadre, if you want to learn I will teach you; give me a peso to buy you a handpick so that you can begin to make manos’. I gave him the peso and with it he bought me a little hammer — second hand — I remember. And with that second hand hammer he went to Jose the blacksmith who made two picks from it. Until this day I remember that Jose charged me \$1.50 for those two picks. And the day that he finished making those tools, I went to pick them up very contentedly and, then, went to see an old metatero named Manuel Cruz. Manuel sold me some pieces of stone, some unfinished manos, for 5 each; and on that first day I finished a mano. I returned to my house very pleased with myself because I had gone to the house of Sr. Cruz so that he could teach me. However, I was somewhat pensive as well because, on that first day, a little piece of stone got into my eye; that night I saw little lights and I said to myself: ‘What will I do to protect my sight’? But that week I finished 6 manos and we went to Oaxaca to sell them. There I bought myself a pair of dark glasses which I’ve worn ever since to protect my eyes.

Little by little I began to make 1 mano daily, then, 3 ever 2 days. Afterwards I was making 2 daily. That was enough because in those days a laborer earned only 25 from sunrise to sunset — a hard day’s work; I was able to go to the fields to bring alfalfa for my animals and then by 6 in the afternoon finish 2 manos; that gave me an income of 50 daily.

I began to make metates without a maestro; I observed how others did the work and then I made some wooden models — tracing the form from an old metate. Then, I began to cut stones using a ruler and a pencil to mark the cuts. I started using a little chisel — about 15 centimeters long — and slowly but surely I perfected my finishing techniques. In 1939 I began to make specially decorated metates (carved in bas relief) — those that sell for 200 pesos each now and then were worth only 8 pesos.

In San Juan one observes more young boys working in the metate industry than in San Sebastian. Many young San Juaneros (some as young as 8–10 years) wander through the quarries picking up

discarded pieces of stone (“pepenando la piedra”) unsuited for making full-size metate products but which are suitable for making small metates and manos which are sold as toys. Many of these boys have made agreements with village traders for the sale of their products. By the time they reach their teens, many of these San Juan youths are skilled stone cutters and have only to gain experience in the quarries to qualify as full-fledged metateros.”

p194 (contextual information)

“Becoming a full-fledged metatero requires a mastering not only of the techniques of manufacture of the products but of the strategy and tactics of quarrying and stone-cutting. These can be learned only through experience gained by working closely with skilled quarrymen. Several Teitipac metateros have learned quarrying by working in the quarries of Oaxaca City where they find periodic employment as laborers. Here they learn how to set charges of blasting powder to blast stone loose from its native beds, as well as scientific techniques of stone cutting. This knowledge they have put to good use in their own quarrying operations.”

4.4 Maya Area

4.4.1 Mam Maya

Wagley, C. (1949). The social and religious life of a Guatemalan village. In *Memoirs* (pp. 150, 6 photos on 3 end plates). American Anthropological Association. p.34.

“The most intricate technique that a girl must learn is weaving. Almost all women in Chimaltenango can weave, and good weaving adds to a girl’s attractiveness in the eyes of a family looking for a wife for their marriageable son. Girls who have not learned to weave make undesirable wives; they are either stupid or their training has been neglected. **Andrea Martín remembers that her mother began to teach her to weave when she was but nine years old, and Andrea started her own daughters at about the same age. Andrea remembers that one day she said to her daughter, “Perhaps I will not be here next year; you had better learn to weave now.” That day she showed her daughter how to string the small loom which Andrea had bought for her. She worked with the youngster all that day showing her the various techniques. At first, Andrea said, the girl made many mistakes, but she would not correct them for her. “She learned by watching me weave.” The daughter had seen her mother weave innumerable times; it was nothing new to her. The first few things that girls weave are of no use and they are thrown**

out or used as rags, but after a year or two, working side by side with her mother, the girl may cast aside her small loom and undertake something of standard size. If she has a brother she may work on a pañuelo (square cloth used as a head dress by men), or she may weave cloth for a skirt for herself. Yet some girls do not learn easily. “They run away and cry,” said Andrea, “and they must be forced to the task by their mothers. There are a few women who never learn and these make poor wives; their husbands then pay someone else to weave the cloth for the family clothes.” Ability to weave well is cause for pride, and weaving is a great subject of conversation among young women.”

4.4.2 Maya (Yucatan Peninsula)

Press, I. (1975). Tradition and adaptation: life in a modern Yucatan Maya village. Greenwood Press. p.93.

“At four or five years, the child begins to run about more freely, but seldom far from the house. It may visit nearby relatives and considers any house with an open door as enterable. At this age, **boys and girls run errands (however, they are not trusted with more than one or two pesos), play at making tortillas, and begin to learn how to weave long hat-strands out of juano.** Children of six and seven exhibit remarkable motor skill and produce salable strands. Until five or six, boys and girls run together; thereafter, mixed groups are less frequent. Girls play in the house or sit around and watch the boys, no different from the older girls and matrons who sit at the peripheries of ball-games. Girls may participate with boys in the mob kite-catching game, but are strictly excluded from peg-and-stick, stick-and-hoop, and marbles. The larger the group a game customarily embraces, the more likelihood for inclusion of both sexes.

...

By six or seven, the sex role becomes even more sharply differentiated. As soon as she is able to carry a five- to ten-pound bowl of maize, a girl begins to make the daily trip to the corn mill. Boys rarely do this, and adult men only in case of emergency. When not at school, girls aid their mothers in the kitchen. Through playing at tortilla making and cooking while younger, the girl has progressively participated more in the preparation of the meals. As her dexterity increases, she gradually assumes a major role in meal production and housework. The seven-year-old girl makes tortillas scarcely inferior to her mother's. She may produce from one to three pesos daily

through tejido making. **By eight or nine she is taking her first tentative steps toward designing and sewing her own huipil. Indeed, by fifteen, most girls are capable of producing huipils on consignment to other Pustunich women or Ticul jobbers.**”

Elmendorf, M. L. (Mary L. (1976). *Nine Mayan women: a village faces change*. Schenkman Pub. Co. p.95.

“Mothers seemed to have lots of time to sit in their hammocks, their children swinging in hammocks nearby. **While the women sewed the young girls would be practicing their embroidery, or just playing with needles and thread.** There is no proscribed, formal teaching by mothers and fathers as reported by Hellblom in her analysis of the Aztec codices (1973). But there is a definite sense of responsibility to teach and share skills with one’s children. **This knowledge of certain skills—making huipiles, tortillas, finding herbs, and so on—is expected of young girls by a certain age.**”

4.4.3 Quiché Maya

Bunzel, R. L. (1952). *Chichicastenango: a Guatemalan village*. In *Publications of the American Ethnological Society* (pp. xxvi, 438). J. J. Augustin. p.106-107.

“If a boy has a special wish or aptitude, or if his parents want him to learn a trade, he goes to learn from brothers or friends, if they practise that trade, or else he goes to learn from strangers, and his parents pay for his instruction. And they send girls, too, to older women who are good weavers to learn to weave. If the people are good and like to teach, they will take the child for nothing; otherwise the parents pay. They do not give money, but food, bread, chocolate, etc.

The parents come the first time, bringing food. They say, “Esteemed sir, we want you to teach our son to make shirts.” “Very well, let him come.” Then the boy comes. While he is learning his parents send food – bread, chocolate, etc. When he is finished they ask the man, “How much is it for your work in teaching the boy?” He will say, “Nothing,” or else, “Whatever you want to give.” Then they will send food again.

It is the same for women. **The girls go to good weavers to learn to weave. My wife weaves, but there are better weavers and I will send the little girl to one of them to learn. And I will send her to her grandmother to learn to spin, because the old women have more patience in teaching. She couldn’t learn anything here, because of the interruptions of the babies.**

I, for instance, am a merchant and a secretary. If my son does not like my work, we talk it over and then I talk to someone who goes to the Coast or to Rabinal on business journeys, and arrange to send the boy on a trip with him. Then he will take along whatever they sell there, and bring back a carga for this man. In this way he will learn something and see what the country is like.”

4.4.4 Tzeltal

Nash, J. C. (1970). In the eyes of the ancestors: belief and behavior in a Mayan community. Yale University Press. p.55-56.

“Learning to make pottery. **A girl begins to make pottery about the age of eleven. First she makes small replicas of the articles her mother produces. Then, under her mother’s direction, she learns to prepare the clay.** The mother feels the clay with her fingers, telling her daughter to add more sand if this is lacking. She is taught to knead the clay three times. In making the most difficult phases are mixing the clay, forming the base, and rounding out the walls of the vessel as it is raised. The child is expected to learn slowly and is encouraged gently to improve each step. While the child works on her first pot, the mother makes a similar one; **three or four times they exchange vessels, and the mother shapes her daughter’s pot into a better form.**

About two generations ago, marriages at the age of eleven or twelve were the rule. Since most of the intensive learning of pottery techniques begins at that age, **pottery was taught to the bride by her mother-in-law if she resided in her husband’s house** (Blom and La Farge 1927). Most marriages now are contracted for girls from fourteen to seventeen years of age. By this time they are already proficient potters and accustomed to working with their mothers. Therefore there is greater stress on their remaining in or near the parental home after marriage.

The pottery is fired in the streets of the town outside the house, usually after the women have made four or five dozen items. The pots are set on planks forming a rough square around the fire in the center. Charcoal is added to the fire as the brush or corn husks set between the pots begin to burn. The women tend the pots, turning them every five minutes until the surface is well dried and hardened. Wood is added to the fire, and then the jugs are stacked in a pyramid, each one protected from the one it touches with a broken piece of pottery. The stacking is crucial to permit even firing and must be done carefully so that none are broken. Once the pyramid is complete, wood is laid against the pots in a tepee formation. When the sawmill in the vicinity

was in operation, flat boards—scraps of cut lengths—were used, but now only logs are available. Corn husks or dry straw are stuffed between the planks or logs. When a large number of pots are being fired, the men usually help at the final stages to remove the charred planks with poles. If men are not available, the women of the household often call upon their neighbors for help. In this operation, the women wear sandals and hats for protection from the heat. When the pots are cooled, the women, sometimes with the help of the men, stack them in net bags, six to a net with straw protecting the pots.”

p.27 (contextual information)

“Persistence of the same occupations and the daily effort to make a living strengthen the link between generations and to tradition. The primary emphasis in child training is teaching both boys and girls to work efficiently and industriously in these traditional occupations. The techniques for codifying and perpetuating a given way of doing things, particularly evident in pottery production, provide clues to the way in which other kinds of behavior are schematized.”

p.111-112 (contextual information)

“In teaching their children how to work, parents are expected to inculcate not only competence but also a sense of the value of work, for industry is one of the most esteemed traits in both boys and girls. Small girls do errands for their mothers from the age of about four years. When a woman is occupied with pottery, she rarely disturbs herself to get needed items, but calls upon her children to fetch a pot which is out of reach or to bring water for the painting. She gives these orders in a quiet undertone, and I have never seen any need to prompt or cajole the child into fulfilling the errand. **By the age of ten or eleven, girls begin to make small pots like the larger ones their mothers make, but their products are usually not commercially saleable until they reach the age of marriage.** Their responsibility in preadolescence is to bring water from the faucets installed in every other block of the town, and to de grain corn, tend the fire as the nixtamal, or corn dough mixed with lime, cooks, and help their mother grind it. The careful assessment of the child’s capacity to perform tasks is exemplified by the gradations of water-carrying jars given to each child: the older the child, the larger the jar, with minute variations in scale. The close, usually wordless cooperation between women in a household comes from years of working together and knowing their part in cooperative tasks.”

p.274-275

“Becoming a potter requires an even more explicit training procedure. The fine linguistic segmentation of each act and movement in the schedule of pottery-making is a clue to the explicit transmission of tasks by the mother to her daughter. Informants are able to recount the succession of learning of the tasks, the relative difficulty of each task, and the mistakes they made and how their mother corrected them. Being a potter in Tzo[unknown]ontahal is as much a part of being a woman as the role of agriculturalist is of being a man.”

p.321 (contextual information)

“Learning agricultural tasks and pottery-making in the household is part of adjusting to membership in the community. Parents are responsible for teaching the value of industriousness and are held accountable throughout the life of the child. Agricultural tasks are scheduled in a yearly cycle that provides sufficient flexibility for a man to carry out community and familial ceremonial responsibilities. In milpa agriculture, there is no specialization of tasks. Small-plot agricultural production with a simple technology has been reinforced by the land reform program. Since the lands incorporated under the Ejido Commission in the 1930s were attached to the community, agriculturalists were not forced to adjust to new ecological conditions. Politicalization was minimal since the local commission operated within the old civil hierarchy. In the recent expansion of ejido colonies in hot country, Indians from the community have developed alliances with non-Indians in asserting claims to the land. Without any preexisting civil hierarchy, these ejidatarios have not had to adjust their activities to a given structure of authority, but have developed independent political organizations as an adaptation to their new environment.”

Hunt, Muriel Eva Verbitsky. 1962. “The Dynamics of the Domestic Group in Two Tzeltal Villages: A Contrastive Comparison.” In *Micro-Film Thesis*, 7, 223 leaves. Chicago, Ill.: University of Chicago Library. p.168.

“In Amatenango, perhaps because of early marriages which increase the nurturant aspect of the mother-in-law role (she certainly takes part in the socialization of the daughter-in-law by teaching her how to make pottery), and because of the establishment of a relationship before the younger woman had many chances to establish adult affective ties with any woman other than her own mother, the mother-in-law-daughter-in-law bond is less tense. The women create a strong solidarity bond in their active cooperation in pottery making, and their association is both intense and constant. The result is that “a successful relationship between mother-in-

law and daughter-in-law is not an authoritarian one, but is rather characterized by mutual co-operation" (Nash, J., 1960: 29, 62-67). We can also observe that the residence pattern grants, in Aguacatenango, unconditional power to the mother-in-law, while in Amatenango, where a woman after marriage can reside with her own parents if she dislikes her in-laws, a mother-in-law is made to be more careful about her own behavior towards the younger woman. If she is too harsh, she can find herself with no female help in the house, and losing a son at the same time, which means that the household loses two laborers."

p.94

"Pre-adolescent girls have the responsibility of caring for their younger siblings, and are initiated into the woman's work at an early age. **They are trained by their mothers in making tortillas, carrying water, sweeping and sewing.** They can go visiting on their own, and play outside the home with other girls before and after school, if they are regular school goers."

p.158-159 (contextual information)

"The people of Amatenango recognize that during the period in which a woman learns to make pottery, she establishes particular habits of cooperation and a strong solidarity bond with the woman from whom she learns and with whom she works. **"Parents say that there is an advantage in early marriages, in that the girl would be more willing to learn the ways of her mother-in-law if she takes up residence in her husband's house"** (Nash, J., 1960:28) **at an age in which she is not fully trained in pottery production. At the same time, "mothers prefer to keep their daughters at home at least until the age of fourteen if there is no economic necessity in the family"** (Nash, J., 1960:28)."

Stross, B. (1971). Aspects of language acquisition by Tzeltal children. University Microfilms. p.65-66.

"By the age of four the child can be quite helpful to its mother in performing minor tasks, helping to sweep the house and feed the chickens, watching a small baby, carrying small loads of firewood and jugs of water from the spring by means of a tumpline when accompanied by mother or older sibling. Little girls begin to learn how to make tortillas, to strip the kernels from corn by means of a corncob, even to grind the corn into maza. Little boys begin to spend more time outdoors, helping the mother when needed, playing when he can. Both sexes learn to kill fleas when the blankets are taken out in the sun periodically. **Skills that the child begins to use in**

assisting the mother are developed with each year, and by the age of six or seven there are many little tasks that the child can do alone. A boy may be taught at this time by his father how to make his first net bag ([unknown]Cohak') from the fiber of the maguey plant. A girl may begin her first tentative efforts at learning to weave. Children of both sexes have visited the milpa with father and mother several times, and perhaps have participated in a minor way in some of the easier tasks of planting or weeding. A girl generally goes to the milpa only when her mother is along to help also. A boy will begin at this time to accompany his father alone to the milpa, to change the family bull or mule, and on some trips to Tenejapa center for a fiesta or the Sunday market."

4.5 Northern Mexico

4.5.1 Tarahumara

Bennett, Wendell Clark, and Robert M. (Robert Mowry) Zingg. 1935. "The Tarahumara: An Indian Tribe of Northern Mexico." In *Ethnological Series*, xix, 412 , plates. Chicago, Illinois: The University of Chicago Press. p.79-80.

"Nothing is more important in the household routine of a Tarahumara woman than the metate, which she calls matáka, and which has a multitude of uses. Since it is too heavy for her to carry about in the numerous journeys she takes to pasture the animals, **she learns how to make a matáka in short order. First, she finds a large, smooth, flat rock that she knows is very hard. She chips it with a much harder piece of volcanic piedra lumbrosa to form the groove for the manu, or handpiece (matásola). This is similarly chipped with a piece of flat, hard stone. Thus, in a few hours, the paleolithic household article found in every kitchen all over Mexico is made.**"

p.80 (contextual information)

"The Tarahumara metate is a very simple one, resembling the slab type found in Southwestern United States. The Aztec metate exhibits legs. The latter type was found by Lumholtz 2 in an archaeological site near Casas Grandes, which is the farthest north this type has been reported. In the region of the Tarahumaras, none of this type was seen as either ethnological or archaeological specimens; but it occurs in the south among the Huichols. 3

Because of the frequent moves of the Tarahumaras, they usually have several metates, one at each of their houses situated beside their scattered fields and others in caves where they go in winter. When they leave these metates behind, they turn them upside down to prevent their being contaminated by animals or by members of their own tribe who love a crude, practical joke.”

5 Middle East

5.1 Middle East

5.1.1 Lur

Friedl, E. (1989). Women of Deh Koh: lives in an Iranian village. Smithsonian Institution Press. p.204.

“In time, **Parvane learned to card wool, to spin, to sew. She was easy to teach, Atri says,** because unlike other children she was patient and did not hop up and down while being shown something. Soon Parvane’s yarn was spun flawlessly; every one of her stitches was placed exactly next to the others. Setara, a neighbor then, clumsy with her hands and lazy (so she says), often bribed Parvane with a handful of raisins or a lump of sugar she had pilfered at home to spin a little for her or to help her do chores. Parvane liked sweets more than any other child did, Setara says.

Parvane learned to make a fire to cook rice and to knead dough and to bake bread, to churn butter, and **to weave.** She worked without protest, but only if told to in a soft and friendly voice by her mother, her father, or Kokab. If anybody else ordered her or shouted at her (she struck people as being a little hard of hearing), she only smiled and did not respond at all. Left to herself, she would sit and watch; take a nap, maybe; and sit and watch some more—hands in her lap, rain or shine upon her, flies or no flies, smiling to herself, and speaking a few words only when caring to answer a question.”

p.202 (contextual information)

“**On such a morning Parvane was born,** right after the second butter sack was emptied. The day before, a tiny fly of the sort that hides in the animals’ hair had gotten into Atri’s mouth while

her cheek was resting against the flank of a goat she was milking — a dreaded occurrence, because these flies cling to the inside of the throat and make swallowing, talking, and drawing each breath itchy and painful, so irritating that water wells up in the eyes and the tongue swells until it hangs heavily in the mouth. There is nothing one can do but suffer in silence until the affliction subsides after a few long, intensely unpleasant days. **When the labor pains told Atri that the child was about to come**, she could or would not utter a sound because of the fly in her throat. Instead, she walked over to the next hut (Reza's cousin's) and got Zari to understand that she was about to give birth. Zari shouted the news to the other women, and they left their butter sacks to help Parvane into the world. Reza and his cousin, the only two men in the camp that night, got up and left to claim their share of irrigation water in the village. The two shepherd lads slept through everything."

6 North America

6.1 Arctic and Subarctic

6.1.1 Aleut

Petrivelli, P., Brelsford, T., & McNabb, S. (1992). The Aleutian-Pribilof Islands region. In Social indicators study of Alaskan coastal villages. I. Key informant summaries: Vol. Vol. 1 (Issue 151, pp. 367–449). The Region. p.440-441.

"In traditional Aleut society, sustained socialization of young males occurred at the hands of the maternal uncle, a relationship termed the avunculate. The range of physical and intellectual skills required to become a successful maritime navigator and hunter was broad and complex, and many years were devoted to this task. **Young women were instructed in the manufacturing, food preparation, and ritual skills by their mothers.** Today the avunculate exists in only the most attenuated form, if at all. Many informants do not recognize this as a special relationship, while some fishing families spoke of sending their son out on a boat with his uncle for a season to teach him the ropes."

Lantis, M. (1970). The Aleut social system: 1750 to 1810, from early historical sources. In Ethnohistory in southwestern Alaska and the southern Yukon; method and content [by] Robert E. Ackerman and others (pp. 139–301). University Press of Kentucky. p.196.

“The preparation of children for their rugged life began early: **“Scarcely has a boy attained his eighth year, or even sometimes not more than his sixth, when he is instructed in the management of the canoes, and in aiming at a mark with the water javelin. An old chief of Oonalashka, whose confidence I had gained very much, informed me that the making and managing their baidarkas is a principal object of emulation among them”** (Langsdorff 2:41–42).

Jochelson (1925:93) and I observed boys casting respectively lances with blunted heads and toy-model lances. Their game of throwing toy spears at an object suspended on a long string was a good test of marksmanship and strength, as the moving object was not an easy target. A variety of skills had to be acquired: **“According to an old Aleut saying, a lad had no right to marry before he had ground off a penis-bone flaker to its base in the manufacture of stone implements”** (Jochelson 1925:71).

The education of the boys consists mainly of an attempt to make them endure anything. . . . Later they taught them how to ride the bidarkas, how to navigate it in strong winds, during the incoming or outgoing tides; how to save themselves and others in dangerous situations and especially how to be skillful in hunting and war. House duties hardly ever entered into their education as they, outside of building houses and utensils, concerned themselves only with storing fish or hunting animals; it was furthermore not considered a duty of men. It was considered unnecessary to teach the boys petty household duties.

The education of girls consisted of moral education. **Besides the girls were taught how to make any kind of clothing, to embroider designs with the hair of animals, to weave carpets [mats] and baskets**, to clean fish, and to prepare for eating anything that her husband might obtain.

It was also her duty to collect roots, grass and other things. To clean houses and the general care of the houses was considered the duty of slaves.

Generally the parents do not try to accustom their children to work or housekeeping, saying “our children are not from the parentage of slaves (Veniaminov 2:72–73).”

Langsdorff, G. H. von (Georg H. (1817). *Voyages and travels in various parts of the world, during the years 1803, 1804, 1805, 1806, and 1807*. Printed by George Phillips. p.340[2].

““Scarcely has a boy attained his eighth year, or even sometimes not more than his sixth, when he is instructed in the management of the canoes, and in aiming at a mark with the water javelin. An old chief of Oonalashka, whose confidence I had gained very much, informed

me that the making and managing their baidarkas is a principal object of emulation among them.” ”

Laughlin, W. S. (1980). Aleuts, survivors of the Bering Land Bridge. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. vii, 151). Holt, Rinehart, and Winston. p.30-31.

“At age 13 or 14, the boy began to hunt with his uncles or father. **Between age 16 and 19, the boy had his own baidarka (kayak) and might undertake trips on his own.** By then he was also capable of making his own boat frame and of persuading some women to sew skins for him. A young man capable of persuading three or four women to sew for him was obviously prepared to cope with sea lions and whales.”

6.1.2 Alutiiq

Hrdlicka, A. (1975). The anthropology of Kodiak Island. AMS Press. p.79.

“They endeavor in every way to teach the children to endure without complaints, sickness as well as inclement weather. From the very infancy they purposely keep them in dry or again wet places. If the child cries, they dip it into water, even though this be in winter, and hold him there until he stops crying. When the child begins to walk they stop looking after him, and he is free to run barefooted, over ground and stones, in warm and cold weather; and for this reason they later on endure such hardness, rawness of air and bad weather. In the winter, even in strong frost, they chase all the children into the sea and hold them there for a prolonged time. . . . The father is glad when the son throws a stone at him or at his mother and wounds him to blood. **From the earliest age the children commence to construct boats, launch them on water, make bows and arrows, learn how to shoot birds, or into a target. When the son reaches 5 or 6 years the father takes him with him in his baidarka and teaches him how to behave with same.**”

“**The girls are taught to sew, make designs, embroider bags, braid cords, weave hats, mats; make containers or buckets — in a word, everything belonging to their sex.** And one has to wonder at the art and taste of some of their productions. It is true that all this is done very slowly. Frequently on the making of a helmet for a festivity the woman spends several months — only afterwards to give it for a few leaves of tobacco.”

6.1.3 Chipewyans

Irimoto, T. (1981). Chipewyan ecology: group structure and caribou hunting system. In Senri Ethnological Studies (Issue 8, pp. 1, 2, 12, 196, plsyrd). National Museum of Ethnology. p.143.

“It is noteworthy that the time use for snowshoe frame making by individual no. 103 (*age 15*) was observed in season III. He tried to make a pair of small snowshoes for his younger brother. **Since it was his first attempt at making snowshoes, he watched individual no. 101 (adopted father of no. 103, age 71) and tried to follow his example. His first trial was not successful; he did not judge the flexibility of the material well, and it broke as he tried to bend it. He obtained more material and made a second attempt. Individual no. 101 was not observed giving much advice to him, but others, including individual no. 102 (adopted mother of no. 103, age 71), encouraged and advised him.** This account demonstrates the process of learning manufacturing techniques and skills. While snowshoe making is conducted by the more elderly Chipewyans, the younger Chipewyans also participate in the process of learning and training.”

Jarvenpa, R. (1980). The trappers of Patuanak: toward a spatial ecology of modern hunters. In Mercury series (Issue 67, pp. xv, 258). National Museums of Canada. p.146-147.

“On the trapline itself the apprentice serves in an auxiliary capacity. He accompanies the experienced trapper on his rounds of inspections, but he does not construct or maintain sets himself. Rather, he learns by assisting his partner in these matters. For example, he positions the canoe against a stream bank so that the other man can easily set a trap in the water. Also, he may be expected to quickly fetch the appropriate materials needed to construct a set. The boss will order his assistant to cut trap stakes or to gather twigs and brush to touch up a lynx pen among other things. Further, the apprentice normally carries a pack containing the traps, rope, bait, hatchet and other supplies needed for constructing sets. In general, the younger man's role is to make his partner's work easier and more efficient and to profit by observing. Eventually he will experiment by constructing a few sets of his own.

While traveling between camps or while moving about on the trapline an experienced trapper expects his apprentice to build fires to warm and sustain him. This is one of the most important supportive responsibilities characterizing the apprentice role since it contributes directly to a boss' physical comfort and nourishment when he needs them most. On days with extensive travel periodic fires give trappers the opportunity to renew their strength with tea,

warm themselves and dry out wet clothing. The ability to construct suitable fires quickly under varying conditions requires a fairly extensive knowledge in selecting sites, wood and tinder. Often the apprentice is left to prepare such fires and to cook meals while the boss is occupied with other matters. For example, to save time a trapper will instruct his partner to remain behind while he leaves the main trail to inspect a short line of traps.

In most cases the subservient role of the apprentice is easily adopted by the novice trapper. **The years of conditioning of a son to his father's directives serve as preparation. An apprentice-son is particularly deferential and respectful. An asymmetrical partnership of brothers may be marked by slight competitiveness, but generally the younger man accepts the decisions of his sibling.** Moreover, an apprentice is anxious to gain his boss' approval and to prove his maturity and resourcefulness. Gaining acceptance as a "man" is most important as illustrated by August Ptarmigan's concern about mastering fire building on the trail:"

p.129 (contextual information)

"A major pitfall in the logic of early proponents of "family hunting territories" is an inability to distinguish between cases of transitory usufruct and genuine ownership. Perhaps a more serious error has been a confusion of inheritance with the socialization process. There has been a tendency for fathers to pass on the skills of trapping and hunting to their sons, and Shimkin's (1955) study of the Fort Yukon trapping economy indicates that nearly one third of the traplines in that area were acquired by bequest or inheritance from patrilineal relatives. Similarly, in the Patuanak area young men begin trapping in areas utilized at that point in time by their fathers, older brothers, or by cousins or uncles related through either patrilineal or matrilineal lines. However, such training hardly constitutes "inheritance" in the form of a formalized transference of property. The particular trapline area being utilized at that point in time has nothing to do with the matter of training an apprentice trapper. Indeed, a few years later the father and the son may be members of new trapping teams occupying entirely different trapping areas. The only thing that has been "inherited" in this case has been the knowledge needed for capturing fur bearing animals. One might argue that the apprentice also "inherits" specific knowledge regarding the local terrain of one trapping area. In the case of Patuanak this generalization is faulty because, due to the frequency of trapline shifts, a man's apprenticeship period may involve familiarity with several regions. More important than this is the fact that at no point in time does the trapper gain exclusive access to any of these areas."

Li, F. K., & Scollon, R. (1976). Chipewyan texts. In Special publication (Issue No. 71, pp. 1, 2, 8, 450). [Academica Sinica, Institute of History and Philology]. p.6-8.

“7. Now he is taught what implements there are for hunting. First arrows are made for him. He is taught how to shoot something with arrows. If he becomes capable they let him make arrows for himself. They also tell him what kind of stick is used to make a bow. They also tell him how to make arrows with sticks, and what is good for bow strings, and also what feathers are good to feather the arrow.

8. Now he is also taught all about how to hunt for things. He is also taught what a fish net is made with, and how it is made, and also how a snare is set. He is also taught all about snares; rabbit snares, lynx snares, bear snares, also caribou snares and moose snares and how each one is used and with what it is made and how it is set.”

6.1.4 Copper Inuit

Jenness, D. (1946). The material culture of the Copper Eskimos. In Report of the Canadian Arctic Expedition, 1913-1918, Southern Party, 1913-1916 (Vol. 16, pp. 8, 148). Edmond Cloutier, King's Printer and Controller of Stationery. p.87.

“There was more sewing to be done at certain seasons than at others. Thus, in the autumn, all the new clothing for the winter had to be finished before the sun disappeared below the horizon for the long winter night. The women then sewed from early morning until late at night, with only brief respites to cook the meals or to pass the time of day with neighbours. **A woman who had no children to sew for was, of course, less busy; the mother of a family was obliged not only to make the clothes for the whole household, but to train her girls to be dressmakers also. The latter began their training with odd scraps of skin, which they learned to join with neat close stitches. Later, they mended rents in their own clothing, and made dolls fully clothed from head to foot.** Many men could make their own trousers and socks, and even sealskin shoes in an emergency; but only a very few could cut out a well-fitting coat or make a pair of waterboots that would really keep out the water. Even the women never attained great skill in these last-mentioned tasks until long after marriage, and a young wife often sought the assistance of an older relative or friend.”

6.1.5 Eyak

Birket-Smith, K., & De Laguna, F. (1938). The Eyak Indians of the Copper River Delta, Alaska. Levin & Munksgaard, E. Munksgaard. p.156-157.

“At puberty the girl was secluded in a special hut for a month (Galushia), for twelve months (Johnny Stevens), in a special room of the big dwelling house for six months (Mrs. Gus Nelson). There she learned how to sew and make baskets, which she could do better alone than with the family. Any old woman, her own mother or some one else, might teach her (Johnny Stevens). The adolescent girl was not supposed to drink water for a week (Galushia). This must mean that she could not drink it in an ordinary way, or that she was given soup instead. Gus Nelson said that the girl sucked water through a swan’s bone, used special dishes of her own, and used a bone scratcher if she wanted to scratch her head, because her hair would fall out if she touched it with her hand. There seems to have been no taboo against washing. She had to stay inside, for if she walked about outdoors it would cause rain and bad weather. There was no special ceremony to mark the end of her seclusion. During the period immediately following her return to the household, the girl was not supposed to stay out of doors for long at a time, lest she get sore eyes. When she went out she had to keep her head covered, probably as a similar precaution. These same rules applied to slave girls.”

6.1.6 Innu

Lips, J. (1947). Naskapi law: law and order in a hunting society. Transactions of the American Philosophical Society, n.s., Vol. 37, 379–492. p.414.

“Tomo Kak’wa was one of the teachers of the boys of the Lake St. John Band. I saw him often when he, despite the handicaps of his wretched body, sat before his tent, surrounded by five or six boys who listened attentively to his stories of the olden times. His customary topics were the glorious adventures of the past of their tribe; the four “magic men” from the quarters of the globe; the chieftains of the game animals and practically all other spiritual and technical elements of Naskapi life. He was very skillful at mixing his sincere teachings with gay anecdotes at the right moment, and often enough the wide square resounded with the laughter of the old sage and his disciples.

The education of the girls covers, as far as general knowledge is concerned, partly the same

subjects as that of the boys, the “classroom” being for both almost exclusively the family tent and the teachers their parents But the emphasis is naturally laid upon the teaching of recognized feminine skills. Among them are the arts of snowshoe lacing; the manufacture of moccasins birch-bark baskets and rabbit-skin blankets and the techniques of netting, needle-work, and other handicraft reserved for the feminine sex.”

p.413(B)-414(A)

“The moment when capacity is reached marks at the same time a certain termination of the education of the individual for both boys and girls alike. **Already at a very tender age the young boys are instructed by their father and the old men who teach them the best way of starting out for adult life.** This means, they prepare them for that kind of existence which is largely patterned by their environment and their specific social order. This particular brand of education has indeed led to a harmonious integration with the existing social order—an achievement which in the education of white youth has always been the ideal, although seldom reached, goal. It has again and again amazed me to observe with how much success the Naskapi boy and the Naskapi girl received through experience and skillful training an educational background which did not bring them in conflict with their form of society but rather enabled them to hold their own not only within their natural surroundings but also within their traditional social set-up. In this single-class society the problem of adjustment of the youth is by far not fraught with the difficult and multiple problems facing the young people in our own civilized society.

The paramount goal in the education of a Naskapi boy is obviously to train him to be a good hunter. He is instructed in the different hunting practices; in knowing and observing the behavior and habits of the game animals; in the setting of modern metal traps and in building the ancient wooden models as well; **in the manufacture of the tools for his material necessities** and in all the crafts which pertain to the mode of life of a Naskapi man. In addition, he is taught the history and customs of his tribe and its ethical conceptions. He sees the performances and the power of the shaman; he experiences and is taught the magical powers ruling in the woods.”

6.1.7 Kaska

Honigmann, J. J., & Bennett, W. C. (1949). Culture and ethos of Kaska society. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 40, pp. 366, 12 plates). Yale University Press. p.185-186.

“Education. **Most education for living is received by the child in the course of performing routine activities. Such education is unformalized and undirected.** Our characterization above of the training of dogs reflects some of the features of the child’s education. Instruction and direction are rarely explicit. “Do this,” is the formula, and the child is left with the task of working out the details of an activity for himself. If the young girl is asked to make a fire and tries to light large pieces of wood without first splitting kindling, the task will be taken over by an adult. The child may then observe the correct sequences for the completion of the activity, but few people trouble to drill these into the learner. **Sometimes generalized instructions are furnished to children who, in carrying these out, often become confused.** Thus we observed one fourteen year old girl make tea by putting the leaves into cold water. Nobody referred to the muddy quality of the beverage. The same kind of teaching was used with the ethnographer. **Activities were illustrated but never explained in detail, the exposition of principles being ignored.** On the second day of a journey with dog team and toboggan, the handling of the vehicle was entrusted to the ethnographer without a word of instruction regarding the technique of managing the dogs. Meanwhile the guide walked on ahead, rapidly breaking trail, so that when the traces fouled and the dogs rebelled, he had to retrace almost an eighth of a mile. **Another observation that is worthwhile making so far as education is concerned, deals with the relatively narrow range of stimulation available to children, particularly in winter, when youngsters lacking toys are confined to small cabins and rarely interact with parents.**

The girl’s education is derived from her household duties and begins quite early. From the age of six or seven, she hauls water and packs wood. A few years later she learns to cut and sew moc-casins, often practicing with scraps of moosehide; tends the rabbit snares; cuts wood; washes clothes, and helps with simple cooking—all by following the examples of her mother or older sisters and with a minimum of verbal instruction. A young girl may at first rebel at economic chores and seek to shirk them, but by the time she is nine or ten years old the rebellion has almost totally disappeared and she is only anxious to complete her duties quickly so as to have free time available. **Boys’ education begins somewhat later, at the age of eight. Now they begin to accompany fathers or older brothers on short fishing, hunting, and trapping trips. The boy learns masculine skills by observing older men prepare snow-shoe frames, hew lumber, or manufacture implements, vehicles, buildings, and tools.** While the boy assists older men in these activities, by collecting firewood and handling tools, his real economic contribution begins much later than the girl’s. Not until he is near puberty, does the boy begin to manufacture

apparatus on his own or go out to hunt large game with an agemate.

As early as the age of three, a child begins to try using snowshoes. Such learning is gradual, but by six the child is already able to cover ten or more miles with these travel aids. Children begin to feed themselves at about three years of age.”

Teit, J. A., & Helm, J. (1956). Field notes on the Tahltan and Kaska Indians: 1912-15. *Anthropologica*, No. 3, 39–171. p.115-119.

“The attainment of puberty was considered the most critical and important period in a girl’s life. What she did at this period would effect her future life and ensure her good luck or the reverse. She therefore at this time had to undergo a period of careful training to make her lucky and fit her to become a useful woman and esteemed member of the tribe.

...

On the first appearance of catamienia a lodge was at once erected for the girl and to this she had to retire. Girls’ lodges were constructed of the same materials and were of the same shapes as other lodges of the tribe. All were small in size or generally just large enough to accommodate the girl for sleeping, sitting and shelter. Lodges used by rich people’s daughters were of the ordinary lean-to-types and covered with skin instead of brush etc. The lodge was first pitched about five hundred yards away from the main lodge or lodges of the people or sufficiently far away to be beyond the general noises of the camp. After three or four months the lodge was shifted closer to the people’s camp and at the same time the brush or other floor covering of the lodge was renewed. After a time (perhaps another three months) the lodge was shifted again closer and the shifting occurred at intervals until at last just before the girl’s period of isolation ended her lodge was so close to the camp it almost formed a part of same. **As soon as the girl was isolated, her mother, aunt or some elderly relative took charge of her and became her attendant and instructor.** The girl was robed in a blanket of dressed caribou skin, which covered her almost down to her feet. The upper part reached above her head over which it was drawn so as to extend beyond her face on both sides. Some of these robes had the upper part sewed into a rude hood which covered her head and extended forward about two feet beyond her face, precluding her seeing on each side. The robe was held in place by a leather belt around the waist. She used the ample hood part of the robe to hide her face when she was aware of anything being near which should not see her face or which she herself should not see. It was believed her glance was harmful to men and to game etc. Men should not see her face nor be seen by her. For this

reason all males, including her nearest relatives, kept away from her for several months and she kept out of their sight. Only females were allowed to visit her. **Female relatives and neighboring women sometimes came to chat with her and give her instruction.** They continued to visit her during the whole time of her training. During this period the girl had to learn something of all the work and duties which would devolve on her in future years. She had to acquaint herself with and, as much as possible, perfect herself in all kinds of women's work. This was done under the guidance of her attendant and the women who visited her from time to time. Her work was examined and criticised by these women, who also related her progress and always encouraged her to persevere and do better. **Thus she commenced to do all kinds of sewing and embroidery, to make moccasins, do netting, fill snowshoes, etc.** It was considered right that she should be industrious at this period so she would in after years have this virtue. Therefore, /in order/ that she be kept busy, and to ensure sufficient practice, many women brought moccasins for her to make or to mend, and sewing to do for them. She had to finish properly all the work brought to her and received no payment of any kind for her work. **The girl had to work diligently at making robes, clothes and all kinds of things made by women, and thus also learned all kinds of cutting, shaping, and sewing.** Girls had to keep out of sight of people generally and men in particular and therefore spent by far the greater part of their time in their lodges. Girls wore no head bands, but tall caps of leather were used by some. Of late years these have been made of red or blue cloth. Garters of twisted skin enclosing birds down were used. Each girl used a drinking tube and scratcher of bone suspended around the neck by a leather string. If a girl drank water without the tube, the water would hurt her stomach and cause her internal sickness of some kind. Tubes were made of the long wing bones of swans and geese. Eagle wing bones and lynx bones were not used. As a rule they were entirely unornamented in any way. They were generally carried in tube carriers made of square and oblong pieces of skin varying in size and worn with a string around the neck. The piece of skin was folded in two and the middle sewed across a little below the fold making a pocket to fit the circumference of the tube. The skin below formed two flaps which were often ornamented with fringes and pendants as well."

6.1.8 Ojibwa

Hilger, M. I. (Mary I. (1939). A social study of one hundred fifty Chippewa Indian families of the White Earth Reservation of Minnesota. The Catholic University of America Press. p.101-102.

“After puberty rites, boys and girls were no longer considered children; they had outgrown the first stage of Chippewa life, namely childhood, and had entered the second, that of “old man” and “old woman”. They were ready now to begin their vocational training.

Parents instructed them in the work expected of them as adults, and insisted that they learn by helping them at all times. Boys went on hunting expeditions, and, at times, on the war path with the father and older men. Boys, too, learnt to construct bows and arrows and canoes.

The girl learnt all the household duties, such as gathering and chopping wood, making maple sugar, gathering wild rice, preparing and cooking food, sewing, **making wigwams, mats, and birch-bark vessels and beadwork.** Some of the old women told how they stole away from work, whenever an opportunity presented itself, to play with their dolls, only to be laughed at or chided by the older women. Back to work they must go, doing things on a small scale first, and eventually receiving praise and recognition from elders for a piece of work begun and completed by their own personal efforts—efforts which might have resulted in a tanned hide, a pair of moccasins, a wigwam, or some maple sugar.”

Hilger, M. I. (Mary I. (1951). Chippewa child life and its cultural background. In Bulletin (Issue 146, pp. xiv, 204). U.S. Govt. Print. Off. p.56.

“Some instructions were of a formal type; some followed a most informal procedure. “Little girls, so high [about 6 years of age] were made to do work that they were able to do, such as carrying water or washing birchbark dishes.” **“Children did the same things fathers and mothers did, but on a small scale: a little girl made a small net but used the same knots her mother used, and she set that net just like her parents did. ” “If a woman had a reputation for tanning hides a mother said to her young daughter, ‘Go, learn from her.’ Girls followed their mother’s ways. They started early making little wigwams and small buckskin clothes.”**

Densmore also observed that small girls imitated their mothers at work: “A little girl was trained in what might be termed the accomplishments of feminine life, as well as in its household tasks. Her first lessons in applied beadwork were the decoration of her doll’s clothing, straight lines, either continuous or interrupted, being the easiest patterns from which she progressed to diagonal patterns and the familiar ‘otter-tail pattern’ ” (Densmore, 1929, p. 62). A girl, she noted, also participated in her mother’s work: “The companionship of a Chippewa girl and her mother was very close and the child learned many household tasks by watching and helping her mother. Thus a little girl was early taught to chop wood and carry it on her back, and as she grew older

she carried larger and larger bundles of wood until she could carry enough in to the wigwam for the night's use. **A girl was taught to make little birchbark rolls like those which covered the wigwam, her mother saying 'You must not grow up to live outdoors and be made fun of because you do not know how to make a good wigwam.'** She was also taught to make maple sugar, gather wild rice, and do all a woman's tasks" (Densmore, 1929, p. 61)."

Densmore, F (1929). Chippewa customs. In Bulletin (Issue 86, pp. xii, 209 , plates). U.S. Govt. print. off. p.60-61.

"Nodinens said, "I had four brothers and two sisters. My father gave counsel to the boys and taught them the best way to live, and my mother told the girls how to conduct themselves. The first thing I can remember was my mother's saying 'always be industrious. Get up early and do your work. Do you hear me? Do you hear me? Do you understand?' She took hold of my ear and pulled it hard as she said this, and she kept on until I said that I understood. She told me that I must live a quiet life and be kind to all, especially the old, and listen to the advice of the old. She said that people would respect me if I did this and would be kind to me. She said, 'Do not run after a boy. If a young man wants to marry you, let him come here to see you and come here to live with you. This is the reason I am always telling you to be industrious and how to live, so when you have a home of your own you will be industrious and do right to the people around you.' **She taught me to make mats and bags, to make belts and moccasins, leggings, and coats for my brothers,** so they would never lack for these things."

p.61-62 (contextual information) The companionship of a Chippewa girl and her mother was very close and the child learned many household tasks by watching and helping her mother. **Thus a little girl was early taught to chop wood and carry it on her back, and as she grew older she carried larger and larger bundles of wood until she could carry enough into the wigwam for the night's use. A girl was taught to make little birch-bark rolls like those which covered the wigwam,** her mother saying "you must not grow up to live outdoors and be made fun of because you do not know how to make a good wigwam." She was also taught to make maple sugar, gather wild rice, and do all a woman's tasks. Odinigun said that "a man had no bother thinking he must go home and do this or that, for he knew that his wife would attend to it." He said that if a girl was well brought up and was capable she usually got a good husband. Her reputation often went to other villages, and a young man would seek her out because he had heard that she was quiet and industrious. Such a couple usually had a fine family, the children

were well governed and did not quarrel. In concluding this subject Odinigun said that in his old age he noticed that those who had kept the advice of the old people had lived long and led a quiet life, but those who did not regard their advice had had much trouble and died.”

p.65 (contextual information)

“The little girls made miniature mats from rushes and were encouraged to take the bark from small birch-bark trees and make rolls similar to those used for wigwam covers; they also made little birch-bark utensils similar to those made by their mothers.”

“It is interesting to note the inheritance of artistic ability in five generations of Chippewa women at Red Lake. **The oldest living members of this series are Magi’dins and her sister Zozed, the former of whom said that she learned weaving and other handiwork from her grandmother,** while the latter cut a scroll or whorl which she said that her mother originated and used in her beadwork. Zozed stated that she did not know what this represented. A whorl of the same proportion forms part of the design on the cover of a Montagnais birch-bark box illustrated by Speck. 88 Zozed cut many interesting designs which she herself originated. Her daughters are expert bead workers, and her granddaughter did needlework that showed a good perception of color, as well as neatness and dexterity.”

Theriault, M. (1992). Moose to moccasins: the story of Ka Kita Wa Pa No Kwe. Natural Heritage/Natural History. p.18.

“My ‘parents’ showed me how to make a living in the wilderness. I learned to prepare food and how to tan moose hide, how to make strips from rawhide to make the webbing to fill in snow shoes, **how to make fish nets, moccasins, mitts, leather jackets** and how to prepare bear fat. We did so many things together. They also taught me how to preserve food such as fish, moose, berries of different kinds, and how to make containers out of birch bark — our all purpose containers.

As well, Great-grandma also showed me how to skin the furs off all kinds of animals. **By the time I was ten years old I could do everything to make a living off the land and from nature.”**

p.12 (contextual information)

“Anyway, **my mother decided to marry and she left me with the great-grandparents.** I was very happy with them. They were very kind to me and I was well raised in a good home with them.”

p.16 (contextual information)

“Finally I decided to come out. Great-grandpa said, “Sit on my knee, **little girl.**” I did and I knew he loved me. Everything was alright after that.

My great-grandparents used to set fish nets and pick berries during summer. In the fall they used to trap just around the lake, as they both were old. They would take me everywhere. I used to paddle too. I don't know how much help I was, but I did it anyway. They were really my “parents” giving me a loving home with them.

I was around six or seven years old when my great-grandfather died. **After that, my grandfather, Michel Jr., took over looking after us, his mother and myself.** He was an attractive man with a heavy mass of black curly hair. Great-grandma was a widow for eleven years. I lived with her until I got married, and three years later she died.”

Landes, R. (1938). The Ojibwa woman. Columbia University Press. p.12.

“The boy's further hunting career is as assiduously coached by his parents as is his visionary career. When he is very young, his mother teaches him to make simple twine traps for snaring rabbits. Later his father teaches him to make traps and dead-falls for beaver, fisher, bear, and fox. He also teaches him hunting, the tricks of scent, of light, of sound decoys, the details of moving silently through dense woods with branches reaching out and dry leaves and twigs underfoot; he teaches him to orient himself by the light and shadow and movements of the leaves, by the growth of moss on the north side of a tree; he teaches him marksmanship, employing the living targets of the animals they seek. A boy's independence as a hunter comes quite early, by increasing degrees. At nine years Albert had killed enough furs of good quality to sell to the Hudson's Bay Company. By twelve years he had his own hunting and trapping grounds, and cooked for himself. Every few days he returned to his parents' home, bringing furs and hides for his mother and sisters to cure. He sought his father, brother, and brother-in-law for a ritual hunting feast in honor of a bear he had slain (but was not yet strong enough to move alone). His family was proud of him. His sisters' conventional respect for him was sharpened by the fact that he was not only economically independent, in male terms, but that he was also socially independent for he lived as a “stranger” in his own trapping lodge. He needed only a wife to be fully a man—at twelve! The more usual age for such maturity is fifteen to seventeen years.”

p.15-16

“When the adolescent boy is successful as trapper, hunter and fisher, he brings his spoils to the

family lodge as his father does. His sister is told by the mother that he has brought them for her to convert into food and clothing, just as the father's spoils are converted by the mother. The brother, or the father in his turn, comes home weary after an absence of one or many days on the cold snowy trails, throws some game into the lodge and indicates where the rest remains outside. The women prepare food and drink for the hunter, remove his clothes and mend them and give him tobacco. Then they go for the remainder of his game, fish and furs. He smokes and tells them about his adventures. Perhaps he has killed a bear. Great event! For "a bear is just like a human being, and must be honored like a guest from foreign parts"; then the spirit master of the house will clothe the skeleton of this one with new meat and fur and send it again to the lodge. The bear is honored with a ritual feast conducted by the men of the lodge and neighborhood, and by having its bleached skull adorned with bright paint and ribbons from the Hudson's Bay factor. It is the women who make these preparations; the sister paints the skull for her brother, the wife paints it for her husband; likewise each woman prepares the food for the feast celebrating the enterprise of her brother or husband. After this the hunters leave the lodge again, each to return to his individual trapping trails; the grandmother, mother, daughter and young children remain together working at the meat, furs and hides left by each of the men. Each woman works at the materials left by her particular male partner. Mother works at father's materials, drying the meat, tanning, cutting and sewing the hides which will go into food and clothing for herself, father and the young children. The older daughter works in the same way at her brother's materials, which will be used as food and clothing for herself and for him, and of which some will often go to the domestic economy of the parents. **Her work is supervised by her mother and grandmother. They teach her the varying techniques of tanning: that smoke of a certain volume and density from the burning of a particular bark effects a light yellow color or a deep tan color; that the soaking of the hide for varying lengths of time in different natural oils, like the oil of fatty brains, also affects the color, flexibility and thickness of the hide; that certain parts of the hide are too thin and worn for decorative or tough use, and consequently need not be carefully tanned, etc. Even the scraping of the hide is an art and must be supervised.** The same supervision attends the drying and freezing of meat and fish, and the cooking of dried flesh as against the cooking of fresh meat. The cooking of blood, bones, brains and the digestive glands all have their lore. The large organs of large animals are set aside for special curing and later use as food receptacles; these processes must also be carefully taught, The days are very busy and pleasant, enlivened by stories told largely by the grandmother

and mother about the work at hand how Nenebush masqueraded as a woman and floundered about trying to do woman's work, in handicrafts and procreation; how Mrs. Blue-Sky's tanning is so poor that last summer she had to take her hides to Maggie for redoing; how Mrs. Kokran's mother turned windigo and wanted to eat everybody around her raw, for beavers; how a girl was kidnapped by the Little Crane men last summer while she was out alone in the bush tanning; how K's father trained her to hunt and trap like a man, and her grandmother taught her to tan, sew and cook like a woman; how G's first wife drove away his second wife, and the latter tried to steal him back by making him beautifully tanned and bead-embroidered moccasins; how S's wife takes his meat and hides, but makes them up for G whose baby she is carrying in her belly; how C dreamed of a new style for tailoring moccasins; how the legendary Evil Woman went out to catch a porcupine so that she might embroider her hide dress with its quills, but her foolishness was so great that she took Nenebush for a porcupine, and let him rape her while she cried, "How nice!" and finally she stood stripped while Nenebush danced in front of her and made off with her dress."

Landes, R. (1937). The Ojibwa of Canada. In cooperation and competition among primitive peoples (pp. v-ix, 87-126). McGraw-Hill Book Company, Inc. p.118-119.

"The years devoted to the vision pursuit are also devoted to the techniques of hunting, trapping, and fishing. Either father or mother teaches the child to throw a stone accurately, to use a peashooter and a small bow and arrow. The day the child bags his first bit of game, whether deliberately or accidentally, he is given extravagant praise. Leonard Wilson at three years was idly casting stones, and accidentally struck a bird. His father shrieked excitedly, "Our son has killed a bird! Our son has killed a bird I" The fact that the bird had been killed accidentally did not alter the fact that the boy had ability, indeed the accident appeared to make this argument the stronger. The neighbors were invited and a feast was given. Experienced hunters recited their deeds, and promised the patronage of their supernaturals to the sleepy little boy. When he was about nine years old, he trapped a beaver, and that entailed another feast. At sixteen or seventeen, he killed a moose, and that brought more celebration. Other boys who kill their first duck, or their first sturgeon, are honored by their parents. A boy's life is full of never-ending incentives to personal achievement. **As the boy becomes older and stronger, his father takes him with him on his trails, and teaches him to shoot, to cruise the forest, to be a woodsman. He teaches him the variety of traps.** And he also points out the profit and pleasure of owning

private trails. He teaches him that these trails are his, the father's, private property, and that others are forbidden to use them without permission, under pain of death. He tells the boy that the very traps and gun and shells he uses belong to another, that is, to his father. Then when the boy has caught some furs, the father sells the pelts for him, taking him along to watch the sale, in exchange for gun, traps, shells. And as soon as the boy feels himself competent, he strikes his own trails. Albert Wilson had his own trails when he was twelve years old, but this seems to have been precociously young. The usual age is between fifteen and seventeen years. The boys strike their trails just adjacent to the grounds of the father. Sometimes they live with the father in the cabin on his trapping trails, and go forth daily to their own grounds. Sometimes they build their own wigwams, where they stay a few nights at a time. At certain intervals, once a week or once every two weeks, the boy returns with pelts and meat to the family lodge, where his elder unmarried sister cures them. So, from the day of birth, the boy has been taught to be an individualist."

Jenness, D. (1935). The Ojibwa Indians of Parry Island, their social and religious life. In *Bulletin* (Issue 78, pp. vi, 115). National Museum of Canada, J. O. Patenaude, printer. p.94.

"Children underwent definite training at the hands of both parents and grandparents from the age of about seven. Girls were taught the pursuits of the women, sewing, mat- and basket-making, etc., boys the pursuits of the men, fishing and hunting. Neighbours, especially men, were invited to share the feast when a boy killed his first game, so that they might invoke the blessing of the Great Spirit on the household and encourage the lad to further efforts. To harden their bodies boys were encouraged to wrestle and run races, and every child, boy or girl, had to bathe in a lake or river at the beginning of each month until the freeze-up. In winter they ran naked to a mark on the ice, or were driven out into a snow-storm and rubbed with snow. When the ice was going out in the spring many children bathed each morning for ten days in succession, counting the days on a notched stick; others, who dreaded the ice-cold water, blackened their faces and fasted until noon or evening. It was usual for a kinsman to test a boy's "courage," and determine whether or not he would reach old age, by making him swallow a portion of the still-pulsating heart of a mud-turtle."

Hallowell, A. I. (Alfred I., & Brown, J. S. H. (1991). The Ojibwa of Berens River, Manitoba: ethnography into history. In *Case studies in cultural anthropology* (pp. xx, 128). Harcourt Brace Jovanovich College Publishers. p.82.

"Although the cooperation of human beings and one's own personal efforts are recognized as

necessary for the achievement of the Good Life, the help of other than human persons cannot be omitted. **Generally speaking, it is only in the purely technological sphere—the tanning of skins, the making of moccasins and birchbark canoes, the shaping of articles of wood such as snowshoes—that human beings can learn all they need to know from other human beings.** In hunting, although there is plenty to learn about the habits of animals, how to handle weapons, how to bait a deadfall, or set a trap, this is not enough. The cooperation of the “owners” of the various species is also required since these entities control the animals.”

6.1.9 Western Woods Cree

Mason, L. (1967). The Swampy Cree: a study in acculturation. In *Anthropology papers* (Issue 13, p. 75). Queen's Printer. p.47-48.

“Boys and girls spent their childhood under a mother’s supervision, as she gave them little tasks around the camp, showed them how to trap and fish, taught the girls to make clothing and the boys to shoot small birds with toy bows and arrows. As a boy grew older he was allowed to accompany his father while hunting, and there he learned the habits of animals upon which he would depend for the rest of his years. He also acquired patience, courage, and a contempt for danger and death. The extreme freedom which children possessed extended to their dress with only a breechcloth for the boy and a short dress for his sister. Their early life lacked any of the ceremonialism that usually takes place at birth, name-giving, and anniversaries among other primitive peoples.

A youngster’s life changed in many ways when he passed from childhood into the period of adolescence, which was considered both dangerous and mysterious by the superstitious Cree. When a boy reached the age of puberty he stood on the threshold of life as a hunter; the attainment of sexual maturity by a girl meant marriage and a family of her own. The early Cree experienced more ceremony and restriction during their rites at puberty than at any other time in the life cycle.

When a girl of twelve or thirteen years experienced her first menstruation, she removed to a small bark lodge built for her at a distance from the camp, where she spent a period in fasting and seclusion. Some bands required isolation for four or five days, during which her only sustenance would be water drunk from a wooden bowl.² In other bands where confinement lasted from ten

days to a month, a girl's mother or another woman daily brought her food and drink in wood or bark utensils.¹ Since the Indian believed that these vessels became polluted by the unclean maiden, they were destroyed after use. Often she returned wearing a veil of beads as a sign of modesty and remained exceedingly shy for a long period thereafter, having become a woman and ready for marriage. Complete isolation at subsequent menstrual periods was not essential, but a woman in this state usually held herself aloof from camp activities. If on a journey, she had to plough through the snow at the side of her husband's trail and was forbidden to cross the spoor of game for fear of bad luck to the hunter. Upon her return to normal life she extinguished all the camp fires and lighted new ones as a symbol of purification."

6.2 Eastern Woodlands

6.2.1 Cherokee

Leftwich, R. L. (1986). Arts and crafts of the Cherokee. Cherokee Publications. p.99-100.

"Chiltoskey's wide training, experience, and native ability have made him a versatile artist with many media. His skills in cabinet-making, woodcarving, jewelry making, pencil sketching, and water color painting have won much praise. His work has been displayed in Cherokee, Gatlinburg, and Knoxville, and he has contributed much to the training of other craftsmen on the Reservation. **His brother, Watty Chiltoskey, and his nephews, William Crowe and Richard Crowe, who are outstanding woodcarvers, were among his pupils.** Hundreds of visitors to the Smoky Mountain National Park have had the opportunity of watching Chiltoskey demonstrate his ability in relief carving at the Southern Highlanders Handicraft Fair in recent years. Going Back Chiltoskey no longer teaches at the school, but he continues to produce excellent craft articles. He is an inspiration to Cherokee artists and craftsmen."

p.2

"For a long time there were only a few small shops selling handicrafts on the reservation. It was a familiar scene to see Indians traveling along the road from farm to farm and town to town with their backs piled high with an assortment of colorful baskets. Mrs. Lottie Stamper, who was born January 4, 1907 in the Soco section of the reservation, taught basketry at the Cherokee School for many years. In an interview with the writer, **Mrs. Stamper told how as a child she watched her mother prepare and work white oak splints into baskets, and at the age of ten she started**

making them herself. She said that before good roads attracted visitors to the reservation, she walked long distances with her mother to Waynesville and Junaluska (twenty-five miles) to sell their baskets. They sold feed and garden baskets at the farms along the way and souvenir baskets to visitors attending the Summer Assembly at Lake Junaluska. With the money they received for their baskets they went into town and purchased shoes, clothing, and other items. Mrs. Stamper said that she had paid for every pair of shoes she has ever worn with money derived from the sale of her baskets. The Cherokees did not always receive cash for their baskets, but often traded them for cured meat, tobacco, or clothes.”

Wahnenauhi, & Kilpatrick, J. F. (1966). The Wahnenauhi manuscript: historical sketches of the Cherokees; together with some of their customs, traditions, and superstitions. In *Anthropological papers* (Issue 77, pp. 175-213 , plates). U.S. Government Printing Office. p.190.

“In early times, the clothing of the Cherokees was made entirely of the skins of animals which they killed in hunting.[31] The Cherokee women became quite skilful in making clothes for their families, **when very young, girls were instructed in the art of preparing material for, and making clothing. After dressing, the skins were rubbed and polished until they were very smooth and soft, often nicely ornamented, by painting in different colors; for paint, or dye, the juices of plants were used.** The men wore a turban on their heads, their other clothing consisted of a hunting-shirt, leggins and moccasins, all deeply fringed.”

Fox, M. J. T. (2003). Cherokee. In *encyclopedia of sex and gender: men and women in the world's cultures* (pp. 356–363). Kluwer Academic/Plenum Publishers. p.357.

“As soon as a child was born, the mother and other relatives took steps to form the child's personality and character. The mother's brothers and her other female relatives had the responsibility for the children. It was the family of the mother that controlled the lives of the children. A female child was considered the proper daughter of female relations. It was the maternal grandmothers or oldest female clan relative that named infant girls. **Men assumed other responsibilities for clan children such as training and educating their sister's sons. It was the uncles or mother's brothers who trained the boys to hunt and determined when they were old enough to go to war. The maternal uncles were the persons to whom the children owed their greatest respect.** Each clan's specializations and customs moved through time and across generations in this way (Hill, 1997).

...

Once girls and boys learned the necessary skills to perform their roles in Cherokee society and they were of age, they became adults. **Girls learned the necessary skills from their mothers and female clan members by helping in the fields and the household. Girls watched their female relatives and learned by example how to be mothers, sisters, daughter, storytellers and agriculturalists. Girls were taught the knowledge and skills needed to become a Cherokee women from the past, present, and for the future. They learned to make meals, baskets, clothing, pottery, and other household goods as well as gaining knowledge about plants, crops, seasons, and weather (Hill, 1997)."**

Gilbert, W. H. (1978). The eastern Cherokees. In Bulletin; Anthropological papers (Issue 23, pp. 169–413). AMS Press. p.255.

"At the age of 4 or 5 the young boys make bows and arrows under the supervision of their fathers or elder brothers. Little girls of this age begin to assist in the household duties. The children also begin to participate in the dances at this age. Various games occupy the time of the children. Toy bows and arrows are used to shoot at crickets and apples in the trees. The game of hunter and deer is played. Other sports are indulged in, such as rolling stones down the mountains, and playing on toy musical instruments, and various athletic sports.

Instruction now begins to follow the line of the sexual division of labor. The boys are taught by the mother's brother various formulas for success in hunting and obtaining success in love affairs; **the girls are taught to make baskets, pottery,** and to perform various household tasks."

French, L., Hornbuckle, J., Owl, K. F., Wachacha, H., Wachacha, Y., Crowe, R., Walker, A., Teesatuskie, R., Martin, E., & Panther, P. (1981). The Cherokee perspective: written by Eastern Cherokees. Appalachian Consortium Press. p.13.

"The early Cherokees' personal freedom is best expressed in terms of the family process. Young Cherokee children were socialized to play the appropriate sex role. The female stages of development included infancy, childhood, womanhood and, for a few mature women, the higher statuses of "clan matriarchs" or "pretty women" (those providing counsel to the red chief). Males followed a similar process, developing from infancy to childhood and then adulthood and the higher statuses of chief (red or white) and "beloved man" (distinguished warrior) for a few mature men. **Children learned their respective adult roles from immediate family members, although these people were not necessarily their biological families. Boys and girls learned their respective roles through apprenticeships, usually during adolescence. Pottery, basketry,**

blowgun making, fishing, hunting, farming, building construction, cooking and tanning all required periods of internship and were learned in the context of the larger extended family.”

6.2.2 Delaware

Kinietz, W. V. (William V. (1946). Delaware culture chronology. In Prehistory research series: Vol. v. 3 (Issue 1, p. [1]-143). Indiana Historical Society. p.45-46.

“The education of Indian youth was frequently characterized as being entirely without system (103). It is true that formal classes and text books were not a basic part of the system, but the descriptions of the teaching of Indian children show that they were definitely educated to fill their places in the society of which they were members. **At a very early age children were given as toys models of implements they would use in earnest in later life. These were different for each sex. For example, a boy would be given a tiny bow with straws for arrows; then, as he grew up, the size and effectiveness of the weapons would be increased until he was able to kill every sort of game as a full-fledged hunter. Girls were given dolls and very early instructed in the fundamentals of making baskets and pots. A considerable amount of the instruction given to children was by example and explanation incidental to actual practices by the parents or other elders, and by the relation of stories and myths.** Therein lies the explanation of the failure of many early writers to find a “system” of education among the Indians. As a matter of fact, the reports of the age at which childhood was considered to cease show that the training of youths among the Indians was completed while they were still quite young (106).”

6.2.3 Fox

Joffe, N. F. (1963). The Fox of Iowa. In acculturation in seven american indian tribes (pp. 259–332). Peter Smith. p.268-269.

“A child was strapped in a cradle-board, and carried about on its mother’s back. **Education of any child lay chiefly in the hands of its parents. No favoritism was shown to children until the boys reached the hunting age, and then the oldest child or the one who was the best hunter became his mother’s favorite. When a boy was old enough to handle a weapon (six or seven years of age), he left the tutelage of his mother, and his father began to take care of the boy’s training.** At this age he was given a small bow and arrows and sent to hunt birds. His first kill was

made into a feast, regardless of size, and set before someone not of his immediate household. (This is but an instance of the idea of first fruits, which permeates the harvest festivals, etc., of the Fox today.) When he was about twelve, he received a gun and went to hunt small game. **In the winter evenings his father would instruct him in the arts of hunting, tracking, and the manufacture and use of hunting magic.** If a young boy fell heir to the chieftainship, he was formally introduced to the council, and until old enough to take his seat in that body, he was instructed by the elder male relatives of his father's family.

Paralleling this curriculum, **the girl was taught the various domestic arts by her mother.** At the age of seven she began to sew clothes for her dolls, at nine or ten years of age she helped to plant and hoe the garden and learned to cook, when she was ten she began to fetch wood and water, and **at twelve to make moccasins and house mats.** Her mother watched her carefully for signs of approaching puberty. Upon the advent of the menarche, she was isolated in a special bark hut under the care of an old woman, usually her grandmother. The girl had to cook for herself on a separate fire. For ten days she was kept concealed, with a blanket over her head, for her glance would blight the earth. At the end of this period, she was led to a stream and bathed, after which she was pecked all over her body, especially on the back and thighs, with a sharp object. The cutting was done so that the blood would flow profusely, in order that she might not menstruate too freely. She was then conducted back and remained in seclusion for another ten days. At the end of this second period she was bathed again, dressed in new clothes and returned to her home. Her old garments were left in the menstrual hut and were worn during subsequent catamenial periods.

When the girl was fifteen she learned to do fine bead-work and make ribbon appliqué. When she had learned all of these skills she was considered ready for marriage. Constant advice was showered upon her about seemly behavior by her mother and her mother's brothers. The latter were joking relatives, and were the ones shamed if she became promiscuous. She was continuously warned not to giggle, for the giggling girl was considered to be easily accessible."

Michelson, T. (1925). How Meskwaki children should be brought up. In *American Indian life by several of its students* (pp. 81–86, 386–387). Viking Press. p.84.

"And girls are taught a little differently from boys. Of course they tell girls, in the beginning, the same thing, that is, how to take care of themselves. They teach girls that if they obey the rules they will have an easier life as they grow older. After they are old enough they teach them how to

do things. And they also make them fast. They are asked to fast so that adversity shall not strike them when they grow up. They make girls fast for four days. They make them fast all winter, especially when they are beginning to be young ladies. The reason why they make them fast is that they are supposed to dream of something that will take them through their life. That is why they do not take regular meals like others, to prepare for a long life.

And they teach them to do something for themselves, especially when they grow up. They teach them work, suitable for women. **They teach them to learn to make mattings and how to make sacks. They also teach them how to make moccasins and beadwork.** Girls are told that they can get along nicely if they learn these things before they are married. They are told, “You will be benefited by doing this for your husband. Your relatives will be benefited by you.” ”

p.81 (contextual information)

“WHEN a boy becomes old enough to be intelligent, **his parents** begin to teach him how to take care of himself and act righteously. **They** usually tell him not to do a good many things. Children are taught not to be naughty. They are told that if they are naughty, people will have nothing to do with them. They are told that if they are naughty, people will talk about them. And children are told not to steal anything from their neighbors. Moreover, children are taught not to talk to people. If they see any one going by their place, they should hold their tongues, nor should they laugh.”

Jones, W., & Fisher, M. W. (1939). Ethnography of the Fox Indians. In Bulletin (pp. ix, 156). U.S. Govt Print. Off. p.112.

“Dolls.—**Fox girls** had corn-husk dolls, furnished with muskrat and squirrel skin clothes. They played the same kind of imitative games with them that white children do. **They learned how to sew by making clothes for these dolls.** (See T. Michelson, Fortieth Ann. Rept. Bur. Amer. Ethn., pp. 297, 338.)”

6.2.4 Huron/Wendat

Heidenreich, C. E. (1978). Huron. In handbook of north american indians. northeast: Vol. v. 15 (pp. 368–388). Smithsonian Institution: For sale by the Supt. of Docs., U.S. G.P.O. p.383.

“Children were socialized into the roles they had to assume in later life. The boys learned to fish and become Cross-Reference: (Fig. 7 was originally published in this location) proficient with

the bow and arrow; they did not perform female work such as getting water (Sagard-Théodat 1939:132). **The girls were taught to perform household duties, to make pots,** and to grind corn and shell it (Sagard-Théodat 1939:104, 133). In the summer the children would help to weed the fields and chase the birds away (JR 10:53, 145)."

6.2.5 Mi'kmaq

Wallis, W. D. (Wilson D., & Wallis, R. S. (1953). Culture loss and culture change among the Micmac of the Canadian Maritime Provinces 1912-1950. Kroeber Anthropological Society Papers, nos. 8, 100–129. p.121.

"Grandparents live in close contacts with grandchildren; sons or foster sons usually live in houses adjacent to that of aged parents. In the words of several old women, "The kids are over here before we're up in the morning." Instability of marriages, deaths of young mothers, and illegitimate births, bring small children into the household. **Grandfathers teach boys to make "Indian wares"** and tell them about Old Times, which means not pre-White days, but the early hunting and fishing adventures of themselves or their fathers. Grandmothers teach household arts to the girls and tell them stories, "mostly about prayers." In this era of rapid change, the oldest generation is a social channel for stimulating tribal consciousness and pride."

Bock, P. K. (1978). Micmac. In handbook of north american indians. northeast: Vol. v. 15 (pp. 109–122). Smithsonian Institution. p.113-114.

"Children learned sex-linked tasks and etiquette by imitation and from admonition. They treated old people and parents with respect; on the other hand, children were greatly desired and received great tenderness and affection. There were ceremonies for a male child when he cut his first tooth, took his first step, and killed his first game, however small. Manhood, however, came only when he showed his ability to kill large game, such as moose. Brothers and sisters were taught to avoid one another from an early age. **Young girls would help their mothers with domestic tasks: setting up the wigwam (after the father had selected a location and marked off the floor plan); gathering firewood and carrying water; cooking; processing skins, making clothing, and fashioning bark containers (men made the wooden implements);** and fetching game into camp from the woods. Those who showed ability in these tasks would surely be betrothed by puberty. For a first marriage, the groom, who was usually in his twenties, was re-

quired to perform bride service in the wigwam of his prospective father-in-law. For two or more years he worked and hunted under the older man's direction, proving his ability as a provider. During this period, sexual relations with the girl were strictly prohibited."

6.2.6 Natchez

Lorenz, K. G. (Karl G. (2020). Culture Summary: Natchez. Human Relations Area Files. p.10.

"From birth, all children's heads were flattened for aesthetic reasons, with a plank attached to their cradleboard. By age three, all children began to learn how to swim. **Both boys and girls lived work-free lives until around age twelve, when each gender began to help out the same gender parent and learn particular skills. Girls learned to grind maize, gather firewood, tend the fire, and to make pottery, mats and animal skin clothing. Boys, like men, are said to have worked far less around the village than the women and girls; they instead focused on tasks beyond the village, such as hunting, fishing, cutting firewood, and making tools and weapons.** After puberty, both young men and woman were encouraged to engage in premarital sex. If a pregnancy should occur, the young woman's parents would help to raise the child if their daughter wished to bear and keep it. If not, then the infant would be strangled outside the house and buried with little fanfare."

6.2.7 Seminole

Garbarino, M. S. (1972). Big Cypress: a changing Seminole community. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. x, 132). Holt, Rinehart and Winston. p.72.

"**Mothers teach their daughters traditional tasks**, like sewing the strips, but not many girls are accomplished in the traditional sewing. They now prefer to make clothes that are fashionable according to the taste of the general population. Boys are still taken hunting by fathers, uncles or elder brothers, but in general children do less and less in the company of their parents. Most education of the young now comes from school, and very few parents can help their children in matters of formal education, for very few adults can read or write. The children respect their parents, but after babyhood, the outward manifestation of the relationship between the generations is indifference and distance. Siblings of the same sex and good friends share a much

closer relationship than parents and their children. In fact, the most intimate feelings are between friends and siblings of the same sex. This intimacy does not appear to be a common revolt against parental authority, but rather the result of sharing similar problems and similar aspirations, neither of which are the same as those of the people in the parents' generation."

Garbarino, M. S. (1989). Economic development and the decision-making process on Big Cypress Indian Reservation, Florida. University Microfilms. p.40.

"A mother teaches her daughter to sew, but not many girls are learning the traditional strip sewing. They prefer now to make clothes that are fashionable according to the tastes of the general population. Boys are still taken hunting by fathers and uncles or elder brothers, but in general children do less and less in the company of their parents. Most education of the young now comes from school, and very few parents can help their children in matters of formal education, for very few adults can read or write. The children respect their parents, but after babyhood as we have already noted, the outward manifestation of the relationship between the generations is indifference and distance. Siblings of the same sex and good friends share a much closer relationship than parents and children. In fact, the most intimate feelings are between friends and siblings of the same sex. This intimacy does not appear to be a common revolt against parental authority, but more probably is the result of sharing similar problems and similar aspirations neither of which are the same as those of the people in the parents' generation."

Freeman, E. C. (1944). The Seminole woman of the Big Cypress and her influence in modern life. *America Indígena*, Vol. 4(2), 123–128.

p.127 (contextual information)

"Children learn through example, copying their elders. They spend much of their lives around the fire in the center of the village. This is used by all of the community for cooking. There is no separation of sexes before puberty and both boys and girls help with the work while watching and listening to the older women. **Initiative is encouraged. Girls learn to sew on a hand machine when very young. A child of six made herself a dress without aid.** As a girl grows older conformity of behavior becomes a matter of group concern. This is still achieved by ignoring the child. Her feeling of the removal of group support usually has the desired effect. Scratching is the punishment for serious or continued infraction. It is considered a group censure and engenders no personal animosity. Instead, the certainty of just retribution gives security, based on the realization of fundamental laws. In this way, the girl is taught that she must observe traditions."

6.3 Northwest Coast and California

6.3.1 Chinookans Of The Lower Columbia River

Ray, V. F. (1938). Lower Chinook ethnographic notes. In University of Washington publications in anthropology (Vol. 7, Issue 2, pp. 29–165). University of Washington. p.97.

“Swimming, jumping, and foot races were popular pastimes of children. Swan provides a number of interesting sidelights on children’s activities:

The boys were fond of making canoes either from flags, which were twisted so as to form a sort of boat, or from chips, on which they would hoist a leaf for a sail, and start them off on voyages down the creek. Sometimes a lad with more ingenuity than the rest would carve out a pretty model of a canoe from a cedar stick; and I have seen boys, with little canoes which they had made, scarce three feet long, fearlessly paddle about the water in these little cockles, which seemed ready at any moment to sink.

Sometimes the boys would catch a lot of minnows, and then the girls would join them, and, having made a little fire and a miniature rack for smoking fish, would imitate the manner of curing salmon, which, when done, were served up as a repast. The girls were very fond of making rag babies and dressing up clam-shells like children.”

6.3.2 Haida

Murdock, G. P. (1934). Kinship and social behavior among the Haida. *American Anthropologist*, n.s., Vol. 36(3), 355–385. p.361.

“A son (xit) lives with his father until about ten years of age, accompanies him on fishing and hunting trips, when he helps by cooking, tending the fire, drying fish, etc., and imitates on a small scale or so far as he can everything that his parent does. The father makes model canoes, miniature bows and arrows, and tiny totem poles for his boy to play with, instructs him in masculine activities and handicrafts, and disciplines him in moderation. If the son gets into difficulties requiring the payment of property in composition of blood revenge, it is in S the father’s duty to raise the fine if he can, and in H the maternal uncle’s duty, whereas in M the uncle pays and the father contributes. A father, by the ‘wa’lal or house-building potlatches which he gives in collaboration with the mother, and to a lesser extent by the ca k’a’ or funeral potlatches

which he gives by himself, obtains social status for his sons, and the desire thus to advance one's children is the dominant incentive to industry and thrift in Haida society."

p.350-360 (contextual information)

"A daughter (xit or gudja') lives with her mother until marriage and usually even thereafter, following her if she is divorced from the father. **She helps the mother in her work—cooking, picking berries, slicing and drying fish, making mats and baskets**, etc. She inherits the property of her mother at the latter's death, and if her mother was a shaman or seer she succeeds to that position. Either gives the funeral feasts to the opposite moiety at the other's death. A few days after the birth of a girl, the mother, after consultation with the father and the four grandparents, gives her a name—that of a deceased woman of the mother's clan, whose soul is thought to be reincarnated in the child. The mother plays with her young daughter, disciplines her, and instructs her in the duties and activities of a woman. A girl is not necessarily consulted about her marriage, which is arranged for her by her mother, after consultation with her brothers and maternal uncles. After the wedding the mother makes the bride liberal presents of food, clothing, household articles, and sometimes even a slave to work for her. The Haida feel very strongly that the mother, having arranged the marriage, has a vital stake in its success; it is she, therefore, and not the injured husband, who receives any damages that may be exacted from a man who commits adultery with her married daughter."

Blackman, M. B., & Davidson, F. E. (1982). During my time: Florence Edenshaw Davidson, a Haida woman. University of Washington Press; Douglas & McIntyre. p.128.

"I don't know how old I was when I started weaving small baskets. When I was young I wove one little basket with a cover for my cousin Josie to keep hairpins in; that was the first one. I learned by watching my mother weave. After I got married I wove a little bit at North Island. Emily Thompson, my husband's cousin, gave me a big bundle of spruce roots. She told me to soak it and she'd help me split it. I made a small basket with a fancy stand and a handle. Emily Thompson gave me grass to decorate it with, too. I made a design with the grass, something like leaves, and sold it to a mainland woman for a dollar. After a while I started making little baskets with covers on them and I sold them to Alfred Adams for his store. In the summertime he moved his store to North Island where the people camped. He paid me 1.25 for each one. I was so happy when I sold him two baskets and brought 2.50 home. I still had some roots, but I didn't make any more baskets because I started knitting sweaters."

6.3.3 Nuuchah-Nulth

Kenyon, S. M. (1980). The Kyuquot way: a study of a West Coast (Nootkan) community. In Mercury series Paper - Canadian Ethnology Service; Diamond Jenness memorial volume (Issue 61, pp. xviii, 180). National Museums of Canada. p. 82.

“The young men who have begun to carve within the last few years often learned the art as children from their fathers or uncles. They have started to use their knowledge as they come to realize the potential market for genuine Indian goods. They have the tools from their childhood (of limited range, often only a short-bladed knife and a chisel) and have gone to **libraries in Campbell River and Victoria to study pictures of old works of art.** Gradually they are building up their own folders of designs for painting, carving and engraving.”

6.3.4 Nuxalk

McIlwraith, T. F. (Thomas F. (1948). The Bella Coola Indians: volume one. University of Toronto Press. p.143.

“It is probably no exaggeration to say that in every part of the world the most important social unit is the family. It certainly is among the Bella Coola, yet its lack of definite social obligations makes it difficult to define. Reduced to minimum size, the family consists of a man, his wife, or wives, and his children. Such a unit occupies one of the bedrooms of a large house, and it is to such a family that an infant automatically belongs at birth. Disregarding for the moment ceremonial obligations, which are shared by others, it is the father and mother who are responsible largely for the upbringing of the child. Such education as he receives comes from them, with the assistance of members of the ancestral family. This is chiefly imitative; a boy, as he increases in strength, follows his father on hunting expeditions or fishing. **The mother teaches her daughters how to make baskets,** and they follow her when she gathers berries, or when she cooks and performs household duties. The Bella Coola are fond of children, in many cases to the extent of over-indulging them, and they grow up amid the open life of the large houses, absorbing information of all kinds without being aware of so doing.”

Solomonian, A. A. (2011). Culture summary: Nuxalk. Human Relations Area Files. p.7.

“Before European contact the Nuxalk subsistence economy operated along noticeable, but not

rigid, gender lines. Generally, men were responsible for fishing and hunting, while **women gathered berries and other foods, cleaned fish, made baskets and other utilitarian objects**, and performed general housekeeping duties. Gender roles were ingrained early in life through the education of children within the family unit. At an early age young boys joined their fathers on hunting and fishing trips, while **young girls assisted their mothers**. Social position also affected the division of labor within Nuxalk communities. When slavery was still an active practice, slaves made up a significant portion of a village's workforce, the duties of individual slaves, however, were subject to the desires of their master."

6.3.5 Pomo

Theodoratus, D. J. (1971). Identity crises: changes in lifestyle of the Manchester Band of the Pomo Indians. University Microfilms. p.343-344.

"There was slightly more ceremony attached to a **girl's first menstruation**. At this time she was confined to a menstrual hut in the attendance of her mother and aunt. Certain food taboos were enforced as well as certain restrictions on her movement and her personal behavior. She received gifts from relatives on both sides and **she was taught certain methods of food preparation and basket making**. From this time on she could no longer play with boys (Gifford and Kroeber 1937:151, 192-193; Loeb 1926b:270-274)."

6.3.6 Quinault

Storm, J. M., & Capoeman, P. K. (1990). Land of the Quinault. Quinault Indian Nation. p.54.

"**Several families together were also a more efficient unit for education. Children would be exposed to that much more basket weaving, tool making, blanket weaving, carving, and so forth in a house with many adults and older children.** Since grandparents were the main babysitters and educators, one grandparent could take care of all the grandchildren together without anyone having to move to some other place. This freed all the younger adults for their endless outdoor jobs."

p.127

“A child had to learn so many, many things quickly and had so few years in which to learn—he or she became an adult during puberty. **A girl of twelve or thirteen was ready for marriage and by that time, as well as trained in spiritual beliefs and routine medicine, she could cook, weave, make baskets,** and tend smaller children expertly. In other words, she exhibited all the housekeeping and child rearing abilities we associate today with women in their thirties. The nobles among them were also trained in politics, for it was possible for a girl to be chief. (James Jackson’s grandmother, . . . Mason Jackson, became Quinault chief upon the death of her brother, Billy Mason, early in this century.)

Boys were carefully watched during childhood for special talents: fishing, weir making, whaling, political expertise, war making, canoe building, carving, logging, carpentry, singing or dancing or drumming, or medical skills. The boy most adept at memorizing, word for word, for example, might well become the formal tribal historian, if he proved virtuous. The boy most adept in political science might well become an important advisor to the Chief, himself, if he proved his integrity. The boy most adept at medicinal plants could become apprentice to a medicine man, if he proved his spiritualism.

Such an education provided more than mere survival techniques. It offered intellectual stimulation and challenges. It encouraged imagination through the study of natural resources, the skies, and the legends. It provided a life of the spirit. It was well rounded and served the people well for centuries. Children, then, were quite prepared to enter a formal classroom supervised by a white teacher, but the transition was harsh. Children were forced into the boarding school in Taholah, their language left at the door, their culture disparaged, their hair cut, shoes forced on their bare feet, western garments substituted for tribal clothing, and contact with older tribal members discouraged, most often banned.”

6.3.7 Southern Coast Salish

Smith, M. W. (Marian W. (1940). The Puyallup-Nisqually. In Columbia University contributions to anthropology: Vol. Vol. 32 (pp. xii, 336). Columbia University Press. p.305-306.

“6. **Coiled baskets.** Coiled water-tight baskets were made by women and used for stone-boiling, for holding liquid foods and for picking berries. There can be little doubt that the coiled basket overshadowed the twined basket, however useful the latter might have been. Prestige attached to

the maker of any coiled basket and especially to the makers of fine ones. **All little girls learned the technique but in later life only those “who were good at it” actually engaged in it.** Such baskets were items to be accumulated, given as gifts and exchanged in trade, and, consequently, bore an economic importance. Today these baskets are the only objects of the old culture which are regarded not as curiosities but as valuables and around which centers any great deal of sentimental feeling. Even in the old days it is clear that they must have been objects of considerable attachment. The duration of their usefulness was long, frequently carrying them over from one generation to the next, and the maker of any particular specimen was always known, as well as its history, including the names of its successive owners and the occasions upon which it had changed hands. To a certain extent this was also true of imbricated, soft baskets.”

p.139 (contextual information)

“In matters of technical skill the situation was somewhat different. **Men did the bone, horn and stone work and, what was more important, all of the wood work, from making traps, nets and weapons to building houses and canoes. Women made the baskets and mats, did the sewing, spinning and weaving. It is true that certain skills, such as twisting fibers into string, simple plaiting, etc., were known and used by practically every individual and played their part in the construction of many types of object. It is also true that each sex knew a great deal about the processes used by the other. Nevertheless, in actual performance, the technical skills of men and women were kept fairly separate.** If this distinction still carried little or no emotional content, it was none the less real. But it can be seen that the special skills of men were devoted mainly to the manufacture of tools, traps, etc.; which were tools of production and were themselves seldom regarded as wealth. On the other hand, after the materials had been gathered and prepared, a task in which men often participated, the special skills of women produced items of wealth.”

Elmendorf, W. W. (William W. (1960). The structure of Twana culture. In Research studies: a quarterly publication of Washington State University: Vol. Vol. 38 (Issue 2, pp. xvi, 576). Washington State University. p.442.

“The girl moved quietly, talked little, and slept as little as possible; nonobservance of these regulations marked the girl for life with nervous awkwardness, loquacity, and sleepiness.²⁵ Industriousness was inculcated by requiring the girl to keep occupied during all her waking hours. **The most usual task set was basket making. The object here was to keep the menstruant busy**

rather than to attain skill; sometimes the basket was woven, then laboriously unravelled. All these regulations of conduct seem primarily acts of imitative magic to influence the girl's future disposition or behavior,²⁶ phrased as taboos. Thus, unless her fingers were busy and she slept little the girl would turn out lazy; unless sparing of speech she would become a chatterbox; unless her eyes were kept lowered she would end a wanton. It is not certain if the girl was required to face in any special direction while in the hut, or if the east was a significant direction in this context."

6.3.8 Tillamook

Sauter, J., & Johnson, B. (1974). Tillamook Indians of the Oregon coast. Binsfords & Mort. p.32-34.

"Model canoes, small bows and arrows, miniature war clubs of whale bone, and diminutive fish spears all reflected his training, Feats of personal discipline and courage were used for his childhood training. Swimming in rough water for long periods, running up steep hills, rubbing his body with nettles, and adventuring into the forest at night were but a few of the tasks assigned by the tribal elders.

A small girl underwent similar training, only hers stressed perseverance, not courage. She was taught the art of food gathering and preparation and the important task of making tools out of the many types of mammal bones present in the villages. She also learned the basket-weaving art of the Salish tribes, recognized as one of the finest weaves of all the Indian tribes of the Americas. She learned to gather clams in freezing water, to dig for roots in muddy swamp areas, and to gather fruits and berries and wood. She was also schooled in home-making, sewing, matmaking, and most enjoyable of all, personal grooming."

Skoggard, I. A. (2022). Culture Summary: Tillamook. Human Relations Area Files. p.4.

"The practice of using a cradle board to flatten the foreheads of babies distinguished all freemen. At six years old, the parents held a naming ceremony, which involved ear piercing for boys and girls. They were named after deceased relatives. **Gendered activities were taught at an early age. Boy's toys included canoes, bows and arrows, and war clubs. Girls were taught to gather food, weave baskets, and make bone tools.** Corporal punishment was rare. Moral tales about the fate of bad people were told around the hearth in the evening. An important stage in the life

cycle for young men and women was acquiring a guardian spirit, under the tutelage of a shaman. Boys in their early teens went out alone into the forest to fast, hoping to find a spirit associated with the career they desired, that of a hunter, shaman, or warrior. They would not declare their spirit until the winter ceremony. At her first menstruation a young woman was secluded in a hut. During this time women would fast and seek a guardian spirit chaperoned by a female shaman. A woman married soon after her first menses.”

Jacobs, E. D. (2003). *The Nehalem Tillamook: an ethnography*. Oregon State University Press. p.132.

“During the seasons for gathering roots and berries, a little girl might accompany the older women berry-picking and root-digging. **“By the time she was twelve she learned to be a real help to her mother. She learned how to get spruce roots and cedar bark and make them into baskets.** She could go for supplies of wire grass and three cornered grass and gather rushes for making mats. She knew by this time how to pound cedar bark and make it soft like cotton for toweling and such things.” ”

p.133

“Little boys were particularly encouraged to swim a long time each morning. After the morning meal that followed the bathing, a year-round pastime for boys was to practice shooting with their diminutive bows and arrows. They shot robins, wrens, and other seasonal small birds, as well as squirrels and rabbits. **The boys made their own bows of vine maple. Before bending the vine maple, the ends of the bow were wrapped with white moss and dried in ashes. They made their arrows from branches called “arrow bushes.”** This was a kind of branch that peeled very readily.”

6.3.9 Tlingit

Knapp, E, & Dorr, R. C. (1896). *The Thlinkets of southeastern Alaska*. Stone and Kimball. p.72-73.

“Guessing games are very popular among the boys. First counting out, the one upon whom the count falls takes a score or more of tiny sticks and arranges them in a series of groups. The others all keep their eyes tightly closed until he calls “Ready!” Each one then shouts his guess, the one first to give the correct number of groups, and number of sticks in each one, being chosen to lay them for the next play. The day comes when these good times must end, when the serious

business of life begins. Very soon these little sons and daughters will be big enough to marry and have children of their own; and there is much to be learned many preparations to be made, before that time comes. The boy must learn all the arts of hunting and fishing; to endure the fatigue, cold, and hunger of a wild life; to manage his canoe and keep it afloat and dry in the stormiest water. His ancestors have been hunters and fishermen from time immemorial, and he falls gracefully into line. He learns to build houses, perhaps by aiding some kinsman. He is, in short, prepared for his position as provider.

In the same way the little maiden is taught to keep house. She learns to gather and dry the seaweed which forms so important a part of the daily menu; to clean and skin and cook the game the men bring home. She picks berries, dries them and preserves them for winter's use. **She is taught to sew, to bead and embroider blankets and moccasins, and to piece squirrel-skins into large handsome cloaks.** If her duties require less strength and rugged endurance than the boy's, they are quite as numerous."

6.3.10 Yokuts

Gayton, A. H. (Anna H. (1948). Yokuts and western Mono ethnography: vol. 1, Tulare Lake, Southern Valley, and Central Foothill Yokuts. In *Anthropological records* (pp. viii, 1–253, 291–301). Univ. of California Press. p.194.

"From about ten or eleven on boys and girls were taught the useful pursuits of their fathers and mothers. A man took his son out to hunt, provided him with better weapons as he became more skillful, showed him how to care for the game they killed, **make bows and arrows,** and collect pine nuts. A woman showed her daughter how to pound acorns, gather seeds, berries, and dig roots. She instructed her in their uses and treatment after gathering. A girl did not learn to sift meal, a more skillful task, or to cook until she was about fourteen. **The art of basketmaking was begun from about ten years on.**"

6.3.11 Yuki

Foster, G. M. (1944). A summary of Yuki culture. In *Anthropological records* (pp. v, 155–244). University of California Press. p.231.

“Unless the Taikomol-woknam and the Hulk’ilal-woknam are so considered, there was no real puberty observance for boys. Like the Yuki, **all pubescent girls** underwent the húmnum-wok. When a girl experienced her first menses she was placed inside her home; if the family were away in summer, they had to return to their winter quarters. Here she was steamed and twice a day made to dance with an older woman. Another woman beat time with two mush paddles; as with the Yuki, girls’ puberty was closely connected with the earth’s fertility. Friends gathered in the house to aid in the singing. There was no fire; a dark room was more favorable for sparking. In the house, the girl’s head was covered with a deerskin; when it was necessary to go outside, with a basket. If the girl saw the sky, she would see “something” and die of fright. **The basket, of fine workmanship, also imparted to her the ability to make similar baskets with fine, even stitches, and the ability to create new designs.** Scratching was done with a haliotis scratcher, the same beliefs about scratching pertaining as for the Yuki.”

p.210-211

“Taikomol-woknam. This ceremony, described as a “boys’ high school,” was related in some unknown manner to the Kuksu cult. Since it was last observed more than fifty years ago, its nature and function, let alone its details, are uncertain in the minds of surviving Yuki. I do not believe, as Loeb suggests,⁵² that it was a “higher education” limited to promising graduates of the Hulk’ilal-woknam. It was rather a ritualistic period of instruction for all youths of the tribe, specializing in the mythology surrounding the creation of Taikomol and his subsequent adventures with Coyote, as well as more practical arts and crafts. In addition, it served to train a few select boys as Taikomol doctors.

At the prescribed time, **all participating youths, varying in age from eight to perhaps sixteen,** entered the dance house and were assigned permanent places for the duration of the ceremony by the “janitor.” For the first four days the boys lay or sat, forbidden to talk or turn until the signal was given by the “janitor.” Absolute fasting was required. Food was held out toward them and quickly withdrawn when they reached for it; this taught stoicism for later life. To urinate, the “janitor” conducted the boys outside, heads carefully covered with a blanket or basket. This feature shows an interesting similarity to the girls’ puberty rite. (Loeb reports it for Hulk’ilal-woknam only.)

After four days, vegetal food was given to the near-famished youths, but meat, fat, and fish were forbidden until after graduation. **Then commenced the instruction proper in lore and mythol-**

ogy, under the direction of an old man. By informants he was sometimes called ti'ol (chief) and sometimes onwisimol; the latter was said by some to be the chief's title during the ceremony. The last Yuki instructor was known as "mipan-wilak," a nickname because of his peculiar webbed toes. Loeb⁵³ erroneously gives this as the name of the position.

...

Following the creation myth, instruction in other phases of Yuki culture occurred—the **making of feather capes and headdresses**, singing, dancing, the magical formulae to aid hunting, and the like. **Whenever a boy showed special aptitude toward something, he was trained in this line.** How a few selected youths could be taught the ritual of a Taikomol doctor without disclosing the esoteric phases to the others is not clear."

6.4 Plains and Plateau

6.4.1 Assiniboine

Denig, E. T., & Hewitt, J. N. B. (John N. B. (1930). Indian tribes of the upper Missouri. Government Printing Office. p.520.

"The domestic government is exercised by both father and mother. As long as the child is small the mother has the sole charge of it, but when it begins to speak the father aids in forming its manners. If a girl, he makes toy tools for scraping skins and the mother directs her how to use them. **She also shows her how to make small moccasins, etc. Their first attempts in this way are preserved as memorials of their infancy.** When a little larger, the scale of operations is increased and sewing, cooking, dressing small skins, and garnishing with beads and quills are taught, together with everything suitable for a woman's employment. If the child be a boy the father will make it a toy bow and arrow, wooden gun, etc.

When a little larger he will give him still stronger bows and bring unfledged birds into the lodge for his son to kill. Larger still and he runs about with a suitable bow after birds and rabbits, killing and skinning them. Another stage brings him to learn the use of the gun, to ride, approach game, skin it, etc., all of which is taught him by his parent. The rest he acquires from the time and facility their manner of life affords for practicing these pursuits, and at the age of 17 or 18 makes his first excursion in quest of his enemies' horses."

Miller, D. R. (2002). Culture summary: Assiniboine. HRAF. p.7.

“When children were two to three years, they were weaned. At this same age, without fanfare grandmothers pierced the ears of children. **Parents trained their same-sex children**, never striking them when punishing, but rather chastising them and teaching them proper behavior (Denig 1930: 513, 520; Rodnick 1938: 56-57). Men taught their sons to hunt and use weapons. The kill from the first hunt was left as a sacrifice for the carrion eaters, with prayers offered for future success in hunting and war. Proficiency in hunting was usually achieved by age 18 when many also joined their first war expeditions, although some went to war as young as 12 (Denig 1930: 535, 542; Rodnick 1938: 41). **Girls were taught a range of skills necessary to women’s work, from making clothing** and to preparation of foods for preservation, and participated from an early age in the care of younger children. When a girl’s first menstruation occurred, she was secluded in a small shelter erected near the family tipi. In earlier times this was the practice of all women of child bearing age when on their moon, but this was apparently abandoned by the mid-nineteenth century (Denig 1930: 513, 524; Lowie 1909: 39; Kennedy 1961: 33).”

6.4.2 Blackfoot

Ewers, J. C. (1945). Blackfeet crafts. In Indian handcrafts (Issue 9, p. 66). United States Indian Service. p.29.

“Elderly Blackfeet say that quillwork was regarded as a sacred craft by their people. **Girls or young women were taught the craft by the older women. First the younger women were initiated ceremonially into the art of handling the sharp-pointed quills. It was claimed that women who attempted to do quillwork without having first experienced this ceremony would surely “go blind” or suffer from a swelling of the finger joints. Then they were taught how to use the tools of the quillworker’s craft and how to employ the various methods of quill sewing, plaiting and wrapping known to their elders.** Quills of the same size in assorted colors were kept in long, cigar shaped, bladder containers until ready for use. The quillworker’s kit also included one or more bone or metal awls for making holes in the skin, a quantity of sinew thread for passing through these holes in attaching the quills to the surface of the skin, and a bone or horn instrument for pressing and flattening the quills after they had been sewn to a flat surface. The Blackfeet quillworker held quills in her mouth to soften them, then flattened them between her teeth and put them in place at once. It was customary for a beginner to give her first piece of

quillwork as an offering to the sun.”

Ewers, J. C. (John C. (1963). Blackfoot Indian pipes and pipemaking. In Anthropological Papers (Issue No. 63-67, pp. 29–60). U.S. Government Printing Office. p.49.

“Running Crane’s daughter, Deathly-Woman-Cree-Medicine (born ca. 1868), was the only woman living on the Blackfeet Reservation in the decade of the 1940’s who had made pipes. **She told me that she had learned the craft by watching her father and her mother, Crane-Old-Woman (who also was a pipemaker), at work. She followed their example in using stone from the Running Crane quarry site for her pipe bowls. She followed her father’s example in employing a sharpened piece of hoop-iron to drill the bowl and stem holes, in shaping the exterior of the bowl with a file and removing the file marks with sandrock.** Mrs. Cree Medicine preferred a sage fire for blackening the surface of a pipe bowl. She also greased the bowl before placing it over the smoke of the fire. She knew that other pipemakers used a buckbrush fire for blackening pipe bowls, but she thought buckbrush made too hot a fire and might crack the stone.”

p.46

“The dean of the Piegan pipemakers in the early 1940’s was a quiet, little octogenarian named Green-Grass-Bull, who was born ca. 1861. **He told me that he had learned how to make pipes by watching older men drill and shape them. As a boy he had seen his grandfather, Double-Comes-Over-the-Hill, make pipes. He also had watched Weasel Horn, Little Deer, and Crow-Gut-Man make them. His own father, Crow Top, was not a pipemaker.** Green-Grass-Bull recalled that Crow-Gut-Man would repair a hole punched in the side of a pipe by mistake by making his nose bleed in the hole and mixing the blood with dust from his pipemaking.”

Ewers, J. C. (1958). The Blackfeet: raiders of the northwestern Plains. In Civilization of the American Indian (Vol. 49, pp. xviii, 348 , plates). University of Oklahoma Press. p.103.

“The mother was responsible for the education of her daughters. The little girl began to learn about women’s responsibilities by watching her mother and grandmothers at their tasks. She imitated their actions in her childhood play. She began to help her mother in such light tasks as picking berries, and graduated to the heavier work of digging roots and carrying firewood and water for the lodge. **As the girl grew older, she received instructions in dressing hides, preparing foods, making clothing, and in the women’s crafts of geometric painting, porcupine**

quillwork, and beadwork. A girl was expected to become proficient in these crafts before she married. At the annual sun dance mothers explained to their daughters the honor bestowed upon the medicine woman because she had always been true to her husband.

...

Blackfoot children were accustomed to horses from infancy. As babies they rode on their mothers' backs atop a horse when camp was moved. When they were able to sit up, they rode on the travois or on horseback behind their mothers. At an early age, usually by their fifth year, they were taught to ride alone. The child was lifted into a high-horned woman's saddle on a gentle horse, and rawhide ropes were passed back and forth between pommel and cantle on each side and tied to prevent the child's falling. A parent led the horse around the camp at a slow walk. If the child was afraid, he could hold on to the saddle horn. As he gained in experience and confidence, he was led at a faster pace and was taught to use the reins to control his mount. When camp was moved, the child was tied in the saddle and the horse was led by an adult. Soon he was riding alone. By the time most children were six or seven years old, they were good riders. Some rode little saddles made for them by fond mothers or grandmothers. They also learned to ride bareback and to ride double, and they frequently competed in impromptu horse races.

Fathers looked after the education of the boys, but they were allowed much more freedom than were girls. Boys were taught to make miniature bows and arrows. They were encouraged to take part in rough, active body- and character-building games and sports. At the sun dance encampment fathers pointed out to their sons the great warriors of their tribe and cited the honors that came to men who were brave and successful at the arts of war. The hero-worshiping youth was told again and again the stirring narratives of the outstanding fighting men of his tribe, both past and present. He was reminded of the old Blackfoot proverb, "It is better to die in battle than of old age or sickness." "

Hungry Wolf, B. (1980). The ways of my grandmothers. Morrow. p.55-56.

"I got my education from my culture. My teachers were my grandmothers, and I am really thankful for that. The one that I lived with was Mrs. Old-Man-Spotted. **I was just a little girl when she came and got me,** because her husband died. We lived all the time in tents and tipis made out of canvas—even in the wintertime. I was always warm and I sure enjoyed that kind of life. All I wore was traditional Indian clothing—long dresses, moccasins, and shawls. That is how I was raised. I didn't even own a coat then.

...

My grandmother was very gentle, and she always spoke kindly to me or anyone else. She was not a mean old lady. When she started teaching me our traditional ways she said: "In the future you won't be sorry that you learned about these things, so don't mind me bossing you around." **She taught me how to cook and sew, how to do beadwork, and how to make all the different furnishings and equipment for inside of a tipi.** A couple of years ago they wanted to start making tribal handicrafts here, and I had to teach the men how to make willow backrests, because I was the only one who knew how. I can still sing all the old tribal songs, too, because my grandmother sang them all the time and I grew up with them. Sometimes I tape them for my children, so they will be able to learn them too."

McClintock, W. (1968). *The old north trail: or, Life, legends and religion of the Blackfeet Indians*. University of Nebraska Press. p.235-236.

"Although it was customary for Indian women to perform the menial work, while men filled the more exalted vocation of providing and defending, yet it is a mistake to conclude that Blackfeet women rebelled against their lot. **A Blackfoot mother conscientiously trained her daughter from childhood in the tanning of hides and converting them into clothes and shelter, the making of lodges and travois,** and in the knowledge of herbs and wild vegetables used for eating and healing. Women considered that this work was their rightful vocation and allowed no interference from the men of the family. In fact as the men lacked the necessary training they naturally were unfitted for these tasks."

Wissler, C. (1911). *The social life of the Blackfoot Indians*. In *Anthropological papers* (Vol. 7, p. 1 l, 1-64). The Trustees. p.30.

"Boys were taught to care for the horses and to herd them by day: girls to carry wood and water and to assist with other children and household duties. **Before marriage, girls must be proficient in the dressing of skins, the making of garments,** and the preparation of food. About the time of puberty, boys are expected to go to war. Singly or in pairs they may get permission to accompany a war party, provided they have shown efficiency in hunting. At such times, they receive new names, as previously stated. While the boy is expected to go to war, his family not only uses persuasion to keep him at home, but often forbids his going. In any event, he gets permission or goes secretly. It is said, that in this way the virtue of both parents and sons is shown."

6.4.3 Comanche

Wallace, E., & Hoebel, E. A. (Edward A. (1952). *The Comanches: lords of the south Plains*. In *Civilization of the American Indian series: Vol. v. 34* (pp. xviii, 381 , 16 plates). University of Oklahoma Press. p.126-127.

“A boy learned to ride almost as soon as he learned to walk. From earliest babyhood he was familiar with horses and their motions, riding behind his mother, clinging to her or to the horse’s mane, or strapped to her saddle. He thus gained confidence, learned balance, and, by practice, learned to ride an old gentle pack horse; by the time he was four or five years old, he was expected to be able to manage a pony of his own; and by the time he was six, he was riding young colts bareback. Sometimes while learning to ride, he was bound on the pony by a rawhide lariat while another boy held the pony by another lariat and circled the pony about until the boy literally became a part of the animal. He received the criticisms of companions, father, mother, and other relatives and onlookers. If he fell, he was laughed at by the girls and others, but he did not become angry with his critics. Soon afterwards he had to help herd the ponies. He early became expert in the use of the rope for catching horses and hence-forth spent much of his outdoor time on horseback.

By the time the boy was five or six years of age, he was given a bow and some blunt arrows and taught to shoot, usually by his grandfather. This was natural enough since the father was still engaged in war and hunting, while the older man had probably passed the period of active life and thus had the leisure to make bows and arrows and to devote a good deal of his time to the education of his grandson. Consequently, there developed between the two an intimate relationship whose pattern was one of indulgence and congeniality linked with the less severe forms of authority-obedience. **The grandfather taught the grandson to ride, to shoot, to make bows and arrows, and the secrets of the hunt and the trail.** He told him stories of his boyhood and early manhood, instructed him in the tribal history and traditions, legends and religion, and many other things that the boy would need to know. The maternal grandparent was the boy’s favorite, and each called the other tok.”

p.125

“As a girl grew older, she was given small tasks. She was first required to carry water and, when still older, she began to go for wood. Parties of girls, sometimes accompanied by a few women,

went out from camp to bring in the wood. They also went with the women to gather wild fruits, roots, and nuts. **At about twelve years of age, the girl began to learn to cut out moccasins,** to cook, to dress hides, to make and set up a tipi—all the things essential for becoming the wife of a warrior.”

6.4.4 Crow

Denig, E. T., & Ewers, J. C. (John C. (1961). Five Indian tribes of the upper Missouri: Sioux, Arickaras, Assiniboinés, Crees, Crows. University of Oklahoma Press. p.187-188.

“Another thing worthy of note with these Crows is the number of *Berdêches* or hermaphrodites among them. Most civilized communities recognize but two genders, the masculine and feminine. But strange to say, these people have a neuter. This does not proceed from any natural deformity, but from the habits of the child. Occasionally a male child, when arrived at the age of 10 or 12 years or less, cannot be brought to join in any of the work or play of the boys, but on the contrary associates entirely with the girls. Now all the amusements of boys and girls are marked and distinct. **The former, at a very early age, are instructed in the use of the bow, shooting at birds, guarding horses, trapping rabbits and other small game, while the latter are taught to cook, dress skins, make moccasins, work with beads and porcupine quills all articles of clothing, and other servile and feminine acquirements.** Children of different sexes seldom associate either in their work or play, 'tho as has been observed instances do occur in which a boy acquires all the habits of a girl, notwithstanding every effort on the part of his parents to prevent it. The disposition appears to be natural and cannot be controlled. When arrived at the age of 12 or 14, and his habits are formed, the parents clothe him in a girl's dress and his whole life is devoted to the labors assigned to the females. He is not to be distinguished in any way from the women, 'tho is seldom much respected by either sex. The parents regret it very much but to no purpose. There used to be some five or six of these hermaphrodites among the Crows, 'tho at the present time there are but two or three. One of these has been married and presents the anomaly of husband and wife in the same dress attending to the same domestic duties.³⁸”

6.4.5 Gros Ventre

Flannery, R. (1953). The Gros Ventres of Montana: part 1, Social life. In Catholic University of America. Anthropological series (Issue 15, pp. xiv, 221). Catholic University of America Press. p.159-160.

“There were individual differences in the kinds and amount of work which a girl would learn. Some were more proficient than others, due mainly it would seem to the type of training received. Coming Daylight was an orphan and was raised by an extremely strict maternal grandmother, who made her stay by her side for hours as she worked along with her, correcting her mistakes and demonstrating the proper ways of doing things. Coming Daylight heard the other girls and boys outside playing and would sometimes cry because she had to learn a woman’s work instead of joining in the fun. Singer, although raised by a **grandmother**, was allowed to play out much more than was Coming Daylight, and admittedly never mastered as many techniques as the latter. Garter Snake, who was chosen by her parents as Pipe Child when her father was Keeper of the Feathered Pipe, was **well-trained by her mother**, but apparently did not begin formal instruction at such an early age as did Coming Daylight.

Regardless of individuals differences, however, one of the first acquired and most essential tasks was that of **working hides**. The first step was learning how to scrape buffalo hides. Apparently all women knew how to do this and, in the times before the buffalo disappeared, were kept constantly busy at it. After becoming proficient at scraping, the next process learned was that of tanning. There were various ways of preparing hides depending on the different uses to which they would be put, whether for lodge covers, clothing, parfleashes, and so on. Then came the important steps of **cutting out and of sewing. Usually girls began by cutting out moccasins and finishing them off. Later came dresses and leggings. Knowing how to make parfleashes and to paint them was likewise considered an essential part of this early training for girls.** It was only considerably later that the ability to fit together a lodge covering of buffalo skins was acquired. This was considered the most difficult of all tasks allotted to women and not every one was able to do it.”

6.4.6 Klamath

Pearsall, M. (1950). Klamath childhood and education. In Anthropological records (Vol. 9, Issue 5, pp. 339–351). University of California Press. p.349-350.

“In late childhood girls also begin to learn how to make mats, baskets, and clothing. Of these, mat making is considered the easiest and is the first attempted. Even in early childhood most girls try to weave tule mats. They make small dome-shaped lodges for their dolls and cover them with mats. **The mother or grandmother helps the child whenever there is time.** When the girl begins to make larger, more utilitarian mats, her mother gives her the materials and shows her how to use them.

In the wintertime girls sit beside their mother or grandmother as the elders make baskets. The girl is given some of the tules to split with her thumbnail and twist on her thing. If the girl's twists come unraveled, nothing is said because the materials can be used again. The girls usually soon tire of twisting tules, and they are allowed to do as many or as few as they wish.

Small baskets are made for girls, and often the first basket a girl makes by herself is a tiny one for her dolls. **The mother or grandmother starts the basket and shows the girl how to weave it.** If the girl's baskets keep coming unraveled, she is teased a little and watched till she gets it correctly. Later the girl makes larger baskets with designs in tule root or porcupine quills. Certain designs are known as “beginners' designs” because they are simple to make. Other designs are much more complex, in particular those which adorn the basket bats. Few girls learn to make the large decorated baskets before they reach maturity. A girl often learns basketry from her mother-in-law.

...

The making of clothes is one of the last skills a girl acquires before marriage. In fact, some do not learn the art until after that time. Hides are so valuable that the mother does not want to risk having the girl spoil one.

Most boys in late childhood aspire to become good hunters. Game food is far less important in the Klamath diet than fish or wokus, and not all men are good hunters. Hides are valuable, however, and a good hunter gains prestige. Part of the rigid physical training of the boys is directed toward preparing them for hunting. They are told, “Only smart ones who aren't lazy can be good hunters.” ”

p.347a

“**Boys soon learn to make their own willow darts** for the games, are proud of them, and often decorate them by wrapping green tules around them in designs. The darts are then blackened in the fire and the tules unwrapped, leaving white markings where the tules had been. Such negative pyrographic patterns are common on canoe poles and paddles. Girls similarly decorate sticks “just for fun”; they do not enter into the dart contests. The boys do not learn to make their own bows and arrows until puberty or after.

Training in the techniques of fishing, gathering, hunting, and various manufactures begins in late childhood. The principal food of the Klamath is fish, but vegetable products and game are also used. The spring, summer, and fall months are spent in travel for the seasonal food supply. Early spring sees a move to fishing grounds along the river. In the summer, families move to the prairies for roots and berries. Some go to the mountains to hunt. In August and September families congregate to gather the wild water-lily seed along the marshes. In the fall there are hunts, and all return to the winter villages where they will remain through the coldest months of the year. 23”

p.350 (contextual information)

“As the child grows older he gradually acquires the skills with which he must be familiar. The greatest part of this knowledge comes from accompanying parents or grandparents in their daily routine of work. Adults often explain how things are done, but they have no well formulated program of education. The youngster is often the one to ask to be allowed to perform certain tasks. He is praised if he starts to help at an early age and is given what instructions he needs to carry out the work in which he has evinced an interest.”

6.4.7 Kutenai

Turney-High, H. H. (1941). Ethnography of the Kutenai. In *Memoirs of the American Anthropological Association* (Issue 56, p. 202). American Anthropological Association. p.117.

“A child’s serious education began at two. Even a little boy was supposed to be competent in light chores, and by the age of six he was supposed to accompany his father on easy deer hunts to learn what he could. A little bow was made for him at two, and by three he was supposed to be able to hit prairie chickens. At six he was supposed to kill birds regularly and to furnish part

of his food. The motivation here was one of education and discipline, of “making a man early,” instead of being truly economic, as the child was led to believe. **At the age of ten such parental pretense was over. A boy should then be able to kill bison calves with a regular adult bow. At such an age he should be able to make his own bow and twine his own bowstring. The father, aided upon occasions by the uncles, was the chief boy trainer.”**

6.4.8 Omaha

Dorsey, J. O. (1884). Omaha sociology. Bureau of Ethnology, Third Annual Report, 1881-82, 205-370 , 4 plates. p.265-266.

“§ 95. Child life.—The girl was kept in a state of subjection to **her mother**, whom she was obliged to help when the latter was at work. When she was four or five years old, she was taught to go for wood, etc. **When she was about eight years of age, she learned how to make up a pack**, and began to carry a small pack on her back. If she was disobedient, she received a blow on the head or back from the hand of her mother. As she grew older, she learned how to cut wood, to cultivate corn, and other branches of an Indian woman’s work. When a girl was about three feet high, she used to wear her hair tied up in four rolls, one on top of her head, one at the back, and one at each side. This lasted till she was about six years old. The girl manifested the most affectionate regard for her parents and other near kindred.”

6.4.9 Pawnee

Dorsey, G. A., Murie, J. R., & Spoehr, A. (1940). Notes on Skidi Pawnee society. In Anthropological series (Vol. 27, Issue 2, pp. 65–119). Field Museum Press. p.94.

“The early training of the child was largely in the hands of the grandmothers, who took it upon themselves to give instruction in tribal and family ethics. They assumed the right to enforce their injunctions and commands by blows or by the use of the whip, and it is claimed that in former times, before the Skidi had been modified through contact with white men, the rearing of children was very strict and they were often scolded and severely punished by the father, mother, or grandparents. Aside from the deference young children were supposed to pay adults, they were taught to show respect for their parents by not molesting them, to remain silent when older people were talking, to refrain from approaching too closely the altar in the earth lodge, and

carefully to avoid making a disturbance about the scenes of ceremonies. During this period an older sister might assist in correcting the child. **As a boy grew older he was given technical instruction by his grandfathers in the making of bows and arrows**, in the playing of games, etc. **Girls were taught by their grandmothers to prepare food, to dress hides, and to do the work which fell to the lot of women.** This early training was often supplemented by the telling of myths containing some moral precept. For example, the child was told not to steal, the point being especially illustrated by the tale of the boy who stole his sister's seed corn, and, because he grew angry for being scolded, turned into an eagle. This particular story also has reference to the respect and affection with which siblings were taught to regard one another. Brotherly love was specially emphasized. Boys were told that in later years they should love their brothers even more than their wives, for there is a well-known saying among the Skidi that at a man's death his brother will mutilate himself with grief and his sister cut her hair and mourn sincerely, but his wife will simulate tears by spitting in her hands, while she peeps through her fingers looking for another husband. [Also stated elsewhere as: "Brother and sister will mutilate themselves, but your wife will never throw a piece of her vulva in your grave."] Love and respect of parents were also emphasized as something to be maintained throughout life and never neglected, for the duties of parents to children and children to parents never ended."

6.5 Southwest and Basin

6.5.1 Eastern Apache

Opler, M. E. (1941). An Apache life-way: the economic, social, and religious institutions of the Chiricahua Indians. University of Chicago Press. p.64.

"The influence of the maternal grandparents is not limited to oral instruction. While the younger men are hunting or raiding and the younger women are away gathering food or getting wood and water, the care of the children and the performance of camp tasks fall to the older people. **The grandfather makes arrows, ropes, and many other objects. Often his grandson watches him or even assists him. The grandmother cooks, sews, and weaves baskets, occasionally pausing to explain her methods to her granddaughter.**"

p.76

"But the young girl's principal concern is to assist the women in those tasks not beyond her

strength and to receive continual instruction from them. They indicate to her the plants useful for food, artifacts, and medicine and teach her to gather materials and to dry, store, and prepare them. **“A girl is taught to sew moccasins, weave baskets, make clothing, and cook. Her mother and grandmother begin to teach her as soon as she is old enough to understand, and by the time she is fifteen she is well educated.”** ”

p.28

“All adults feel the responsibility for furnishing the child with information appropriate to his age and sex: **The boys watch the men when they are making bows and arrows; the man calls them over, and they are forced to watch him. The women, on the other hand, take the girls out and show them what plants to use for baskets, what clay for pots. And at home the women weave the baskets, sew moccasins, and tan buckskin before the girls.** While they are at work, they tell the students to watch closely so that when they reach womanhood nobody can say anything about their being lazy or ignorant. They teach the girls to cook and advise them about picking berries and other fruits and gathering food.”

Stockel, H. H. (1991). Women of the Apache nation: voices of truth. University of Nevada Press. p.76-78.

“**“My mother also taught me how to sew.** I can remember when my mother would make clothes for us out of feed sacks and flour sacks, the pretty flowered ones. She saved them and made dresses and blouses for us. That’s what we used to wear to go to school. She sewed them by hand, and later the government was giving out Singer sewing machines. She had one and later on used to sew with it, but I took a sewing class. The school used to take us to El Paso to that class, where I learned how to make quilts and dresses. We used to get materials and threads and things like that in El Paso. It was cheaper there. I was ashamed of my shoes, but I used to wear them all the way to El Paso.” [Shoes?] “Yes, the government gave us a pair of high-topped black shoes with laces clear to the top. Some of us cut them down to the ankles, like slippers, and some just wore them like they were. When I was old enough to go to school in a pair of shoes like that, I cut mine down. I was ashamed of them. Not too long ago I sewed a puberty dress for my granddaughter, Janice Enjady, and she had her feast in it about two years ago. I’m planning on making another one for my other granddaughter, Kimberly, for her ritual ceremony.” ”

p.114

“As a young girl, Blossom Haozous played Indian baseball, rode horses, and went swimming with other children. She made dolls out of old rags and learned to do beadwork by watching her aunt. It was a time when Apache women gathered willow branches and empty tin cans from the soldiers. They wove sturdy baskets from the willow and decorated them with cone-shaped jingles made by cutting out tiny pieces of metal from the cans. No doubt Blossom Wrat-ten watched the older women weave and line with pine pitch the jugs into which the water she hauled would be poured; she recalled having to walk a quarter of a mile to the village well. She had no chores actually connected with farming but did remember many things about farming, including the mules.”

p.18 “Education of the children was a major duty of a mother and her female relations. At the age of puberty, most boys were taken from their mothers and trained in masculine endeavors by their fathers; women remained solely responsible for instructing their daughters in such skills as preparing the meats brought back from a hunt, tanning hides and making them into clothing, and basket weaving. 50”

p.75-76

“Elbys Hugar doesn’t want to talk about the bad times in her life. Instead, she prefers to describe **her mother, Alta Treas Naiche, and list the various traditional handicrafts she learned from her mother: beadwork, making cradleboards, moccasins, Indian dolls, leggings, and puberty clothing.** “My mother was a very culturely lady who died in 1960, at sixty years of age. She spoke in Apache all the time and taught me a lot of Indian medicine, and Indian foods. We’d go out in the woods and stop by a plant. She’d tell me this is good for this, and this is good for that, and then she told me how to prepare the medicine. We’d go along a ways and see some more, and we’d stop there and she’d tell me some more about it. She knew a lot of plants to use for medicines for different kinds of diseases, and she talked a lot about how some of her people were saved from sicknesses by using Indian medicines for rheumatism, as an example. Nowadays the Indian ways of healing have become important to modern medicine because many people go through a lot. Stress, emotional things. And some people think they’re sick when they’re not. However, if someone really gets sick and they think they are not sick, they’ll recover right away,” she said. “This has worked for me many times. Another thing, you should never think about the past. Think about the future, how you’re going to live happy, and think about the good things—your friends, your relatives. Think about the good side of them, don’t think about the bad side.

Maybe they've been in trouble or something happened to them a long time ago. Even if you know about these things, think about the good side of the people. Then, they'll gradually get better and turn themselves into a great person."

6.5.2 Havasupai

Spier, L. (1928). Havasupai ethnography. In *Anthropological papers of the American Museum of Natural History*: Vol. v. XXIX (pp. 81-392 p). The Trustees. p.324.

"Basket making is taught to girls of seven to nine years. As attendance at the government school interferes with the old process of training, it is difficult to observe today what progress may be: a girl of sixteen made an execrable basket; three years later her work was average. A left-handed girl has also been taught.³"

p.322-323

"Instruction is quite sporadic and incidental. So far as their elders express what they consider proper formal instruction, it is objurgation and admonition to behave and to be industrious.

Children are taught to talk and walk. When they begin to walk, we tell them: "Go fetch this thing for me;" thus telling the names of objects. Then they will know how to talk as people do. When girls begin to talk, their mothers instruct them how to fetch water and wood: "That is the way I carry things." They teach them to grind corn: "When growing things are ripe, you must gather them. That is what a woman does. When you are grinding for the first time, look for the rat's burrow and observe how he has piled up the dirt at the entrance; then when you grind corn or seeds, make your pile of meal a little larger than that." When the girl is old enough to marry, her mother tells her, "When you marry, do not loiter about the house, but bustle around gathering plenty to grind so you will not starve. You should have plenty of corn, pigweed and sile' seeds, piñon nuts, mescal, and prickly pear." That is how an old mother teaches her daughter when she is ready for marriage. If women gather plenty to eat, they will prosper. "When you are married and have a camp of your own, do not be angry if someone comes to your house, and do not fail to give them some of whatever food you have. Do not be angry with your husband's relatives. If you are, they will all say, 'Your wife is no good.' They should not have cause to say this. You should be good to all of them, then they will all be good to you and care for you. They will help your husband make a good living for you."

They instruct the boys similarly. When a boy begins to walk and talk, they tell him, “You will have to gather armsful of wood or fetch water. When you are playing about, do things just as you will when you are grown. You should now hunt rabbits so that later when you are older and hunt deer, you will be able to kill them. If you are able to bring home deer every day, those who are wise will say, ‘He is a pretty good boy.’ ”

Sometimes, although they instruct a boy, he disobeys; he is lazy, and that is wrong. “If you are lazy you will not have anything; you will be poor.” **The old men taught the boys, showing them how to make their garments and the woman’s dress.** After they were instructed, they made some for themselves. Then when a boy married, he knew how to make a dress and moccasins for his wife. That is how the old people used to instruct them.

When my father was alive he taught me everything just as he had been told when young. “Do thus to straighten an arrow, thus to make a bow or arrowheads, to feather the arrows, to bind them with sinew, just as I do; then you can carry them hunting and kill game. Do just as I: I will not live much longer. Or, when I am old and blind, I will not be able to make any more for you, so you had best learn quickly. This too is the way I make moccasins, pants, shirts, and leggings. I will teach you everything I know about things to wear. If I were a boy like you, and my old maternal grandfather was telling me about these things, I would do as he said.” ”

p.323-324 (contextual information)

“Since success in hunting depends more on skill than on charms, explicit instruction is given to the boy. His father or paternal grandfather is the proper guide, but (paternal?) uncles may offer casual instruction. Nicely made bows are sometimes presented by a grandfather, and all seasons, particularly the autumn when the quail abound, see the boys practising marksmanship. While boys are still young they are taught by precept. They were first taken hunting when about ten years old, shown the deer tracks and “parks”, how the game stands and walks, and how to crawl up to it and shoot. Boys of this age are cautioned not to smoke until they have killed their first coyote.¹ When a youth first kills a deer unassisted, he lets it lie, returning home to fetch his grandfather, or some other ancient. The old man flays and butchers it, and he, not the boy, eats the cooked liver.²”

6.5.3 Hopi

Dennis, W. (1940). The Hopi child. D. Appleton-Century Company, Incorporated, for the Institute for Research in the Social Sciences, University of Virginia. p.50.

“Girls also play at pottery-making, shaping small pots and actually firing them out of doors. This sometimes accompanies the pottery-making of a mature woman, but as the shaping and firing of pottery is only an occasional activity at Hotavila, the girls frequently perform the sham pot-making by themselves.”

p.85

“By the fifteenth year, the girl progresses to the more difficult kinds of cooking. She can now make piki and somiviki, two of the most complex products of native culinary art. **She is also beginning to make plaques of the kind which are made only on Third Mesa.** The boy progresses in the learning of the practical arts in which the men engage in the kiva. **He may learn to card and to spin the wool, although as yet he is scarcely able to weave. On the other hand, he has mastered fairly well the intricacies of knitting and is making socks and sweaters.** At this time, he may be clearing some farming plots and may be cultivating them by himself. So long as he is single and lives with his father and mother, the produce of these fields is brought home and becomes the property of his mother, but his fields will later support his own wife and children.”

Titiev, M. (1944). Old Oraibi: a study of the Hopi Indians of the Third Mesa. In Papers (Issue 1, pp. xi, 277 , plates). Kraus Reprint Co. p.20-21.

“Early in life a girl is taught by her mother to grind corn, to plaster houses, to make piki bread and other foods, and to carry and take care of her younger brothers and sisters. A mother also gives a daughter lessons in weaving (Third Mesa) or coiling (Second Mesa) baskets and plaques of siva’api. In former times girls were taught to make pottery, but this is now restricted to First Mesa.”

Voth, H. R. (1903). The Oraibi Oaqol ceremony. In Publication (pp. 5, 46 , plates). Field Columbian Museum. p.36.

“The women engage in considerable basket-making throughout the day, as they have to provide not only those to be used by them and the novices in the dance, but also a good many to be distributed as prizes. Some of the novices assist in the manufacture of trays, being instructed

by the women (See Pl. XVI). This is a very tedious work, and the women complain a great deal about sore hands and aching bones.”

Beaglehole, E., & Beaglehole, P. (1937). Notes on Hopi economic life. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 15, pp. 2, 88). Pub. for the Section of Anthropology, Department of the Social Sciences, Yale University, by the Yale University Press; H. Milford, Oxford University Press. p.20.

“A boy accompanies his father to the fields from an early age onwards, learning by precept and practice all there is to know of agricultural lore, technique and ritual—how to judge soils and prepare them for crops, how to terrace and dam an arroyo wash, how to plant and tend garden and orchard, how to care for livestock, how to recognize the nature and extent of land boundaries. From his hunting godfather, from listening to winter hunting stories, and in accompanying hunters on expeditions he learns the skills and rituals of the experienced hunter. **Then in the winter months, after the boy has become proficient in the more prosaic activities, he is taught how to spin, dye and weave wool and cotton, how to tan leathers, make moccasins, and how to carry out other crafts in which his paternal relatives may be specially skilled.**

The girl learns, by similar methods and through constant association with women of the household and related clanswomen, all there is to know about domestic duties and care of the children, how to prepare foods, the qualities of different colored corns, the uses of herbs and wild plants, the arts of basketry and pottery. In the old days she would be taught basketry only after marriage for fear that otherwise she would not be sufficiently proficient at grinding, cooking and baking. For the girl, as for the boy, the process of acquiring sophistication is largely one of imitative absorption of the techniques required for the work which the elders expect the children to perform.”

Bradfield, M. (1973). A natural history of associations: a study in the meaning of community. International Universities Press. p.25.

“Much of the education of the child is unformalised, in terms of play—‘most things a boy just teaches himself’, Hopi say. But such self-teaching is aided by personal advice and, as the child grows older, by more formal instruction. **From the time of a boy’s katçina initiation, that is from about the age of 6 or 7, 1 a boy begins to accompany his father to the fields and learns from him how to judge soils and prepare them for crops, how to plant and tend fruit trees, how to care for livestock, and how to perform the ritual on which the fertility of both field and**

livestock depends. From his hunting ‘father’, he learns the skills of the experienced hunter, and in the winter months, after he has mastered these everyday activities, he starts frequenting his father’s kiva; there he is taught how to spin and weave wool, how to dye cotton and to make moccasins, and how to dance.

In much the same way, through constant attendance on the women of her own household and matrilineage, a girl learns all that she needs to know about domestic duties and the care of children; how to prepare foods, the qualities of different coloured corns, the uses of herbs and wild plants. Above all, she must become proficient at grinding and baking, for in the old days no girl was considered ready to marry until she was skilled in these arts, especially in the making of pi’ki; indeed, the four days’ grinding that precedes the head-washing ceremony in marriage serves as a test, both practical and symbolic, of the bride’s fitness to undertake her new responsibilities. 3”

Talayesva, D. C., & Simmons, L. W. (1942). *Sun chief: the autobiography of a Hopi Indian*. Pub. for the Institute of Human Relations by Yale University Press; H. Milford, Oxford University Press. p.54-55.

“We liked meat and ate almost any kind that we could get. The old people showed us how to make deadfalls to catch kangaroo rats, prairie dogs, porcupines, badgers, chipmunks, squirrels, and turtledoves. The men used heavy rock deadfalls for trapping coyotes, foxes, wildcats, and other large animals. Sometimes they went long distances to hunt bear and deer. Whenever they killed a large wild animal they brought the carcass home, covered it with a wedding robe, smoked mountain tobacco before its nostrils, and asked for forgiveness. They also prayed to the godmother of wild animals to send us more game. They formed large parties on foot or horseback and hunted rabbits with dogs, clubs, and curved throwing sticks. **We little boys made snares of horsehair to catch birds. I learned to catch bluebirds with a hair from a horse’s tail set as a snare on the upper stem of a sunflower stalk, with a worm for bait.** We also practiced shooting at birds and small animals with bow and arrows. But we were told never to kill any creature that we did not intend to eat.”

Wyckoff, L. L. (1988). *Third Mesa Hopi ceramics: a study of the ceramic domain*. University Microfilms. p.286-287.

“The kin relations of the Corn Clan potters are shown above and the “teachers” of the various potters are named. Except for Vera, perhaps because of her move to Hotevilla, all the potters

learned from preceding generations. **No diagram, however, can indicate the constant exchange and learning that also take place among contemporary potters. Terry and Betty, for example, constantly help each other, as well as their mother.** At one time or another all the Style A potters used Terry's electric kiln. Vera and Amy frequently work together and, on occasion, pass pieces back and forth for "help." These potters identify as teachers those of an older generation from whom they learned but in fact they may learn as much from contemporaries who offer help.

The three Style B potters are all Progressives. Lucy and her daughter are members of the Fire Clan. Lucy learned from her mother's sister and then from her mother-in-law from First Mesa. Lucy taught her daughter Cindy, who is now married to Nelson from Second Mesa. Lucy and Cindy occasionally pay Terry to fire their pottery in her kiln and, at least on one occasion, Cindy painted one of Terry's vessels for her. The third Style B potter is Loren from Upper Moencopi. Like Lucy, her husband Samuel is from First Mesa. **Loren learned potting after she was married, from her husband's mother's sister.** Apart from her First Mesa colleagues, Loren has no contact with other Hopi potters and was apparently unaware of any at Oraibi, although she "had heard" that some pottery was made in Hotevilla. In contrast to Lucy and Cindy, Loren is a Mennonite and her husband is a member of the Church of Jesus Christ of the Latter Day Saints. Samuel is also involved in the traditional religious activities of First Mesa."

6.5.4 Maricopa

Spier, L. (1933). Yuman tribes of the Gila River. In The University of Chicago publications in anthropology; Ethnological series (pp. xviii, 433, 15 plates). University of Chicago Press. p.104.

"Maricopa and Halchidhoma made pottery (kwlyoma't) in exactly the same way. **This was wholly a woman's occupation and a year-round task. They began at the art quite early: for instance, a five-year-old girl was seen following the mannerisms of her mother.** She worked up a ball of mud, beat it flat on the bottom of an old pot with a paddle, and pinched up the sides to form a tiny vessel, which she set in the sun to dry."

p.323

"Girls were trained to carry little burdens balanced on their heads when they were but two years old. Later they assisted their mothers fetching water before sunrise. Girls of four could grind seeds very nicely, it was said: they were wakened when it was barely light and set to work on

a basketful. A girl must show her proficiency at grinding such an amount at her marriage. **I observed a little girl of five at play making pottery. Working with a ball of mud, she paddled it into form and pinched up the sides to form the vessel with the characteristic motions of an accomplished potter.**"

6.5.5 Mescalero Apache

Boyer, L. B., & Boyer, R. M. (1972). Effects of acculturation on the vicissitudes of the aggressive drive among the Apaches of the Mescalero Indian Reservation: Vol. Vol. 5 (pp. 40–82). International Universities Press. p.60.

"When he was about twelve, the boy became a novice in war and raid training. Then he kept his knife and bow at his side while sleeping. He could sleep no later than the appearance of the morning star and had to awaken during the night to look about. A shaman was hired to perform a ceremony which would ensure his success and safety. **He was taught to make his own hunting and warring gear and ceremonial paraphernalia.**"

Opler, M. E. (1969). Apache odyssey: a journey between two worlds. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. 18, 301). Holt, Rinehart and Winston. p.61-62.

"Natsili was really a good leader in all things. He showed us how to hunt, to ride horses, to make saddles, bows and arrows, ropes, quirts, head bonnets, shields, and many other things; and in the making of these things he showed us what to use, the stoutest buckskin and sinew that would last a long time. He also told stories, such as the Coyote stories, the moccasin game stories, the tales of the killing of the monsters, the rearing of Water's Child, and of the Foolish People, and also some stories about one of the Chiricahua Apache bands.⁷¹ And we sat there days and nights listening. Sometimes we'd get sleepy. A head would begin to go forward; a boy would be asleep. Rap! he'd get it on the head, and that head would come up again. He tapped me on the head many times. I stayed longer than any of them. All the other youngsters would go, but I would stay. My father, Swinging-Lance, and others also used to tell us boys stories."

p.59 (contextual information)

"Natsili was a great leader after that. He was a chief when I came back from being a prisoner of war. He was one of those who was forced by the agent to have his hair cut, but he didn't say anything, and he was issued clothes and blankets.⁶²

His band had been the last of all the Mescalero bands to surrender. There were many Mescalero still outside raiding. They were said to be from his band, and he tried to bring them all in. He was taken prisoner because he was supposed to be leader over these raiders, and he was kept at the agency. He was told to bring them all in or he would be made a prisoner again. So he moved his band back to the mountains and gathered all the rest of them together and led them all back to the agency.⁶³”

6.5.6 Navajo

Adair, J. (1944). The Navajo and Pueblo silversmiths. In *Civilization of the American Indian series* (pp. xvii, 220). University of Oklahoma Press. p.89-91.

“In regions like Zuñi, Smith Lake, and Manuelito, the traders keep the smiths busy with orders for the greater part of the year. The more silver a smith can turn out, the greater his income; therefore, **it is to his economic advantage to teach the art not only to his sons, but also to his daughters and his wife.** They will increase the family income in direct proportion to the amount of silver they make. Women whose husbands make only a small amount of silver are not apt to learn the art.”

“If a Navajo learns how to make silver from a relative, he does not pay for his instruction. **He asks a relative to teach him to make silver, and in return he assists the master smith with his work.** The [90] advantages are mutual—the apprentice learns a craft which will yield an income to him in the future, and while he learns, the experienced smith is enabled to increase his own income by turning out more silver. Or, to state this the other way around, the experienced smith asks one of his relatives to help him with his work, and in return for this help, he is willing to teach the craft to the assistant. This state of affairs exists in the regions where silver has been extensively commercialized and where a smith needs help with his work. In fact, such smiths often retain the services of their apprentices after they have gained skill in the art. **A smith is considered skilled in the craft when he has mastered the art of soldering.** Charlie Bitsui paid Francis Yazzie ten dollars a month for helping him. Peter Roans learned from his cross-cousin, John Hoxie, and when he became skilled, he was given money enough to buy clothes at the post, and in addition scrap silver and turquoise. Suski helped his father, Chai Begay, and in return his father made occasional gifts of small amounts of money.”

The novices often work for a master smith for several years. In the meanwhile, they save their money and buy their own tools. **It is often two years, and sometimes longer, before a smith has a sufficient number of tools to set up his own shop and work independently.**

“Many silversmiths have learned the craft just by watching other smiths at their work. When I asked Charlie Houck from whom he had learned the art, he replied: ‘No one taught me, I just learned myself. I watched other fellows make silver, then I went [91] ahead and made some myself. I was able to do everything but solder and I learned how to do that from Red Mexican.’ **Many smiths have learned the art in just that way, with no formal instruction of any sort, but it is considered dishonest if one smith watches another without telling him that he wants to learn.** I asked Atsidi Yazzie how he learned. He said: ‘I didn’t learn from any one person. I just picked it up by watching different smiths at work. I stole the art from some of those smiths. I watched Atsidi Chon make silver, but he didn’t know that I was learning while I was watching him. Then when he went away for a day or so I would go over to his hogan near Klagetoh and use his tools and solder to make some buttons and other things out of my own dimes and quarters.’ ”

p.87-88

“When a Navajo man wants to learn how to make silver, he goes to a relative for instruction. Only if there are no silversmiths among his blood relatives or among his relatives by marriage, will he turn to an outsider for instruction. This seldom happens, as most Navajo have at least one relative who knows the art. If a man’s father knows the craft, he will be the one from whom he learns. If the father does not make silver, the man will go to a brother, or failing that, he will seek instruction from another close relative, a mother’s brother, or a mother’s father, or even a mother’s mother’s brother. Less often will he learn from a cousin or a father’s brother.”

...

“If a young man has a father who is a silversmith, he will begin to help him with the work when he is about fourteen years old. By that time he will be strong enough to help hammer out the silver and do other bits of work that require only a limited amount of skill. If the father is a smith, the son does not make a choice of whether or not he wants to learn silversmithing, for his helping is a routine activity, just as fetching wood and water or herding the sheep. As he grows older and becomes more experienced in working the metal, his father gives him more work to do, and within a period of a year or two he is able to make silver by himself and sell it at the trading post. Because he finds this work profitable, yielding an income in the form of credit at

the store, [88]with an occasional cash payment, he continues to work at the art.” ”

p.55

“**“Tom first learned the art of silversmithing, when he was twenty years old, from his half-brother, John, a man eight years older than he, who lives in a hogan several miles to the north. It took Tom just about a year to learn the craft;** that is, it was that long before he was able to master the fundamental processes such as hammering, soldering, filing, and die-working. Within that time he had learned how to make fairly good bracelets and buttons of a simple type. The first pieces he made were some buttons which he gave to the children of his sister, Nazbah. Tom learned to do only wrought work from his brother, but he learned to cast silver from Left-Handed Red, and old silversmith who lives at Houck, down on the highway. Tom watched this man do casting for one day; then he was able to cast for himself. He paid Left-Handed Red a bracelet for letting him watch him at work.” ”

p.73-76 (contextual information)

“After the silver had cooled for about ten minutes, Tom told me that it was ready to pound. Gripping one end of the bar with pliers, I held the bar over the anvil and pounded down on the metal. I had given it just two blows with the hammer when the silver flew out from the pliers and landed three feet away. Tom laughed. I hammered once more. Tom instructed me to strike the blows at an angle so that the edge, and not the flat end of the hammer head, would hit the metal. After half a dozen blows, the silver again flew out from the pliers, this time hitting me in the head. Hammering had always looked very easy. As I had watched smiths at work, I had realized that it was tiring work and that it took a certain amount of strength, but I thought there was no trick to it. One just pounded.

Before that first day was over, I learned that **there is a great deal of skill in hammering properly.** One doesn't just pound. Every stroke has to be directed. If he does not hammer evenly, the silver spreads more at one place than at another, and twice as much time [75] and effort is spent in trying to get the bar back into shape. Holding the silver with the pliers is most difficult at first. With every blow there is a jar on the hand in which the pliers are held. This sets the beginner on edge. If he grips the silver too tightly, he tries himself out, mars the metal where the tool grips, and does not allow sufficient 'give,' a failure which causes the metal to fly out of the pliers. If he does not hold it tightly enough, the metal flies out anyway. Only experience teaches just how hard to grip the silver.”

“Tom Burnside had agreed to teach me how to work silver, so one morning I arrived at his hogan ready to start work. When he wanted to know what I would like to make, I asked him what would be best for a beginner, and he advised me to make a bracelet. Then he asked me whether I wanted to begin with silver or learn first how to work copper or lead. **He said that many Navajo smiths worked at copper or lead before they started on silver, because those metals were cheaper and easier to work.** When I told him that I wanted the feel of working silver, he gave me one and one-half slugs and told me to melt them. I placed the silver in the crucible and lighted the torch. Tom said that a small amount of silver may be melted with the torch; the forge is usually used only when melting three or more slugs at a time. I held the muzzle of the torch, slanting at an angle, to one side of the crucible; but Tom told me that the torch should be held above the crucible so that the heat would spread evenly over the whole surface of the silver. Then he placed the ingot mold near the crucible, propping it up against a tool, explaining again that the mold must be hot when the silver is poured in, or the metal will cool too rapidly, and crack when it is pounded.”

p.79-80 (contextual information)

“There are **individual differences** in the way silversmiths work. In many respects Charlie’s work differs from Tom’s. While the finished pieces that each makes conform to Navajo traditional patterns, there are differences in their technique. There are differences in the way they handle their tools, in the way they pound the silver, and in the way they melt it. These variations are due to differences in the way the smiths originally learned from their Navajo teachers. Each smith developed his own style of working, and once a pattern was formed, it was adhered to. Muscular co-ordinations became fixed as habits. When Charlie wrapped a piece of wire around two pieces of silver which were to be [80] soldered together, he always held one end of the wire in his mouth, leaving one hand free to hold the silver. Tom never used his mouth, but rested the silver against something while he tried the wire. This is only one of many differences in their working methods. There are probably as many differences in the muscular habits of silversmiths as there are individuals who follow the craft.”

p.88-89 (contextual information)

““The majority of the women work at the craft as assistants to the men [Plate 23B]. Usually they help their husbands by grinding and polishing the turquoise, setting the stones, and doing other tasks similar to those performed by Charlie Bitsui’s wife.(2) But on [89] occasion women also

help their fathers or their brothers with the silver. It is from one of these three relatives that the women learn the craft, and the husband is usually the teacher. The Navajo smiths who work at the craft during the whole year, those whom I have called professional smiths, are the ones who teach their wives to make silver.” ”

p.91 (contextual information)

“Many silversmiths do not like other Navajo to watch them while they are working because they do not want their art stolen. They guard their method of making solder as if it were a trade secret. There are many ways of making it, different proportions of ingredients being used on silver of various fineness.” ”

p.202-203 (contextual information)

““The eighty smiths questioned averaged thirty-five years of age. Only ten were more than fifty, while forty-seven (58 per cent) were less than forty years old. **Sixty-three smiths out of eighty answered the question: ‘How long have you worked at this craft?’ The average was fourteen years. This indicates that the smiths learn the art at around twenty-two years of age.** However, one-third of the craftsmen questioned have known the art for five years or less, a fact which indicates that in the last five years there has been an increase in the sales of Navajo reservation-made silver that has prompted the traders to hire more craftsmen. A dealer in Gallup attributed the increase in sales [KSC: of Navaho-made silver] to the government regulations which exclude manufactured Indian silver jewelry [203] from the National Parks. The silversmiths on the northern and western reservation average forty-four years of age. These smiths, who make silver on occasion for their own people and not for the traders, have, in many instances, known the art of making silver since the early days of the craft.” ”

Mitchell, approximately, Rose, & Frisbie, C. J. (2001). Tall woman: the life story of Rose Mitchell, a Navajo woman, c. 1874-1977. University of New Mexico Press. p.204.

“Of course, my mother and I were always weaving when we weren’t busy doing other things, and we’d tell the girls to sit and watch us. We’d show them how and let them try, too. My mother helped teach Ruth to weave and to respect the loom and all the weaving tools; she taught her to take care of those things properly because that was part of learning to weave, too.”

p.47

“At night, after herding the sheep, we’d grind corn. All of us did that, including my mother, but at night, she was usually busy weaving, or taking care of the younger children who were around. She taught all of us to use the grinding stones. My father used to watch us; he’d tell us to grind it up real fine, and to make sure we fixed enough of it. He liked the foods my mother fixed, and he encouraged us to learn all those things from her. Some of them he even knew how to make himself; it was just like the weaving. **He knew things about that, too, and later, when I was raising my own children, he taught my oldest daughter, Mary no. 1, lots of things about weaving. I, of course, instructed her in that too, by telling her to watch me. But my father actually showed her how to put up the loom and start making rugs.**”

p.117

“My father started making small looms for the children, and he and my mother showed them how to set those up and how to start a small rug. He even made looms that were little enough for them to carry them around while they were herding; he did that for my children and also for all of their cousins who were moving around with us at that time. And he made small battens and combs, the other things you need if you’re going to use a loom. He made all those in small sizes, to go with their small looms. My father as well as my mother did lots of weaving in those days. A lot of the old men used to do that, but then it died out and only the women kept it up. Of course, I was weaving too, whenever I wasn’t busy with other things. In the years Frank was away freighting, I worked very, very hard at weaving lots of rugs. It was the main thing I was using to support my children; it was the only way I had of raising them in those days. And the other women who were living with us were also weaving all the time. So, all of us kept encouraging the children to watch and learn how to do that.”

p.118

“I remember my mother was still making pottery in those days; sometimes my father and mother would let my girls come into the separate hogan they used for that and sit and watch them do that, too. They also helped me gather the sheep dung used to fire those. So they started learning how to do all the things involved with making pottery, too, during that time.”

p.119 (contextual information)

“But with basket-making, it was different. My parents kind of discouraged them from learning that, telling them it was too much work and there were too many restrictions surrounding it

for them to start making those. They let them watch when they were making baskets but they discouraged them from trying to learn. On account of that, I don't think they ever learned much about basket-making."

p.170

"As my children grew up, I told them to sit and watch when I was weaving. That was after they were old enough to herd the sheep and had learned to help wash the wool, and do the carding and spinning. I tried to teach them all the things that go with making rugs, everything you have to do to get the yarn ready to start weaving, even making dyes from plants. And when they got old enough, they helped the adults shear. Frank knew how to put up looms and he used to do that for me, and my mother, too. We, of course, knew how to make our own and sometimes we did that, too, when he was gone somewhere."

Mitchell, F. (1978). Navajo Blessingway singer: the autobiography of Frank Mitchell, 1881-1967. University of Arizona Press. p.157-158.

"Our grandparents taught me [Mary Davis] and my sister Mary (who died after going to school in Albuquerque) lots of things, like how to weave, make all the parts of the loom and put it together. They taught us how to put up the loom; they showed us how to make a little loom first and how to carry it around while we worked on our rugs. Our first rugs were just awful; they were all out of shape and everything. But our grandfather did not scold us; he just said to keep trying. As we learned how to weave, he helped us make bigger and bigger looms.

...

Man Who Shouts and his wife taught us lots of other things too. My sister Mary and I used to watch the two of them making pottery. They would let us come into a separate hogan which had to be used in making that pottery and let us sit in there and watch the whole process. We would gather the sheep dung for them for the firing. Man Who Shouts would go and bring in pine pitch and just bake it into that pot. When that was done, they would boil some water in that pot and then kill a lamb or a goat kid and cook it in that pot. Then that pot was ready for everyday use. Our mother also knew how to make pottery, and she used to help our grandmother and grandfather with that when we lived with them."

Shepardson, M., & Hammond, B. (1970). The Navajo Mountain community: social organization and kinship terminology. University of California Press. p.105-106.

“The principal craft in Navajo Mountain is weaving, an occupation usually of women. One hears now and then of a man who weaves, but this is so unusual that he may be suspected of being a transvestite or latent homosexual. No men weave in Navajo Mountain, but two men relatives, living elsewhere, were mentioned as weavers. Men make the upright loom that is set up each time a new rug is begun either in the hogan if it is cold weather, or outside under a brush shade (ramada), if the weather is warm. Making rugs is a leisure-time occupation, and often weaving is begun when the household is in want of cash. Rugs are sold to the traders and the money belongs to the weaver, but as with other forms of income in a household, the payment may be used to settle family bills or buy clothes for the children.

Every woman in Navajo Mountain knows how to weave, having learned the art as a child from an older woman, her mother, her mother’s sister, or her mother’s mother. Most Navajo Mountain rugs are small, rough horse blankets, but a few women know how to create fine rugs. One person alone conceives the design and controls the making of the rug, although others may help out under the weaver’s direction.”

Bailey, F. L. (1942). Navaho motor habits. In *American anthropologist*, n.s.: Vol. 44 (pp. 210–234). American Anthropological Association, etc. p.232-233.

“Children have been observed learning motor habits in two ways: by unconscious imitation, and by the definite effort of an adult to teach them a specific skill. One informant says that she is teaching her seven year old daughter to weave. She has already shown her how to card and she does it fairly well. She adds that some girls don’t need to be taught because they learn by watching, but her daughter had to be taught. One man said that when boys are old enough [sic] to handle the equipment properly, they are taught silversmithing and moccasin making.

A two year old boy was being taught by his father to shake a rattle in this manner. The man crossed his legs, tailor-fashion, and placed the boy in his lap in the same position. Reaching around him, he put the rattle in the boy’s hand in the proper position and made the shaking movement several times with the boy’s hand. He sang as he did this. At the same time across the room the boy’s grandmother made shaking motions calling to him to imitate them. After much encouragement he finally did shake the rattle a few times by himself, and was praised.

A two year old girl was being taught to grind flour by an older sister, who placed the child in front of her at the metate with the child’s hands between her own on the mano. As the older girl ground, the child’s hand moved with hers.

Frequently a child is given a piece of dough to play with while the woman is kneading the bread. The child tries to imitate the motions of the woman in shaping the tortilla. Usually there is some slight evidence of success, but the attempt ends by the child eating the dough raw, or throwing it away.”

Tschopik, H. (1941). Navaho pottery making: an inquiry into the affinities of Navaho painted pottery. In *Papers of the Peabody Museum of Archaeology and Ethnology*: Vol. v. 17 (Issue 1, pp. 85, plates). Peabody Museum of American Archaeology and Ethnology, Harvard University. p.46-47.

“It obviously would be unwise to draw sweeping conclusions from the data at hand. There are, however, **in the learning-teaching relationships involved in both pottery and basketry (8) manufacture, some indications that young girls tend to learn the crafts rather from the maternal grandmother (or her sisters) than from the mother.** Dr. Kluckhohn informs me that it is his observation that the bonds of relationship between maternal grandmother and granddaughter [sic] are apt to be extremely close. On the other hand, it has been pointed out above that in several instances the mothers did not manufacture pottery at all. It is difficult to interpret this situation in view of the obsolescent nature of the craft under consideration, and it seems not unlikely that the picture has been somewhat warped because of this factor. Whether or not the maternal grandmother-granddaughter relationship rests primarily upon clan affiliation or upon actual blood kinship, it is impossible to determine from the data. However, it has been pointed out elsewhere in respect to the learning of song ceremonials that ‘there is little evidence that clan, as such, is a factor of importance in the initiation of the teacher-learner relationship.’ (9)

“The initiative in the establishment of the teacher-learner relationship might be taken by either of the individuals involved. **A young girl might aid her grandmother in the collection and preparation of the raw materials, in this way gradually absorbing the details of pottery manufacture (14 and 36).** (10) 10. Hill states: ‘The knowledge of the art was acquired early in life. Children of five or six were told to watch their mothers and grandmothers as they worked, and were given lumps of clay with which to imitate the actions of their elders. As they grew older they made small pots under supervision and were corrected when they made errors’ (1937, p. 11). In other cases, the training assumed a more formal aspect, as illustrated by the following accounts of informants 32, 15, and 192. I learned to make pottery over on the other side of Gallup at a place called bahasa. My maternal grandmother told me that it would be a good way to make

money to buy my things with. (11) 11. The extent to which trade in pottery was formerly carried on is difficult to determine at present. Informant 15 recalled these prices received for pottery: a big sheep and a lamb for a small cooking pot; a second-hand pendleton blanket for a medium sized cooking pot. She sat with me and helped [47] me until I learned how. At first I started with a little painted bowl, because this is the easiest kind of a pot to make. I had a hard time learning because my first ones used to split all the time before they were ready to bake. My first pot wasn't very good; it took me about a year to learn (32)."

p.46 1-3

"A girl began to learn to make pottery some time between the ages of eleven and fifteen. (6) Whereas in each case the girl had actually reached the age of puberty before acquiring the ability to make pottery, informants stated that there were no restrictions against learning before that time (15, 32, 192).

The teacher-learner relationship seems to have been a rather informal one, the basis of which appears to have been primarily blood kinship. In five cases, the girl learned to make pottery from her maternal grandmother (or her sisters). (7) In a single case, that of the maternal grandmother of 36, the girl learned from her actual mother. This instance, furthermore, is subject to some doubt since the individuals involved were the informant's grandmother and great-grandmother. In five cases, the mother of the girl did not make pottery at all, whereas in two cases the mother made pottery also.

It obviously would be unwise to draw sweeping conclusions from the data at hand. There are, however, in the learning-teaching relationships involved in both pottery and basketry (8) manufacture, some indications that young girls tend to learn the crafts rather from the maternal grandmother (or her sisters) than from the mother. Dr. Kluckhohn informs me that it is his observation that the bonds of relationship between maternal grandmother and granddaughter [sic] are apt to be extremely close. On the other hand, it has been pointed out above that in several instances the mothers did not manufacture pottery at all. It is difficult to interpret this situation in view of the obsolescent nature of the craft under consideration, and it seems not unlikely that the picture has been somewhat warped because of this factor. Whether or not the maternal grandmother-granddaughter relationship rests primarily upon clan affiliation or upon actual blood kinship, it is impossible to determine from the data. However, it has been pointed out elsewhere in respect to the learning of song ceremonials that 'there is little evidence that clan, as

such, is a factor of importance in the initiation of the teacher-learner relationship.’ (9)”

p.46-47 2-3

“Another informant related: At the time when I learned to make pottery, I was herding sheep for my maternal grandmother over at Piñon Springs below Two Wells. One day I came back toward the hogan and saw a woman named ?axánába? grinding something—this was clay. Soon this woman began to stir up the paste. **My grandmother told me that I could sit around and watch so that I might learn how to do it. I saw everything. The reason they were making the pottery away from the hogan and not right in it was so that they could be away from the singers and the people who had been sung over many times. This was the first time I ever saw anyone making pottery.** Sometimes I used to make little pots for the fun of it. After that I used to help my grandmother grind up the clay and mix the paste. She would call me over to where she was working and give me a little dish. Then she showed me how to mix the clay with water and how to stir it. She told me that the paste was done when you could see the temper in it. I never got the job done like my grandmother wanted me to do it—so she had to help me. She made fun of my first pots and said that I did a poor job of it. The bottom of my first pot was wrong, and it wouldn’t stand up straight. At this time I started making pottery (15).”

Kluckhohn, C., Hill, W. W. (Willard W., & Kluckhohn, L. W. (1971). Navaho material culture. Belknap Press of Harvard University Press. p.36.

“At one time every man and boy probably owned arrows; there are now few (seven in 1945) who do. A large number of men have the requisite knowledge and skill to **make arrows**, but the generation represented by Inf. 256 may be the last to do so. **He learned the art from his father when he was about thirteen**, and has made arrows as recently as the summer of 1940. **He said that all of his friends knew how to make them, each having learned from his father.** There is no evidence, however, that children today are taught to make arrows, or are practicing archery.”

Parezo, N. J. (1982a). Social interaction and learning in the spread of Navajo commercial sand-paintings. In navajo religion and culture: selected views (Issue 17, pp. 75–83). Museum of New Mexico Press. p.78-81.

“As shown in Table I, there was little difference in the learning patterns of men and women. **Commercial sandpainting is one of the few Navajo crafts in which manufacture has never been restricted to one sex. Men were slightly more apt to watch and then experiment independently**

than were women, and there was also a tendency for men to teach more formally than women, especially when those men had either attended or completed high school. All mentors who taught more than one person tended to use multiple methods of instruction, however. Their children usually learned to make sandpaintings by watching, while clan relatives or visitors were often shown the process more formally. Those people who began because of social obligations to the instructor tended to be taught more formally.

Thus, the technical aspects of the art of commercial sandpaintings were learned, by and large, in informal situations, often by watching and self-instruction combined with some criticism, or by varying amounts of verbal instruction combined with experimentation and practice. As expected, this type of informal or non-institutionalized learning reflected interaction patterns. Most new sandpainters learned from their relatives, especially members of the nuclear family.

As Table II shows, **relationships between teachers and students (those learning to paint) were overwhelmingly kin-based. Ninety-four percent were taught by affinal or consanguineal relatives.** This reflects the nature of Navajo communities, which are small and rural in character; almost everyone can establish some sort of consanguineal or affinal relationship with others in the area. Sixty-five percent of the learning relationships occurred in the informal context of the nuclear family with the neophyte being taught by siblings, parents or spouses. This reliance on the family was more evident for women than men, although it was the dominant pattern for both. Almost three-fourths of the women learned in the context of the domestic household, while only a little more than half of the men did so. This is because women often learned from spouses while helping their husbands with their work, while men frequently learned from clan brothers. When learning occurred outside the immediate household of the neophyte, the focus for both sexes was on one's own clan relatives and affines rather than on one's father's clan relatives or "miscellaneous relatives," those who did not belong to either clan but to whom a relationship could be traced. Learning from affines was especially important for women, second only to the importance of the spouse and family of orientation as sources of this technical knowledge.

The kin-based student-teacher relationships reflect the importance of the nuclear family and the dominant matrilineal pattern of Navajo social organization, as well as its variability. One still calls upon and visits members of one's own clan before turning to others for assistance and companionship (Lamphere 1977). All women who learned from an affine other than their husbands

were either living with the husband's kin group, visiting or being visited by an affine who was a friend. The pattern apparent for men was that they generally visited clan-related households and then returned home to teach male and female members of their own households.

While both men and women learned primarily from male teachers, just as Navajo silversmiths do, there was no significant relationship between the sex of the teacher and the sex of the student. "Cross-sex teaching," in which a man teaches a woman or a woman, a man, was just as likely as "same-sex teaching" among commercial sandpainters. This is a unique finding for Southwest Indian arts and crafts; teaching in other crafts tends to be woman to woman or man to man, reflecting the sexual division of labor. For example, weaving among the Navajos is a female craft; women teach other women to weave, and, while a man will occasionally learn to weave, he will rarely become a teacher of this craft. Navajo commercial sandpaintings were produced almost equally by both sexes, a situation still rare in other crafts, although more Navajo and Zuni women are becoming silversmiths. This is a new pattern in the Navajo sexual division of labor, particularly interesting since so few women help make sacred sandpaintings (Wyman and Kluckhohn 1938).

As mentioned above, however, both men and women learned primarily from male teachers. By 1978, male painters had taught 64% of the new sandpainters. The importance of the marital relationship as a source of learning was reflected in this pattern, particularly if the teacher had instructed only one other person; in such cases, a spouse relationship was primary. Twice as many men as women were master teachers, those who had taught eight or more sandpainters. By 1978, these master teachers (3% of all sandpainters), who began to paint before 1970, had taught 37% of all Navajo sandpainters, often in apprenticeship situations or in those involving the teaching of young clan relatives. Women tended to teach siblings and children.

The learning patterns and the teacher-student relations characteristic of commercial sandpainters differed from those involved in the learning of ceremonial knowledge but were extremely similar to those characteristic of learning silversmithing, another commercial craft. Kluckhohn (1939), with a sample of 30 singers from Ramah, New Mexico, found that 18 men learned from consanguineal kinsmen, 1 from a stepfather, 5 from affinal relatives, and 6 from non-relatives. Unlike commercial sandpainters, a Navajo singer was more likely to learn from a paternal kinsman than a matrilineal kinsman or an affine. While kinship is important (Aberle 1966:45), there is little evidence that clan is an important factor in the teacher-learner

relationship (Kluckhohn 1939:65). The rationale for the selection of relatives of any kind over non-relatives is partly economic. Every ceremonial performance requires a “fee,” and in the lengthy, formal process of learning a ceremonial the apprentice must pay a “fee” to his or her teacher. Students likewise must give presents and other tokens of appreciation to a non-relative teacher on other occasions (Aberle 1967). If the teacher is a close relative, the only payment a student gives may be the remuneration at the end of the apprenticeship when he or she is sung-over in the ceremony learned, a practice which validates the singer’s new status. The more remote the kinship bond, the more remuneration the established singer may demand. Apprentice singers therefore tend to select kinsfolk as teachers.

Commercial sandpainters also tended to learn from relatives rather than non-relatives, but for reasons other than those cited above for singers. For commercial sandpainters there was no “learning fee”; only six of the 307 gave gifts to those responsible for instruction in construction techniques. Fifteen others reimbursed their teachers through money or work for the designs because they equated these with sacred knowledge, rather than viewing them as nonsacred derivations. Patterns of residence and daily contact were more important in learning commercial sandpainting techniques; the family, rather than either the mother’s or father’s clan, was the primary source for dissemination of knowledge.

While learning to work silver followed a pattern similar to that for transmission of ceremonial knowledge (in that learning was primarily by formal verbal instruction in which the trainee assisted his or her teacher and traded teaching skills for this help), teacher-student dyads in silversmithing were more like those for commercial sandpainters (see Table II). The main difference was that women smiths did not teach in the 1930s (Adair 1944: 89–92). And, unlike apprenticeships for ceremonial training, smiths usually paid their apprentices, just as commercial sandpainters did. Smiths often remained apprentices for several years, however, while no commercial sandpainter remained in a formal learning situation for longer than one year. The differences between the learning patterns and practices associated with commercial sandpainting and smithing exist, in part, because the former art form has changed from a ceremonial to a commercial one, and also because it is easier to learn. Thus, emphasis on the immediate family rather than the clan, the dominance of the male as teacher and entrepreneur, friendship patterns, and convenience (being in the home of another painter while he or she is working) all affect the learning patterns of commercial crafts among the Navajos. These factors, in turn,

affect how a new idea spreads across the reservation.”

p.77 (contextual information)

“Seven sandpainters asked young relatives and/or their wives for aid when they had more orders than they could fill. (Store owners usually asked established painters for large numbers of variously sized paintings.) These “apprentices” or helpers ground the sand and cut and prepared boards in return for a minimal wage. **Instruction was often step-by-step. After mastering the first step, the neophyte made backgrounds, placed stencils on top of boards, and made major cuts for the designs. After a while, usually a year, the helper made and marketed sandpaintings individually.** Approximately 10% of the sandpainters learned in this pseudo-apprenticeship manner.”

p.139-140 (contextual information)

“Sex, however, is not a variable to be discounted in the diffusion and development of commercial sandpaintings. There are subtle but important differences in learning patterns and motivational factors which can only be explained by sex of maker. While both sexes are taught by a wide range of methods, women tend to be taught more formally than men. Both sexes are taught primarily by relatives, but women are more likely to be taught by parents, siblings and spouses, while men are more likely to be taught by parents, siblings, and clan relatives. This means that men are more apt to be responsible for the diffusion of the knowledge to other communities both on- and off-reservation. The flexibility in learning patterns is also evident in the fact that cross-sex teaching is as prevalent as same-sex teaching — a pattern which is unique among traditional Southwest Indian crafts. This reflects the flexibility of the Navajo system of labor and also shows that functional differences are so great between sacred and commercial sandpainting that the formal similarities in the art forms are not the determining features.”

Parezo, N. J. (1982b). Navajo sandpaintings: the importance of sex roles in craft production. *American Indian Quarterly*, Vol. 6(nos. 1 & 2), 125–148. p.133.

“While sex of maker was not a crucial factor in the founding of the craft, it was not unimportant in the manner in which the craft spread. **Learning to make sandpaintings followed personal networks, primarily through kinship and friendship patterns. Painters learned by both informal and formal methods ranging from self-teaching to “pseudo” apprenticeship situations. As would be expected with this type of variability, the most common method of learning was**

between these two extremes. Usually, the new artisan would watch an established painter, experiment by him/herself, and occasionally receive formal verbal instruction or criticism when needed (Parezo, 1982).

This range of variation existed for both men and women; however, men were more likely to watch and experiment on their own. Women were more likely to receive formal instruction. There was also a tendency for men who taught a large number of individuals to have a “studio” with apprentices. Such teachers usually had completed high school and were possibly recreating a formalized classroom situation, although most teaching was done informally in the household of the painter.

Both men and women were usually taught by a member of their nuclear family or by a clan relative. This, of course, reflects the nature of Navajo society and the rural nature of Navajo communities, where most friends are relatives. While this reliance on the family was dominant for both sexes, it was even more noteworthy for women — almost 3/4 of the women learned the craft in the context of the domestic household, while slightly over half the men did. This finding reflects the reliance of women on their husbands for training and also the tendency for a woman to start painting because her husband needed help. Men, on the other hand, were likely to learn from clan brothers outside their own homes, which had important implications for the spread of the craft. Men would learn in the home of a relative, then bring the new skills back to their own homes; from there, it would spread internally to other household members.”

Hartman, R. P., Musial, J., & Trimble, S. (1987). Navajo pottery: traditions. Northland Press. p.10-11.

“The act of making the pottery presents additional opportunities for strengthening family ties. In earlier times, potters usually worked in isolation from other family members, but occasionally, young girls were allowed to observe their grandmothers or mothers at work and were urged to follow their examples. Pottery-making skills are still handed down within families, but many of today’s potters have learned from relatives other than their grandmothers or mothers.

The relationship between teacher and student is very important in Navajo society and should not be overlooked. **In the past, the relationship with one’s grandparents was especially significant in preserving the Navajo language, group values, and other traditions such as weaving.** Before most children attended daily schools and lived in towns, they spent long periods at home

with their grandparents, who would relate traditional Navajo stories, instruct them in their native language, and teach them Navajo ways and traditions. As we shall see in a later chapter, the breakdown of this teacher-student relationship may have been one of several factors contributing to the decline in Navajo pottery production beginning in the late 1800s.

Once a pottery vessel has been made, polishing, firing, and applying a coat of pitch are other steps that are now sometimes shared by family members. **In the course of these activities, an elder member of the family might further relate stories from the oral history that tell about the significance of each step. Also, by involving themselves in the various stages of pottery making, younger members of the family gradually learn the proper way of making pots."**

p.37

"The Navajos may have been slow to adopt the Anglo cash economy, but the barter system, upon which the early trading posts were built, was quite successful in helping them to acquire all sorts of Anglo products. The gradual buildup in Navajo households of Anglo-made cooking and storage containers not only lessened the need for handmade pottery, but also undermined the native pottery tradition in another way. **Whereas in pre-Fort Sumner times, potters routinely passed on their pottery-making knowledge and skills to the next generation of young women, the widespread availability of Anglo trade goods planted the seeds of disinterest in even learning the craft among the younger women."**

Downs, J. F. (1972). The Navajo. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. vi, 136). Holt, Rinehart and Winston. p.117.

"In Nez Ch'ii almost all adult women are weavers, and the rug trade is an important element in the economic life of the area. The standard rug sizes are single and double saddle blankets, that are either approximately 30 x 30 inches or 30 x 60 inches. Larger sizes are regularly woven by the more expert or ambitious weavers. Rugs measuring up to eighteen to twenty feet are occasionally offered. Such an enterprise often requires the work of two or more women and takes more than a year to complete. When contemplating such a rug, the weaver first consults the trader. If her reputation at her craft is good, he arranges to subsidize the work until the rug is brought in, its value being weighed against trade goods advanced and the difference paid in cash or kind. Such rugs often cost the trader from one to two thousand dollars in trade goods and sell on the outside for upwards of four thousand dollars. Although most weaving is done in the summer when the weather is mild enough to allow the weaver to work outside, rugs are

produced throughout the year. A homestead group boasting a few able and energetic weavers is fortunate in having a source of regular although not very high income. A saddle blanket can be finished in a day, but larger rugs require weeks or months, so the hourly income of a weaver is not at all high. **Girls learn weaving in the same informal manner in which other skills are taught, by watching their mothers and aunts and older sisters. They may be taught to card wool when still toddlers, be instructed in spinning before they are ten, and begin experimenting on small looms well before they reach puberty.** When their work is judged adequate, it is taken to the trader. No matter how uneven and badly made the rug may be, he is wise to make an offer and thus not offend a supplier.”

6.5.7 O’odham

Underhill, R. (1939). Social organization of the Papago Indians. In Contributions to anthropology (Issue 30, pp. xii, 280). Columbia University Press. p.46.

“SIBLING CLASS. Siblings were brought up in the same one-room house but a sex distinction began very early. **Boys followed the men, learning to hunt and to till the ground, girls kept with the women, gathering food, fetching wood and water, grinding corn and making baskets.** The fear of the menstruating woman caused a separation between the two groups so that even husband and wife were seldom together during the day. Boys played together and, when they wanted more companionship, sought out their male cousins who generally lived near. Girls formed a group with their female cousins.”

6.5.8 Tewa Pueblos

Jacobs, S.-E. (1995). Being a grandmother in the Tewa world. American Indian Culture and Research Journal, Vol. 19(2), 67–83. p.73.

“Red Clay Basket stopped working on pottery in about 1982. Prior to that time, **she had taught her techniques to her daughters and some of her granddaughters. Two daughters became potters; no granddaughters have become potters. I have observed Red Clay Basket’s grandchildren and great-grandchildren of both sexes forming pottery pieces while in their sayaa’s care.** When their pottery pieces were finished, they were included among the bowls, plates, and

other items she either took to the Santa Fe Indian Market or sold to the traders who used to come to the house to buy pottery and carvings. The money was given to the children.”

Whitman, W., & Whitman, M. W. (1947). The Pueblo Indians of San Ildefonso. In Columbia University contributions to anthropology (Issue 34, pp. x, 164). Columbia University Press. p.46-48.

“No effort is made to alter a child’s rate of growth. If one is quicker than another, his training is not retarded, and if one is slower or less willing to learn than another, he is not forced to reach or maintain another’s pace. Clever children are not “shown off,” since cleverness is regarded as a matter of luck. Nor are backward children criticized, since backwardness is also attributed to “luck.” Depending on their aptitudes and desire to learn, children are taught skills while still quite young. **A mother shows her daughter how to cook, how to look after the house, and how to make pottery** and such other skills as she may possess; **a father takes his sons to the fields to work as soon as they can be of help to him. He may also show his boy how to paint, how to decorate pottery, and how to make moccasins.** A boy learns from his father how to ride and how to care for livestock. In all these matters a child usually receives encouragement from nearly all members of the household who are qualified to give advice.

No child is forced to learn the native skills and techniques against his will, and children up to the ages of ten or thereabouts spend most of their time in play. If a small girl does not want to make pots, she need not learn to do so, for people feel that to force a child to do something distasteful to it is to make the distaste permanent. Rather, the family waits until the sight of other children earning recognition by potmaking will make the child keen to learn. Moreover, girls as they grow older soon come to appreciate how important potmaking is in the economy of their lives. But while young children are not forced to acquire adult techniques, this is not true of older children. **We were told that, if a child of over ten refuses to learn the art of pottery, pressure will be brought to bear,** because “parents want to turn out children capable of earning their own living.”

The actual process of teaching pottery making is indirect. If a little girl comes into the house while her mother and aunts are working, she is welcome to take some clay and experiment with it. The child is not asked or forced to begin making any particular shape, but can do as she pleases without comment. If she asks for help she will receive it; otherwise her mother will not interrupt her own work. If the child leaves her pot half-finished and goes off to play,

nothing is said, and she is not called back to finish what she began.”

6.5.9 Ute

Opler, M. K. (1963). The southern Ute of Colorado. In acculturation in seven american indian tribes (pp. 119–206). Peter Smith Publisher. p.131-132.

“A child’s instruction begins at first at the hands of older siblings of like sex, and is later supervised, more systematically, by his parents, their siblings and grandparents of the same sex. A girl learns that women do the household tasks, gather all vegetable food, and care for camp equipment. Until now, she has crudely imitated her elders in child’s play. Around the age of five or six she is given small jugs and cradles as playthings, and adults in all mock seriousness begin to treat her on occasion as a grown-up. **About three years later, actual instruction begins in the tasks assigned to women. Gradually she learns how to tan hides; to make baskets, clay pipes, and pitch-lined basketry jugs; to sew and repair clothing;** dry meat; haul wood and carry water. Before puberty she usually helps tend a baby sister or younger cousin and watches the making of its cradle. **When older and stronger, she helps pitch the tipis and build the brush summer lodges, sew the tipi covers, govern the instruction of younger girls,** and make wooden cups and ladles. Girls are taught these techniques as soon as possible. At puberty, around fourteen or fifteen years of age, they are capable of entering into adult economic life to the fullest extent.

At the same time, **men instruct boys** in the tasks reserved for males. The men in Ute society were expected to spend most of their time in hunting, chiefly by the stalking method; in fishing; in clearing the camp site and gathering tipi poles; in butchering meat; **in making rope** and building fires; in supplying the family stock of arrows, shields and weapons in general; when alone, even in cooking.”

6.5.10 Western Apache

Roberts, H. H. (1929). Basketry of the San Carlos Apache. In Anthropological papers of the American Museum of Natural History: Vol. v. 31 (pp. 121–218). American Museum of Natural History. p.133.

“Each generation of daughters learns from the mothers and grandmothers how to make the much-used basket utensils. After having mastered the technique sufficiently to justify more

particular undertakings, the young women can begin to manufacture for the tourist trade, if they choose, but it is the old women (sometimes they are blind) whose work is most prized.

Undoubtedly, of late years the demand has largely created the supply of specimens showing superior workmanship as well as striking designs, a host of which are ultra-modern and utterly lacking in symbolism. These are human and animal figures, which always seem to attract immediate attention. They are in no sense historical and although a story often accompanies them, it seldom bears any intimate relation to the true mythology or life of the tribe. Such attempts at realism have crept in quite recently and their interpretations are usually "manufactured." Restricted in outline as such figures are by the medium of expression employed, really good results are rarely achieved."

p.142 (contextual information)

"Basket-making is taught to a girl by her grandmother or mother from the time she is five or six years of age. She is first given young plants of the e-ka-ie co-še, a yucca (the spiny points of which are chewed off in order that they may not hurt her), the leaves of which she learns to interweave. The first style of basket that a young girl learns to make is the tha tca (burden basket). Coiled basketry, intended for sale, she does not learn to weave until quite grown. 2"

p.172 (contextual information)

"Here again, as with the other types, the characteristics of the makers are easily detected. The Indians evince traits quite like our own. To some individuals evidently a beautiful artistic piece of handiwork was a joy; they delighted apparently in carefully made, shapely forms, and lavished upon these all of their creative genius. Heavier, cruder, more durable products are the indication of practical, purely utilitarian traits in their makers. Some quite carelessly constructed baskets seem to reveal the slovenly habits of those who manufactured them. But on the whole, the technical and artistic average is very high, and the work so uniform that it seems with few exceptions the result of one woman's labor. This, perhaps, is due to the fact that most of the women, while only employing their spare time in making baskets, are really occupied in this way much more than white women in their leisurely pursuits are occupied with one craft. With the Indian woman, there is usually only one such occupation. This accounts, somewhat, for the high standard reached by so many. In addition it must not be forgotten that it has been carried on for generations and that the younger women profit by the teachings and experience of their mothers."

Basso, K. H. (1983). Western Apache. In handbook of north american indians. southwest: Vol. Vol. 10 (pp. 462–488). Smithsonian Institution: For sale by the Supt. of Docs., U.S. G.P.O. p.474.

“Fig. 8. Girls constructing a miniature camp of sticks and grass, consisting of several dome wickiups and 2 square shades or ramadas. Wickiups were used primarily for sleeping, ramadas for most domestic activities. **Girls also played at cooking and weaving baskets and with dolls. Boys were encouraged at an early age to play at riding horses and hunting with small bows. Most forms of play were patterned on essential adult activities and so served as a kind of informal training for subsequent responsibilities.** Photograph by Aleš Hrdlička, Rice School, San Carlos Reservation, 1900 or 1905.”

Goodwin, G., & Basso, Keith H. (1971). Western Apache raiding and warfare: from the notes of Grenville Goodwin. University of Arizona Press. p.226.

“**The oldest man would teach his relatives how to make bows**, and they would make them the way he told them. If a man started to make his own bow he could not make it the way it should be. They made a string for it and tied the string to it. The old man would test the bow. He would draw it. If it drew too hard, he would look at it and if he found it was too thick on one place, so it drew hard, he would tell them to make this place a little lower.”

Buskirk, W. (1986). The Western Apache: living with the land before 1950. In The Civilization of the American Indian series: Vol. v. 177 (pp. xiv, 273). University of Oklahoma Press. p.119.

“Later in his childhood the informant hunted small game with other boys. Rabbits, birds, squirrels, rats, and mice were all hunted with the bow and arrow. Birds’ nests were raided. Some boys made fires and cooked and ate their game, but this informant always dutifully took his home.

He was shown how to make bird blinds by his father. **An old man carefully taught him how to make a rock deadfall trap.** Boys listened raptly to the tales of an old hunter.”

Goodwin, G., & Goodwin, J. T. (1942). The social organization of the Western Apache. In Ethnological series (pp. xx, 701). The University of Chicago Press. p.470-471.

“Until puberty, girls’ and boys’ clothing was made for them, usually by parents or other members of the family. **At puberty, or sometimes a year or so before it, a girl was shown by her mother how to cut and sew her own clothes. The pattern was marked on the buckskin and the girl told to cut along the lines so that she would make no mistake. Girls and boys of fifteen, or slightly more, were taught to cut and sew their own moccasins. Most of them had watched**

others doing this but lacked the skill to try it themselves without instruction. In spite of these instructions, young people ordinarily were helped with their clothing until they married. Anna Price said of buckskin-making:

When I was a little girl I often used to watch mother making buckskin. But you can't learn to do it by just watching. You have to do it yourself. Working on buckskin was too hard for a little girl. She had to be big and strong to do it. After a girl has had her first menstrual period, she is taught this kind of work. While she is graining the hide, another woman stands there and watches her to see that she does it right. That's the way it was with me. My mother watched me the first time while I was learning, but after that I did it all by myself.

Girls over twelve or thirteen very often helped in the building of wickiups, as sometimes boys of this age did, though by the time a youth was seventeen or more he was too conscious of the fact that house construction was woman's work to take very active part in it.

Girls first learned basketry from their mothers just before puberty and probably helped in basket-making of all kinds at sixteen. But it was not until after marriage that they really began basketry in earnest. The best basket-makers were always older women, skilled from experience. No information was obtained on the learning of the pottery technique. Such utensils as knives, drills, manos, and metates were usually not made until after marriage, as they required considerable skill and patience and were not needed in the quantities that basketry and buckskins were.

When a boy was seven or eight, he usually had his first small bow and arrows made for him by some older relative, such as a maternal grandfather, and at the same time he was shown how to use them. **Two years later he was ordinarily able to make his own bow and arrows.** But it was usually not until after marriage that a youth had enough skill to make himself really good weapons. Concerning ropemaking one old man said:

A boy didn't make his own ropes of rawhide or horsehair until he was twenty or more, when he started going on raids and to war. He would need a rope of his own then. As a boy of eleven or twelve, I used to help older men make these ropes, rolling the strands on my thigh. Two men, one of them head chief of the biszáhé clan, and whom I called maternal grandfather, used to get me to help them do this because they were clan relatives of mine. "Help me twist this," they would say. That is the way I managed to learn about it, just through helping."

6.5.11 Zuni

Hardin, M. A. (1989). Zuni pottery. In seasons of the kachina: proceedings of the california state university, hayward, conferences on the western pueblos, 1987-1988 (Issue 34, pp. 133–163). Ballena Press. p.154.

“This is precisely what did happen at Zuni. In the 1930s Catalina Zunie taught pottery making classes in a local school (Hardin 1983:37). **Young Zuni potters also continued to learn their art in the context of family manufacture.** Today the Zuni pottery tradition is taught in the community’s schools as well as within some families.”

7 Oceania

7.1 Australia

7.1.1 Aranda

Basedow, H. (1925). The Australian aboriginal. F. W. Preece and sons. p.85-86.

“The boys are early in life schooled in the practices of carpentry, so far as they are applied to the making and shaping of domestic utensils and weapons with the few crude implements at their disposal.

Further, they are instructed in the knacks and arts of [86] handling and throwing weapons of chase, attack, and defence. The lads take to this instruction enthusiastically. For instance, whilst being taught the art of boomerang-throwing, one might daily see a youngster, even in the absence of his master, posing in the attitude demonstrated to him, without actually letting the piece of wood, which answers the purpose of a weapon, go out of his hand (PlateXIV, 1).

Boys are not allowed to handle real boomerangs, spears, or shields before they have undergone the first initiation ceremony. If they did so, the offence would be looked upon as an insult to the dignity of the men who have qualified and are thus entitled to the privilege of carrying such weapons on parade. The offence is in fact, on a point of decorum, similar to the case of a fellow in the ‘rank and file’ wearing the sword or insignia of his superior officer.”

7.1.2 Tiwi

Hart, C. W. M. (Charles W. M., & Pilling, A. R. (1960). The Tiwi of North Australia. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. xii, 118). Henry Holt and Company. p.49.

“Baskets made of bark with gummed sides were made by the women, but the painted designs upon these baskets were applied by the men, in line with their monopoly on all work that required paint. These baskets of various sizes but little variation in shape were used for all domestic tasks involving the collection, storing, transporting, and preparing of vegetable foods, and were sufficiently watertight to enable water also to be carried in them. Ordinary wooden spears (without barbs or painted designs) and a great variety of throwing sticks were made by all men, young or old, but important old men bothered with them very little, considering such routine manufacture beneath them. These workaday spears and throwing sticks lay around every camp in abundance, and a man who needed spears or sticks in a hurry could always gather up a bundle in a few minutes. **Small boys picked up the techniques of making spears and throwing sticks by spending time with older boys who in turn improved their skill both in making and using hunting weapons by spending time with the local young men.**

Although much of this learning was fairly random, other instruction was not. During his initiation period a youth spent long intervals isolated in the bush with a couple of older teachers from whom he received training in religious and ritual matters. At the same time, of course, it was inevitable that the novice absorb some of the older men’s experience in bushcraft. There was no corresponding initiation period for girls. What they learned, they learned first from the older women of their childhood household and later from the older women of the husband’s household into which they moved as child-brides after puberty. **In all households the supervision by the elderly women of all younger women included the training of both female children and young wives in the things all females should know—things which were mostly concerned with collecting and preparing vegetable foods and the making of baskets.”**

7.2 Melanesia

7.2.1 Kapauku

Pospisil, L. J. (1958). Kapauku Papuans and their law. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 54, pp. 296, plates). Published for the Dept. Anthropology, Yale University. p.40-41.

“Approximately at his seventh birthday, he experiences a radical change in the educational efforts of his parents, who start to focus upon transforming this female like individual into a male. Now the little boy is invited by his father to spend the night in the men’s room. In the beginning, the boy sleeps a few nights with the father and then returns to the mother’s quarters. As time goes on, he sleeps more and more often with his father. Finally, spending the night with the mother becomes the exception to the rule. Also, he eats with the menfolk of the household, gets a stronger bow from his father, and abandons the fishing net. His apron is exchanged for a small “ koteka, a penis sheath,” made of a long gourd held in position by a string which goes around the waist of the little body. Then, wearing the garments that adult Kapauku use, the boy is teased into more prudishness in the presence of women.

At this time the mother’s command vanishes and for it is substituted more intensive control by the father. He scolds more severely and even uses a stick to make the son obey. Nonetheless, the punishment is never harsh. The father is usually lenient with his son, and it is primarily the child’s love, respect, and admiration for the parent which are the stimuli for the boy’s education. The child’s training is never over-intensified and is more sporadic than constant. Often it depends on the boy whether he will follow the parent to the field where he will be taught to clear the underbrush, to cut trees, and build fences. Every now and then the father and son will spend an afternoon in discussing the value of different types of currencies, pig raising, current prices of different merchandise, and the way to become rich. These abstract discussions, illustrated by the father’s own experience, are enjoyed by the eagerly listening boy, who is already aware of the importance of economy and wealth. The parent also enjoys these talks which help bolster his own ego. He tells his son about his exploits and success which, because modesty is a value in this culture, he cannot discuss with his male relatives or friends, and which his own wife, if told, would not believe anyway.

The boy is ready to learn the skills his teacher has mastered. **Making bows and arrows, rolling string on the thigh, making nets, roasting gourds for penis sheaths, polishing stone axes and**

stone knives, and chipping flint by percussion are a few of the many subjects a Kapauku man-in-the-making has to study. When the opportunity arises and a new house is needed, the boy may learn how to cut trees, to split logs, and to use an ax and two wedges to make planks. He may also be permitted to help with the construction of the house itself. **Jobs requiring great strength are not taught until the boy reaches about fifteen years of age. Then he is shown how to hollow out a huge log with an ax and shape it into a canoe, how to smooth the floor of the canoe with the same tool changed into an adz, how to make holes for the long vines which are used for pulling the craft to the lake or river and for mooring it.** It is also at this time that the boy, for the first time, tackles the soil of the valley's bottom lands to carve out a drainage ditch with a wooden, leaf-shaped, spadelike tool. **Hunting with bow and arrow, setting traps, and cutting up of the animals, though explained by the father, are practiced in the adolescents' gang in a playful way until the boy becomes an expert in these arts.** During the long evenings the boy listens to myths, legends, and actual history told and discussed by the adult members of the household; thus he acquires the awareness of the time perspective which helps him make sense of his life."

p.42

"Part of the education is left to the older boys, who, in a playgroup, teach their young companions archery, trapping, hunting, climbing rocks and trees, netting, oratory, folklore, and all the tricks and games of which a Kapauku youth can think. The group of boys roams the swamps and practices shooting into " edege, a parasitic spiny plant with a tuberous stem." A ball made of grass, tied together with rattan and set afloat in the stream may provide a moving target for the young archer. A more elaborate game of shooting is called maki wagii . In this game two targets of bamboo screens, plastered with mud, are set about forty meters apart. The gang separates and the boys shoot reeds back and forth counting the hits: Fortitude is tested in another game, kimu kopa gokijai, a fight between two groups of boys who beat each other over the head with long thin sticks of reed, bamboo, or tree branches. The favorite game is " kimu tii, play war," between two parties fighting with haws and blunt arrows or reeds provided with a soft end section. To keep the war a game, the "warriors" are usually recruited from two neighboring villages of the same political unit; but sometimes boys from hostile clans may get mixed up in the fight and the play may turn into actual war and people be killed. Hunting rats is also a pleasant pastime as well as an educational experience. The skillful boy is rewarded by admiration from

the girls who are given his kill. The young hunter is tabooed from eating his first seven bagged specimens of each of the following animals: rats, birds, marsupials, and large rodents. To avoid sickness and to gain friendship, he presents this game to his sister or some other favored girl. Thus he not only gets recognition as a good hunter, but also gains approval for his generosity, the highest value in the culture.”

p.43

“The little girl follows her mother to the fields and learns how to weed, plant sweet potatoes and other vegetables, how to harvest, cook, roll string on the thing, and make nets with or without a bone needle. She continues to fish with her small net, but as time goes on her net is made larger and larger and, finally, she goes into the deeper waters after crayfish. She learns also to navigate a canoe by pushing it with a long forked pole, avoiding sunken logs and whirlpools in the river. This skill, when mastered, she utilizes in fishing and transportation as well as for pleasure. It is amusing for her to go by boat when she is captain and the boy plays the passenger’s role. The hunting accomplishments of her brothers are matched by her when she brings home delicacies such as dragonfly larvae, tadpoles, water bugs, and mole crickets. Like the boy, she too is tabooed from eating her first seven crayfish which she presents to her brother in expectation of admiration and of future remuneration of a fat bird or a rat.”

7.2.2 Kwoma

Whiting, J. W. M. (1941). *Becoming a Kwoma: teaching and learning in a New Guinea tribe.* Published for the Institute of Human Relations by Yale University Press. p.47-48.

“Children watch their parents make tools but do little such work themselves. Boys sometimes help their parents by fetching materials for various utensils, and girls begin netting bags before they reach adolescence, but otherwise toolmaking is restricted to older persons.

In general, **the Kwoma child discovers that it is necessary to work to get food, and learns, in part by observation and in part by participation,** the techniques that have been developed in the culture for producing it. He is forced to assume responsibility for some of this work, is allowed to help with other tasks if he wishes, and is definitely debarred from still others. Although this work is directed toward the satisfaction of hunger, the children cannot always appreciate this and must be coerced. **A Kwoma does not take full responsibility for many of the tasks un-**

til adolescence; then he learns by experience that no work means no food. The coercion, as we have seen, consists in scolding or beating the child for not doing the tasks expected of him, and in warning him of the dire consequences which follow an undesired act.”

p.46 (contextual information)

“Hunting is restricted entirely to men. Boys begin as soon as they reach the status of childhood, chiefly killing snakes and lizards. They usually kill these animals with sticks or stones, but sometimes capture them with a noose tied to the end of a stick, an implement which they manufacture themselves. Bows and arrows are known to the Kwoma, but they are poorly constructed and rarely used. A boy’s father usually makes him a small bow and some bird darts, and the boy then tries stalking birds. He never attempts a shot unless he can get within a few feet of the bird, and even then the poorly constructed arrow shot from a crude bow is likely to go wide of the mark. Despite the poorness of the weapons, some boys become remarkably adept at stalking. Mes, an adolescent who had won a name for himself as a good stalker, became my shoot boy. He had, of course, never fired a gun in his life, but I instructed him in its use and he took about a dozen practice shots at a target. On his first foray for pigeons he brought down three with only four shells.”

7.2.3 Malekula

Deacon, B., & Wedgwood, C. H. (Camilla H. (1934). *Malekula: a vanishing people in the New Hebrides*. George Routledge and Sons, Ltd. p.250-253.

“During these twenty days’ seclusion the candidates are taught how to make and play the pan-pipes (nesusur) (see Pl. XVIII B), a knowledge which is prohibited to women and unincised boys, though these may see and hear them. This instruction is not a chance amusement to keep the lads occupied, but forms a definite part of the programme; the pipes are regarded as having a certain “initiation value”. Other lessons there seem to be none, but the novices are made to witness at night a number of remarkable performances, innumerable and ingenious “hoaxes”, which serve to some extent to test them and train them in self-control. Such performances seem to be well-nigh endless in variety—their number depends probably on the creative imagination of the performers—but they are all more or less of a single type and they are all connected with ghosts. The following are descriptions of a few of them.”

7.2.4 Manus

Mead, M. (1956). New lives for old: cultural transformation—Manus, 1928-1953. *Morrow*. p.115-116.

“So I realized that I must discover how these gay Manus children turned into such unlovable and unloving adults. The children’s life was not a sort of holiday which stern adults permitted them in preparation for a hard adult life. Had it been, this would have made the whole process more explicable—like the behaviour of self-made men who want their children to have all the advantages they didn’t have, which over time may crystallize into a culturally patterned indulgence toward children, as it has in the United States. But the people of Peri, in 1928, were not generously according their children a happy carefree period as a preface to a later life of driven hard work. It was not a conscious and calculated mitigation of the hardships of life, like special treats at Christmas; it was rather an accident of the way in which Manus religious and economic life was constructed. Each household had characteristically only one protective Sir Ghost. Very occasionally some just-deposed ghost might be assigned to a male child instead of throwing him and his skull out altogether. But children on the whole had no ghosts to go about with them. As long as they were within the village, they were beneath the watchful protection of the series of Sir Ghosts of related households. When men went abroad they took their Sir Ghosts with them, but outside, and even inside, the village there was danger, and children were safest when close to their homes. The land was dangerous for children; there were crocodiles, snakes, cannibals, and the tchinals, the dangerous magical familiars of the land people. Fear of the land barred children from most of the work at which they would have been most useful—going into the bush in search of rattan, or leaves, going to market, running errands to the next village. **The manufactures that went on in the village were mainly canoe building and making fishing devices—highly skilled activities which children watched rather than participated in.** In the dangerous water world the care of small children was not left to older children; parents themselves took complete charge of babies and children under three. **As the girls grew older and were betrothed, they were drawn into the string-making and bead-stringing, grass-skirt-making and mat-making of the older women, but the boys were left free to play in the water all day long.** So Kilipak, reminiscing twenty-five years later, describes his childhood:”

p.131

“Similarly the art of war is learned by playful imitation. The men use spears with bamboo shafts and cruel arrow shaped heads of obsidian. The children make small wooden spears, about two and a half feet in length and fasten tips of pith on them. Then pairs of small boys will stand on the little islets, each with a handful of spears, and simultaneously hurl spears at each other. Dodging is as important a skill as throwing, for the Manus used no shields and the avalanche of enemy spears could only be dodged. This is an art which requires early training for proficiency, and boys of ten and twelve are already experts with their light weapons. The older men and boys, canoe building on the islet, or paddling by, stop to cheer a good throw. Here again, the children are encouraged, never ridiculed or mocked.”

p.132

“Of the techniques of handwork small boys learn but little. They know how to whiten the sides of their canoes with seaweed juices; they know how to tie a rattan strip so that it will remain fast; they have a rudimentary knowledge of whittling, but none of carving. They can fasten on a simple outrigger float if it breaks off. They know how to scorch the sides of their canoes with torches of coconut palm leaves, and how to make rude bamboo torches for expeditions after dark. They know nothing about carpentry except what they remember from their early childhood association with their fathers.”

p.366

“This interpretation can be partially tested out by the behaviour of children today. They are still learning physical skills early and capably, although they now learn to swim later than they once did. They still respond with great speed to cues given them by the activity of others. In any group rhythmic waves of motor imitation, sometimes a replica, sometimes a mirror image, are constantly passing through the group. They still alternate between a state of attention in which every muscle is quiet and only their eyes watch and a state of active imitation. But today they both participate in adult activities and engage in mimetic play. Children play house, they build very tiny houses and also houses big enough to get inside, and play at housekeeping. Children imitate the games of older children and adults, holding up small squares of cloth against the light of pressure lamps, as their elders have learned to do to make shadow-plays. As significantly, they now participate in adult work. When there is a party scraping paraminium nut to caulk a canoe, there is a whole cluster of children about scraping their small shares. **Small boys stand in line with the older men to move big canoes, sit beside the basket-makers making some smaller**

object. More significantly still, they attend with enthusiasm the adult ceremonial life which is superficially so much duller than the old ceremonial life which they used to ignore. They are the first to arrive at council meetings, sitting in solemn rows like swallows on a clothes line, quiet, intent, good. Swarms of them appear wherever anything is going on, and it is almost impossible to shoo them away."

Mead, M. (1930). *Growing up in New Guinea: a comparative study of primitive education*. W. Morrow & company. p.46-47.

"Little girls do very little fishing. As very tiny children they may be taken fishing by their fathers, but this is a type of fishing which they will never be required to do as grown women. Women's fishing consists of reef fishing, fishing with hand nets, with scoop baskets, and with bell shaped baskets with an opening at the top for the hand. Girls do not begin this type of fishing until near puberty.

Of the techniques of handwork small boys learn but little. They know how to whiten the sides of their canoes with seaweed juices; they know how to tie a rattan strip so that it will remain fast; they have a rudimentary knowledge of whittling, but none of carving. They can fasten on a simple outrigger float if it breaks off. They know how to scorch the sides of their canoes with torches of coconut palm leaves, and how to make rude bamboo torches for expeditions after dark. They know nothing about carpentry except what they remember from their early childhood association with their fathers.

But children have learned all the physical skill necessary as a basis for a satisfactory physical adjustment for life. They can judge distances, throw straight, catch what is thrown to them, estimate distances for jumping and diving, climb anything, balance themselves on the most narrow and precarious footholds, handle themselves with poise, skill, and serenity either on land or sea. Their bodies are trained to the adult dance steps, their eye and hand trained to shooting and spearing fish, their voices accustomed to the song rhythms, their wrists flexible for the great speed of the drum sticks, their hands trained to the paddle and the punt. **By a system of training which is sure, unhesitant, unremitting in its insistence and vigilance, the baby is given the necessary physical base upon which he builds through years of imitation of older children and adults.** The most onerous part of his physical education is over by the time he is three. For the rest it is play for which he is provided with every necessary equipment, a safe and pleasant playground, a jolly group of companions of all ages and both sexes. He grows up to be

an adult wholly admirable from a physical standpoint, skilled, alert, fearless, resourceful in the face of emergency, reliable under strain.”

p.44-45

“Similarly the art of war is learned by playful imitation. The men use spears with bamboo shafts and cruel arrow shaped heads of obsidian. The children make small wooden spears, about two and a half feet in length and fasten tips of pith on them. Then pairs of small boys will stand on the little islets, each with a handful of spears, and simultaneously hurl spears at each other. Dodging is as important a skill as throwing, for the Manus used no shields and the avalanche of enemy spears could only be dodged. This is an art which requires early training for proficiency, and boys of ten and twelve are already experts with their light weapons. The older men and boys, canoe building on the islet, or paddling by, stop to cheer a good throw. Here again, the children are encouraged, never ridiculed nor mocked.”

7.2.5 Siwai

Oliver, D. L. (1955). A Solomon Island society: kinship and leadership among the Siuai of Bougainville. Harvard University Press. p.191-192.

“Skills are acquired mainly by imitation. There is of course ample opportunity for children to watch objects being made and work performed, since they remain nearly all the time with parents and other adults. Now and then we saw a woman interrupt her weaving or a man his rope-making, etc., to explain technique to a small onlooker, placing the object in the child’s hands and guiding the movements. Parents and other adult relatives react with delight when a child displays dexterity and serious interest, and take special pains to instruct and praise. But such situations are unusual, and most of the time there is little direct inculcation of technical skills and no rigid expectations concerning technical proficiencies which children ought to have.”

7.2.6 Tinputz

Blackwood, B. (1935). Both sides of Buka Passage: an ethnographic study of social, sexual, and economic questions in the north-western Solomon Islands. Clarendon Press. p.246.

“The boys wearing the upi are not exempt from taking their share in the work of the village. They are encouraged by the **older men** to share in their daily round. They help in cutting the bush to prepare the ground for planting taro, though they are not allowed in the taro garden while women are working there. They are taken fishing, both ordinary reef-fishing and bonito-fishing. **They are taught the technique of canoe-making**, house-building, and so on. They join in the ceremonial dances, going round in wheel-formation with the men.”

7.2.7 Trobriands

Scoditti, G. M. G. (1989). Kitawa: a linguistic and aesthetic analysis of visual art in Melanesia. In Approaches to semiotics (pp. viii, 457). Mouton de Gruyter. p.46-49.

“After initiation, a child goes to stay with his initiator, in his hut, sometimes in another village if the carver lives in a region different from that of the pupil. He is adopted by the carver; that virtually means the child’s separation from his parents, brothers and sisters, as well as from his peers. His relationship with his parents becomes very weak, especially at the beginning of his new life. For example, during 1973-74 and between June and December 1976, one of the sons of Mesiboda Wakuwa, who lives in Kumwageiya village and belongs to the Malasi clan and susupi sub-clan, Mwabei Kaikuyawa (who had been initiated by his paternal uncle, Mwagula Wakuwa) had visited his parents just a couple of times, even though his new village, Kodeuli, is not very far from Kumwageiya, only about twenty minutes walk away.

...

The veranda of the carver’s hut is one of the points where the inhabitants of a village gather when they come back from the gardens to watch the work of the carver and his initiate. Anyone who wishes to see how the lagimu of a master carver (tokabitanu bougwa) or a simple carver (tokabitanu) is progressing, or who wishes to know about the work of the initiate, knows where to go. Sometimes the comments made by a commoner are appreciated, especially if he is a kula man (one who takes part in the ritual performances of the kula cf. Malinowski 1922) who can appreciate better than others the artistic qualities of the prowboards.

The veranda of the hut of a carver is a privileged place where the group of the carvers, especially the best carvers of Kitawa, meet in order to comment on the latest work of one of them, as well as on the small models of lagimu or tabuya made by one of the pupils. An initiate can learn much

from these comments and criticisms, especially from the technical viewpoint.

During the first years of the apprenticeship the parents of the initiate continue to bring gifts, such as betel nuts, fish, pork, yam and tobacco, to the initiator of their son. But the food offered to him must not be eaten by the apprentice. After two or three years, depending on the age at which the child was initiated, the apprentice sometimes works in the garden of his teacher and goes to fish, or to pick coconuts and bananas for him. The behaviour of the initiate during this period is very important and is subject to the control of the teacher in the sense that if the apprentice reveals a generous nature, the carver will teach him the technique of carving as well as some aesthetic devices for better achieving certain effects. When a carver teaches his art not only to his favourite pupil (yobweiri) but also to other pupils, one of them may surpass the other in generosity. For example, Towitara told me that Pilimoni and Gumaligisa had received a good training from him because both of them were very generous in bringing him gifts, even though he had favoured Gumaligisa because of his superior skill. On the other hand, one of Towitara's nephews, the above-mentioned Toganiu, although initiated by him (because he is a son of one of Towitara's sisters), had a defective training because he was judged to be rather mean. So, during the apprenticeship the pupils compete within the same workshop, or school of carving, for the best training. When an initiate starts his training he belongs to the workshop of his master, which is quite different from the workshop of another carver, even if all of them are in the same village. A workshop is formed by the group of pupils of one of the tokabitamu , especially a tokabitamu bougwa , of Kitawa. Its organization recalls the medieval workshop, where a master of art was helped in his work by a group of apprentices whom he taught how to pierce, to carve or to paint and, initially, the first elementary rules of his profession. On Kitawa a pupil who belongs to one of the workshops must help his initiator-master to shape the framework of a lagimu or tabuya and finish off the graphic signs carved on the wood surface, as well as to collect the pigments used to paint the prowboards of the kula canoe, and help his master to colour them, and so on.

In short, during the first years of his apprenticeship an initiate learns the basic rules of carving, as well as the terminology of the tools of the profession, and he does all the small jobs which in a medieval workshop were done by the helper of a Maestro d'arte.

The work produced in a carver's workshop is recognizable through the style of the master carver, that is, the shape of the lagimu and tabuya, which have certain distinctive characteristics: for example, the upper side of the lagimu carved by Lalela tokabitamu is larger than the equivalent

side carved by the pupils of Towitara; or for some subsidiary graphic signs painted in white, or for a new interpretation of the values expressed by one of the four basic graphic signs (*gigiwani* , *doka* , *kwaisaruvi* and *veku*) – for example, the *kwaisaruvi* carved by Towitara on the right side of the *lagimu*, which marks his school and, now, all the carving of *Kymwageiya* village.

Usually the teacher of one of the workshops of carving is a master-carver, like Towitara and *To-dubwau Lukubai*, that is, a carver who has invented some new graphic signs or re-interpreted some old ones. In both cases he asserts his copyright over them. Nobody can, or should, copy a graphic sign invented by a master-carver without his permission. And permission is usually given only to his pupils or to the members of other workshops if, and only if, they give him copious gifts in return. The copyright passes from the master to his favourite pupil, or to one of the members of his sub-clan, as in the case of Towitara *Buyoyu*. In fact, when he died, the copyright passed to the members of *mwauli* sub-clan, since neither *Togeruwa* or *Toganiu* had been chosen as a favourite pupil. Sometimes a master-carver shares his knowledge of carving among the members of his sub-clan, in the sense that he gives the poetic formulae for the initiation to his favourite pupil and the copyright on his graphic signs to the other kinsmen who can authorize their reproduction in return for gifts. For example, the kinsmen of Towitara would receive many gifts from the other carvers of *Kitawa* because the interpretation of the traditional value of the *kwaisaruvi* is recognized and accepted as one of the more significant stylistic innovations made within the *lagimu* framework.

At the beginning of his apprenticeship, *vagakora* in *Nowau* (‘Then I practised, you say ‘to have training’ while we use the word *vagakora* , carving a *lagimu* on a reduced scale. I practised, and every time I looked at the *lagimu* I realized that some designs were carved well and others badly. In fact some time would pass before they were beautiful, correct’, B.ST, 124), an initiate looks at a life-size *lagimu* of his initiator-teacher. It may be that the *lagimu* is the same as, or similar to, the one he saw during the initiation, whatever the interpretation of the ‘vision of the prowboards’ might be. If we accept the more literal interpretation of *Tonori*, the *lagimu* seen in the initiation and now memorized, impressed on the mind, is recalled during the exercise of copying another *lagimu* which is like the first one, and the memory of the apprentice is refreshed through the continuous sight of the prowboards.

Tonori and *Siyakwakwa* in their statements stress the logical link between the first *lagimu* and *tabuya* seen during the rite and the works of art which are seen during the apprenticeship: the

latter are reproductions, or recollections, of the former. The lagimu carved by the apprentice is reproduced on a reduced scale, and must be shaped like the teacher's example. So the first step of the training is the modelling of a small piece of wood (usually the size of a hand) and then the carving of the graphic signs on it.

In carving, the pupil must follow a given order, both in the temporal sense (some graphic signs before others) and in the spatial sense (from top to bottom, and from the outer to the inner plane), so as to form a sort of Cartesian axis which constitutes a reference point round which to carve the other graphic signs.

When an initiate is carving he must place each graphic sign in the same place as in the lagimu and tabuya of his teacher, and he cannot change or modify that order. So he learns that the order of the graphic signs is rigid and he guesses that it must obey some abstract and general rules. The small model carved by the apprentice should be a perfect copy, respecting both the shape and the pattern of the style, on a reduced scale, of the lagimu of his initiator. Tonori, in fact, says 'If I have been your teacher-initiator, you must carve according to the patterns of my style, only. You can't do it in a different way...' (A.ST, 435), and 'No! it isn't possible to give it a different form. The way I model it, you must do the same' (A.ST, 449).

The copying of a lagimu is done progressively and depends on the perceptive power of the initiate, and on his capacity to recall the order of the graphic signs. According to Tonori, a pupil watches the work of his teacher and goes back to his hut and tries to recall the shapes of the graphic signs that he has already seen: 'While (Kurina) is carving or else drafting a rough sketch of the designs on the surface of a lagimu or a tabuya, I watch carefully everything he does, both the designs, and the technique and style, and try to fix everything in my mind, and to memorize it. And while he rests (leaves his work for a short time) I return to my hut and I reproduce, copy, everything that I've seen (memorized)' (B.ST, 120).

If a pupil is skilful and gifted, he can recall his teacher's work better and therefore he can reproduce correctly on the wood surface the graphic signs already 'printed' in his memory. He can reconstruct in his mind the whole framework of the prowboard, and can judge whether or not a graphic sign which he wants to carve on the lagimu will harmonize with the other graphic signs. In fact, when an apprentice is carving, he is translating the schema of his teacher's lagimu into a material copy. It is essential for him to have the schema clearly in his mind as he is not allowed to trace the graphic signs on the wood before he carves it, but must do it directly, and if he gets

it wrong, the model is burnt: 'It's not possible to trace the designs first on the wood and when they are finished, carve them using mallet and chisel and then, after that, finish them off. The designs must be fixed in one's mind (all the work must be controlled, possessed in the mind) so that the design of the cry of the mysterious bird and the carver-hero, must be fixed in the mind. They must be carved directly on the wood using the mallet and chisel. You don't trace the design first and then carve it. Definitely not.' (B.ST, 364)."

p51-52 (contextual information)

The small prowboard carved by the apprentice can therefore be regarded as a test of a hypothesis, while the model of the initiator (if he is a simple carver) operates as a link between the abstract schema and the series of actual *lagimu* and *tabuya*. During the long period of apprenticeship, when he spends much time copying and reproducing the same model, the apprentice learns (cf. the poetic formulae murmured during the initiation) that he can produce 'forms' (and 'form' in this case is a metaphor for idea, concept, image for every kind of intellectual production), but at the same time he learns that the forms which he wishes to produce must follow a given pattern. What a teacher communicates through his model is, as it were, a grammar which an apprentice must learn in copying that model, and this notion, in our case, is guaranteed by the four basic graphic signs: they realize a frame which structures the comprehensibility of the whole object.

The apprentice will learn, as the years go by, that the model which he is reproducing is not necessarily the original model introduced by the master, but could be a copy of the original, because the apprentice could be initiated by a simple carver. Only a master carver, in fact, can propose a new interpretation of the *lagimu*'s schema, and he is therefore called a 'real carver' or 'master carver'. So the *lagimu* copied by the apprentice may or may not be the original model of a *tokabitamu bougwa* ; and this can sometimes produce bad copies of the original, as well as confusion between the graphic signs, misinterpretation, and so on. This is one of the reasons why the parents of a child try to ensure that their son becomes the favourite pupil of the master carvers of Kitawa, and also why a master carver tries to favour the most endowed and skilful of his pupils: in the first case the initiate will be made to reproduce a good carving, in the latter the master carver is sure that his style will be reproduced as well as possible.

To sum up, in his apprenticeship the initiate learns to organize the graphic signs on a wood surface which has been cut in a given shape, while the symbolic meaning, that is, the content of

the entire surface as well as of the single graphic sign, is not the focus of his training. And this confirms that what an apprentice should learn is the control of the 'grammar' of the abstract composition only. In fact few initiates or carvers know precisely what lagimu means, and all the carvers of Kitawa recognize that when we talk about that subject we enter into the field of suppositions and probabilities (cf. Siyakwakwa's statements C.SS, 75 – C.SS, 77. – C.SS, 83). A good carver is judged on the basis of his technical and aesthetic ability.

p54 (contextual information)

So Tonori makes a clear distinction between knowing how to carve very well, 'to fret', if we follow the meaning of the verb-stem tapwala , and 'to scratch', 'to leave a trace', expressed in Nowau by the verb-stem gini. The power to 'fret' the wood, particularly in respect of the basic graphic signs doka, gigiwani , and veku , is given to a child by means of the rite of initiation: 'Both of us tell you that those who eat forbidden food, ordinary people, know how to cut the ribs of the canoe, and when they come with us (carvers) into the forest, they cut the wood for the ribs of the canoe, they only know how to do this. And if all the ordinary men come with us into the forest, they only help to cut the wood from which the shape of the lagimu will come out of, they cut the bulk of the wood but they can't, because they don't know how to model the shape itself, they really don't know how to do it, and this is because they have all eaten the forbidden foods.' (B.ST, 75).

p56 (contextual information)

According to Tonori, Towitara and Siyakwakwa an initiate becomes a tokabitamu when he carves a life-size lagimu and/or tabuya, or a real kula canoe, i.e. **after fifteen to twenty years of apprenticeship**, during which he has followed the norms imposed on him by his teacher-initiator, including the respect of taboos. Siyakwakwa, answering the ethnographer, who had asked him when a pupil is judged a carver, replies: 'When you know how to carve two, three or four lagimu well, and know how to carve the canoe for the kula, only then will you be a real carver.' (A.SS, 454).

p183 (contextual information)

In the poetic formulae both the initiator and the initiate are assimilated to the hero Monikiniki, who manifests himself to them, at the beginning of the poetic formulae, as spring water spouting from the rocks, that is, through an image which symbolizes the power of creation. As god

creates life, in the same manner a carver creates symbols (cf. in the poetic formulae of Towitara the distichs III,b.; IV,b.; VI,b.; VII,b. and IX,b.). As a god gives his creation to mankind, in the same manner a carver gives his creation (the graphic signs carved on the prowboards, for example) to the other inhabitants of the village (cf. in the poetic formulae of Towitara the distichs IX,b. and in the poetic formulae of Todubwau the distichs VII,a.; VII,b. and IX,a.). The power of creation is given to the initiate-carver as a gift of the god-hero Monikiniki during the initiation, even if this acts as a simple premonitory sign of this power. But while Towitara and Siyakwakwa affirm that the gift must be confirmed by evidence of real skill in the initiate's work during the period of apprenticeship, **Tonori practically dismisses the importance of the apprenticeship, and in his statements B.ST, 33a and B.ST, 35 stresses that only a 'gifted child' can carve – i.e., someone who has been initiated, who has been 'penetrated' by the god-hero Monikiniki. For Tonori, as stressed in Chapter III, the apprenticeship is simply a technical refinement of the primeval inspiration, or a sort of 'actualization' of the power of intuition.** The relation between the initiation and the following period of apprenticeship is purely technical. A carver should first possess an intuition of what he wishes to express, and should then search for a 'form' which represents this intuition on the expression plane . The technique of expressing an intuition in 'forms' is learned through continuous exercise. But without an 'intuition', that is a sign of the power of creation, a carver cannot carve a significant symbol. And even if an initiate eats the taboo foods he can still carve, because he has already been inspired by the god-hero Monikiniki, whom he has received through red betel nut and spring water. To support this feeling Tonori gives the example of Togeruwa Matawadia who, in spite of his disregard of the taboos, could nevertheless carve a lagimu, even if not a refined one. The fact that Togeruwa can carve a lagimu appears to the eyes of Tonori, as a sign of the primeval power of creation which an initiate receives as a gift at the moment of the initiation.

Weiner, A. B. (1976). *Women of value, men of renown: new perspectives in Trobriand exchange*. University of Texas Press. p.95.

“All women weave skirts, but to weave a sepwana is a special distinction. **Young girls from about the age of seven are encouraged to experiment and weave skirts from natural fibers.** Girls of marriageable age are watched by their elders to see if they know how to make skirts properly and if they work hard with their mothers to prepare for mortuary distributions. A boy's parents will often object to his wanting to marry a particular girl, if they think that she is lazy and does not

know how to work well in the garden or if she does not know how to make mats and skirts. A girl's reputation is usually founded on her physical beauty, as well as whether or not she is a strong worker, just as a boy's reputation centers around his physical attractiveness and his ability to be a productive gardener."

Silas, E. (1926). A primitive Arcadia. T. Fisher Unwin Ltd. p.154-155.

"The education of the children is a very important matter and is arranged on a very thorough system. **From infancy the girls are instructed in the domestic arts; they are taught to make their little skirts**, initiated into the mysteries of cooking, and shown how to do all the work which is the woman's share in tribal life. **The boys are instructed in everything that relates to men's work: fishing, building and sailing canoes**, gardening work and hut-building. No slovenliness is allowed, for they must become efficient in whatever trade they are to follow."

p.192

"At an early age the male piccaninnies are instructed in the art of fishing. They are taught to make and put to practical purposes miniature nets, identical in pattern to those used by their elders, and mesh, 1 floats and other details must be to scale. One very quaint method of fishing is practised by the children with bows and arrows. They stand knee-deep in the water; after throwing a little bait (coco-nut or fish) they remain rigid with arrow fitted, and let fly when the fish are within range. Refraction does not appear to impede their aim, some of them returning to the village with quite a decent catch."

Austen, L. (1945). Native handicrafts in the Trobriand Islands. Mankind, Vol. 3, 193–198. p.194-195.

"The children of lagoon and coastal villages made small toy canoes (kailalali), especially after harvest time when the south-east breezes were blowing strongly. These canoes, in which excellent work was done by the small children, were a faithful and accurate replica of the larger ones and thus their knowledge of canoe-making was gained.

Engraving. The canoes, limesticks, betel-nut pestles and mortars, yam-boards and house-boards were never considered complete unless special markings were incised on the wood. These markings (ginigini) were in fact of magical significance, as well as having an aesthetic value.

Not every one bothered to go through the long period of tuition in order to become a tokwabitam

, or engraver, who was described as a man who could use his hands well for the purpose of making these magical markings. A good carpenter, or anyone who could make handicrafts well, would not be called by this name, for the word tokatalaki is the name used for a handicraftsman.

If a man wished his nephew or his son to become a skilled engraver on wood, he waited until the child was about eleven or twelve years of age. Then, one early morning before sunrise, he would crush one betel-nut in a mortar, breathe a spell over it, and give it to the boy to eat before anything else had passed his mouth that day. Previously, of course, the boy had been prepared for this by many conversations with his father or his mother's brother, so that he knew, more or less, what was expected of him, and what he was going to learn. If, however, the father or the uncle was not an engraver himself, he could pay a tokwabitam to teach the child."

7.2.8 Wogeo

Hogbin, H. I. (1946). A New Guinea childhood: from weaning till the eighth year in Wogeo. Oceania, Vol. 16(4), 275-296 , plate. p.288.

"The earlier efforts at cooking have to be closely watched, but girls of about ten or twelve can usually, if necessary, prepare certain dishes unaided. Keke was so pleased when her first vegetable stew was pronounced satisfactory that she told the whole village and the next night insisted on making another pot for presentation to various relatives. A cousin of much the same age thereupon begged to be allowed try her hand, and for the next week the two of them exchanged platters nearly every evening. Yet, though they both basked in the compliments which were showered on them, neither sought to prove that her own dishes were superior.

Having been so successful in this sphere, **the two of them decided that they were now old enough to make their own petticoats. Their mothers accordingly showed them how to prepare the fibre, attach it to the belt, and cut it evenly into a series of fringes, and within a few weeks the two of them were running from house to house showing off their workmanship.** The same friendly spirit was still in evidence, and Keke actually waited till the cousin's garment was completed before donning her own."

p.282

"Children are also encouraged to work side by side with their parents even when their efforts are likely to be a hindrance (Plate B). Thus when Marigum was making a new canoe he allowed

his youngest son, Sabwakai, to take an adze and chip at the dugout. On my enquiring whether the boy did not impede his progress, the father agreed that he would be able to work much faster alone. “But if I send the child away,” he added, “how can I expect him to know anything? This time he was in the way, but I’m showing him, and when we have to make another canoe he’ll be really useful.”

The children are in most cases even more eager to learn than the elders are to teach. Sabwakai took up the adze on his own initiative and on another occasion asked permission to come along with his father to one of our conferences at my house. “By listening to what I tell you,” the father explained to me with a smile, “he thinks he’ll find out about the things he’ll have to do when he’s a man.” ”

7.3 Micronesia

7.3.1 Belau

Barnett, H. G. (Homer G. (1963). Being a Palauan. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. 8, 87). Holt, Rinehart and Winston. p.9.

“This seems also to be the case with boys. In comparison with their sisters, they have little to do—nothing that is essential, at least—until they are fourteen or fifteen. As soon as they can handle a fish spear or a net they trail their fathers into the lagoon or go by themselves as the fancy strikes them. They punt rafts, paddle outrigger canoes, and learn to skin dive on their own. **Men do not introduce their sons to the sea, the economic domain of the Palauan male, nor do they urge and coach them toward an eventual mastery of it. They prefer other men for fishing companions and pay little attention to the boys who straggle along observing and learning as the opportunity offers. It is the same with the making of a net, or the carving of a bowl, or the construction of a house. If a boy wants to learn these things, he goes to a man who is especially competent in them.** Equally crucial is the failure of the older men gradually to expose and explain to their sons the intricacies of Palauan political scheming, prestige competition, and social controls. All that the maturing youth can do is watch and listen, and sometimes ask questions. He soon learns, however, that there are taboo areas, whole sectors of life that are so completely closed to him that even self-instruction is impossible.”

7.3.2 Chuuk

Goodenough, W. H. (1951). Property, kin, and community on Truk. In Yale University publications in anthropology (Issue 46, p. 192). Published for Dept. of Anthropology, Yale University, Yale University Press. p.53-55.

“Fighting skills in aboriginal times included knowledge of **the manufacture as well as of the use of the various weapons: the club, spear, sling, knuckle-duster, and in more recent time the knife and rifle.** Of great importance, too, was a knowledge of the various holds in a system of hand-to-hand encounter remotely reminiscent of Japanese jiu-jitsu. **28 To acquire these skills required considerable practice. In aboriginal times the various lineages used to hold periodic month-long training course in their respective meeting houses. Although each political district fought engagements as a united military group, training was given independently by the various lineages. Those present were the men of the lineage, the husbands of its women, and the sons of its men, in conformance with the pattern of confining the transmission of knowledge to one’s children and one’s lineage mates.** It is said that by no means everyone knew all of the various weapons nor all of the tricks of hand-to-hand fighting. Knowledge of the proper magic was required in the manufacture of the several weapons and also to increase the effectiveness of their use thereafter. It is not surprising, therefore, that fighting skills were treated in the same way as other types of incorporeal property.

The teaching of magic (roog), medicines (säfeej), and lore (wuruwo) usually involves the same persons as attend the military training sessions. Instruction is carried on in the house where the women of the lineage or descent line reside together. Also present are their husbands, the men of the lineage or descent line, and the children of the latter. If someone else comes around, all instruction stops until the visitor departs, lest any secrets be let out.

Instruction is by no means confined, however, to such formal situations. Much of the teaching of magic and skills is limited to occasions when the teacher is called upon to apply his knowledge. **When Kekin of Romonum, for example, was asked to build a canoe, he took this occasion to encourage his son, Renipu, to come out with him and get started on the long road to becoming a master builder, a sineenap (main knower). Renipu was but seventeen years old, and his interest was slight. As he grows older he will accompany his father more and more in such activities and slowly acquire the knowledge. Since the number of canoes a man**

builds is limited—there are no full-time specialists on Truk—it takes several years for him to transmit his knowledge, all of which must be committed to memory, to his sons or junior lineage mates. For this reason the more complicated specialized forms of knowledge are concentrated in the hands of older people. Romonum Island, with a population of 240 souls, for example, has but three recognized master canoe builders. All three have only a few active years ahead of them, and each now has adult children. There is also one man about 40 years of age who is a skillful adzeman and has made a couple of small canoes on his own. He is not considered the equal of the other three, however, and drops in on them when they are at work to see what additional pointers he can pick up. The younger people are just starting seriously to try their hands at such work. Several middle-aged men were attempting their first canoes when our field work was being conducted. These attempts were modest, and the builders were usually so related to the master builders that they could call upon them for advice and help, and even to perform for them some of the more critical operations such as laying out the right measurements.”

Gladwin, T., & Sarason, S. B. (1953). Truk: man in paradise. In Viking Fund publications in anthropology (Issue 20, p. 655). Wenner-Gren Foundation for Anthropological Research. p.414-415.

“This was the first of a series of tasks Rachel describes being taught—baking or broiling large numbers of fish, making carrying baskets, broiling and peeling breadfruit, and catching small crabs for bait. She mentions being tired of working at food production all the time and showing her impatience one day, but her father said he was tired and “I felt sorry for him because he had not had anything to eat all day and was getting a little old so I worked hard at broiling some breadfruit for him.” One day her mother was ill and Rachel bathed her, oiled her hair, and insisted that she eat. Her mother did not want to eat but did so at Rachel’s insistence; when her mother had recovered, Rachel pointed out it was because she had eaten. Her mother in turn told Rachel that this demonstrated the value of all the tasks she had learned because she was now able to take care of her parents when they became ill.

Rachel was asked whether she did not play at all at this time. She replied, “I would have played if they had told me I should, but they wanted me to stay around the house and listen to what they had to say and do the things they told me to. When my father went to the house of a ‘mother’ or ‘father’ of his I went with him and played but that was all.”

Rachel gives a long description (five typed pages) of her learning to make woven waist mats

(lavalavas), a process which began when she was thirteen. In the initial phases of her learning her parents made her begin by herself several of the many steps in the manufacture of lavalavas from hibiscus and banana fibers. When she got into difficulties they laughed at her and then finished the job themselves. When it came time for Rachel to learn to make the basket in which the fibers are placed for weaving her father took her over to his mother's house in order to have her teach Rachel this skill which her own mother did not possess. Her father's mother was indignant that they should be teaching Rachel so much when she was so young. When her father insisted that his mother make a basket she did so; but she did it rapidly and refused to answer Rachel's questions. They thus acquired a basket but Rachel did not learn how to make one herself. Rachel then continued her learning—how to dye the fibers, set up the loom, weave, and so on. "Whenever I complained of being tired of learning these different kinds of work all the time they would speak to me sternly; then I would just work on, afraid they would beat me." Finally when she was seventeen Rachel made her first lavalava. She told her mother she was going to play at her father's mother's house and stayed there two days making the lavalava. When she was ready to leave her grandmother cried and asked her to stay longer and not leave her alone. Rachel promised to return and brought her masterpiece home to surprise her parents. They were delighted; they congratulated her and her father said her mother would wear it herself rather than trade it to the men who came in from Puluwat as was customary."

p.398

"Once I got well I just took care of myself so that I would be strong, and made things. I used to make fish nets and clothes. **When my mother started making a fish net I sat down with her and began to learn.** Making a fish net the Trukese way is very hard—we use a plant from the sea. **I think I must have spent four months just learning how to make a fish net. And I learned how to make clothes, to sew and embroider them; I spent a year learning to make clothes.** [?] I played very little, perhaps going out to play once a day. [?] I did not want to play a lot with other children because I listened to what my parents had to say. Thomas told me I should not play all day with the boys and girls—I should just watch what the adults were doing and learn to do it too, because if my parents should die early and I had not learned these things I would not know how to take care of myself. I went out and joined the other children in their happiness a little bit but Rachel and Thomas beat me with a stick; after that I no longer went out to play but just

listened to what they had to tell me.”

Bollig, L. (1927). The inhabitants of the Truk Islands: religion, life and a short grammar of a Micronesian people. Aschendorff. p.96-97.

“The Kanakas do not have any training of children in our sense. To be sure, by kabasen emirid (words of instruction) they try to keep the child from doing anything disagreeable to them, but it does not go far. On the other hand, the bad habits of the parents, the pernicious example of the entire environment, do not give rise to much good in the children. With the years the bond between parents and children loosens more and more. The children do not say “Father, Mother,” but use the first names, as other people do. They go wherever they want to, do whatever they want to, and sleep wherever they want to, without troubling further about their parents. This separation is less marked for the girls than for the boys. The children also possess property and may buy and sell; in short they are considered personalities who have something to say. They are not overburdened with work since such an arrangement is not generally known on Truk. Nevertheless one sees individual families who train their children to work very early. /90/ **Girls go with the mother. They learn to fish to knot nets**, to make cigarettes, to search for leaves for cleaning their small siblings, to act as nursemaids, etc. The boys help the men prepare the food, pick fruit, go along on trips, etc. Most of the time, however, is devoted to play on the seashore. They can also tumble about in the sea water for hours (girls as well as boys). Most of them can dive and swim like fish. When they learn to swim, they always have one or another block of wood with them, on which they support themselves from time to time in order to rest. They do not swim by our method, but like dogs (mül).”

Fischer, A. M. (1950). The role of Trukese mother and its effect on child training. In Scientific Investigation of Micronesia (Issue No. 8, p. 148). Pacific Science Board. p.99-100.

“Learning to work: The Trukese child begins to become familiar with the tools of his trade from his earliest days. As has been stated previously, little effort is made to protect them from him, and he plays with nets, paddles, and boats, more or less at will. He lives by the sea where he is generally in view of his mother and father at work. At times, when he is a little older, he accompanies them when they go farther away from home to fish or garden. Later still, he takes his place beside them, and if his first efforts create more havoc than good, no one is very concerned with stopping him. When a canoe-load of copra was being unloaded on the beach in front of his house, Penitus, age six, ran to help. More of the coconuts he tossed from the boat landed in the

water than on the shore, yet the men who had climbed the trees to get the nuts, loaded the boat and brought it to this spot, made no protest. Some of these nuts just drifted out to sea. Young girls of ten or eleven may accompany their mother to fish, and assist her in removing the arms of a squid she has caught from her body. They are soon spearing as many fish as she, but their responsibilities are less, and they do not feel they have to fish unless they particularly want to do so. **The more complicated rituals connected with building canoes and other kinds of work are not taught to the very young men by the fathers who know these secrets. It is felt that these things should wait until the boy is of an age to be interested in and knows the importance of what he learns. But every father wants to impart this kind of knowledge to his sons before he dies.**"

7.3.3 Kiribati

Koch, G. (1986). The material culture of Kiribati. Institute of Pacific Studies of the University of the South Pacific. p.25-26.

"Traps (ū, Plate 5) for catching moray eels are widely used (cf. 31, film 7). However, in many of the settlements at any given time **there are only a few men who know how to construct an ū** or to bait it. The materials used for constructing such traps are shoots and branches of the salt bush *Pemphis acidula* Forst., (ngea), a heavy and tough ironwood, which are bound together with strong coconut fibre cord (kora). **Their construction is a well-kept family secret, handed down from generation to generation, but it is certainly true that a person skilled in this will let a close friend know the secrets of the method of construction.**"

p.132

"The riri maunei is a skirt (Plate 12) knotted from sedge (maunei, *Cyperus laevigatus* L.) which is worn by women and girls, particularly on Tabiteuea, for their daily work and sometimes for dancing as well. This kind of skirt is rarely encountered on Nonouti and not very often on Ono-toa. It appears that on Tabiteuea there are better growing conditions for the *Cyperus* sedge, which thrives in brackish ponds and swamp-like salt water areas and succumbs in fresh water. **Making such a skirt (i.e. gathering the raw materials, processing them and finally knotting them together) is a task for the women. Every woman living in the area where such skirts are made is an expert at this. Generally the girls learn how to do so at an early age and by the time**

they are about 15 they can already knot a riri maunei. The women make such skirts both for themselves and also for their daughters and granddaughters.”

7.3.4 Marshallese

Carucci, L. M. (1987). JEKERO: symbolizing the transition to manhood in the Marshall Islands. *Micronesica*, Vol. 20(nos. 1-2), 1–17. p.2-3.

“Certain attainments are central to becoming an adult male or female; they are the symbolic foci which define in vivid detail what it is like to be a particular kind of person in Marshallese culture. In one such event, a young boy goes through the training necessary to make coconut toddy. **Uje-lang girls learn a corresponding set of skills—weaving mats and shaping other prized female goods.** They also begin to receive the knowledge needed to use and interpret the supernatural. **A second core aspect of male maturity apprenticed a young boy to a canoe making specialist where skills critical to becoming a man were learned. The boy joined the sailing group headed by his mentor and acquired all skills to build and sail outrigger canoes.** Within the past 25 years, however, canoe building has been replaced by the manufacture of plywood motor boats. Outrigger canoe construction became a specialized art, known only to middle-aged and senior men. Thus, in the late 1970s, making coconut toddy was the central event marking the incorporation of male children into the man’s domain. The next section explores the structure of this event, while the final comments situate toddy drinking in the more recently emerging framework of alcohol consumption.”

p.4 (contextual information)

“Making toddy becomes a suitable metaphor of male initiation, since the moment of tapping the tree in the cycle of coconut development corresponds precisely to the time of initiation in the life cycle of young males who are taught how to make toddy and tend the trees. Developmental parallels between trees and men allow traditional initiation rites to be resymbolized through toddy manufacture. A detailed review of the processes of production and accompanying prohibitions shows the liminal character of the enterprise (Van Gennep 1960; Turner 1969) and indicates how each symbol is given meaning in its cultural context of use (Silverstein 1973, 1976).”

p.6 (contextual information)

“Coconut sennit (ekwaal) is then made to wrap the tendrils and secure the spathe after tapping

a tree. Each man should manufacture his own sennit, but few under age 40 now know how to make coir. Younger men show little interest in such arduous tasks. Younger men must use sennit made by others, thus increasing the sources of contamination. Evil magic, readily embedded in braided hair, the woven ends of baskets, or ekwaal, is often blamed for declining returns of toddy. To make sure the coir is free from defilement, a young boy's instructor frequently provides his twine. When a tree does not produce well, the sennit will be replaced. It could be too large in diameter, contain too many splices, or have been imbued with evil magic, even after its manufacture."

Carucci, L. M. (2007). Continuities and changes in Marshallese grandparenting. *Pacific Studies*, Vol. 30(nos. 3-4), 135–161. p.143-144.

"The manifest side of hardship that often typified life on Ujelang from the 1950s until the 1970s was a day-to-day dependence on local foods that required every able-bodied person to work in order to subsist. The fact that Ujelang was a tiny, resource-poor atoll, one-fourteenth the size of Enewetak, made the search for food a constant worry. In people's recollections of this era, **grandparents played an integral part in the life of the community**. They worked side by side with young jibw- grandchildren, their pace slower and more indulgent than that of mature and middle-aged adults. In these contexts, elder jibw- were close allies and educators of the young, sharing their extensive knowledge of how to survive through common subsistence activities. For female jibw-, gathering land foods and the materials to make mats and handicrafts were everyday concerns. While today's middle-aged women do not always remember the details of mat making, each of them has fond recollections of their elder female jibw- and the many skills that were learned from them. In the early 1990s Kenniei recalled longingly:

Oh, Io'we [loving recollection of the past]. I remember our **collective grandparent** [Taina] on Ujelang when she used to go down to Jabonbok and live. **And we young girls would go and sleep with her. And she would teach us how to weave ... weave mats.** Iokwe. It was difficult for her to go for pandanus fronds, so we would go and collect pandanus fronds. And out and back [collecting fronds], and then she would rid them of spines, and bake them, and then pound them, and make rolls out of them. She would teach us. And even though we would work and make something and it was worse yet than bad, she would not become mad. Just laugh and then say "make it again."

Equally, the grandmothers transmitted their knowledge about activities that took place in town

and in the domestic space, spheres that women controlled.

In times of hardship on Ujelang, men's daily subsistence strategies included ventures into distant bush lands for gathering, particularly the gathering of coconuts (cf. Carucci 1987), fishing and sailing expeditions, house building, and **the repair and construction of canoes. While these activities might well take place in groups that included fathers and offspring, or uncles and the offspring of their sisters, very commonly grandchildren found their relationships with their grandfathers the most memorable due to the slow-paced, indulgent demeanor that forms the core of the jibw- relationship.** Amid a canoe revival in 1995, Tieko reminisced about earlier days:

Remember when we were working with our collective grandfather on the canoe on Ujelang. Well, there were four large sailing canoes then, and that fellow ... [Apinar] was rebuilding his so it would be the fastest. ... Well, those fellows, our collective grandparents, they really knew how to build canoes. And they would take it from first light until midday and only work, just a little at a time. Then they would say, "OK, midday meal time," and we would rest. And then, after lunch, they would go back and work. Work a little, a little, and then check [the shape of the piece]. Then they would say, "It is crooked, continue chopping." And we would shape it a little more, and then plane it. And then grandfather [jimma] placed it on the canoe and checked it, and then took it off and really looked at it [closely]. Well that is how we worked, just a little at a time. Sometimes, that fellow, Apinar, would be out there and it was really night, and he would still be chopping. And I would say, "Ooh, jibwō [my grandparents] you are going to be [attacked by] demons."⁸ But he would just laugh and continue cutting the canoe. Well, those grandparents, they really knew how to build canoes. And that is why we are able to "lie a bit, now, and lie about building these [substandard] canoes." Because those males, our collective grandparents, taught us.

In these stories, grandchildren fondly recall an essential component of grandparenting in their recollections of the senior grandparents as indulgent educators.⁹ At the same time, grandparenting relationships on Ujelang often placed older jibw-, particularly communal grandparents, in positions of control especially because of their superior knowledge, which gave them influence and power over young grandchildren. With the shift in geographical and social contexts outlined below, however, the apparent unassailability of the grandparent's superior rank comes to be questioned, or even reversed. Perhaps this is not surprising since the grandpar-

ent/grandchild relationship has long engendered ambivalence, reflecting the shifting physical abilities and power relations between the older and younger jibw-. While Kenniea and Tieko fondly recall moments when their grandparents had great knowledge, part of the nostalgia in these stories comes from a comparison with the current moment, when the mental faculties of Taina and Apinar are in decline.”

Mason, L. (1947). The economic organization of the Marshall Islanders. U.S. Commercial Company, Economic Survey. p.107.

“e. Vocational education. Techniques of making a living are still acquired by Marshallese through informal education within the family and community organization. **Practical knowledge — the construction of canoes and houses, the production of copra, the lore of fishing and agriculture, the techniques of cooking and making clothes, and the arts of handicraft — is gained mainly by association with and instruction from parents and other adults during the routins performance of daily tasks.** Formal education under the Japanese, and under the Americans since the war, has exphasised the non-technical side of living.”

Spoehr, A. (1949). Majuro: a village in the Marshall Islands. In Fieldiana: anthropology (Vol. 39, p. 266). Chicago Natural History Museum. p212[2].

““In addition to learning as a member of an informal age-group, boys and girls also are taught skills by their parents and older relatives. These skills follow the sexual division of labor. **A boy learns about house-building, canoe-making, taro cultivation, and fishing from men; a girl learns about household tasks and the making of handicraft such as mats from her mother and other women. The process of learning here also is largely one of imitation and absorption rather than formal instruction.** The only really formal instruction is that given in the school, and the subjects taught at school really refer to non-Marshallese culture, with the exception of learning Marshallese songs and written Marshallese.” ”

7.3.5 Ulithi

Lessa, W. A. (1950). The ethnography of Ulithi Atoll. In CIMA report (Issue 28, pp. vii, 269 leaves). University of California. p.212.

“The education of the child broadens out in earnest during this period. **Boys learn how to fish, climb trees for palm toddy and coconuts, manufacture rope, and otherwise make themselves**

useful to their elders. Girls learn how to cook, weed, collect wild plants, fruits, and leaves, and generally aid their mothers. However, **the learning of economic skills is informal and does not proceed much beyond that which can be gained from observing older people at work.**”

7.3.6 Woleai Region

Burrows, E. G. (Edwin G., & Spiro, M. E. (1953). An atoll culture: ethnography of Ifaluk in the central Carolines. In Behavior science monographs (pp. iii, 355). Human Relations Area Files. p.288-289.

“When a girl’s mother observes that her daughter’s breasts are beginning to develop, she informs her to be prepared to menstruate. The fact of menstruation (taurang) is, of course, no secret to the girl. She has witnessed by this time a number of menstrual ceremonies and is cognizant of the monthly menstrual cycle, having observed women spending their menstrual periods in a menstrual hut. The mother not only prepared her for the physiology of menstruation, but instructs her in its serious social implications. She points out that the girl is about to enter adulthood and must prepare herself to assume adult responsibilities and to occupy an adult status. Her carefree days of play must come to an end, she is told, and **she must remain in and near the house, observing her mother’s activities, learning to make skirts** and becoming adept in the other economical responsibilities of women. Should she not take these responsibilities seriously, she is told, people will poke fun at her, and call her a “fool fellow”, which means that she will not obtain a husband. The mother cannot tell her about the meaning and function of menstruation, however, since she does not know herself.”

Spiro, M. E. (1949). Ifaluk: a South Sea culture. Pacific Science Board, National Research Council. p.146[2].

““In both the case of men and of women, age differences imply no social differences. An older woman might be requested by a younger woman to examine the skirt she is making if she has a difficulty. A younger man may ask an older man for help on a fine point in the making of a fish trap. But, in all cases, there seems to be no social differentials based on age.” ”

7.4 Polynesia

7.4.1 Bau Fijians

Tippett, A. R. (Alan R. (1968). Fijian material culture: a study of cultural context, function, and change. In Bernice P. Bishop Museum bulletin (Issue 232, pp. vi, 193). Bishop Museum Press. p.50-53.

“Experience.—It was not any man who could make a club—even a vunikau, the simplest root-stock. Experience was more than knowing the resources of the environment, although it did include this; **for the craftsman drew from the fellowship of other club makers and the accumulated knowledge of the craft group handed down from past generations.**² This group knowledge included more than familiarity with materials and skills. It required an understanding of tribal needs and fighting techniques. Behind every artifact was a set goal. Furthermore there were master–pupil relationships. **Master and pupil shared emotional experiences because the honor of one was also the honor of the other.**³ The pupil’s first fine club was a symbol of a psychological bond between master and pupil.

...

Knowledge of when and how to experiment.—Variation in the design and ornamentation of Fijian clubs reveals a freedom for experiment, at least within certain prescribed limits, set, no doubt, by the group itself or the craft rituals. We have no detail of these rituals, having only the knowledge of their existence. The question of whether or not the craftsman always achieved what he set out to do, in design for instance, has been discussed (Reichard, 1933, p. 7), and at least it can be said that his taste determined the results. If this is all that can be said of the design, the artifacts themselves were certainly predetermined by the craftsman’s capacity to perceive the resultant club in the tree. The club was already in the root or the forked limb, and the craftsman, having seen this, conceived much of his experimentation before he cut the tree. This premeditation has been checked against craftsmen who cut oars, boat parts, and house fittings currently. **They confirm that they see the final product in the raw material before they cut it.** In the creation of clubs, the knots, roots, small branches, and natural deformities actually suggest the experiment. A whorl of a parasitical creeper round a hardwood stem may offer a Fijian artisan a rare opportunity to produce a thing of beauty, but the thing itself will be limited or conditioned by his basic categories. There are some fine examples of this type of experimentation on Fijian

clubs in the Suva museum.”

7.4.2 Hawaiians

Kamakau, S. M., Barrère, D. B., Pukui, M. K., & Feher, J. (1968). *Ka po'e kahiko: the people of old*. In Bernice P. Bishop Museum special publication (pp. ix, 165). Bishop Museum Press. p.27.

“If the parents or the grandparents of the boy belonged to a kahuna profession ('oihana kahuna), then he was taught that profession. He might be taught the profession of reading omens ('oihana kilokilo), or of selecting sites ('oihana kuhikuhi pu'uone), or a knowledge of the earth's configurations (papa huluhonua), or the stars (kilo hoku), or the profession of Ku'ula ('oihana Ku'ula, that is, deepsea fishing), or **the designing and making of implements for tapa work ('oihana kapala kua'ula),** or the rituals for 'ana'ana magic ('oihana kahuna 'ana'ana)—whatever profession the parents or grandparents were in.”

7.4.3 Maori

Firth, R. (1959). *Economics of the New Zealand Maori*. R. E. Owen, Govt.Printer. p.189-190.

“The games and pursuits of children were often in mimicry of the activities of their parents or, again, were of a competitive, sporting nature. These were encouraged by the elders as tending in the former case to make children familiar with the occupations of later life, and, in the latter, to develop those qualities which would be most useful to them in dealing with their somewhat stern natural and social environment. Provision was also made to promote the knowledge of useful crafts among the boys and girls. **Thus a certain stone named kohurau was used only for making adzes for children and young people, so that by handling them they might learn the use of proper tools. The adzes for workmen were never made from this material.**

As they grew up boys were initiated by their father into the technique of the various crafts and the magical regulations pertaining thereto, while girls were taught weaving and the kindred arts. Boys also accompanied their father on bird-snaring or rat-trapping expeditions, and were trained by him in economic lore. Opportunity was also taken on these occasions to instruct the youths in a knowledge of tribal boundaries, family lands, fishing rocks, birding trees, and other points of ownership.

Perhaps the most important branch of education was that of the Whare wananga or **“House of Learning”**. Here in the winter months a few of the young men of high rank, approved intelligence, and tested powers of memory assembled to receive instruction in tribal history, legends, and genealogies, in the most sacred mythological tales and religious rites, and also, perchance, in the formulae of black magic, by which men were sent down to destruction. Thus, under the strictest conditions of tapu, and hedged in by the most solemn ceremonies, were the traditions of the tribe handed on from one generation of experts to the next. Instruction of a less sacred character was given to larger audiences in such subjects as astronomy, agriculture, fishing, and the like, which would help to fit the young men for their future responsibilities. On account of each of these subjects being termed a whare (house), it has sometimes been thought that a separate house was built for each course of instruction, but such was not the usual practice. They represented merely different curricula, and were given in the one building. The names of the courses and the procedure in connection with the House of Learning varied in different tribes. The importance of this institution in the transmission of culture is indicated by the ideal of the teaching. Says Best: “The object of the School of Learning was to preserve all desirable knowledge pertaining to the subjects already mentioned, and other traditional lore, and to hand it down the centuries free of any alteration, omission, interpolation, or deterioration” (op. cit., 7). Any departure from old teaching was strongly disapproved of, and a slip in the imparting of knowledge might involve the death of the expert, slain by the power of the outraged gods.

The industrial education of the Maori really comprised instruction in three branches; in economic lore, in technique, and in magic. Each was deemed indispensable to the training of the expert in any branch of work. At the same time there was inculcated in him a recognition of the value of labour.”

p.212

“The children assisted their relatives in many technical occupations, and so helped to get their training. For instance, **in the sawing of greenstone youngsters were often enlisted to feed sandgrit and water to the cut, while the men sawed with their flint blades.** They also took a subsidiary part in communal work. They collected soft mud in kits and smeared it on the skids when a canoe was being hauled over a portage, and in preparation for a feast, as I was told by a Kawhia native, they were sent off to collect dry branches for firewood. Being largely free from the irksome restrictions of the tapu, which were not imposed upon them till riper years, their

sphere of activity was much less sharply defined than that of the adults. At the same time they were quick to learn the ordinary observances of economic life. For the first-born children of chiefs more care was necessary, since they were always surrounded by an aura of tapu, even from birth. Such children generally had a commoner or a slave to attend them and to perform menial tasks. Such were the pononga (servants, not necessarily slaves) mentioned in tales.”

Buck, P. H. (1952). The coming of the Maori. Maori Purposes Fund Board; [distributed by] Whitcombe and Tombs. p. 361-362.

“During the teen years, the boys and girls were able to assist their parents in manual tasks. The boys assisted their fathers in obtaining material, house building, fishing, fowling, food cultivation, and other masculine activities. **The girls were taught by their female relatives to plait mats and baskets, weave, and prepare food. The development of extra skill was a matter of individual aptitude.**

To become a master craftsman in the more skilled crafts such as wood carving and tattooing, the adolescent had to be taught by an expert. His apprenticeship was preceded by an initiation ceremony, in which the ritual brought him under the favour of the tutelary god of the particular craft. The student’s understanding was thereby quickened, his ears became receptive to instruction, his memory retentive, and his hands skilful. The arrangements were usually made by the elders but sometimes the keen desire of a boy was recognized by a craftsman. Hori Pukehika of Whanganui told me how he became a master builder and carver. When the carved house of the Takarangi family, named Te Pakū, was being built at Putiki, Hori, as a boy, watched the carvers at work. The head carver was working on the tekoteko human figure to surmount the front gable end when the call came for the midday meal. Hori had been watching with longing eyes, and as the carver had left his chisel and mallet beside the work, he picked them up and commenced to carve the tattoo lines on the unfinished side of the face. He became so engrossed that he did not hear the craftsman return. He was surprised by an exclamation, and raising his head, he saw the head carver gazing with interest and surprise at what he had done. Hori dropped the tools in fear, but the old man looked at him kindly and asked, “Would you really like to learn to carve?” “Yes,” replied the boy. “Very well,” said the kindly expert, “meet me over there on the bank of the river just before sunset.” At the place and time appointed, the old man told Hori to strip and, removing his own clothes, they waded out into the water to waist depth. Just as the sun was setting, the master carver recited a ritual chant, sprinkled the boy with water, and

Hori became an entered apprentice in the exclusive guild of builders and carvers. Hori said, “If you look at the tekoteko on Te Pakū, you will notice that on one side of the face, the lines are not quite regular.” Then with a deprecating smile, he added, “The crooked lines are mine.”

The highest craft among women was weaving and, here again, some were initiated so as to attain the greatest skill. Tira, the wife of Hori Pukehika, was one of the best weavers in the Whanganui district. After she learned the elements of the craft, the officiating priest told her to weave a rough sampler as an offering. This was laid by the priest on a tapu place termed a tuahu. He then lit a fire and warmed some puha leaves (*Sonchus asper*) over the embers. Then, with a ritual chant, he gave her the cooked leaves to eat. The ceremony fixed the knowledge she had already acquired and opened her mind and fingers to further skill. Her skill was unquestionable, for as Hori said with a proud smile, she had been “fed.”

Best, E. (1924). The Maori: volume 2. In *Memoirs of the Polynesian Society* (Vol. 5, pp. x, 638). Printed by H.H. Tombs, limited. p.24-25.

“The following remarks have been culled from a contribution on the care of children in former times made by Ihaia Hutana, of Waipawa: **“When the boy grew up he was taught the customs and arts of his people, to deliver a speech well, to use weapons, to cultivate food, to hunt and snare, to take the products of forest, stream and ocean, to make and manage a canoe,** and to build a house. Also was he instructed in the ancestral lore of his tribe, in signs pertaining to the elements, in fact, everything that would be beneficial to him in his future life. Indolence in a young person was severely censured, for it brought trouble to him, and to his children in later life. ... The salvation of the men of old was the attention they paid to raising children, for they well knew that safety lay in numbers, and that rank could be maintained only by tribal strength. Thus they proved the truth of the old saying that a house built within a fortified village is a token of strength, whereas a house erected in the open is food for fire. Our elders married that they might have offspring to perform necessary labours for the welfare of the community. They desired male children to carry on their families to future times; they were delighted to see their children become parents in their turn.” ”

Metge, J. (1995). *New growth from old: the Whanau in the modern world*. Victoria University Press. p.184-185.

“In my informants’ experience it was the tūpuna who assumed the task of teaching children tikanga in general and whānau knowledge in particular. They had the time, the knowledge and

a mature understanding of children. According to Hana Reihana:

It wasn't our parents who taught us about gathering kai moana, it was the grandparents, the old people. Our father would have liked to teach us but he was too busy. It was old Eparaima across the road who taught us how to make paua hooks and the reti board. An uncle of Dad's taught us how to plant everything—kumara, strawberries. He did it the old way.

Hana's husband Otene added that in his family his grandmother was the main teacher for her grandchildren.

She was the one that taught most of the tapu things. She told the young people why, and what they should do if they broke a tapu. She taught the laws of the home—how you should receive food, how food should be given to a man or a woman, how you should present it.”

Hawthorn, H. B. (1944). The Maori: a study in acculturation. In *Memoirs* (Issue 64, p. 130). American Anthropological Association. p.104.

“Some men do knit and sew. **All the Wata boys had been taught to knit by their sisters, and some of them made sweaters for themselves.** Mu Taipari showed a shirt which he had mended on the sewing machine. Operation of a complicated machine, or mastery of difficult techniques by the women offers the men a challenge they cannot resist, but as a task they decline to accept any responsibility for sewing.”

7.4.4 Marquesas

Suggs, R. C. (Robert C. (1963). Marquesan sexual behavior. [s.n.]. p.17-18.

“Boys help in the manufacture of copra and in gardening tasks. They also are expected to handle the more strenuous tasks, such as collecting coconut drippings for contraband alcohol, or aiding in construction jobs. **They are taught fishing techniques, woodworking and hunting. Instruction in most cases is entirely informal, by example rather than precept.”**

7.4.5 Samoans

Mead, M. (1928). *Coming of age in Samoa; a psychological study of primitive youth for western civilisation.* W. Morrow & Company. p.31-33.

“In the house the girl's principal task is to learn to weave. She has to master several different techniques. First, she learns to weave palm branches where the central rib of the leaf serves as a rim to her basket or an edge to her mat and where the leaflets are already arranged for weaving. From palm leaves she first learns to weave a carrying basket, made of half a leaf, by plaiting the leaflets together and curving the rib into a rim. Then she learns to weave the Venetian blinds which hang between the house posts, by laying one-half leaf upon another and plaiting the leaflets together. More difficult are the floor mats, woven of four great palm leaves, and the food platters with their intricate designs. There are also fans to make, simple two-strand weaves which she learns to make quite well, more elaborate twined ones which are the prerogative of older and more skilled weavers. **Usually some older woman in the household trains a girl to weave and sees to it that she makes at least one of each kind of article,** but she is only called upon to produce in quantity the simpler things, like the Venetian blinds. From the pandanus she learns to weave the common floor mats, one or two types of the more elaborate bed mats, and then, when she is thirteen or fourteen, she begins her first fine mat. The fine mat represents the high point of Samoan weaving virtuosity. Woven of the finest quality of pandanus which has been soaked and baked and scraped to a golden whiteness and paperlike thinness, of strands a sixteenth of an inch in width, these mats take a year or two years to weave and are as soft and pliable as linen. They form the unit of value, and must always be included in the dowry of the bride. **Girls seldom finish a fine mat until they are nineteen or twenty,** but the mat has been started and, wrapped up in a coarser one, it rests among the rafters, a testimony to the girl's industry and manual skill. **She learns the rudiments of bark cloth making;** she can select and cut the paper mulberry wands, peel off the bark, beat it after it has been scraped by more expert hands. The patterning of the cloth with a pattern board or by free hand drawing is left for the more experienced adult.”

p.29-30

“Before their release from baby-tending the **little girls** have a very limited knowledge of any of the more complicated techniques. Some of them can do the simpler work in preparing food for cooking, such as skinning bananas, grating cocoanuts, or scraping taro. **A few of them can weave the simple carrying basket. But now they must learn to weave all their own baskets for carrying supplies;** learn to select taro leaves of the right age for cooking, to dig only mature taro. In the cook-house they learn to make palusami, to grate the cocoanut meat, season it with hot

stones, mix it with sea water and strain out the husks, pour this milky mixture into a properly made little container of taro leaves from which the aromatic stem has been scorched off, wrap these in a breadfruit leaf and fasten the stem tightly to make a durable cooking jacket. They must learn to lace a large fish into a palm leaf, or roll a bundle of small fish in a breadfruit leaf; to select the right kind of leaves for stuffing a pig, to judge when the food in the oven of small heated stones is thoroughly baked. Theoretically the bulk of the cooking is done by the boys and where a girl has to do the heavier work, it is a matter for comment: "Poor Losa, there are no boys in her house and always she must make the oven." But the girls always help and often do a great part of the work."

Mead, M. (1930). Social organization of Manua. In Bulletin (Issue 76, pp. ii, 218). The Museum. p.39.

"Smaller arts like **netting, the weaving of traps, the making of fish hooks, the carving of coconut shells and kava cups, are taught by the old men of the household to the younger ones. Most boys acquire the rudiments of the techniques; a few gain the reputation of virtuosos and are sought as instructors by their young relatives and as artisans by the less skilled who can afford to purchase their services.** A fisherman usually knows thoroughly the techniques connected with his craft; cord making, trap making, netting, hook making; but is likely to neglect such matters as carving or lashing and to utilize the products of his fishing to purchase the wares of the master carpenter who also is an expert at carving smaller articles.

With the exception of the taupou's, women's techniques are taught exclusively within the descent group or the household, and entirely without formalization. As the majority of medicinal formulas are in the hands of women, these too descend within the descent group, from mother to daughter and aunt to niece, an old woman usually choosing only one younger woman as heir to her secrets. Similarly, formulas for special tapuis, hieroglyphic tapus to protect property involving magical punishment upon the thief, are said to have passed from father to son. [As none of these are any longer in use it was not possible to check this statement.]"

7.4.6 Tikopia

Firth, R. (1939). Primitive Polynesian economy. George Routledge & Sons, Ltd. p.114-115.

"In the emergence of a specialist craftsman individual training plays some part, as when a fa-

ther makes for his son a model of a house lashing in order to demonstrate the peculiar technique involved, or has the lad at his side when he is engaged in woodwork, or in fishing. But here the personal factors of individual interest and aptitude are paramount and there is no attempt to force the child into following his father's special craft. Since every specialist also takes part in the general productive activity in other fields there is plenty of scope for any member of a family who shows no particular bent for a specialized craft. **Some children appear to develop as specialists at quite an early age. Seuku, a boy of about twelve, was a wood-worker to whom other boys went to get heads for their darts.** These were quite passable specimens, as was also a model of a club which he made for his own interest and which I bought from him. Again, when some children imitated a current activity of their elders and began to remodel the bow of a small canoe, it was Seuku who acted as tufu[unknown]a and directed the work. **Seuku appeared to have developed largely on his own initiative; neither his father nor his elder brothers had any special proficiency as wood-workers.** On the other hand there is sometimes a continuity in the practice of a craft by members of a family, as in tattooing. 1 The house of Niukapu has an ancient tradition of seamanship; and the chiefly house of Taumako a reputation for skill in all the major crafts. A man of Tafua, who could be expected to belittle rather than praise their accomplishments, said to me, "They are the tufu[unknown]a house in this land; they are expert indeed in all things." "

p.106 (contextual information)

"The mechanism of transmission of this body of economic lore is not highly organized. There is in Tikopia no guild of craftsmen for any activity as there is a guild of builders in Samoa; nor is there any institution for the transmission of ritual knowledge in any way comparable to the "House of Learning" among the Maori. **Transmission of economic lore is usually done on a kinship basis, a parent, a grandparent or a mother's brother instructing a person in some particular craft. Children usually learn by accompanying a working party, and being taught on the spot.** A former Ariki Taumako when young was taken by a noted fisherman, Pu Niukapu, to sea and instructed in fishing lore. "He was carried to each fishing bank, and told of its markings in the ocean, and of its markings to shore"—that is its bearings for future identification. In this case the lad was an "adhering grandchild" of the fisherman. 1 There is no closely defined set of conditions attaching to this transmission and usually no specific payment. Certain times and places are more appropriate than others, but use of them is a matter of convenience rather

than prescription. Seremata, a keen fisherman, insisted on making known to me the formula for deep-sea line fishing only when we were actually in a canoe at sea. This, he said, was the appropriate occasion. But other people made no such stipulation. Knowledge of fishing practices and formulae does tend to be imparted mostly in the immediate context of situation, which is obviously most suitable.”

7.4.7 Tongans

Mariner, W., & Martin, J. (1818). An account of the natives of the Tonga islands, in the South Pacific ocean: with an original grammar and vocabulary of their language. John Murray. p.287-290.

“The natives of Fiji, Hamoa, and the Sandwich islands, who were resident at Tonga, used to say that it was not a good practice of the people of the latter place to let their women lead such easy lives; the men, they said, had enough to do in matters of war, &c. and the women ought therefore to be made to work hard and till the ground: no, say the Tonga men, it is not *gnale fafine* (consistent with the feminine character) to let them do hard work; women ought only to do what is feminine: who loves a masculine woman? besides, men are stronger, and therefore it is but proper that they should do the hard labour. It seems to be a peculiar trait in the character of the Tonga people, when compared with that of the other natives of the South Seas, and with savage nations in general, that they do not consign the heaviest cares and burdens of life to the charge of the weaker sex; but, from the most generous motives, take upon themselves all those laborious or disagreeable tasks which they think inconsistent with the weakness and delicacy of the softer sex. Thus the women of Tonga, knowing how little their own sex in other islands are respected by the men, and how much better they themselves are treated by their countrymen, and feeling at the same time, from this and other causes, a patriotic sentiment, joined to their natural reserve, seldom associate with foreigners. Thus when the *Port au Prince* arrived at the Sandwich islands, the ship was crowded with women ready to barter their personal favours for any trinkets they could obtain; but how different at *Lefooga*! where only one woman came on board, and she was one of the lower order, who was in a manner obliged to come by order of a native, to whom she belonged as a prisoner of war, and who had been requested by one of the officers of the ship to send a female on board. Captain Cook, also, strongly notices the reserve and modesty of the females of these islands; and the observations of this accurate narrator will serve to corroborate

what we have been stating. We have already noticed the humane character of the Tonga females, and in addition we beg to observe, that their behaviour as daughters, wives, and mothers, is very far from being unworthy of imitation: children, consequently, are taken the utmost care of; they are never neglected either in respect of personal cleanliness or diet: as they grow older, the boys are made to exercise themselves in athletic sports; **the girls are made occasionally to attend to the acquirement of suitable arts and manufactures, and of a number of little ornamental accomplishments which tend to render them agreeable companions, and proper objects of esteem: they are taught to plait various pretty and fanciful devices in flowers, &c.** which they present to their fathers, brothers, and superior chiefs, denoting respect for those who fill higher circles than themselves. There is still one observation to be made with respect to females, and which is not of small importance, since it tends to prove that the women are by no means slaves to the men; it is, that the female chiefs are allowed to imitate the authority of the men, by having their cow-fafi'ne, as the male chiefs have their cow-tangata: their cow-fafi'ne consists of the wives and daughters of inferior chiefs and matabooles, and it may be easily conceived that such an association tends to support their rank and independence."

Beaglehole, E., & Beaglehole, P. (1941). Pangai, village in Tonga. In *Memoirs of the Polynesian Society*: Vol. v. 18 (pp. iii–iv, 3–145, [1]). The Polynesian Society. p.47-48.

"The growing child is inducted into the economic activities of the group very gradually and without many tears. He or she takes on economic duties according to the strength and skill at the moment. Thus, the six year old girl can start a fire and wash a few clothes though she will as yet make no attempt at cooking. The eight or nine year old boy is already being sent independently to the bush plantation to bring back food and firewood. By this age he is certainly capable of rendering assistance to the household in agricultural work. How much assistance he does render depends largely on the make-up of the household (on the number, that is, of able-bodied adult men in the group) and his ability to disappear with a gang of playmates whenever he senses his services may be in demand. A girl of twelve is already a good cook and housekeeper although she will not yet have learned to make mats. **She will begin to learn mat-making techniques between the ages of twelve and sixteen, depending upon the interest of the mother** as well as of the girl herself and her industriousness. **She will have learned already the techniques of beating out bark cloth though the skills involved in stencilling such cloth and preparing the dyes will not be acquired until the time of marriage.** Mat-plaiting is a somewhat tedious job,

according to the testimony of village women. Many girls and young women only take on the responsibility of making household mats when there are no other older women in the group to do the job. Post-adolescent boys and girls generally learn to make sennit. Finer skills, such as net-making, may be learned at any age depending upon necessity or interest.”

Koch, G., & Schütze, F. (1955). The South Seas – yesterday and today: cultural change among the Tongans and an attempt to interpret this development. In *Kulturgeschichtliche Forschungen* (p. HRAF Ms.: 1, 518 leaves [Original: 1-331, 352-359]). A. Limbach. p.337-338.

“Old people usually work along with the family to the extent that their strength permits. Those who cannot or need not work independently usually stay on at home and busy themselves with lighter tasks. Men, for example, help in copra-making (drying), plait the crude coconut-leaf baskets or the “pola” (see p. 311) and make the coconut-fiber cords (kafa); the women make mats, for example. **Children grow into their later tasks and duties as a result of the help which their parents demand of them at an early age (generally beginning at five or six years years).** On the whole, they probably help their parents more than they play. Thus the boys lend a helping hand on the plantations, bring home some field products, help in drying the copra, often learn a few fishing methods at an early age and, 225 along with the girls, carry water and bring in firewood; the girls help with many kitchen tasks (for example, shucking coconuts and scraping the kernel meat), **they help with the laundry, they learn, at the age of 10 or 12, the various types of plaitwork, and even at this age assist in tapa-making.** In addition, mandatory school attendance in all the settlements of the Archipelago takes up a great deal of time of the children of all ages.”

8 South America

8.1 Amazon and Orinoco

8.1.1 Amahuaca

Woodside, J. H. (2014). Developmental sequences in Amahuaca society. Univ. Microfilms International. p.304.

“The classification of arrows is significant for a study of child development because boys become fully conversant with it. **By ten years old, boys make all classes of arrows by themselves.** This

implies that they are aware of the qualities used to distinguish the classes and suggests that they probably master the mental operations necessary for classification.”

p.301

“Men at Otracasa use bows and arrows more frequently than those at Rozachacra who rely on shotguns. Otracasa men usually carry bows (PIAKANTI2) and arrows (PIYA2) with them during the day working in the gardens, in the forest, or on the river. At home, they leave their bows strung with a supply of arrows nearby. **All Otracasa boys master the skills necessary to using and making bows and arrows between the ages of six and twelve.** They practice these skills with other boys and young men. They often spend several hours a day using bows and arrows proportioned to their size. All bows and arrows are weapons used to kill animals, or humans. Amahuaca encourage boys to use them accordingly.”

p.225 (contextual information)

“Technical knowledge makes the domestic economy possible. Much of this knowledge is a cultural legacy. Transmission of knowledge equips actors to work and provides a framework for individual learning. Applying their knowledge, Amahuaca manage to live well in a difficult environment. This enables them to maintain and perpetuate their society.”

Dole, G. E. (1974). The marriages of Pacho: a woman's life among the Amahuaca. *Many Sisters: Women in Cross-Cultural Perspective*, 3–35. p.3-4.

“Moreover, Pacho had not shown herself to be a good worker, which is the most, important criterion in the choice of a wife. She spent much of her time at play with her younger siblings and her pets, a fledgling macaw and a litter of puppies. Certainly she was not mature enough to take on the responsibilities of marriage and housekeeping. **It is true that her mother had begun to teach her the duties and skills of womanhood, but when she was asked to prepare food she did the work only with assistance and coaching. It would, be difficult to imagine her performing the other minimal duties of a wife, such as planting and harvesting corn, cutting and carrying firewood, making pots and hammocks, or rearing children of her own.**”

8.1.2 Jivaro

Harner, M. J. (1973). *The Jivaro: people of the sacred waterfalls*. Anchor Press / Doubleday. p.92-93.

“A girl approximately six years or older may have not only the above tasks, but also directly assists her mother in garden work of all kinds, including planting, weeding, and harvesting. **When her mother is making pottery, she imitates her by making and firing miniature vessels and also may form and fire miniature dogs.** No dolls in human form are produced, however. **A boy who may be tempted to work with clay is discouraged by his father, who advises him not to touch it or else the boy’s penis will one day stay soft and limp like a coil of clay.**

A boy, when about four, begins to learn the art of blowgun hunting. His father gives him a small hollow reed less than a foot long and makes little darts. The child, who at that age tags along after his mother to the garden, uses it to shoot at butterflies. **When he is about six,** his father presents him with a real miniature blowgun and a dart quiver. Then, while his mother works in the garden, he wanders about, shooting at the hummingbirds coming to feed at the flowers of the manioc plants. Those that he kills, he brings to her to cook, which she does gravely. He is not allowed to eat them himself, it being believed that he cannot kill again if he does so. By approximately nine years of age, his skill normally has advanced to the stage that he is killing larger birds lurking in the trees around the garden. His father then takes him hunting and gives him his first formal instruction in killing game, and has him assist by carrying it home. **In the house, the father encourages the development of other male skills by showing approval when the son attempts to make miniature baskets** or model houses and rafts.

Post-puberty boys perform most of the tasks of their fathers, including participation in the defense of the house and in attacks on enemies. A son may accompany his father on a raid as early as the age of six; but it is more common for this to happen when he is nine or older.”

8.1.3 Ndyuka

Hurault, J., & Winchell, J. (1961). The Boni refugee Blacks of French Guiana. In *Mémoires* (Issue 63, p. HRAF MS: xi, 583 [Original: xii, 356]). IFAN. p.192.

“Education of children. If the education of girls does not necessitate a difficult apprenticeship, it is not the same for boys; the sum of knowledge that /132/ a Refugee Black must possess to carry out effectively the techniques of his group is considerable. In particular, he must:

–Know more than 200 kinds of trees with their uses, the way to fell them, the way to work their wood;

–Be capable of constructing boats of at least 10 kegs (1,000 kilograms of load). This technique alone requires several years of apprenticeship;

–Acquire sufficient knowledge of carpenter work to build his house and that of his wife;

–Learn how to handle boats on the river and the techniques of transport boating.”

p.194

“In general, the process of education employed among the Refugee Blacks is imitation of the adult. A child is rarely given a lesson as such. He sees something done, he tries on his own initiative, and little by little he learns. **For example, /133/ he sees his guardian make a boat; he is simply asked to go and get dry palm branches and to take away the chips; he hears the adults discuss the job as it goes on. At about the age of 12 or 13 he tries to make a first boat for himself with the help of an older comrade. He progressively acquires knowledge of this technique.**

Boys begin to take part in farm work from the age of six or seven, principally weeding and planting. At about ten or eleven they begin to handle the machete and help to cut through the bush; at about 12 they begin to handle the axe and learn to fell trees. **At 14 or 15 they begin to make small boats.** An adolescent of 16 or 17 is in general capable of cutting a clearing for his mother or sister.”

8.1.4 Pumé

Petrullo, V. (1939). The Yaruros of the Capanaparo River, Venezuela. In Bulletin (pp. 161-290 , 14 plates). U.S. Govt Print. Off. p.202.

“Hunting and fishing are male occupations exclusively. **As soon as the young boy is able to toddle about he is made to play with bow and arrow and learns to make these indispensable tools. It is a common sight to see little boys who are too young to be taken along by the men on hunting expeditions playing at the game of hunting; and when a man is in camp busily preparing his hunting equipment his young son is by his side working industriously on miniature bows and arrows.**

The equipment of the hunter is simple. Bow, arrow, and canoe are indispensable. A Yaruro does not like to roam on land, but there is no need for him to do so since he can get his game in the

water-courses or along their banks. So he sets off in the early morning, generally accompanied by his hunting companion, to look for crocodile (*Crocodilus babu*). He will hunt for other forms of life only reluctantly, having a special liking for crocodile meat.”

p.231

“During infancy there is no organized play for the girl. Her parents do not play as we are wont to do. She is not teased into laughter, but tender care is given to her. She is fed, cleaned, kept in the shade, and made to wear ornaments. Dolls of clay may be made for her. During this period she is taken everywhere by the mother. **From babyhood she participates in the collection of food, in its preparation and cooking, in the making of basketry, pottery, making and breaking camp, traveling in canoes, but always with her mother.** Gradually she learns to take a more active part in the female tasks. The important point is that the proper decorum for her is to keep to members of her own sex. She does not become a tomboy. If she learns to perform tasks it is only because the women are supposed to have a smattering of them anyhow. Paddling is one of these.”

Leeds, A. (1962). Ecological determinants of chieftainship among the Yaruro Indians of Venezuela. In Akten des 34. Internationalen Amerikanistenkongresses (pp. 597–608). Verlag Ferdinand Berger.

p. 606 (contextual information)

“One more point may be made regarding the ecology as limiter of chieftainship among the Yaruro. **The tools, techniques, and resources require no very extensive, highly specialized or esoteric knowledge. In fact any man or woman, and any child as well, has access to such knowledge, and it is easily acquired by all members of the society who thus have, at least potentially, equal access to control over the means of life. There is no specialized knowledge, at least with respect to technology and habitat, which requires a specialized repository in the form of a chief or learned person.** Yaruro knowledge, itself dependent upon the inventory of tools, techniques, and resources, inhibits any tendency towards the development of any sort of specialists in technical or managerial knowledge. As one might expect, there are no true specialists in Yaruro society. Here and there women make pots and certain women seem to have a special bent for making woven sacks but these are not properly specialities. Nor, from a technological or ecological point of view, is male or female shamanism in any way a speciality. They do not appear to be specialists even in esoteric knowledge. Knowledge of the general type described

here might be called 'dispersive' or 'egalitarian' since it tends to become more or less uniformly distributed among the members of the society. A consequence of the existence of this type of knowledge, associated with the kind of technology described, is that there will be no specialised training of any specialists and, of course, no specialised personnel to do such training. This is the situation which obtains among the Yaruro both with respect to technical and managerial activities. Thus, in Yaruro knowledge, there is no source for the support of an institutionalized and strong chieftainship."

Leeds, A. (1962). Ecological determinants of chieftainship among the Yaruro Indians of Venezuela. In Akten des 34. Internationalen Amerikanistenkongresses (pp. 597–608). Verlag Ferdinand Berger.

p.606 (contextual information) "One more point may be made regarding the ecology as limiter of chieftainship among the Yaruro. The tools, techniques, and resources require no very extensive, highly specialized or esoteric knowledge. **In fact any man or woman, and any child as well, has access to such knowledge, and it is easily acquired by all members of the society who thus have, at least potentially, equal access to control over the means of life. There is no specialized knowledge, at least with respect to technology and habitat, which requires a specialized repository in the form of a chief or learned person.** Yaruro knowledge, itself dependent upon the inventory of tools, techniques, and resources, inhibits any tendency towards the development of any sort of specialists in technical or managerial knowledge. As one might expect, there are no true specialists in Yaruro society. Here and there women make pots and certain women seem to have a special bent for making woven sacks but these are not properly specialities. Nor, from a technological or ecological point of view, is male or female shamanism in any way a speciality. They do not appear to be specialists even in esoteric knowledge. Knowledge of the general type described here might be called 'dispersive' or 'egalitarian' since it tends to become more or less uniformly distributed among the members of the society. A consequence of the existence of this type of knowledge, associated with the kind of technology described, is that there will be no specialised training of any specialists and, of course, no specialised personnel to do such training. This is the situation which obtains among the Yaruro both with respect to technical and managerial activities. Thus, in Yaruro knowledge, there is no source for the support of an institutionalized and strong chieftainship."

8.1.5 Saramaka

Herskovits, M. J., Herskovits, Mrs., Frances (Shapiro), & Guiana, B. N. O. D. (1934). *Rebel destiny: among the bush Negroes of Dutch Guiana*. Whittlesey House, McGraw-Hill Book Company, Inc. p.215.

““My sons are big so,” she showed, pointing to the mortar, “and already my brother takes them with him down the river, and when they are with him he tells them about the creeks and the trees, and where the villages are which are friendly to our people. But when they come here to see me, then they play. They have play guns and play arrows which they make themselves. Into the uncleared bush they shoot them until I call them away to eat. Here I have no man from whom they can learn. Here they only play.”

But boys liked to be with men. When the rains came, her brother would let them sit by when he carved, and, seeing him work, they would take up a knife and begin whittling. That was how boys learned to do men’s work.

Women children played with “gossi.” She put down her pestle, and felt about in her cloth where the child slept, and brought out a gourd, resembling in size a small cucumber. It had beads on top for eyes and a few deft cuts to indicate nose and mouth, while above the eyes was crosshatching for the hair. Until girls were old enough to be of use in the fields, they sat about in the clearing playing with these dolls.”

p.314-315 (contextual information)

“All other knowledge the Bush Negro child gains by being about with members of his family who are busy at the tasks which will fall to his lot when he reaches adulthood. Half in play, the boys and girls help their elders and in that way learn how to work, how to conduct themselves, how to sing and dance, how to make cicatrizations, and how to pray to the gods. What they learn when they come by their gods is also taught them by members of their family. A boy’s father and maternal uncles instruct him in the gods they give him. A girl is made familiar with the will of her gods and their manner of worship when her mother and her mother’s sisters give their gods to her. Knowledge is, therefore, shared in the family, and much of it, the Bush Negro says, comes to each individual from his gods, since not every boy who watches a fine carver can rival the carving of his teacher. When he does show promise of excellence at a given task, it is because he, too, has a god who helps him do his carving. It is the same with drumming, and singing, and

telling stories, and making love.”

8.1.6 Shipibo

Eakin, L., Lauriault, E., & Boonstra, H. (1986). People of the Ucayali, the Shipibo and Conibo of Peru. In Publication (pp. ix, 62). International Museum of Cultures. p.51.

“At one time informal instruction formed an important part of a child’s life. **Boys especially were given careful instruction by their father or grandfather in various practical skills. They learned how to fell a tree and shape a canoe, how to make bows and arrows, how to construct a house.** Today, when many of the children spend a large part of the day in school, and many men work away from home, this instruction is much less common. **Much learning, however, continues to be by informal observation and imitation. Girls learn how to string beads and make pottery by working alongside their mothers.** As they grow older, they are given more responsibility in cooking and working in the garden. Boys spend endless hours fishing, either from the shore or from a canoe, and **helping with men’s chores. They begin to accompany the men on hunting trips at about age ten.**

Children’s games are often imitations of typical adult activities. Girls cook on small fires or play with homemade dolls; boys hunt lizards with bow and arrow. Hide-and-seek is popular, as are a number of games and toys introduced from western culture, including stilts and tops.

In addition to traditional ways of educating children, the Shipibo have also had access to formal education for many years. Catholic missions have often had schools, conducted in Spanish, as did some Protestant missions; and patronos have occasionally hired teachers as well.”

Roe, P. G. (1980). Art and residence among the Shipibo Indians of Peru: a study in microacculturation. *American Anthropologist*, Vol. 82(1), 42–71. p.52.

“**There is no formal verbal instruction; a young girl of 12 or so just sits on the raised slat floor next to her mother and watches her paint a textile with a native plant dye such as astoro. This pigment requires three applications to achieve the desired color, so the mother gives her daughter the job of retracing the main form lines of the design for the second and third coats. As she follows the original lines, the young girl’s motor movements are guided and she begins to perceive the structure implicit in the design.**”

8.1.7 Sirionó

Holmberg, A. R. (1950). Nomads of the long bow: the Siriono of eastern Bolivia. In Smithsonian Institution. Institute of Social Anthropology (Issue 10, p. iv, 104 plates). U.S. Govt. Print. Off. p.79-80.

“At about the age of 8, a boy begins to accompany his father on the hunt. This is really the beginning of his serious education as a hunter. Until this time most of his hunting has been confined to the immediate environs of the hut. When a boy first starts to accompany his father, he makes only about one excursion per week, but as he gradually becomes hardened to the jungle, his trips away from camp become more frequent and of longer duration. On these expeditions the boy gradually learns when, where, and how to track and stalk game. His father allows him to take easy shots, so as to reinforce his interest in hunting. The boy is given light loads of game to carry in from the jungle, and if he kills an animal of any importance, such as a peccary or coati, he is decorated with feathers like a mature hunter. **During all this time, of course, he is also learning to make bows and arrows and to repair those which have been broken on the hunt.** Hence, by the time a boy has reached the age of 12, he is already a full-fledged hunter and is able to supply a household of his own with game. At this age, girls, too, are ready for the responsibilities of adulthood.” ”

8.1.8 Tukano

Hugh-Jones, S. (1979a). The palm and the Pleiades: initiation and cosmology in northwest Amazonia. In Cambridge studies in social anthropology (Issue 24, pp. xvi, 332 , plates). Cambridge University Press. p. 86-87.

“For the initiates, the marginal period is a time of education. Immediately after the end of He House they are sent to the forest to collect large quantities of weaving cane (Ichnosiphon, a species of Marantaceae). The pith from the middle is blown over by a shaman and then eaten by all to prevent worms from eating the teeth and also to prevent splints of cane, sent by enemy shamans (kumuanye waka), from piercing the gums and causing inflammation. **Then the elders systematically teach the initiates to make all the different kinds of basketry (carrying baskets, sieves, flat trays, cassava squeezers, etc.).** By the end of this period the initiates amass considerable quantities of basketwork which they give away to the women at the dance

following the blowing of pepper. Basket making is seen as a prerequisite of adult male status and the Barasana say that men give their women baskets in exchange for the manioc bread that this basketry helps to produce. 13

In addition to basketry, **the initiates are taught how to make the feather head-dresses and other ritual ornaments used in dances** — ankle rattles, painted bark-cloth aprons, palm-leaf crowns, egret plumes, frontal crowns of yellow macaw feathers, etc. (see M.6.A.46). A considerable quantity of ornaments is made and used at the dance following the blowing of pepper. Though the learning of hunting and fishing skills is a never-ending process, there is a period of fairly intense education in these matters after initiation; once boys have been initiated their hunting and fishing becomes a serious matter. Just before the blowing of pepper, **the initiates are taught to weave conical fish traps** which they go and set in streams in the forest, accompanied by their masori. The small fish that are caught are afterwards blown over by a shaman and eaten after the blowing of pepper; this is the first fish that the initiates eat. In the past the initiates were also taught to use the weapons of war, especially the throwing lance. They had their arms cut and the blood was mixed with red paint and with yagé and then drunk. This made them so fierce that ‘they saw their enemies as game animals’. As well as this practical education, the initiates are taught more esoteric knowledge by the shamans and elders. Again, though such education is part of an ongoing process, after He House the initiates are taught the names and significance of the He instruments and the mythology associated with them, as well as much other knowledge. They are also given talks of the expected behaviour, etc., of adult men. Unfortunately, my information on this aspect of their education is rather limited.”

p.69 (contextual information)

The description of the main initiation rite and its prelude is based on my observation of a rite which took place in a Barasana maloca at the beginning of June 1970. The officiating shamans stressed that the rite was atypical in two respects: first, it took place at the wrong time of year (too late), and secondly, the two main candidates for initiation, instead of being young boys, were young men in their late teens or early twenties. They had been away working rubber and for this reason had not previously undergone the rite, even though one of them was already married. The other two candidates were boys undergoing the rite for the second time - each person must undergo the rite two or three times in the status of initiate. For these reasons, parts of the rite were either shortened or omitted completely. There are also certain parts of the rite

that are no longer carried out today but which even quite young men had undergone and could describe.

p.112

“Certain comments should be made about the objects exchanged; **first, women make garters at all times, but in particular they weave them during menstrual confinement. Similarly, men make baskets at all times**, but in particular they make them during the marginal period following He House. This period is a period of confinement (as is menstruation) and the same term, bedig[unknown], bedigo applies to both. Secondly, basketry is used as a gift between affines (see M.4.E.1) and in particular, men make basketry for their mothers-in-law. The Barasana also say that men give basketry to their wives in exchange for the labour involved in making cassava bread from manioc and that **the ability to make basketry is a prerequisite of adult status - it is for this reason that basket making is systematically taught to the initiates after He House.** Thirdly, the act of cooking food for an adult man is taken, in other contexts, to be one indicator of the fact that the man and the woman who cooks for him are related as man and wife. It is for this reason that the refusal of Manioc-stick Anaconda’s wife to cook fish for him (see M.6.A.56-9) was of such importance. Finally, at dances, men may be painted by one of three categories of women: their wives, their sisters or their henyerio partners.”

Hugh-Jones, C. (1979b). From the Milk River: spatial and temporal processes in northwest Amazonia. In Cambridge studies in social anthropology (pp. xx, 302). Cambridge University Press. p.144.

The marginal period has positive aspects, particularly learning myths and learning skills in making baskets and ritual ornaments. In the past the initiates were taught to use war weapons as well. Other participants keep a milder form of the same restrictions - the degree depends on the extent of their previous experience of He wi . The shamanism of pepper, which ends the marginal period, is performed after one month for the older participants but not for two months for the initiates. For many purposes, those seeing He for the second time are classed with initiates.

Silva, A. B. A. da, & Lillios, I. (1962). The indigenous civilization of the Uaupés. In Centro de Pesquisas de Iauareté (p. HRAF MS: 749 [original: 496, plates]). Centro de Pesquisas de Iauareté. p.733.

“The girl must get used to work and, with the mother’s training, will learn the several skills that someday will make her a good mother of a family. The boys will run loose in the forest, looking for fruits, will wander along the rivers, entertained by swimming or fishing, practicing at shooting arrows at fish or birds, and thus they will become able to provide the subsistence of the 484 family. **In the ajurís , in the traditional tasks, they will acquire beside the father that skill which will make them great oarsmen or expert basketmakers.**”

Goldman, I. (1963). The Cubeo: Indians of the Northwest Amazon. In Illinois studies in anthropology (Issue 2, pp. x, 305). University of Illinois Press. p.55-56.

“The technology of fishing is fairly complex, involving skills in making and in maintaining equipment and, of course, expert knowledge of fish and their habits. Nowadays all Indians use commercial fishhooks. All else is native. A father teaches his son by explaining, by showing, and primarily by allowing the boy to accompany him. The basic instruction is individual and direct. A boy who has no father learns from a paternal uncle or grandfather, but he will often not be as deft as one who has his own father as a teacher. An important supplementary mode of learning is within the play pack. Here, unsupervised by adults, the boys practice what they have learned from their fathers, listen to one another’s criticisms, and exchange information. The laggard has a chance to catch up.

Because the best fishing is during low water, great stress is laid upon skill in handling the fishing bow and arrow. Every boy toddler is provided by his father with a miniature bow and set of arrows and is set to practice at a fixed target on terra firma. Grown boys practice with adult equipment along the river bank, aiming, if they possibly can, for fish. A boy is always welcome to accompany his father as a companion on a fishing trip, but if he wishes to be a partner he must be reasonably adept. The Cubeo may treat some work as fun but they never confuse it with play. Needless to say, the boys attend very closely to the task of learning river skills.

Every man makes his own equipment - a fishing canoe, line, fish net, basket traps, splint weirs, bow and arrows. There is some trade in these items, but no one is regarded as having reached adult status who is unable to equip himself with these necessities for fishing. **Skill in making equipment is acquired by careful observation of others and by helping. As a boy reaches manhood he prepares his equipment, calling upon and freely receiving assistance from elders and from more deft age mates. Fishing lore is acquired gradually.**

The Cubeo say that all men are equally skilled at fishing, although to an outside observer differ-

ences seem obvious. Leadership in fishing is to them a matter of initiative and personality, not of skill. Yet a leader of a fishing party may, indeed, ask an elder to come along as an expert. The fact is that expertness is very casually shared, as each fisherman narrates at the end of a day what he accomplished and how he accomplished it.”

8.1.9 Warao

Wilbert, J. (1976). To become a maker of canoes: an essay in Warao enculturation. In *enculturation in latin america: an anthology*: Vol. v. 37 (pp. 303–358). UCLA Latin American Center Publications, University of California. p. 323, 350.

p.323

“This work is carried out within the confines of the village and the children have been watching the craftsman for weeks. The boys are called frequently to the site to observe the process, although they are not permitted to touch the tools, not only to forestall the child’s damaging the hull but also to avoid provoking the spirit of the tool. Only men from neburatu up may pick up an adze. Thus, at least for the child, to learn how to handle the adze and how to finish the hull of a dugout is to learn through observation, never through practice. The adolescent will have to learn later under the guidance of his father. Again there is not much verbal instruction between father and son, but the father does correct the hand of his son and does teach him how to overcome the pain in his wrist from working with the adze. Another piece of explicit instruction occurs with respect to using the outspread hands to measure the thickness of the hull. The father remeasures the area that his son completes and, if necessary, corrects him personally.

p.324-325

“Little remains for the nebu (young adult; see table 5) to learn about the technical aspects of canoe making other than through experience and seasoning. But by the time a man has made his own fourth or fifth dugout, his father-in-law and the master builder of canoes will ask him whether or not he has dreamed of Dauarani, the Mother Goddess of the Forest. **By now he is a mature man of twenty-five or twenty-eight and is about to embark on a new learning experience involving the supernatural and religious dimension of canoe construction.**”

p.350

“From the age of three on the conditioning of boys toward canoe construction becomes more intensive, quite different from that of the girls who will be required as adult women only to maneuver a canoe, which she learned to do as a child with the others. In the manufacturing process the woman plays at best an ancillary role. **The father requires his prepuberty son to witness the different phases of canoe construction over and over again.** But in addition to being exposed to the technical processes involved, the child also develops the realization that boat making requires esoteric skills on the part of the master craftsman. As technical skills are mastered the emphasis of the general conditioning shifts during adulthood to concentrate more on the esoteric skills. A man’s aptitude for the career of craftsman which, according to the Indians, is a “natural” concomitant of being male is the result of such pervasive attitude conditioning. Casual though the general conditioning may appear to the outside observer, it is for the most part planned intentionally, a subject to which I return later on.

Technical skill-training predominates during postpuberty and early adulthood. The boy of fourteen swings his machete and axe with precision, participates progressively in the selection of an adequate tree, and is permitted to try his hand at cutting and excavating the trunk. The young adolescent also knows how to prepare the corduroy road along which the excavated hull will be dragged to the river. **Approximately five years of in-service training results in skills sufficient for the eighteen-year-old to fabricate his own first canoe from start to finish. His technical proficiency improves over the next six or seven years so that skill-training per se can be said to terminate by the time a man is twenty-five years of age.** Training in esoteric skills commences at this point for the properly conditioned, now technically competent, Warao. Under the guidance of a teacher he internalizes a complex curriculum of ritual and metaphysical knowledge. Among the skills he must acquire are chanting, verbalizations, and the ability to function in altered states of consciousness.”

p.353

“The master canoe maker receives his instructions for proper conduct during the initiation and promises to abide by the ethical code of his profession. He must not engage in felling a cachimamo tree without having obtained prior permission from the Mother of the Forest. He must not use the adze without propitiating it properly. The supernaturals, including the ancestor canoe makers, must receive offerings of tobacco smoke and sago, and sexual intercourse during the months of construction is taboo. Any careless disregard of the prescribed set of rules governing

the entire process of making a canoe, especially a large craft, is punished supernaturally—wrath visited upon the children and adults of the band, even the artisan himself “swallowed.”

And so we see that skill-training, socialization, and moral education are lifelong processes of enculturation for the Warao boat maker. Skill-training begins with an informal conditioning during childhood, develops into postpuberty and early adulthood in-service training for practical skills, and is complemented during a man’s prime and old age by esoteric skill-training. Skill conditioning takes place in the house, the neighborhood, in the forest, and on the river. At no time does instruction occur within an especially assigned area or building. The form of instruction is visual learning, demonstration, and participation in real-life situations. Verbalization during conditioning and technical skill-training is non-existent or highly uncommon. Esoteric skills, in contrast, are transmitted and learned in the context of initiation schooling. A special room may be set aside for this purpose and a curriculum of esoteric lore underlies the training process. Instruction is predominantly verbal.”

p.318-319

“Having mastered the first step toward becoming a boatman, the drive to own his personal boat soon makes the youngster eager for the time when he will be strong enough to develop his skills. **In this respect, my informants consistently assured me, the process is actually a matter of imitation and copying, not of teaching. Explained one expert canoe maker: “Nobody teaches a boy how to make a paddle or a canoe.” When asked why not, he replied, “Because he is a boy. Boys learn from watching. Boys just have to watch carefully.”**

What the informant did not tell me (but what fieldworkers, myself included, have observed) is that the canoe maker insists on having boys present when boats are being made. In other words, whereas **adults may not engage in verbal instruction, they definitely require the presence of the learner when the opportunity for visual learning and instruction through demonstration presents itself.** “The old Warao insists on performing this task [canoe-making] in cooperation with their children, grandchildren, and sons-in-law,” writes Suárez (1968:35).

I remember one occasion when the chief of the Winikina set out to manufacture a canoe for my personal use. His wives took the girls along to gather fruit and manaca shoots but his nine-year-old son had to remain at the working place in the forest, although the prospect of eating fruit and palm cabbage tempted him greatly. Therefore, while it is true that, as one of my informants put it, **“boys learn how to make canoes on their own initiative,” the drive to learn must be fostered**

and the cue “learning through watching” must be reinforced.

The son of the Winikina chief was only nine years old, yet he had to perform several minor tasks connected with canoe building. There are also a series of precautions children have to take and taboos to observe, so that by insisting on a noboto's participation the skill-training and social conditioning through which a Warao eventually becomes a master canoe maker is well under way at this early age. The paternal teacher is most understanding. He takes the relative physical immaturity of the apprentice into consideration and is forgiving if the attention span of the child is not very long, owing to the many distractions offered by a jungle environment. In fact, when the chief's nine-year-old fell asleep on a temiche leaf right next to the hull, his father smiled and walked over to him once to chase a horsefly off his bare back.

This tolerance is not shown toward an adolescent, though. At the age of fourteen a boy ceases to be a child. He can handle an axe and machete and now should participate more and more intensively in the actual production of a canoe. Otherwise he will be called lazy by his father and warned against growing up incapable of taking care of his future family. **Postpuberty girls are denied the world of canoe makers for several reasons. For one, they are not considered clever enough to learn the art. They spend most of their time learning how to make hammocks and other tasks traditionally considered to be women's work.** A young girl is especially dangerous to the canoe maker since she may unwittingly step into the dugout during menstruation. That would offend the patroness of canoe makers and provoke her devastating wrath.

Boys of fourteen, in contrast, make a decisive entrance into the world of canoe makers. One day the youngster will leave the settlement, axe in hand, to return with a piece of sangrito wood from which he carves his first paddle. When next the father goes into the forest to make a dugout, his son, now neburatu kabuka, will accompany him as assistant.”

p.327

“Thus marriage marks the boundary between adolescence and adulthood for a Warao youth. When his wife gives birth to their first child the young husband hands down the material evidence of neburatu status to his younger brother: the drum, the flutes, a necklace of jaguar bone, among other things. This gesture of passing on the paraphernalia of adolescence is associated with a good measure of trauma for the young man. It is the same trauma of separation which overshadowed his wedding day a few months earlier. All bridegrooms in Warao society are generally required to leave their parents' home and exchange the world of childhood for a strange

physical and social environment. **From that day a young man ceases to belong to the work team of his father where he learned the basics of canoe making. He is a nebu, “worker,” now serving his father-in-law. He has to cooperate with his co-resident brothers-in-law sometimes even in a new settlement, there to assume junior status to those who have preceded him by marrying his new wife’s sisters. Whatever remains to be learned about the art of boat making he will probably absorb from his father-in-law and brothers-in-law, the men of greatest consequence in effecting the enculturation of the newlywed.”**

p.304 (contextual information)

“In view of the antiquity of canoe making and its importance among the Warao, it is to be expected that in examining this success story we should find data pertaining not only to skill-training and technology but also to certain social and ideational dimensions of Warao enculturation which concentrate on one imperative: in each generation, to raise as many canoe makers as needed to fulfill the requirements of an environment in which canoes are essential for survival. Furthermore, the examination of the enculturation process of skill-training, socialization, and moral education as they relate to the art of canoe making should demonstrate how these processes are designed to permit the realization of the capacity of his personality in a man and “to so utilize the technology, to so implement the ideas—value, religion, philosophy—and to so act within the socioeconomic organization that the traditional adjustment of the culture to the outer world is not upset” (Henry and Whithorn Boggs, 1952:261).”

Wilbert, J. (1977). Navigators of the winter sun. In *The sea in the pre-columbian world: a conference at dumbarton oaks, october 26th and 27th, 1974* (pp. 16–46). p.23. Dumbarton Oaks Research Library and Collections, Trustees for Harvard University.

“Responsible for the perpetuation of Haburi’s art on earth are the master carpenters of canoes, referred to as moyomutuma. **A boy is associated with canoe-making from early childhood on, initially as spectator, when he accompanies his father and the other men of the family to the forest and watches the production process. Later, as an adolescent, he picks up the axe himself and participates in the process according to his increasing dexterity. By the time he gets married, a young man commands the basic skills and may even have a small canoe to call his own.** He now has to leave his family of orientation and join his wife’s kinfolk. As a result, he exchanges his status of an independent “bachelor,” who may or may not feel obliged to help his father in making canoes, for that of a dawa, “son-in-law,” obligated to take his place among his

fellow dawa and render the customary bride service.”

Heinen, H. D. (1988). *Oko Warao: marshland people of the Orinoco Delta*. In *Ethnologische Studien* (Münster in Westfalen, Germany) (p. 131). Lit. p.105.

“What Peru told you is true. We are the fathers. We fish for the children, we spear osibu fish, we go after kohu fish, gather hoku fish, we cut ohi fruit, we get sago flour. The mother sifts it so that the child will grow. We are already teaching the child, “My daughter, look at this, a beehive, the honeycomb!” The sons-in-law get it out for their mother-in-law while the child is watching. There is the asebe bee, there is the arao aidehemo bee. If one cuts the tree, there is no honey. The honey of asebe is not very sweet. The honey of arao aidehemo is very sweet. That’s what you teach your son. Your daughter you teach as well. You teach everything. Now, look at this. My old woman is making a hammock. **If there is a girl around, she will ask, “Mother, how do you twist the moriche fiber?” “Like this you twist the moriche fiber, my daughter. This is how you fasten the stick of the frame, and this is how you tie it up. This is how you hold the thread to make a hammock.” The mother teaches a female to make a hammock.**

Now, I am a male. My son is a male. “My son,” I tell him, “make a dugout.” This is how you position the tree trunk. The upper side of the trunk you position like this. This is how you position the aft of the dugout.”

Heinen, H. D. (1973). *Adaptive changes in a tribal economy: a case study of the Winikina-Warao*. University Microfilms. p.469.

“Children have a great deal of freedom, and spend most of their time at play, especially swimming and paddling in the river. This play has, of course, important functions in developing much needed skills for adult life. Not only do boys shoot play arrows made from the cleaned rib of a moriche leaf, OHIDU ARUHU, at objects drifting in the river, and **girls prepare toy hammocks**, called HA HORO, out of dried moriche stalks, but most importantly, children’s games imitating animals serve to make them familiar with the fauna of the area and their living and eating habits.”

8.2 Central Andes

8.2.1 Aymara

Hickman, J. M. (1971). The Aymara of Chinchera, Peru: persistence and change in a bicultural context. University Microfilms. p.51-52.

“Early Childhood. At the age of three children begin to do small tasks around the house. The three year old at our house had a special small-sized wnter can. She trotted down to the spring several times a day to fill the can, and the water she brought to the house was never just dumped into a larger can but was used for a definite purpose while the child watched. The little girl also imitated her older sister, helping her grind, grain, cook, wash clothes, and so on. She also ran errands, helped her six year old brother bring in the animals to the corral, and even built miniature ovens to bake potatoes. At the age of six the child begins to receive more responsibility, usually that of having full charge of the animals while they pasture. By the age of ten field work has begun and the child is considered able to do almost any work an adult can do, giving due regard to sire and strength. Children have a good time doing these things, singing, dancing, and whistling when they are alone. There is little time for play except as it fits into the work schedule. Little girls have cloth dolls to help play house and a form of jacks using stones. **Little boys have balls, trucks, and build stone houses. They also innovate toys from whatever materials are handy – masks, drums, kites, tops, hoops, and so on.”**

Buechler, H. C., & Buechler, J.-M. (1971). The Bolivian Aymara. In Case studies in cultural anthropology (pp. 12, 114). Holt, Rinehart and Winston. p.25.

“Compi families expect their children to be quiet, hard-working, polite, humble, and controlled. Parents in turn are supposed to be loving, concerned, and protective. Parental love is shown by giving one’s offspring food and nice clothes – preferably factory made ones from **La Paz Parents teach their children the skills necessary for life in the community: girls learn agricultural tasks such as planting, weeding and harvesting, cooking, weaving, spinning, and marketing from their mothers. Fathers enlist the aid of their sons in working the fields, sewing by hand and by machine, knitting sweaters, and making nets. Formerly, boys also learned to weave certain articles which only men weave, for example, bayeta (sheep wool cloth woven on a European type of loom).** They also fish along the shore with small hand nets.”

8.2.2 Otavalo Quichua

Parsons, E. W. C. (1945). Peguche, canton of Otavalo, province of Imbabura: a study of Andean Indians. In *The University of Chicago publications in anthropology. Ethnological series* (pp. i–viii, 1–182, 217–225, 40 plates). University of Chicago Press. p.25.

“Pottery-making is a hereditary craft in certain families. The fourteen-year-old girl in one house we visited was pounding clay as we arrived; then she ground it. Her mother was coiling, but the young girl, too, knew how to coil, for she knew all the processes, having been taught by her mother just as her mother had been taught by hers.”

8.2.3 Saraguro Quichua

Belote, L. (1983). Prejudice and pride: Indian-White relations in Saraguro, Ecuador. University Microfilms International. p.102-103.

“The Saraguros believe in work, and in being productive. A newborn baby is usually welcomed to a Saraguro family and loved, but any attempts to compliment the parents on its beauty are brushed aside with a laugh. They counter with remarks about its helplessness and categorize it as “useless.” Such an assessment is frequently heard and **by the time the child is three, he or she is already making contributions to the family which are valued and praised** — such as helping with the sheep, gathering firewood, shooing chickens out of the house, collecting eggs or uncomplainingly carrying some item from the market at his parent’s heels. **Subsistence farming means mastery of a great variety of skills relating to food production, cloth manufacture, cattle raising, etc. for each individual.** To learn these well is a source of pride. A restricted number of skills are sex-specific (see J. Belote, n.d. for a complete listing), and perhaps the greatest ego investment is placed in these skills. While male chauvinists in the United States may regard it a compliment to a woman to say she works or thinks “like a man” (implying she has talents that others of her sex lack), for the Saraguro woman the epithet *carishina* (“like a man”) is one of the stronger insults — it means she lacks a talent (such as cooking well or spinning well) and is less adequate than women usually are. Saraguro women do not regard themselves as housewives, on their national identification cards, they classify themselves as “spinners.” ”

8.3 Eastern South America

8.3.1 Bororo

Levak, Z. D. (1974). Kinship system and social structure of the Bororo of Pobojarí. University Microfilms. p.98-99.

“The first words of the speech, “This is your wife,” also start the speech of the brother of a girl when she is given as compensation (mori) to the hunter who killed a jaguar for her dead brother. In the case of initiation the words do not have sexual implications but merely point out the structural similarity of the two actions. Just as a wife is given to her husband, who will then continue to care for her, provide food for her, and teach her, the boy is given to his initiator. The continuous companionship anticipated between the two yorubodare is parallel to that between husband and wife. When the Bororo were asked to explain this point, they repeated that the boy is the initiator’s wife, just as the initiator is the boy’s husband, his son, and his father—his yorubodare. The meaning is more apparent in other variants of the speech which do not start with akoredujereo but with aerubodareo, “this is your yorubodare;” or when akoredureo, “this is your husband,” is occasionally added. The rest of the speech refers to the new role the initiator will assume toward the boy. **Until the rite, the boy’s father was responsible for his education. The father showed him how to use bow and arrows, taught him how to make ornaments, and told him the names of different plants and animals. Now the initiator will take the father’s place and complete the boy’s education. They will be together all the time, and the boy, through observation and instruction, will learn the tasks required of an adult Bororo man.**”

Petrullo, V. M. (1932). Primitive peoples of Matto Grosso Brazil. The Museum Journal, Vol. 23, 81-180, 25 plates. p.173.

“The education of the children is taken in hand by the respective sexes in things that pertain to them. **Thus the making of biiju is taught by the women, but the making of arrows and bows by the men.**

Labor between the sexes is as evenly divided as their physical powers permit. Roughly, the heavy work is done by the men, with the women assisting, and the light work is done by the women, with the men assisting. The men clear the manioc fields, while the women see to it that they are supplied with food; the women do the planting, but the men aid constantly, and it is the same way with gathering. The making of farina—the grating and squeezing out of the juice—and

the making of biiju is taken care of by the women; but the gathering of wood, the packing of the farina for storing, the making of the baskets, and other occupations are taken care of by the men. Fishing is a man's job, as is whatever hunting is done, but the women assist by steering the canoe and doing the light paddling. When actually travelling, the man always paddles in the stern, and the woman never paddles if there are two men in the canoe. When travelling afoot, the loads are shared by the men and the women in proportion to their physical powers. In short, men and women and children mutually help one another in any undertaking."

8.3.2 Guaraní

Schaden, E., & Lewinsóhn, L.-P. (1962). Fundamental aspects of Guaraní culture. In *Corpo e Alma do Brasil* (Issue 6, p. HRAF MS: 1-236 [original: 191 plates]). Difusao Européia do Livro. p.113-114.

"The time of the *resguardo* represents for **the adolescent a period of apprenticeship in manual skills**, a sort of school of home economics. Although some say that the **girls** are given training only "in order to be distracted," others insist that she "does not stay idle, no," and has to occupy herself: "it is in order to learn." And, as soon as the days of the monthly period have elapsed, there is much to learn: to prepare food, to pick over cotton, **to spin, to plait hammocks, to sew, to cut out clothing, to make akanguá (diadems), djeatsaá, mbaraká** . But 94 naturally "**she could not work at anything heavy.**" At least among the Mbüá the teaching is administered by **the grandmother, paternal or maternal.**

With the abstraction of the specifically educational aspect of the *resguardo* of the menstruation, it is essentially analogous to what is demanded of the parents of the newborn baby: measures imposed in reaction to a state of extraordinary physical and supernatural diathesis. The similarity is also shown by the comparison of the myths concerning the two situations narrated by the Ñandéva.

Nowadays the Ñandéva men do not use tembetá (labial ornament), nor do they pierce the lower lip of the boys. But it is probable that they have known the practice in former times; otherwise it would not be understandable that in their mythology they represent Tupã with a luminous tembetá . Nowadays, however, they pay little attention to the phenomenon of masculine adolescence. Only in the village of Jacareí have I had information that **the boy, when his voice changes,**

is subjected to the *resguardo* in order not to be the victim of *odjépotá* and so that there will not be incarnated in him certain spirits, particularly of animals such as *anta*, *jaguar*, etc. The spirits of female animals would be incarnated in the boys, just like those of male animals in the girls. The *resguardo* of the boys is practically reduced to not eating the meat of animals considered dangerous spirits. **It is at this age that they learn the manufacture of *adjó* (carrying baskets) and sieves, the tasks in the clearings, the construction of traps, and other things.**"

p.96-97

"It is not long before one of the characteristic traits of the situation of the adults, at least in the villages of southern Mato Grosso, appears in the economic behavior of the children. It refers to the sexual division of labor within the family, quite transformed, incidentally, as a consequence of the acculturative effects of the contacts. The woman does not practice earning money, whereas for the man his capacity for work and production is a source of pecuniary means nowadays considered indispensable for the existence of the group. The children's attitudes already conform to this distinction. **From eight to ten years old, more or less, the boy passes through a period of what might be called an apprenticeship: he accompanies his father in hunting, in the collection of honey, and in other activities, also learning, under paternal orientation, the technique of plaiting and the manufacture of the most diverse artifacts.** Spontaneously – and less through the initiative of his parents, contrary to what Virginia Drew Watson observed among the Kayová of the village of Taquapiri – the boy makes his own clearing and, not infrequently, sells the produce; with the money he buys some clothing that he needs or some gift for his mother – a dress to be made up, for example –; nothing for his father. At Francisco Horta it happens that Kayová boys ten years old do *changa* outside the village. Starting at twelve years of age the Guaraní boy in general begins to show his independence, working only part of the time in his father's clearing, until at about fifteen or sixteen he starts living with his father-in-law, on whose tillage he will have to work much more than the latter's sons. – In any case the affective bonds that bind the boy to his father are much less stable and lasting than those that tie him 82 to his mother. Lacking a father, there is little preoccupation about finding a "legal substitute"; the person more often indicated, however, is the paternal uncle."

Watson, V. D., & Lillios, I. (1944). Notes on the kinship system of the Cayua Indians. *Sociologia*, Vol. 6, HRAF MS: 1-23 [original: 31-48]. p.13.

"Parents and children : The relations between parents and children are the most important ones

in Cayuá society. The parents must care for the children and educate them, which generally takes place according to a sexual division. The responsibility for the education of the daughter falls to the mother, and although she also takes care of the son while he is very small, she does not need to concern herself much about his education. She teaches the daughter the tasks of the domestic economy, what must be done in the clearing, etc. **For his part the father teaches the son how to take care of the clearing, how to build houses, hunt, fish, make bows, etc.”**

8.3.3 Tapirapé

Wagley, C. (1977). *Welcome of tears: the Tapirapé Indians of central Brazil*. Oxford University Press. p.150-151.

“During the time that a boy lived in the takana, he was supposed to learn the male manual arts—how to weave baskets, how to make a bow and straight arrows, how to fabricate the spirit masks that the men wore in different ceremonies, and other handicrafts. However, I never witnessed any express attempt on the part of an older man to teach a young boy such pursuits. On the other hand, the takana was the place where adult men generally worked, and a boy had ample chance to watch them at it. In addition, boys were supposed to learn songs of the Bird Societies and of the various masked dancers during this period. Again, I cannot remember that they were consciously taught such songs, but it was in the takana where older men sang, often not for ceremonial reasons, but just for their own pleasure. Older men found boys of this age rather amusing in their attempts to carry out adult activities. Wearing the penis band could be rather painful until the prepuce stretched. Adult men laughed when such boys tended to finger their sexual organs repeatedly, and especially when the irritation caused an erection.

At this same age girls lived with their mothers. They were more frequently decorated with body paint than older women, but they were expected to carry out the work activities of adult women—to help with infants, to carry water, to tend the fire, and to cook. When their first menstruation took place, they ceased being referred to as kotantaní and became kuchamoko. By that time some girls were already married, although it is doubtful that they ever had sexual relations with their “husbands,” who had moved into the family dwelling as sons-in-law. There was no ceremony, to my knowledge, which marked a girl’s first menstruation or the assumption of her new age status. The village, however, was informed, for she was given a bath, decorated with body paint, and wore several necklaces of beads for several days. She was not isolated in a

special hut or in a portion of the house as girls so often were in other lowland South American societies.”

Wagley, C. (1955). Tapirapé social and culture change, 1940-1953. In *Anais do XXXI Congresso Internacional de Americanistas* (pp. 99–106). [s.n.]. p.104-105.

“With so few members, Tapirapé culture is “passing through a narrow funnel” so to speak; in other words, with so few people holding the status positions of aboriginal Tapirapé society much specialized knowledge will be lost. This is true of shamanism, as explained above, and it is true of the weaving of baskets for which Tapirapé men were justly famous before 1940. In 1953, only two men of the tribe knew the art of **basket making**. **In aboriginal times, it was a technique which men learned after adolescence (Tapirapé boys were not expected to learn the manly arts)**, and with the death of so many older men and the disintegration of Tapirapé society, few young men were able to study. Both of the young men who did learn produced baskets which in 1940 would have been considered distinctly inferior and few of the young men in 1953 showed an inclination to learn the art. Like many other aspects of the culture, Tapirapé basketry will probably be a “lost art” within a generation.”

8.3.4 Tupinamba

Beierle, J. (2003). Culture summary: Tupinamba. HRAF. p.6.

“Children of both sexes were closely attached to their mothers until about eight years of age. Weaning took place for boys at about the age of four or five; girls around six. At or around this time boys had their lower lips pierced for a labret or lip plug. This operation was a festive occasion for both the community and other nearby friendly villages. The boys were expected not to flinch during the operation, thus showing their fortitude. Naming the child was considered a serious matter. Usually the child received the name of an ancestor, a custom associated with the belief that children were themselves reincarnated ancestors. During this early childhood period children learned adult skills by copying the activities of their parents. **Fathers taught their sons to hunt and use weapons, while girls were taught by their mothers a range of skills necessary for women’s work, such as spinning cotton, making hammocks, preparing foods, and making basketry and pottery**. Children were neither spanked nor whipped and showed great respect for their parents.”

8.3.5 Xavante

Maybury-Lewis, D. (1967). Akwe-Shavante society. Clarendon Press. p.111.

“Nevertheless, **the five-year period in the bachelors’ hut is not one of complete idleness for the boys.** During this time they are taught the skills, both practical and ceremonial, which they will need in adulthood. **Older men** accompany them on the hunt and teach them how to track and kill the various game animals on which the Shavante rely. Such hunting instruction is mostly confined to the hemono, those short hunting trips prior to festivals in which the entire community takes part. Then the entire age-set of the he’wa are usually present and their elders can show them what to do during a concentrated spell of hunting. Boys usually know a great deal about fishing and gathering before they enter the bachelors’ hut. **While they are there, they are taught how to make their own weapons and to plait their sleeping mats. But by far the greater part of their instruction is devoted to ceremonial and to the making of regalia for the various ceremonies in which they have to take part.**”

p.106 (contextual information)

“**A boy may be anything between the ages of 7 and 12 when he is inducted in this way,** depending on whether he was only just too young to be incorporated into the previous age-set or whether he was a toddler at the time that they entered the bachelors’ hut. I doubt whether any boy would actually have to wait till he was 12 before entering the he (and therefore till he was 17 before initiation) unless he were rather undersized. The Shavante do not keep count of the actual ages of their children before they are old enough to belong to an age-set; after that their relative ages, i.e. the age-set to which they belong, are all that matters. In practice any boy who looks and behaves as if he is old enough to be with the members of the new age-set is permitted to be incorporated into it.¹”

8.4 Northwestern South America

8.4.1 Chachi

Altschuler, M. (1965). The Cayapa: a study in legal behavior. University Microfilms, Inc. p.15-16.

“Manufactures. Woodworking: It is immediately apparent that canoes and their handling are extremely important to all the inhabitants of the area. Young boys often begin their lessons in

canoemanship by playing on the drifting logs that come down stream when the river is in flood. They tumble and splash and learn to maintain a precarious balance. **Children from about the ages of nine to thirteen may have small canoes /kakúle/ made for them, which may be seven to eight feet in length, and scarcely a foot in width. At these ages boys begin to accompany their fathers into the monte where the canoes are roughed out by axe and adze. They learn to select the proper trees as only those that are tightly cross-grained will not split easily.** Occasionally canoes are roughed out at some height above the creek or rivulet that feeds into the main channel and in the process of carefully snubbing them down the boys learn to rig lines. A large canoe, about thirty-five feet long, may require almost a dozen men to bring it into the water from the monte, whereas a small canoe can be brought in by two or three men. Despite the fact that by the time the boys have reached their late teens they have acquired a large measure of skill in handling canoes, their canoes are nevertheless not considered finely finished until they have had several more years of experience.”

Barrett, S. A. (Samuel A. (1925). The Cayapa Indians of Ecuador. In Indian notes and monographs (Issue 40, p. Vol. I. xvi, 1-181 , plates 1-90; Vol. II viii, 183-476 , plates 91-142). Museum of the American Indian, Heye Foundation. p.41.

“At an early age the girls are instructed in household duties of all kinds, and often begin to spin and weave, as well as to make pottery, basketry, and other articles, at the age of five or six years. They also take a hand in agriculture when very small. As they grow older and become more proficient in these various arts, they enter more and more into the regular daily work of the home, until they finally marry, which they usually do at an early age, often at about seventeen or eighteen years.”

Skoggard, I. A. (2012). Culture Summary: Chachi. Human Relations Area Files. p.4.

“Children are wanted and indulged, albeit teased by adults. Punishment is rare. Infants and toddlers are confined in the house for safety reasons. Toilet training occurs early before infants can control themselves. Children begin wearing adult clothing at age three. Strict modesty is practiced from age five on. Boys begin school at seven or eight years of age, **whereas girls remain in the household to do chores and childcare, and learn to make pottery, baskets, and other articles.** There are no rites recognizing puberty for boys or girls. **Boys begin to learn the skill of canoe making, often fashioning their own small-scale replica.** Attaining the skill of canoe workmanship is one sign of adulthood. No shame is accorded menstrual discharge and sexual

activity begins after menarche.”

8.4.2 Goajiro

Watson-Franke, M.-B., & Watson, L. C. (1986). Conflicting images of women and female enculturation among Urban Guajiro. *Journal of Latin American Lore*, Vol. 12(2), 141–159. p.146-147.

“Central to the inculcation of the ideal image of woman is the encierro, a seclusion period for the girl (majayüráá) beginning with her first menses. The encierro, we argue, is the central identity-forming mechanism for females in this culture. The image of the ideal woman is directly associated with successful seclusion. The mother or female caretaker isolates the girl immediately from the rest of the family as soon as she has been informed of her condition. **This isolation may last from one to five years under traditional circumstances. During the encierro she is expected to learn two things. For one, she should learn to achieve control in the sphere of production; this is done by instructing her in weaving** and reminding her that she must now be responsible and considerate, as an adult is expected to be. For another, she should learn to achieve control in the sphere of reproduction, which is accomplished by instructing her in the preparation and administration of contraceptive medicines.

She is encouraged to excel, expected to achieve, and, if she has been properly socialized, she should be prepared to take on responsibility. As mother, sister, wife, and niece, the Guajiro woman takes control of economic resources, plays a crucial role in the socialization and future destiny of her children, and performs a vital function in keeping up harmony and balance in the lineage and the larger society.

The enclosure is a process which is designed to ensure the young woman’s safe and successful passage from childhood to adulthood. Magical procedures play an important role in this: her old hair is cut, for example, so that the new hair of an adult woman will grow; she is given several baths a day to enhance her beauty and to cleanse her of childish thoughts; she is dressed in new clothes, made especially for enclosed girls (simple colors, short); and she lies in a new hammock and uses new utensils when eating. There is a basic understanding that the biological changes have to be accompanied by well-defined and well-executed cultural measures to assure her attainment of adulthood. **While she is enclosed, the girl receives instructions in spinning, weaving, sex education, and contraceptive control. At the end there is a big party to celebrate**

her coming out.”

Watson, L. C. (1967). Guajiro social structure: a reexamination. *Antropológica / Sociedad de Ciencias Naturales La Salle*, Vol. 20, 3–36. p.8.

“As a function of the crucial importance of avuncular authority in the Guajiro matrilineage, **older boys who are approaching adolescence very often move to the rancheria of their maternal uncle in order to receive appropriate instruction from him with respect to economic skills** (GUTIERREZ DE PINEDA 1950: 165) and cultural values, and to fortify their claim to inherit his property in land and livestock. This creates a structural alignment in which the “nuclear family” at any given moment is composed of both the man’s own children who have not gone to live with other relatives and any of his maternal nephews who have come to help him manage his herds and to prepare themselves, in the educative sense, for the assumption of adult responsibilities. **The mother-wife, furthermore, may have older maternal nieces living with her who are undergoing the puberty confinement ceremony, or who are simply receiving advanced instruction in weaving and social skills from her (personal communication to author).**”

p.5-6

“In the Guajiro nuclear family the division of labor operates strictly along sexual lines. **The husband-father is responsible for** administering the family property, pasturing the animals, and integrating work roles connected with the care and upkeep of the livestock; he also clears garden plots in areas where agriculture is practiced, builds dwellings, enramadas, corrals, and wells, and **makes weapons**. **The wife-mother** must process the food and cook it, collect wild plant foods, water, and firewood, do the milking, clean the house, do the **weaving and pottery making**, attend to the gardens, and care for the children. **The boys of the family are trained to help their father, while the girls are trained to assist their mother in her duties. Induction into adult work roles is initiated at a very early age in this culture** (for a more detailed discussion, see WATSON, 1966).”

Gutiérrez de Pineda, V., & Muirden, S. J. (1950). Social organization in La Guajira. In *Revista del Instituto Etnologico Nacional* (Vol. 3, Issue 2, p. HRAF ms: i-ix, 1-304 [Original: xvi, 255]). [s.n.]. p.51-52.

“The boy also learns from the uncle skill in certain tasks in which the latter is practiced, such as the making of harness and weapons, housebuilding, and other accomplishments like horse

riding, lassoing, horse racing, etc.

...

Also, in war he is on this relative's side, because, according to traditional Guajiro law, war unites the consanguineous relatives on the maternal side. So he learns, when warlike deeds are spoken of, how to carry them out, and it is not unusual for him personally to experience the conclusions. He puts these ideas into practice when his kin go to **war**, headed by **the maternal uncle of highest standing or the consanguineous head of most prestige**. He goes with them to swell their ranks, so putting into practice what his theoretical education has taught him. **Indirectly he has been training for the fray when employed in making weapons for hunting** and perfecting himself in the way they are used. When taking part in these warlike operations he makes use of all his social and legal training, and puts into practice the tradition of his group, besides which the basic principle of consanguineous relationship, mutual aid, and backing to resist aggression from outside elements is brought home to him."

Armstrong, J. M., & Métraux, A. (1948). The Goajiro. In Handbook of South American Indians, edited by Julian H. Steward: Vol. v. 4 (pp. 369-383 , 1 plate). U.S. G.P.O. p.378-379.

"Girls' puberty.—**At her first menstruation** a girl is isolated in a small dark hut and stripped of all her ornaments. She lies in a hammock, sometimes hoisted near the roof. For the first 2 days she drinks no water but is given an herbal purgative. Her hair is cut short. Generally several of her relatives stay around the door of the hut, and strangers and men with an eye to matrimony may look in. **During this period the girl is taught the duties of married life and such skills as weaving, sewing, and making hammocks**. When she emerges, stout and bleached, a special festival is held, when she resumes her ornaments and puts on the adult clothes that she has made during her confinement. She is now considered marriageable. The length of her confinement depends on her status, though theoretically it lasts until her hair again reaches the nape of her neck. Poor girls are secluded only a few weeks, rich girls up to 2 years."

8.4.3 Kogi

Reichel-Dolmatoff, G. (1976). Training for the priesthood among the Kogi of Colombia. In enculturation in latin america: an anthology (pp. 265–288). UCLA Latin American Center Publications, University of California. p.281.

“During the education of a novice there is no skill training to speak of. Kogi material culture, it has been said already, is limited to an inventory of a few largely undifferentiated, coarse utilitarian objects, and **the basic skills of weaving or pottery making—both male activities—are soon mastered by any child.** There is hardly any specialization in the manufacture of implements and a máma is not expected to have any manual or artistic abilities. He is not a master-craftsman; as a matter of fact, he should avoid working with his hands because of the ever-present danger of pollution.”

Reichel-Dolmatoff, G., & Muirden, S. (1951). *The Kogi: a tribe of the Sierra Nevada de Santa Marta, Colombia*. Vol. 2. Editorial Iqueima. p.227-228.

“8. – From Six to Twelve Years. In proportion as the child continues growing and participating more actively in the life of the family and the town, the tensions whose bases we have already noted during infancy are accentuated and manifested more openly. From five or six on, a child already forms an important part of the family economy and there is almost no work which is not asked of him. In the first place, the carrying of water and firewood is almost exclusively children's work. The care of the oxen is similarly the chore of the boys, who must now learn how to saddle and load an animal, to take the cattle or hogs to pasture, and to lead a loaded ox from planting to planting. **The boys also learn from their fathers, but principally by observation, to twist cabuyas, to weave on the loom,** or to help in the building of houses or fences, and they thus gradually acquire a certain technical ability without this being either praised or encouraged by their fathers. **The girls, meanwhile, are helping their mothers in the preparation of food, the washing of clothes, and they now weave bags** or mend the family's clothing. The care of babies or younger children is almost never entrusted to them, and during childhood there exists no institutionalized obligation according to which the older should teach the younger.”

p.137-138

“Instruction is carried out almost solely at night, by the light of the fires. An important factor in all of this education is the insistence on nocturnal wakefulness, and every time that the boys try to go to sleep, the Máma awakens them. If the Máma occasionally goes to sleep too, the exhausted children also take advantage of this lapse in order to sleep. The boy is dressed in a wide cotton cloth which is wrapped around his body like a skirt. At the age of four or five he receives a few gold ornaments, which consist of bracelets, rings, and strings of gold and stone beads which are tied around the ankles and below the knees, as well as around the wrists and

up on the arms. The first instruction consists of “dancing.” The Mάma crouches before the child and takes his calves in his hands. As he sings, he forces the child’s body to follow the rhythm of his words, makes him move forward and back, makes him flex his knees or shift the weight of his body from one foot to the other. Two or three children dance in this fashion, accompanied by the songs which the Mάma repeats. During these first years the boy only hears the nasal songs and stereotyped phrases: “Thus it is. Thus was all that. Thus it is 123 good.” When the boy is somewhat older, he receives his mask. This is never removed during the night from now on, and he dances with it, now singing himself and accompanying himself with the maraca. His hair is allowed to grow long, and it is wrapped about his head like a turban. His ornaments are augmented by necklaces and breastplates. But it is prohibited for him to play. It is prohibited that the boys talk to each other unless it is about the subjects of their instruction. They only dance, sing, and learn from the Mάma the myths, the traditions, and advice, the “law of the Mother.” Certainly, a mutual affection develops between the Mάma and the boys, according to what is said. The boy calls the Mάma hάtei (father), and the latter treats his apprentices like his own children. At the age of five or six the boys already know how to recite long songs. If they make a mistake and lose the co-ordination, the Mάma punishes them with blows on the head with the little stick of the poporo. Harder punishments consist of kneeling on broken fragments of a pot or holding stones in the hands, with the arms extended horizontally. In addition, prolonged fasts are imposed more and more frequently, and there is strict control so that the boys do not sleep too much. **The Mάma also teaches how to weave clothing, twist thread, and make ceramics.** Slowly the ritual of the ceremonies of the life cycle is gradually learned, from simple offerings to the more complex rites. But the boy not only learns from his teachers, the Mάmas; he also learns in alúna . The Kogi say: “A voice speaks to him from a dark corner, and nobody knows who it is, nor does anybody see anything. They talk to him and they sing to him and they teach him. They are the Sons of the Mother.” ”

p.133 (contextual information)

“The Kogi priests are known by the name of “Mάma.” This word seems to be related to báma – grandfather, and, in fact, the wife of a Mάma is called saxa – grandmother. The sun (nyuí) is also called Mάma or Mάma nyuí, and the moon sάxa or sάxa ti . In any case, the term Mάma is related to the cycle of terms derived from a concept of kinship.”

8.5 Southern South America

8.5.1 Chorote

Rosen, E. von. (1924). Ethnographical research work during the Swedish Chaco-Cordillera Expedition, 1901-1902. C. E. Fritze, Ltd. p.155-156.

“The Choroti boys make themselves both long-bows and pellet-bows with which they shoot at a mark, or use in play in other ways; they also amuse themselves with a kind of light, two-cord bolas³ and with little »pea-shooters« of reed.¹ With the latter they fire off hard kernels, clay pellets, etc. Very small children are given small rattles made of woody fruit shells with dry kernels inside, which make a rattling noise when shaken. Girls are very fond of playing with dolls. These are modelled in clay by some female relative, usually the girl’s mother, and are usually fashioned in the shape seen in Cross-Reference: (fig. 176). This doll, which represents a woman with strongly developed breasts, is, however, not from the Choroti but from the Toba, a tribe with whom I also came in contact during our journey. It would appear as if the Choroti mothers in making these dolls attach the greatest importance to reproducing the breasts as true to nature as possible, and often they also try to copy the tattoo marks on the face. The Choroti dolls, however, often being made either without, or with very small, heads, the tattooing is mostly marked on the breast of the figure.²”

8.5.2 Ona

Gusinde, M. (1931). The Fireland Indians: Vol. 1. The Selk’nam, on the life and thought of a hunting people of the Great Island of Tierra del Fuego. In Expeditions (pp. 32, 1176 , 51 plates). Verlag der Internationalen Zeitschrift. p.1451-1452.

“3. The young chaps, without exception, are forcibly brought to the **Great Hut**. The Indian expresses the aim of their serious schooling in a few words: “ Each one must become a good and useful human being !” (189). One steers toward this goal in a twofold direction. Some requirements serve the purely external reality, more precisely the general standard of life, the social order, and the well-being of the individual person; others aim at the moral good, as worthy to strive after for its own sake and as necessary for the benefit of the individual as well as for the continuance of the totality. The former include the many teachings and instructions, admonitions and

threats; to the latter belong practical exercises and tasks, physical austerities and limitations, curtailment of sleep and food, activities and services of the most varied kind for others.

L. Bridges (a) set the requirements much too narrowly when he says **the candidates “must not play or laugh much, but learn to hunt and make arrows”** /quoted in English/. Beauvoir (b):43, Barclay (a):75, Cojazzi:35, Dabbene (a):74, and Gallardo:332 make even fewer demands, in contrast to whom Tonelli:99 does somewhat more justice to the actual state of affairs, though not fully.”

p.500

“The father probably regards the baby rather casually. It is regarded as his duty, however, to **instruct his growing sons in archery, in handling the sling, and in the making of some implements.”**

p.340-341

“Through long practice the Indian has learned to take into account the working together of many muscle areas in stretching the bow. These clearly stand out on the handsome, naked figures; not only fingers and arms, the back and legs also take part. For a proper evaluation of this feat of strength it helps to note that the maximum tension of the bowstring lasts only a few seconds; the two fingers would be unable to tolerate more without going into violent trembling. It is only when the archer has sighted his target and assumed a firm, quiet stance that, with moderately quick pulling but without haste, he stretches the string to its utmost. He remains for only a long moment at the height of his exertion, for he has meanwhile, with his left arm, aimed the arrow. An opening of the thumb and index finger releases the arrow, which receives a strong thrust through the impact of the recoiling string. With bow and arrow one can scarcely speak of an aiming such as modern firearms require. Here it is simply a sensitivity acquired by endless practice, which makes the archer obligatorily direct his arrow shaft higher or lower, unconsciously, so to speak, without reflecting whether a longer or shorter flight path is indicated. He probably keeps his eye constantly on the target, but gauges the distance by feeling as he lifts the bow and stretches the string in order suddenly to make the arrow fly away. I often asked the men how they could shoot with such certainty. No one gave me a suitable explanation. Everyone said: “When I want to hit that object there, I look at it carefully, lift the bow, and let the arrow fly!” This outstanding calculating instinct makes it possible for the individual to hit the target with a smaller or larger bow, with a shorter or longer arrow than he ordinarily handles. The radial junc-

ture feathering contributes considerably to this, for during flight the shaft slowly turns around its own longitudinal axis. The impulse is undoubtedly furnished by the slight projection of the two feather strips in the same direction. This necessarily follows, since both those pieces are taken out of the same feather-vane, which never stands absolutely vertically to the quill's axis. **In making his weapons, the man, mechanically and more unconsciously, takes into consideration all the many inconspicuous, fine details that have grown out of the long observation and experience of earlier generations.**"

8.5.3 Tehuelche

Adem, T. A. (2009). Culture summary: Tehuelche. HRAF. p. 3.

"Tehuelche children were indulged and seldom corrected by their parents (Cooper, 1946:30). Women were primarily responsible for taking care of children. Other relatives and band members also recognized each child by participating in a variety of ceremonies marking the passage of the child through different developmental stages. Children learned about religious beliefs and social norms by participating in these ceremonies from earliest childhood. **Children also learned other practical skills including hunting, gathering, weaving and tool making, from parents and band members.**"

Musters, G. C. (1873). At home with the Patagonians. J. Murray. p.186.

"The boys soon learn the use of the weapons, and both boys and girls ride almost before they can walk: the sons rarely accompany the father to the chase before ten or twelve years of age, and do not join in fights till they are about sixteen years old, but there is no fixed period and no ceremonial to mark their admission to the state of manhood. The attainment of puberty by the girls is celebrated as described in page 80. **From the age of nine or ten they are accustomed to help in household duties and manufactures,** and about sixteen are eligible for the married life, though they often remain for several years spinsters. Marriages are always those of inclination, and if the damsel does not like the suitor for her hand, her parents never force her to comply with their wishes, although the match may be an advantageous one."

8.5.4 Yahgan

Gusinde, M., & Schütze, F. (1937). The Yahgan: the life and thought of the water nomads of Cape Horn. In Die Feuerland-Indianer [The Fuegian Indians]: Vol. Vol. II (p. HRAF: xv, 1471 [incomplete] [original: 365-1185, 1278-1499]). Anthropos-Bibliothek. p.563.

“186. Despite some shortcomings in the following description, Bridges affirms that children are given definite instruction by parents and adults: **“Parents universally take no pains in the education of their children, and give them no instruction in the arts of native life, save it may be a little instruction in swimming and basket-making by mothers to their daughters; yet I believe that even for this they are generally as much indebted to others as to their mothers.** The children learn to speak, to use the spear, sling and arrow, to make these and other implements and vessels as best they can” /cited in English/ (MM:IX, 214;1875).”

p.582

“198. Bridges (a):183 also conceded: **“Girls are early taught to make baskets, plait fishlines and ‘asina’ (an ornamental fine plait of sinew worn on the neck),** to paddle, and to do other work” /cited in English/. Elsewhere Bridges (i):22 and (h):208 repeats that girls amuse themselves “in threading berries as necklaces, paddling in the canoes, making reed baskets, or in attempts at painting faces, etc.” /cited in English/.”

p.579

“195. As Bridges (a):183 has reliably observed: **“little boys early become skilful in throwing spears and stones, slinging, and making spears,** etc.” /cited in English/.”

p.581

“Circumstances are such that girls far more than boys have to perform small services in the family. When the mother leaves the hut for a while, perhaps to go fishing or to gather wood, they must often tend their brothers and sisters who are no longer babies. This does not rob them of their freedom, but merely puts a little restraint on them. They are not too serious about taking care of their brothers or sisters in any case. They do, however, like to hoist a younger brother or sister on their backs and drag him around everywhere for hours; they evidently do not find it taxing or tiring. Moreover, they must perform all kinds of work for the mother in the hut, such as tending the fire, fetching kindling, arranging the sleeping places, helping to clean and

stretch skins, taking all kinds of implements from the canoe to the hut, and helping to load the canoe. Naturally they also often accompany women who are going out to hunt for berries, pick fungi, and gather mussels. **From their own observations, implemented by some instruction, they become acquainted with all the kinds of manual work that the women must do, namely, dressing skins, weaving baskets, making little ornamental strings,** catching fish, and servicing the canoe (198) 198. Bridges (a):183 also conceded: **“Girls are early taught to make baskets, plait fishlines and ‘asina’ (an ornamental fine plait of sinew worn on the neck),** to paddle, and to do other work” /cited in English/. Elsewhere Bridges (i):22 and (h):208 repeats that girls amuse themselves “in threading berries as necklaces, paddling in the canoes, making reed baskets, or in attempts at painting faces, etc.” /cited in English/. .”

p.578 (Contextual information)

“There are no special playthings for boys. **An adult, usually the father, gives them imitations of the weapons and tools that the 761 cont. men use on their hunts. In order to be able to handle them sell, the children are taught from early childhood and must constantly practice. These articles are, of course, easily damaged or they are lost, but the adults never tire of making replacements, and the more the boy grows, the larger his implements become.** One most often sees the Fuegian boy hurling the sling. It seems to be a part of him, and, following the example of the men, he wears it like a necklace around his throat where it is always and immediately handy. He likes best to aim at birds, but teasingly he will also send a stone to the ground close beside some other child. In childish innocence he will hurl 762 stones in all directions and is sometimes so naïve about it that he must be chased away again and again from the vicinity of the huts.”